

COMPARING POLITICAL REGIMES

A THEMATIC INTRODUCTION TO COMPARATIVE POLITICS

Fourth Edition

ALAN SIAROFF



COMPARING POLITICAL REGIMES

This page intentionally left blank

Comparing Political Regimes

A Thematic Introduction to Comparative Politics

Fourth Edition

ALAN SIAROFF

UNIVERSITY OF TORONTO PRESS
Toronto Buffalo London

© University of Toronto Press 2022
Toronto Buffalo London
utorontopress.com
Printed in the U.S.A.

ISBN 978-1-4875-0777-0 (cloth)
ISBN 978-1-4875-2536-1 (paper)
ISBN 978-1-4875-3692-3 (EPUB)
ISBN 978-1-4875-3691-6 (PDF)

All rights reserved. The use of any part of this publication reproduced, transmitted in any form or by any means, electronic, mechanical, photocopying, recording, or otherwise, or stored in a retrieval system, without prior written consent of the publisher – or in the case of photocopying, a licence from Access Copyright, the Canadian Copyright Licensing Agency – is an infringement of the copyright law.

Library and Archives Canada Cataloguing in Publication

Title: Comparing political regimes : a thematic introduction to comparative politics / Alan Siaroff.
Names: Siaroff, Alan, author.
Description: Fourth edition. | Includes bibliographical references and index.
Identifiers: Canadiana (print) 20220268924 | Canadiana (ebook) 20220268983 | ISBN 9781487507770 (cloth) | ISBN 9781487525361 (paper) | ISBN 9781487536923 (EPUB) | ISBN 9781487536916 (PDF)
Subjects: LCSH: Comparative government – Textbooks. | LCGFT: Textbooks.
Classification: LCC JF51 .S53 2022 | DDC 320.3 – dc23

We welcome comments and suggestions regarding any aspect of our publications – please feel free to contact us at news@utorontopress.com or visit us at utorontopress.com.

Every effort has been made to contact copyright holders; in the event of an error or omission, please notify the publisher.

We wish to acknowledge the land on which the University of Toronto Press operates. This land is the traditional territory of the Wendat, the Anishnaabeg, the Haudenosaunee, the Métis, and the Mississaugas of the Credit First Nation.

University of Toronto Press acknowledges the financial support of the Government of Canada and the Ontario Arts Council, an agency of the Government of Ontario, for its publishing activities.



Canada Council for the Arts | Conseil des Arts du Canada



ONTARIO ARTS COUNCIL
CONSEIL DES ARTS DE L'ONTARIO
an Ontario government agency
un organisme du gouvernement de l'Ontario

Funded by the Government of Canada | Financé par le gouvernement du Canada



Contents

List of Figures and Tables vii

Acknowledgments xi

1 Introducing Comparative Politics 3

2 Development and Political Development 25

3 State Effectiveness and Political Economy 47

4 Electoral Democracies, Liberal Democracies, and Autocracies 77

5 Factors Conducive to Democracy 99

6 Institutional Variations of Democracies 131

7 Electoral Systems, Party Systems, and Government Formation in Democracies 159

8 Varieties of Autocracies: Totalitarianism, Sultanism, and Authoritarianism 199

9 Democratic Transitions, Consolidations, and Breakdowns 231

10 The Historical Evolution of Democracy 261

Glossary 285

Recommended Sources for Further Research 293

Bibliography 295

Index 311

This page intentionally left blank

Figures and Tables

Figures

6.1 Liberal and Electoral Democracies, Systems of Government 140
6.2 Liberal and Electoral Democracies, Comparative Federal Systems 152
6.3 Federalism and Its Alternatives 153
7.1 Types of Parliamentary Government by Number of Parties in the Cabinet and Legislative Support 188
8.1 The Formal Structure of Power in Iran since 1989 214
9.1 Stages of Democratic Transition and Consolidation 247
9.2 Stages of Democratic Transition, Consolidation, and Deconsolidation 251
9.3 Stages of Democratic Transition, Crisis, and Breakdown 252
9.4 Stages of Democratic Transition, Crisis, and Re-equilibration 257

Tables

1.1 The Countries of the World: Geographical and Historical Data (as of the end of 2021) 8
1.2 Independence Referenda This Century 18
2.1 The Continuum of Civil–Military Relations 32
2.2 Ranking Nations on the Civil–Military Relations Continuum (as of the end of 2021) 33
2.3 The Sequencing of Political Development in the Advanced Industrial States 42
2.4 Monarchies in the World Today (as of the end of 2021) 44

3.1 Levels of State Strength (as of the end of 2021) 48
3.2 Levels of State Strength at the Start of 1914 50
3.3 Proto-Nation-States at the Start of 1914 51
3.4 Size and Demography of Countries, 2020 55
3.5 Multiple Regression on Level of State Strength 60
3.6 First, Second, and Third World Countries after World War II 61
3.7 The Most Developed Nations 63
3.8 List of Postwar High-Growth Economies 65
3.9 Alternative Classifications of Development 67
3.10 The Most Underdeveloped Nations 71
4.1 Definitional Features of Liberal Democracy 82
4.2 Democracies and Autocracies as Regime Types 89
4.3 Democracies and Autocracies (as of the end of 2021) 91
4.4 Annual/Biennial Index Surveys of Levels of Democracy 95
5.1 The World at the Start of 1938 101
5.2 Differences in Explanatory Factors between Categories 106
5.3 Colonial Legacy and Democracies versus Autocracy (for ex-colonies and protectorates that became independent starting in 1945) 112
5.4 Regressions on Regime Type (1 to 4 scale) 121
5.5 Country Values for Key Variables Relevant to Regime Type, 2021 (or most recent year) 123
6.1 Liberal and Electoral Democracies, Presidential Systems (as of the end of 2021) 133
6.2 Liberal and Electoral Democracies, National Legislatures (as of the end of 2021) 143
6.3 Liberal and Electoral Democracies, Federal Systems (as of the end of 2021) 150
7.1 Types of Electoral Systems (as of the end of 2021) 162
7.2 Comparing Two Hung Parliaments in History and Their Disproportionality 163
7.3 Party List Proportional Representation and Ballot Structure (as of the end of 2021) 169
7.4 Index of Electoral System and Election Localism versus Centralism (as of the end of 2021) 171
7.5 Most Recent Elections for All Liberal and Electoral Democracies (as of the end of 2021) 179
7.6 Party System Institutionalization (as of the end of 2021) 187
7.7 Levels of Legislative Support and Coalitions 191
7A One-Party Predominant Systems in Electoral Democracies (as of the end of 2021) 194
8.1 Subtypes of Autocratic Regimes 200
8.2 Elections in Singapore since Independence 218
8.3 Nationalist One-Party Regimes in Africa 220

8A Autocracies and Ruling Autocrats in the World Today (as of the end of 2021) 223
9.1 Transitions to and Breakdowns of Democratic Regimes (MIEDs) 236
9.2 Waves of Democratization (year-end totals) 242
9.3 Ongoing Democracies by Start Wave of Democratization 244
9.4 Processes of Transition to Democracy 246
9.5 Highly Oscillating States since 1974 258
10.1 Compulsory Voting by Region 264
10.2 Participation and Competition at the Start of 1840 273
10.3 Participation and Competition at the Start of 1914 275
10.4 Participation and Competition at the End of 1936 276
10.5 Participation and Competition at the Start of 1974 277
10.6 Participation and Competition at the End of 1994 279

This page intentionally left blank

Acknowledgments

I thank the University of Toronto Press – particularly in chronological order Mat Buntin, Marilyn McCormack, Stephen Jones, and Leah Connor – for agreeing to a revised edition of this work and for all their support, patience, and professionalism from inception to completion. Much additional thanks goes to freelance copyeditor Leanne Rancourt for her thorough and careful copyediting and suggestions.

This edition is dedicated to all the students I have taught over the past two decades using this textbook. Teaching from it, as well as student feedback, has led to repeated improvements. Hopefully it will continue to be useful for instructors and students.

Alan Siaroff
University of Lethbridge
December 2021

This page intentionally left blank

COMPARING POLITICAL REGIMES

This page intentionally left blank

CHAPTER ONE

Introducing Comparative Politics

In This Chapter You Will Learn

- why we study comparative politics;
- what a political regime is;
- what a sovereign state is;
- how, where, and why the number of sovereign states has increased over time and may continue to increase in the future; and
- how to define the head of government versus the head of state.

COMPARING POLITICAL REGIMES

This textbook compares and contrasts the political regimes of the countries of the world. It is thus relevant for any core course in comparative politics. That said, the field of comparative politics does have varied foci. Sometimes the term "comparative politics" merely refers to the study of any country outside of one's own, such as, for instance, focusing on the government and politics of China, Germany, or Russia. However, if only one such country is studied, then any actual cross-country comparisons are usually only implicit. Comparative politics has also involved the study of specific regions or subregions, such as "Politics in Western Europe." Such regional foci may simply be called "area studies," especially if broader theoretical perspectives are lacking. Comparative politics can and should be more than just a description of the government and politics of a country, a few countries, or a region – and in this textbook it is indeed

more. First, this text analyses every country now in the world; it is intentionally thorough in this regard. Second, it follows a rigorous comparative methodology in outlining the different political regimes that have existed, in placing every country into this typology, and in comparing and contrasting the roles of key political actors (such as national "leaders"), political institutions (such as legislatures and, where these exist, regional governments), political processes (such as elections and **democratic transitions**), and patterns of political competition (such as the type of **party system** where there is democratic competition).

Studying comparative politics, and in this case studying all the countries of the world, has at least two main benefits for students. First, it provides the broad context needed for analysing the political phenomena of whatever country interests you or is a matter of "current events." Take, for example, the possibilities of Egypt or Libya becoming – or some other country remaining – democratic. This issue begs certain questions: What do we mean by **democracy**? How do non-democracies (what we shall call "autocracies") become democracies? What makes for a stable democracy? These are only some of the questions answered in this book. Second, studying comparative politics counteracts ethnocentrism – that is, the limited perspective of knowing only one's own country. To this end, your sense of what is unique or supposedly great (or flawed) about your country politically may well change as you read about other countries.

As for the concept of a "political regime," by this we mean a method or system of government as opposed to the specific individuals in power. This definition is a simplified version of the following more elaborate explanation of a **political regime** as:

> the formal and informal structure of state and governmental roles and processes. The regime includes the method of selection of the government and of representative assemblies (election, coup, decision within the military, [royal prerogative,] etc.), formal and informal mechanisms of representation, and patterns of repression. The regime is typically distinguished from the particular incumbents who occupy state and governmental roles, the political coalition that supports these incumbents, and the public policies they adopt (except of course policies that define or transpose the regime itself).[1]

SOVEREIGN STATES

Our focus on "countries" means that we are limiting our detailed analysis to sovereign states, excluding, for example, subnational governments such as Canadian provinces. The concept of a **state**, as you may remember from your introductory politics textbook, involves the combination of a fixed territory, population, and sovereign control (based in a capital) so that the sovereign power effectively rules over the population within this territory. (This notion of "a state" overlaps somewhat with that of "the state" – the organizationally differentiated political, bureaucratic, legal, and usually military system of a country, which, as will be shown, can

vary in its strength and effectiveness. In the first sense, generally either a state exists or it does not; in the second sense, states can vary along a continuum of capacity.) With fixed territories there are consequent borders between one state and the next, for example, the border between Canada and the United States. "Population" refers to the people who are being governed by the state or, perhaps, those who are citizens of a state with resulting political rights. Sovereignty is the most complex of these three aspects. Generally, it refers to being the highest authority in an area and thus being, as Max Weber stressed, an organization with the monopoly on the legitimate use of force within a territory.[2]

Sovereignty itself is a term with somewhat varying meanings. Krasner notes four of these:[3]

- *Domestic sovereignty* refers to sovereignty *within* a state, wherein the structures of authority or "the state" effectively control the behaviour of the population, at least in the sense of establishing law and order. The lack of such domestic sovereignty in the context of religious wars was what motivated the writings and philosophies of Bodin and Hobbes.
- *Interdependence sovereignty* refers to the right of states to control their borders and to police and, if they wish, limit the movement of people, goods, capital, information, and other resources. Here is where the issue of globalization is relevant, because aspects of globalization – international air travel, the internet, capital flows, and so on – clearly seem to impede the ability of states to exercise interdependence sovereignty while international agreements may even limit their rights in this area. However, one has to remember here that borders were less relevant in nineteenth-century Europe than in the twentieth century and that borders barely existed in pre-colonial Africa but are certainly salient factors there today.[4]
- *Westphalian* or *Vattelian sovereignty* refers to the absence of any external sources of authority over a sovereign state, in which case it would not be sovereign. The term "Westphalian" comes from the Treaty of Westphalia of 1648 that ended the Thirty Years War and from which came, we assume, the notion that states refrain from interfering in the internal affairs of other states. In fact, as Krasner points out, the Treaty of Westphalia was hardly this far-reaching; the broad principle of international non-intervention actually comes a century later in the works of two international legal theorists, Emer de Vattel and Christian Wolff.[5]
- Finally, *international legal sovereignty* involves the notion that any and all states are free and able to enter into international agreements with other states on military, trade, or other matters. Moreover, such agreements are considered binding on the signatories as long as they were not coerced into signing (as per a contract involving individuals).

Although the first two aspects of sovereignty tend to go hand in hand, it is possible to have some but not all of these. In particular, a **de facto state**, such as Somaliland in East Africa, the Turkish Republic of Northern Cyprus, Trans-Dniester, Abkhazia, and South Ossetia

in post-communist Europe, or even Taiwan, has effective internal and border controls and domestic legitimacy but lacks international recognition.[6] If such recognition eventually occurs, then the state will no longer be de facto. Conversely, without international recognition, a de facto state can be conquered by (or forced back into) the state with formal sovereignty over its territory and thus disappear as a de facto state. Such was the fate of the de facto state of Tamil Eelam, which for decades controlled much of the ethnic-Tamil territory of north and east Sri Lanka until it was defeated by the Sri Lankan military in 2007–9.[7] Of course, international recognition of a breakaway territory is not determined solely by neutral "merit" based on the extent of domestic and interdependence sovereignty of the territory; rather, especially for major powers, it is based on the foreign policy interests of recognizing (or not) a specific new country.[8] In contrast, a **de jure state** is recognized as a state by the international community but is so weak or illegitimate that it cannot control its own people or its borders.[9]

Part of the rise of sovereignty in European history involved replacing the widespread (but diffuse) control of the Catholic Church. The other part involved the centralization of power. Under the system of feudalism that structured medieval Europe, power resided at the level of the local lord or noble, of whom there were thousands on the continent. Jurisdictions differed not only in terms of currency (if they used one at all) but also in terms of weights and measures. Trade across even a moderate area was thus very problematic. The sovereign state was, however, not the only system that arose out of the ashes of feudalism. In Italy, there were city-states, centred on a dominant city (e.g., Florence or Venice) but including smaller neighbouring cities as well. These city-states at least had fixed borders. There were also **confederations** (on this concept see Chapter 6), which sometimes lacked borders altogether. One example, the Hanseatic League, was an alliance of cities around the Baltic Sea. Not only were the members of this league not geographically contiguous, as the league was formed because of function rather than geography, but also they were never constrained by membership; cities simply "joined" and left as they wished.[10] Neither city-states nor confederations had effective, legitimate central control. Consequently, they were not as successful as sovereign states in raising revenue, which was needed to fight wars. Moreover, sovereign states were better in a wide range of areas, such as standardizing weights and measures, introducing a common currency, and establishing centralized justice (including clear property rights and contractual obligations), all of which facilitated trade, economic growth, and, ultimately, tax revenues. Finally, sovereign states could credibly enter into agreements with other sovereign states (but only with these) because states with international legal sovereignty were more likely to honour their commitments; consequently, the international utility of this political structure, the sovereign state, was reinforced.[11]

Although the need to fight wars was not new, with the evolution of warfare toward more professional and thus more expensive armies by the sixteenth century, the financing of war became a (if not *the*) central concern for European political entities. Here the sovereign state showed its superiority in terms of organization and resource extraction. Other political structures, or

even sovereign states, that could not "compete" in this regard tended to be conquered by states that were better organized. Thus, war not only arose from greater state capacity but provided a strong incentive to increase this capacity. In Charles Tilly's classic summation, "war made the state, and the state made war."[12] So, by the end of the Napoleonic era, there were considerably fewer political entities in Europe, and these surviving states tended to be relatively effective. However, these European patterns should not be generalized globally. Centeno has shown that "[w]ar did not make states in Latin America" because the main Latin American wars of the nineteenth century "occurred under very different historical circumstances than during the European 'military revolution.'"[13] As for Africa and Asia, as we shall see, most of the countries therein achieved independence, and thus sovereignty, after World War II, and they have thus existed only in an era when the international order discouraged wars against one's neighbours. Consequently, many of the countries in these areas have survived despite having **weak states** (on this concept see Chapter 3).

GEOGRAPHICAL AND HISTORICAL CLASSIFICATIONS OF STATES

Today, there are almost 200 sovereign states. Specifically, after the additions of Timor-Leste (East Timor) and Switzerland in 2002, Montenegro in 2006, and South Sudan in 2011, the United Nations (UN) has 193 members. UN membership is a pretty clear measure of the international recognition of a state, although Kosovo and Taiwan merit inclusion in any list of independent states given that both are broadly acknowledged as such even though they do not have UN membership or, in the case of Taiwan, formal diplomatic recognition. At one level, a student could be interested in the specifics of any one of these. Consequently, Table 1.1 gives geographical and historical data for all 195 sovereign states.

However, in terms of getting a sense of the countries of the world, we need more than just an alphabetical list. How are we to group all of these states? One way is by placing them into five broad geographic regions – Africa, the Americas, Asia, Europe, and Oceania – as is done in Table 1.1. These five regions now have, respectively, 54, 35, 43, 49, and 14 states (although these numbers would change slightly if North Africa or the three Transcaucasian states were reclassified).[14] Historically, perhaps the most important factor in contrasting countries is simply their duration, as long-established countries will have had time to consolidate and develop themselves in ways that newly independent states cannot obviously match.[15] Thus, the fact that they joined the UN in the same recent year disguises the reality that Switzerland is one of the world's oldest states whereas Timor-Leste is the fourth newest. (Denmark, France, and Portugal, in that order, are in fact the three oldest states in the world.)

The following historical patterns come from examining the years of independence or state formation of the states that exist today and from looking only at continuous independence

through today. First, only 20 states date back to before 1800. These states are mostly European, although the United States also became independent in this era. The United States is thus the contemporary world's nineteenth oldest state. Then in the first half of the nineteenth century, or more precisely from 1804 to 1847, 22 more states, overwhelmingly in Latin America, were formed or became independent.[16] However, in the *second* half of the nineteenth century, or more precisely from 1852 to 1878, only nine new and still ongoing states came into existence, and these few new states were overwhelmingly in Europe. Indeed, after the Treaty of Berlin in 1878, which recognized the independence of Romania, Serbia, and Montenegro, there was more than a 20-year break until the formation of Australia in 1901. That said, the latter half of the nineteenth century did see the creation of Canada, which is tied for forty-sixth in terms of longevity. Twelve new states would be formed toward or soon after the end of World War I, half of these due to the breakup of the Austro-Hungarian, German, and Russian Empires (though the three Baltic states would be forced into the Soviet Union in 1940). With the exception of what would become Saudi Arabia, the former Ottoman Empire territories in the Middle East did not become independent then, but instead were transferred to France or the United Kingdom as League of Nations mandates (or equivalent, in the case of Iraq). Iraq became independent in 1932, but the rest of these mandate territories would not become independent until the 1940s.

The real explosion in the number of states came after World War II, starting with Indonesia in 1945.[17] Indeed, from 1945 (Indonesia) to 1990 (Namibia) no fewer than 100 of today's states were formed or became independent – over half of the total extant today. These states arose first throughout Africa and Asia and later (from 1962 onward) also in the Caribbean and Oceania. This sudden increase in the number of states largely reflected the processes of decolonization in these regions.[18] Finally, the period from 1991 to the present has seen a relatively high number of new states – 27 – overwhelmingly in Europe but also in Central Asia, due to the **dissolution** (complete breakup) of the Soviet Union,[19] Yugoslavia, and Czechoslovakia.

Table 1.1 The Countries of the World: Geographical and Historical Data (as of the end of 2021)

Country	Geographic Region	Geographic Subregion	Year of Modern Independence or State Formation	State Independence Achieved From	Year of First Constitution	Year of Current Constitution or Last Major Revision
Afghanistan	Asia	South Asia	1921	(formerly a British protectorate)	1923	2005
Albania	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	1912	Ottoman Empire	1914	2016
Algeria	Africa	North Africa	1962	France	1963	2020
Andorra	Europe	Western Europe	1993	(formerly a French–Spanish protectorate)	1993	1993
Angola	Africa	Southern Africa	1975	Portugal	1975	2021

Country	Geographic Region	Geographic Subregion	Year of Modern Independence or State Formation	State Independence Achieved From	Year of First Constitution	Year of Current Constitution or Last Major Revision
Antigua and Barbuda	Americas	Caribbean	1981	United Kingdom	1981	1981
Argentina	Americas	South America	1816	Spain	1819	1994
Armenia	Europe	Transcaucasus	1991	Soviet Union	1863	2015
Australia	Oceania		1901	United Kingdom	1901	1901
Austria*	Europe	Central Europe	1526		1867	1994
Azerbaijan	Europe	Transcaucasus	1991	Soviet Union	1978	2009
Bahamas	Americas	Caribbean	1973	United Kingdom	1973	1973
Bahrain	Asia	Middle East	1971	(formerly a British protectorate)	1973	2002
Bangladesh	Asia	South Asia	1971	Pakistan	1972	2018
Barbados	Americas	Caribbean	1966	United Kingdom	1966	2021
Belarus	Europe	Eastern Europe	1991	Soviet Union	1919	2004
Belgium	Europe	Western Europe	1830	Netherlands	1831	2014
Belize	Americas	Central America	1981	United Kingdom	1854	2016
Benin	Africa	West Africa	1960	France	1959	1990
Bhutan	Asia	South Asia	1949	United Kingdom (formerly a British protectorate)	2008	2008
Bolivia	Americas	South America (Andean)	1825	Spain	1825	2013
Bosnia-Herzegovina**	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	1992	Yugoslavia	1910	1995
Botswana	Africa	Southern Africa	1966	(formerly a British protectorate)	1960	1966
Brazil	Americas	South America	1822	Portugal	1824	1997
Brunei	Asia	South East Asia	1984	(formerly a British protectorate)	1959	1984
Bulgaria	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	1908	Ottoman Empire	1879	2015
Burkina Faso	Africa	West Africa	1960	France	1960	2000
Burundi	Africa	Central Africa	1962	Belgium	1961	2018
Cambodia	Asia	South East Asia	1953	France	1947	2018
Cameroon	Africa	Central Africa	1961	(divided between France and the United Kingdom)	1961	2008
Canada	Americas	North America	1867	United Kingdom	1791	1982
Cape Verde	Africa	West Africa	1975	Portugal	1975	1999

* The date of Austria's state formation refers to the consolidation of the Hapsburg Empire; the first Republic of Austria was established in 1919.

** Bosnia-Herzegovina was under Ottoman rule for centuries, then occupied by the Austro-Hungarian Empire in 1878, then awarded to the Kingdom of Serbs, Croats, and Slovenes (later Yugoslavia) in 1918.

(*Continued*)

Table 1.1 (Continued)

Country	Geographic Region	Geographic Subregion	Year of Modern Independence or State Formation	State Independence Achieved From	Year of First Constitution	Year of Current Constitution or Last Major Revision
Central African Republic	Africa	Central Africa	1960	France	1962	2016
Chad	Africa	Central Africa	1960	France	1959	2013
Chile	Americas	South America	1818	Spain	1818	2004
China	Asia	East Asia	1368		1908	2018
Colombia	Americas	South America (Andean)	1819	Spain	1811	2005
Comoros	Africa	Southern Africa	1975	France	1961	2018
Congo, DR (Kinshasa)	Africa	Central Africa	1960	Belgium	1960	2006
Congo, R (Brazzaville)	Africa	Central Africa	1960	France	1960	2015
Costa Rica	Americas	Central America	1821/1838	Spain/United Provinces of Central America	1825	2015
Croatia*	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	1991	Yugoslavia	1947	2001
Cuba**	Americas	Caribbean	1899	Spain	1901	2019
Cyprus (Greek)***	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	1960	United Kingdom	1960	2013
Czech Republic	Europe	Central Europe	1918/1992	Austrian Empire/ Czechoslovakia	1920/1993	2012
Denmark	Europe	Northern Europe	899		1849	1953
Djibouti	Africa	East Africa	1977	France	1981	2010
Dominica	Americas	Caribbean	1978	United Kingdom	1978	2015
Dominican Republic	Americas	Caribbean	1821/1844	Spain/Haiti	1844	2015
East Timor (Timor-Leste)	Asia	South East Asia	1975/2002	Portugal/Indonesia	2002	2002
Ecuador	Americas	South America (Andean)	1822/1830	Spain/Colombia	1830	2018
Egypt	Africa	North Africa	1922	United Kingdom	1923	2019

* Croatia was under Hungarian rule prior to the creation of the Kingdom of Serbs, Croats, and Slovenes (later Yugoslavia) in 1918.

** Cuba was a de facto protectorate of the United States until 1933.

*** Since 1974, Cyprus has been divided de facto between the Greek Cypriot–controlled majority area (the government of which has legal sovereignty over the entire island) and the Turkish minority area that declared itself an independent republic in 1983 (recognized only by Turkey).

Country	Geographic Region	Geographic Subregion	Year of Modern Independence or State Formation	State Independence Achieved From	Year of First Constitution	Year of Current Constitution or Last Major Revision
El Salvador	Americas	Central America	1821/1838	Spain/United Provinces of Central America	1841	1983
Equatorial Guinea	Africa	Central Africa	1968	Spain	1968	2011
Eritrea*	Africa	East Africa	1993	Ethiopia	1997	1997
Estonia**	Europe	Northern Europe	1918/1991	Russia/Soviet Union	1918/1992	1992
Eswatini	Africa	Southern Africa	1968	United Kingdom	1968	2006
Ethiopia	Africa	East Africa	1682		1931	1995
Fiji	Oceania	Melanesia	1970	United Kingdom	1966	2013
Finland***	Europe	Northern Europe	1918	Russia	1906	2000
France	Europe	Western Europe	987		1791	2000
Gabon	Africa	Central Africa	1960	France	1961	1991
Gambia	Africa	West Africa	1965	United Kingdom	1970	1997
Georgia	Europe	Transcaucasus	1918/1991	Russia/Soviet Union	1921/1995	2018
Germany†	Europe	Western Europe	1871		1871	2017
Ghana	Africa	West Africa	1957	United Kingdom	1925	1993
Greece	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	1832	Ottoman Empire	1822	2001
Grenada	Americas	Caribbean	1974	United Kingdom	1973	1974
Guatemala	Americas	Central America	1821/1839	Spain/United Provinces of Central America	1851	1993
Guinea	Africa	West Africa	1958	France	1958	2020
Guinea-Bissau	Africa	West Africa	1973	Portugal	1973	1984
Guyana	Americas	South America	1966	United Kingdom	1792	1980
Haiti	Americas	Caribbean	1804	France	1789	1987
Honduras	Americas	Central America	1821/1838	Spain/United Provinces of Central America	1825	2015

* Eritrea was an Italian colony until World War II.

** Estonia was independent in the interwar period.

*** Finland was Swedish until 1809, then Russian.

† Germany was divided into the Federal Republic of Germany (West Germany) and the German Democratic Republic (East Germany) in 1949, following World War II. The 1949 constitution of West Germany became the constitution of the united Germany in 1990.

(*Continued*)

Table 1.1 (Continued)

Country	Geographic Region	Geographic Subregion	Year of Modern Independence or State Formation	State Independence Achieved From	Year of First Constitution	Year of Current Constitution or Last Major Revision
Hungary*	Europe	Central Europe	1867	(as a union with Austria)	1848	2018
Iceland	Europe	Northern Europe	1918	Denmark	1874	1944
India	Asia	South Asia	1947	United Kingdom	1950	2020
Indonesia	Asia	South East Asia	1945	Netherlands	1945	2002
Iran	Asia	Middle East	1501		1906	1989
Iraq	Asia	Middle East	1932	(formerly a British protectorate)	1925	2005
Ireland	Europe	Western Europe	1921	United Kingdom	1922	1937
Israel	Asia	Middle East	1948	(formerly part of a British protectorate)	Unwritten Constitution	
Italy	Europe	Western Europe	1861		1861	1948
Ivory Coast	Africa	West Africa	1960	France	1960	2016
Jamaica	Americas	Caribbean	1962	United Kingdom	1884	2011
Japan	Asia	East Asia	1609		1889	1947
Jordan	Asia	Middle East	1946	United Kingdom	1928	2016
Kazakhstan	Asia	Central Asia	1991	Soviet Union	1993	2017
Kenya	Africa	East Africa	1963	United Kingdom	1954	2010
Kiribati	Oceania	Micronesia	1979	United Kingdom	1979	2013
Korea, North**	Asia	East Asia	1945/1948	Japan/Soviet Union	1948	2019
Korea, South***	Asia	East Asia	1945/1948	Japan/US	1948	1988
Kosovo	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	2008	Serbia	1974	2008
Kuwait	Asia	Middle East	1961	(formerly a British protectorate)	1938	1962
Kyrgyzstan	Asia	Central Asia	1991	Soviet Union	1993	2021
Laos	Asia	South East Asia	1953	(formerly a French protectorate)	1947	2015
Latvia†	Europe	Northern Europe	1918/1991	Russia/Soviet Union	1922/1991	1993
Lebanon	Asia	Middle East	1943	France	1926	1990

* The union (dual monarchy) with Austria ended in 1918, and a separate Hungarian state was established by 1920.

** North Korea was under Soviet occupation from 1945 to 1948.

*** South Korea was under US military government from 1945 to 1948.

† Latvia was independent in the interwar period.

Country	Geographic Region	Geographic Subregion	Year of Modern Independence or State Formation	State Independence Achieved From	Year of First Constitution	Year of Current Constitution or Last Major Revision
Lesotho	Africa	Southern Africa	1966	(formerly a British protectorate)	1966	1993
Liberia	Africa	West Africa	1847		1839	1986
Libya*	Africa	North Africa	1951	Italy	1951	2011
Liechtenstein	Europe	Western Europe	1719		1818	2003
Lithuania**	Europe	Northern Europe	1918/1991	Russia/Soviet Union	1922/1990	1992
Luxembourg	Europe	Western Europe	1867	Netherlands	1868	1919
Madagascar	Africa	Southern Africa	1960	France	1959	2010
Malawi	Africa	Southern Africa	1964	United Kingdom	1966	1994
Malaysia	Asia	South East Asia	1963	United Kingdom	1957	1957
Maldives	Asia	South Asia	1965	United Kingdom	1968	2008
Mali	Africa	West Africa	1960	France	1960	1992
Malta	Europe	Western Europe	1964	United Kingdom	1964	1974
Marshall Islands	Oceania	Micronesia	1986	(formerly a US protectorate)	1979	1979
Mauritania	Africa	West Africa	1960	France	1959	2017
Mauritius	Africa	Southern Africa	1968	United Kingdom	1968	1992
Mexico	Americas	North America	1810	Spain	1824	1992
Micronesia	Oceania	Micronesia	1986	(formerly a US protectorate)	1979	1979
Moldova***	Europe	Eastern Europe	1991	Soviet Union	1994	2016
Monaco	Europe	Western Europe	1861	France	1911	2002
Mongolia	Asia	East Asia	1921	China	1924	2019
Montenegro†	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	2006	Yugoslavia	1905	2013
Morocco	Africa	North Africa	1956	France	1962	2011
Mozambique	Africa	Southern Africa	1975	Portugal	1975	2018
Myanmar	Asia	South East Asia	1948	United Kingdom	1947	2015
Namibia	Africa	Southern Africa	1990	(formerly a South African protectorate)	1990	2014

* Libya was under Anglo-French administration as a UN protectorate after Italy's defeat in World War II.

** Lithuania was independent in the interwar period.

*** Most of Moldova was part of Romania until World War II.

† Montenegro was independent from 1878 to 1918, when it joined the Kingdom of Serbs, Croats, and Slovenes (later Yugoslavia); from 2003 to 2006, Montenegro was in a confederation with Serbia.

(*Continued*)

Table 1.1 (Continued)

Country	Geographic Region	Geographic Subregion	Year of Modern Independence or State Formation	State Independence Achieved From	Year of First Constitution	Year of Current Constitution or Last Major Revision
Nauru	Oceania	Micronesia	1968	(formerly an Australian protectorate)	1968	1968
Nepal	Asia	South Asia	1769		1951	2015
Netherlands	Europe	Western Europe	1581		1814	1983
New Zealand	Oceania	Polynesia	1907	United Kingdom	Unwritten Constitution	
Nicaragua	Americas	Central America	1821/1838	Spain/United Provinces of Central America	1826	2014
Niger	Africa	West Africa	1960	France	1960	2010
Nigeria	Africa	West Africa	1960	United Kingdom	1914	2018
North Macedonia*	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	1991	Yugoslavia	1991	2019
Norway**	Europe	Northern Europe	1814	Denmark (as a union with Sweden)	1814	2014
Oman	Asia	Middle East	1971	(formerly a British protectorate)	1996	1996
Pakistan	Asia	South Asia	1947	United Kingdom	1956	2018
Palau	Oceania	Micronesia	1994	(formerly a US protectorate)	1981	1981
Panama***	Americas	Central America	1821/1903	Spain/Colombia	1904	2004
Papua New Guinea	Oceania	Melanesia	1975	(formerly an Australian-administered UN protectorate)	1975	1975
Paraguay	Americas	South America	1811	Spain	1813	1992
Peru	Americas	South American (Andean)	1821	Spain	1823	2018
Philippines	Asia	South East Asia	1898/1946	Spain/United States	1899	1987

* Just “Macedonia” until 2019. Macedonia was under Ottoman rule for centuries until it was conquered by Serbia in 1912–13.

** The royal union between Norway and Sweden ended in 1905.

*** Panama was a de facto protectorate of the United States until 1936.

Country	Geographic Region	Geographic Subregion	Year of Modern Independence or State Formation	State Independence Achieved From	Year of First Constitution	Year of Current Constitution or Last Major Revision
Poland	Europe	Central Europe	1919	(divided among Austria, Germany, and Russia)	1815	1997
Portugal	Europe	Western Europe	1143		1822	1997
Qatar	Asia	Middle East	1971	(formerly a British protectorate)	1970	2005
Romania	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	1878	Ottoman Empire	1866	2003
Russia	Europe	Eastern Europe	1480		1906	2020
Rwanda	Africa	Central Africa	1962	(formerly a Belgium-administered UN protectorate)	1962	2015
Saint Kitts and Nevis	Americas	Caribbean	1983	United Kingdom	1976	1983
Saint Lucia	Americas	Caribbean	1979	United Kingdom	1979	1979
Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	Americas	Caribbean	1979	United Kingdom	1979	1979
Samoa	Oceania	Polynesia	1962	(formerly a New Zealand protectorate)	1962	2013
San Marino	Europe	Western Europe	1631		1600	2002
São Tomé and Príncipe	Africa	Central Africa	1975	Portugal	1975	1990
Saudi Arabia*	Asia	Middle East	1932		Unwritten Constitution	
Senegal	Africa	West Africa	1960	France	1958	2019
Serbia**	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	1878	Ottoman Empire	1835	2006
Seychelles***	Africa	Southern Africa	1976	United Kingdom	1976	2017
Sierra Leone	Africa	West Africa	1961	United Kingdom	1961	1991

* Independence of the predecessor kingdom occurred in 1926 as a dual monarchy. Saudi Arabia has no written constitution per se, and the Koran is the formal source of authority; however, in 1992 three royal decrees outlined a "basic system of government" (that is, political institutions).

** Serbia was autonomous from 1815; the Kingdom of Serbs, Croats, and Slovenes formed in 1918 and was renamed Yugoslavia in 1929; Serbia and Montenegro formed a confederation from 2003 to 2006.

*** Originally a French colony, the Seychelles came under British control in 1814.

(*Continued*)

Table 1.1 (Continued)

Country	Geographic Region	Geographic Subregion	Year of Modern Independence or State Formation	State Independence Achieved From	Year of First Constitution	Year of Current Constitution or Last Major Revision
Singapore*	Asia	South East Asia	1965	United Kingdom	1959	2016
Slovakia	Europe	Central Europe	1918/1992	Hungarian Empire/ Czechoslovakia	1939	1998
Slovenia**	Europe	Central Europe	1992	Yugoslavia	1991	2003
Solomon Islands	Oceania	Melanesia	1978	United Kingdom	1978	1978
Somalia	Africa	East Africa	1960	(divided between the United Kingdom and Italy)	1960	None in force
South Africa	Africa	Southern Africa	1910	United Kingdom	1909	1997
South Sudan	Africa	East Africa	2011	Sudan	2005	2011
Spain	Europe	Western Europe	1479		1812	1978
Sri Lanka	Asia	South Asia	1948	United Kingdom	1833	2020
Sudan	Africa	East Africa	1956	United Kingdom	1952	2005
Suriname	Americas	South America	1975	Netherlands	1975	1987
Sweden	Europe	Northern Europe	1388		1809	2011
Switzerland***	Europe	Western Europe	1291		1848	2000
Syria†	Asia	Middle East	1944	France (previously Ottoman)	1930	2012
Taiwan††	Asia	East Asia	1947		1947	2005
Tajikistan	Asia	Central Asia	1991	Soviet Union	1994	2016
Tanzania	Africa	East Africa	1961	UK-administered UN trusteeship	1961	1992
Thailand	Asia	South East Asia	1782		1932	2017
Togo	Africa	West Africa	1960	French-administered UN trusteeship	1963	2019
Tonga	Oceania	Polynesia	1970	(formerly a British protectorate)	1875	2016
Trinidad and Tobago	Americas	Caribbean	1962	United Kingdom	1949	1976
Tunisia	Africa	North Africa	1956	France	1861	2014
Turkey†††	Europe	South-Eastern Europe	1473		1876	2017

* Singapore was part of the Malaysian Federation from 1963 to 1965.

** Slovenia was under Austrian (Hapsburg) rule prior to the creation of the Kingdom of Serbs, Croats, and Slovenes (later Yugoslavia) in 1918.

*** Swiss independence was not formally recognized until 1648.

† Syria was in a political union with Egypt as the United Arab Republic from 1958 to 1961.

†† The People's Republic of China claims Taiwan (officially The Republic of China) as a province.

††† The date of Turkey's independence refers to the creation of a centralized Ottoman Empire based in Istanbul (Constantinople); the modern Turkish Republic was founded in 1923.

Country	Geographic Region	Geographic Subregion	Year of Modern Independence or State Formation	State Independence Achieved From	Year of First Constitution	Year of Current Constitution or Last Major Revision
Turkmenistan	Asia	Central Asia	1991	Soviet Union	1992	2016
Tuvalu	Oceania	Polynesia	1978	United Kingdom	1978	1986
Uganda	Africa	East Africa	1962	United Kingdom	1955	2018
Ukraine	Europe	Eastern Europe	1991	Soviet Union	1919	2016
United Arab Emirates	Asia	Middle East	1971	(formerly a British protectorate)	1971	1996
United Kingdom	Europe	Western Europe	1707		Unwritten Constitution	
United States	Americas	North America	1776	United Kingdom	1781	1967
Uruguay	Americas	South America	1811/1825	Spain/Brazil	1830	2004
Uzbekistan	Asia	Central Asia	1991	Soviet Union	1992	2017
Vanuatu	Oceania	Melanesia	1980	(formerly under Anglo-French joint rule)	1980	1980
Venezuela	Americas	South America (Andean)	1821 / 1830	Spain/Colombia	1811 / 1830	2009
Vietnam	Asia	South East Asia	1954	France	1946	2013
Yemen*	Asia	Middle East	1967	United Kingdom (South Yemen)	1964	2001
Zambia	Africa	Southern Africa	1964	United Kingdom	1964	1996
Zimbabwe**	Africa	Southern Africa	1980	United Kingdom	1923	2021

* North Yemen became independent in 1918 after the collapse of Ottoman rule; North and South Yemen joined in 1990.

** A unilateral declaration of independence was made by the white minority of Zimbabwe (then Rhodesia) in 1965.

FUTURE STATES AND HOW THESE MIGHT ARISE

In the future, new states are likely to emerge in one of three ways (but two main ones). First, places that are still colonies or territories under the sovereign control of existing states could be granted their independence. For example, we might see an independent New Caledonia and, further in the future, an independent Greenland. Chapter 6 will note some of these relationships. Second, there is **secession**, where a physical part of a current country could secede and form a new country. Scottish independence from the United Kingdom, Catalan independence from Spain, and Serbian (Srpska Republic) independence from Bosnia-Herzegovina could be achieved in this way. That said, if unilateral secession (that is, secession occurring against the

Table 1.2 Independence Referenda This Century

Territory	Territorial Status	Independence Sought From	Year	Acceptance by Central Government?	Yes %	Turnout %
Somaliland*	Region	Somalia	2001	No – rejected as illegal	97.1	99.9
Montenegro	Partner in a confederation	Serbia and Montenegro	2006	Yes – the required three-year period after the 2003 Constitutional Charter had passed	55.5	86.5
South Sudan	Region	Sudan	2011	Yes – provided for in 2005 peace agreement	98.8	83.0
Scotland	Country	United Kingdom	2014	Yes – agreement reached in 2013	44.7	84.6
Kurdistan	Autonomous region	Iraq	2017	No – rejected as illegal	92.7	72.2
Catalonia	Autonomous community	Spain	2017	No – rejected as unconstitutional; Spain tried to prevent it; boycotted by the anti-independence side	92.0	43.0
New Caledonia	Sui generis collectivity	France	2018	Yes – following (finally) from the 1998 Nouméa Accord	43.3	81.0
Bougainville	Autonomous region	Papua New Guinea	2019	Unclear – only an agreement to a political settlement by 2027	98.3	87.6
New Caledonia	Sui generis collectivity	France	2020	Yes – as there was one-third support in the New Caledonia legislature for this second vote	46.7	85.6
New Caledonia	Sui generis collectivity	France	2021	Yes – as there was one-third support in the New Caledonia legislature for this third vote, but boycotted by the pro-independence side	3.5	43.9

* Referendum on a draft constitution that affirmed independence.

will of the existing "host" state) is a reality on the ground but is not followed by diplomatic recognition, this process would produce more de facto states but not truly sovereign ones. The third and least likely way in which new states could occur would be through dissolution – that is, a current state dissolving completely into two or more separate parts. However, the only states for which dissolution seems even remotely possible are Belgium, Yemen, and now Ethiopia. Conversely, the number of sovereign states could decrease marginally if two currently sovereign states merged in some way, as might occur someday with the Koreas and as did occur in 1975 when North Vietnam conquered South Vietnam, in 1990 when North and South Yemen merged, and in 1990 when East Germany was dissolved and Germany was reunited.

However, whether a territory that wants and indeed votes for independence actually becomes independent is a two-part question. The first part is whether the central government from which it wishes to separate accepts the process in the first place; that is, the right to independence. Nowadays that acceptance is usually given for places that are colonies, at least colonies of a democracy. Acceptance from the centre is basically a moot point for dissolution if everyone leaves: In the end, Mikhail Gorbachev could not stop the dissolution of the Soviet Union. However, acceptance by the central government of a country of the right of part of it to secede is rare and certainly not a given. If not, and independence is voted for/proclaimed, then the rest of the world will have to choose

between the breakaway region and the existing state (this being the second part of the question). If there is no global recognition of the breakaway region, then as noted above it becomes at best a de facto state. "The rest of the world," though, is not an equally determining factor; analysis has shown that international recognition is driven by the three permanent Western powers on the United Nations Security Council (the United States, United Kingdom, and France) – and that their decisions are based on geopolitics, not "merit."[20] We can see all this in the various places that have held independence votes this century, as listed in Table 1.2. Independence has only occurred in places that voted for independence *and* where the process was accepted by the central government: Montenegro and South Sudan. Moreover, as a confederation Serbia and Montenegro barely had a central government, and said confederation allowed either part (read Montenegro) to hold an independence referendum after three years. On the other hand, Somaliland, even with an almost universal "yes" vote and a functioning state (unlike Somalia), has failed to achieve any international recognition. Indeed, the last time the Western powers recognized a breakaway territory against the wishes of the host country was Kosovo vis-à-vis Serbia after the Kosovo War of 1998–9 in which NATO became involved – and not after Kosovo's 1991 independence referendum.

OUTLINE OF THIS BOOK

This textbook takes the following approaches and sequence. Chapter 2 discusses what is meant by development across a wide range of aspects, including bureaucracies and civil–military relations, and how these aspects of development ideally should occur. Chapter 3 examines variations in state effectiveness and the related issues of political economy and economic development. In Chapter 4, we outline in detail what is meant by **liberal democracy**, which involves five components, and more generally categorize the regimes of the countries of the world today. All of these national regimes can be put into one of four categories: liberal democracies, electoral democracies, semi-open autocracies, and closed autocracies. These categories are defined and contrasted. In Chapter 5, explanations and statistical analyses are made of the factors conducive to *individual* countries being more or less democratic. We focus on democracies more closely in Chapter 6 and Chapter 7, grouping together the liberal and electoral democracies and going into more detail about their political institutions, **electoral systems**, party politics, and patterns of government formation. Chapter 8 examines the autocracies (non-democracies) of the world, which can be totalitarian, sultanistic, or authoritarian, although, in fact, these divide further into nine different subtypes of autocracies. Chapter 9 looks at transitions to democracy and includes both an examination of the notion of global democratic "waves" (and "**reverse waves**") and an assessment of the prospects for new democracies to become consolidated. Conversely, we shall see how and why democracies break down. Finally, Chapter 10 provides an overview of the historical evolution of democracy, including the temporal achievement of key thresholds and the relationship between competition and participation at various periods. A glossary includes the key terms; these are in **bold** when first introduced in each chapter.

HEAD OF GOVERNMENT VERSUS HEAD OF STATE

One initial distinction to be clear on is that between the head of government, defined as the most powerful politician (the one who runs the country), and the head of state, defined as the symbolic national head (the one who awards honours and receives the credentials of foreign diplomats). These may be separate or fused positions. A separate head of state can take many forms. However, one key distinction is whether or not the head of state is a hereditary monarch and thus the country is a monarchy (on monarchies, see Chapter 2). If not – no matter the resulting nature of the position – then the country is a **republic**. Although the nature of the head of state in this regard can be quite important and even politically divisive, it does not determine the overall regime type. In other words, monarchies can be democratic (as in the Netherlands or the United Kingdom) or autocratic (as in Brunei or Saudi Arabia), and, likewise, republics can be democratic (as in France or the United States) or autocratic (as in China or Zimbabwe).

METHODOLOGICAL APPROACHES

In this work we emphasize placing the countries of the world into typologies. A **typology** is an organized system of types that is both (1) comprehensive (or collectively exhaustive) in that every case can be classified into a type and (2) mutually exclusive in that each type differs from the other types so that a case can only be classified into one type.[21] The related questions are why certain countries are Type A and others Type B and so on and/or the consequence of one type versus another. The explanations here are usually much broader than political science, involving geography, history, demography, economics, and/or cultural values. Where possible, explanations will involve quantitative relationships. More generally, this book takes an empirical and positivist approach, and certainly is a standard work of comparative politics – which for decades has focused on mid-range approaches concerning differences in regime types and subtypes, varying institutions and their effects, and so on.[22] Comparative politics thus stands in contrast to international relations, as it does not have competing meta-theories (realism, liberalism, constructivism, etc.),[23] though there are feminist critiques emphasizing the differing political behaviour and representation of women and men (see Chapter 6 on gender variations in legislatures). That said, the central critique within comparative politics involves the assumption that all countries can and should emulate Western models of development culminating in capitalist economies and liberal democratic polities – even if not Denmark specifically (cf. Chapter 2). In particular, colonialism put major challenges on many places in terms of their development, especially where this involved extractive versus settler colonialism (and as we shall see there are variations depending on the colonial power).

A NOTE ON MATHEMATICAL FORMULAE

Political science students are rarely fans of math, and, in this book, mathematical terms (also found in the glossary) and calculations are kept to a minimum. However, you will need to note a few of these. The first such calculation is the ***t*-test**, which is used to assess differences among (the means of) two groups of data. A higher (absolute) number indicates a greater difference. That said, as is the nature of statistical calculations, what really matters is whether the *t* score is statistically significant, by which we mean whether its level of significance is .05 or *less*. Consequently, ever-lower values – down to 0.000 – would indicate ever-higher significance. Second, there is the **Pearson chi-square** test, used when data are grouped into an "N by N" (at least, and usually, a "2 by 2") table. A higher number here indicates the tendency of one specific category of a given variable to be associated with one specific category of another variable. Again, what is key here is the **significance level**. Third, there is **multiple regression**. This calculation assesses the combined explanatory nature of several independent variables on one dependent variable (in what is called a "model"). A variable that may "explain" (relate to) some other variable on its own may in fact lose this causal relationship when other, stronger, variables are included. A multiple regression will thus establish what, collectively, are the most useful explanatory variables for the dependent variable in question. A multiple regression will still provide *t* scores and significance levels for each independent variable in the model, as well as for a constant. In addition, the overall relationship is given in the form of an adjusted r^2, which ranges from 0 (absolutely no relationship with the dependent variable) to 1 (a full explanation of absolutely all the variation in the dependent variable, which is, of course, "too much to expect"). An adjusted r^2 of 0.500 or higher is generally seen as indicating a strong explanatory relationship.

A separate relevant calculation is that of the "effective number" of something. If we count something by integers (1, 2, 3, 4, etc.), then we are counting each with the same value of 1. This is fine if we want to treat everything the same, but problematic if the "things" are of greatly different size. Thus, the effective number of something, indicated by N, is a calculation that weights each item by size (as a percentage of the overall total). Where everything is of the same size, then the effective number is the same as the actual integer number; otherwise, it is different.

A concrete example that uses the "effective number" calculation will help us understand the concept. Let's imagine we are talking about the effective number of political parties in a country and determining this by seat shares. In the case where Party A and Party B each get exactly half of the seats, we would say the effective number of political parties is 2. But when Party A has 90 per cent of the seats and Party B has 10 per cent, the effective number of political parties measured by seat count is closer to 1 (1.22 to be exact).

Some examples of this calculation are as follows (to two decimal places):

WITH TWO THINGS:			
A has 50% B has 50% N = 2.00	A has 66.7% B has 33.3% N = 1.80	A has 90% B has 10% N = 1.22	
WITH THREE THINGS:			
A has 33.3% B has 33.3% C has 33.3% N = 3.00	A has 44% B has 44% C has 12% N = 2.49	A has 70% B has 20% C has 10% N = 1.85	A has 90% B has 5% C has 5% N = 1.23
WITH FOUR THINGS:			
A has 25% B has 25% C has 25% D has 25% N = 4.00	A has 40% B has 30% C has 20% D has 10% N = 3.33	A has 44% B has 44% C has 8% D has 4% N = 2.53	A has 70% B has 10% C has 10% D had 10% N = 1.92

Note that N can never be less than 1.00, which occurs when there is only one thing: that is, A has 100%.

NOTES

1 Collier and Collier, *Shaping the Political Arena*, 789.
2 Weber, *The Theory of Social and Economic Organization*, 156.
3 Krasner, "Abiding Sovereignty," see especially 231–3.
4 On Africa, see Herbst, *States and Power in Africa*, 252.
5 Krasner, "Abiding Sovereignty," 232.
6 Because de facto states are still officially part of (various) internationally recognized sovereign states, they amount to "states within states," in the phrasing of Kingston, Spears, et al. See Kingston and Spears, eds., *States within States*.
7 The various aspects of this de facto state were created at different times. On the building of the Tamil Eelam de facto state, see Stokke, "Building the Tamil Eelam State."
8 Coggins, "Friends in High Places."
9 Robert H. Jackson calls these entities "quasi-states." See Jackson, *Quasi-States*.
10 League membership was flexible in this way until 1667.
11 This paragraph is drawn from Spruyt, *The Sovereign State and Its Competitors*.
12 Tilly, "Reflections on the History of European State-Making," 42.
13 Centeno, "Blood and Debt"; see abstract on page 1565 for quotation.
14 North African states are often grouped with the Middle Eastern states of Asia for historical (Ottoman control) and religious reasons. The three Transcaucasian states (Armenia, Azerbaijan, and Georgia) are on the border between Europe and Asia, as is Turkey.

15 This distinction obviously leaves aside all of those historical states that no longer exist today, at least not independently.
16 Although the term "Latin America" is commonly used in analysis, one should note that this descriptor does not refer to a geographically based subregion of the Americas but rather to a cultural grouping of countries whose inhabitants speak primarily a Romance language – Spanish, Portuguese, or French (in that order of frequency) – and are predominantly Catholic. Consequently, "Latin America" normally refers to (only) 20 of the 35 states of the Americas, as follows: Argentina, Bolivia, Brazil, Chile, Colombia, Costa Rica, Cuba, the Dominican Republic, Ecuador, El Salvador, Guatemala, Haiti, Honduras, Mexico, Nicaragua, Panama, Paraguay, Peru, Uruguay, and Venezuela.
17 Technically speaking, World War II was not quite over in Asia when Indonesia proclaimed its independence in August 1945.
18 As Holsti emphasizes, decolonization produced "the greatest explosion of state creation in world history." Holsti, *Taming the Sovereigns*, 273.
19 On the Soviet Union, see Walker, *Dissolution*.
20 Qvortrup, "Breaking Up Is Hard To Do."
21 Collier, LaPorte, and Seawright, "Putting Typologies to Work."
22 Munck, "The Past and Present of Comparative Politics."
23 Finnemore and Sikkink, "Taking Stock."

This page intentionally left blank

CHAPTER TWO

Development and Political Development

In This Chapter You Will Learn

- how development (or modernization) has cultural, economic, and political aspects;
- how the level of national political culture relates to a regime's legitimacy and thus to the likelihood of military intervention to displace that regime;
- how civil–military relations vary on a continuum, and how this continuum relates to (liberal) democracy;
- what is meant by political development and the central role of institutionalization in this;
- what factors facilitate national identity;
- how and why scholars feel political development should be sequenced; and
- which countries have exemplified this ideal sequence of political development.

TRADITIONAL VERSUS MODERN SOCIETIES

The classic way of distinguishing between traditional and modern societies is Max Weber's theory of authority. Weber documents a shift from *traditional authority*, which is based on the personal authority of the chief (or hereditary monarch) that is passed down to those whose authority is an extension of that of the chief or monarch, to *(rational) legal authority*, which is based on legal rules and wherein the authority to determine these rules is set by the occupants of hierarchical political and bureaucratic offices (not personally by the specific

individuals who happen to occupy them). Weber also notes a third type of authority, *charismatic authority*, based on the unique or indeed superhuman personal qualities of an individual who is seen to have divine inspiration. Charismatic authority can occasionally be the basis for political organization, but this type of government rarely outlasts the individual with charisma.[1] Moreover, as Weber notes, over time there is a "routinization of charisma" inasmuch as "in its pure form charismatic authority may be said to exist only in the process of originating. It cannot remain stable, but becomes either traditionalized or rationalized, or a combination of both."[2] Thus, ultimately, we are left with traditional versus legal-rational authority.

More broadly, in traditional society, or what Weber calls "status societies," one's birth determines one's social position, not just for monarchs but for everyone. In such societies, kinship is paramount. People are also more oriented to the past and tend to be fatalistic, if not superstitious. In contrast, in modern society, or what Weber calls "class societies," one's social position is determined, and thus can be raised (or lowered), by hard work and achievement (or the lack of these). In theory, all are equal before the law. Individualism is important; family ties are less central. People tend to be forward oriented and rational, generally rejecting tradition as a valid reason in itself. Individuals and society as a whole believe in progress (both personally and collectively), leading to emphases on entrepreneurialism and science. Interpersonal behaviour is likewise generally based on the impersonal rationality of contracts and assessments of others' qualifications rather than on family or personal ties.[3]

In summary, then, modern political societies will differ from traditional ones in terms of what is considered a legitimate decision – these decisions will be based on legal-rational procedures and not on traditional authority. This distinction between traditional and modern political societies can be seen as a difference in **political culture**, that is, in the attitudes, values, and beliefs that individuals have with respect to their **political regime** or system and to the ways it allocates power and resolves political conflicts.

POLITICAL CULTURE AND MILITARY INTERVENTION

Alagappa suggests that countries with high levels of political culture are less prone to military intervention.[4] As noted, countries vary in terms of their political cultures; specifically, they differ as to what is considered legitimate decision-making behaviour. Would any political culture ever consider a military coup to be legitimate, then? It would not if that culture were based on either traditional or legal-rational authority. But, perhaps a leader with charismatic authority could mount a legitimate coup. Usually, though, military coups are staged by rather "faceless" generals. The issue becomes the inverse – that is, whether a military coup would be seen as particularly *illegitimate*. To evaluate this illegitimacy, Finer argues that one can assess and rank national political cultures according to the following three criteria:

- Does there exist a wide public approval of the procedures for transferring [political] power, and a corresponding belief that no exercise of power in breach of these procedures is legitimate?
- Does there exist a wide public recognition as to who or what constitutes the sovereign authority, and a corresponding belief that no other persons or centre of power is legitimate or duty-worthy?
- Is the public proportionality large and well-mobilized into private associations? Do we find cohesive churches, industrial associations and firms, labour unions, and political parties [that are capable of acting independently of the **state**]?[5]

The higher a nation ranks on the first two criteria, the more likely it is that a military coup (or any other seizure of power) would be seen as illegitimate. The higher a nation ranks on the third criterion – essentially what can be called the level of civil society – the more a society can mobilize itself in defence of the legitimate holders of power. Consequently, the strength of social mobilization (civil support) for civilian structures, leaders, and policies acts as a deterrent to military action by increasing the costs of intervention and reducing the military's bargaining power. Short of a fully revolutionary situation, military interventions would be limited somewhat by the prospect of large-scale civil–military conflict. Thus, the massive mobilization of opposition would undermine or ideally prevent military intervention.[6]

Finer goes further and outlines four categories of national political culture: mature, developed, low, and minimal.[7] (Note that "developed" is not the highest term here.) In countries with a *mature political culture*, such as Canada, the United States, or those of northwestern Europe, a military coup is simply unthinkable, even by the military itself. If one were actually tried, it would have no legitimacy. Countries with a *developed political culture* also have an established civil society, but there is some question or dispute as to how power should be transferred and who or what should be the legitimate sovereign authority. In these countries, such as Weimar Germany or the French Fourth Republic, a military coup is, in fact, thinkable but would be broadly resisted by well-mobilized associations (although presumably not so broadly as in countries with a mature political culture). Thus, with a developed political culture a military coup certainly may be tried or threatened, but it would be most unlikely to succeed (fully). For example, the Kapp *putsch* of March 1920 in Germany failed – although it did cause the government to flee Berlin – and was ultimately abandoned in the face of widespread strikes in support of the Weimar Republic. In Spain in February 1981, only a few years after **democratization** and in the midst of political instability, rebel civil guards seized the *Cortes* (parliament), holding the deputies at gunpoint for 36 hours. The rebels hoped others on the far right would rally to their cause of reversing **democracy**. Instead, there was widespread public revulsion and an effective condemnation of the uprising by King Juan Carlos. The uprising was quickly thwarted. In August 1991 in the Soviet Union, selected hard-line communists and generals staged a coup to overthrow Mikhail Gorbachev. Gorbachev was placed under house

arrest for a couple of days, but there were public demonstrations against the coup (led by Russian president Boris Yeltsin, who escaped capture), and most of the military did not support it. The "August *putsch*," as it was known, fizzled out after three days. Of course, it probably did not help the coup leaders that they were drunk when they addressed the country on television!

In countries with a *low political culture*, such as many Latin American countries during the twentieth century and Pakistan still today, no governing system is seen as unquestionably legitimate; that is, there is an ongoing dispute regarding political institutions and procedures. The level of civic mobilization is moderate to low. In these countries, coups have not only been frequent but are usually successful – provided that there are issues, even short-term ones, that produce dissatisfaction with the civilian government (as discussed above). In countries with a *minimal political culture* – for example, many Latin American countries during the nineteenth century or places in Central Africa today – political structures lack institutionalization, and society is so localized and unorganized that legitimacy is not really a relevant concept. Coups occur without any broad justification or resistance. Finally, Finer notes that kinship societies with *traditional monarchies* constitute a largely historical fifth class, one in which the monarchical structure has legitimacy but there is no civic organization. Presumably, any military forces would act in the name of the ruling dynasty.

Finer's categories are generally comprehensive, but we could add cases of, let's say, a *polarized* (intermediate) *political culture*, one that has high political mobilization (as in the first two of Finer's categories) but that combines this with a *major* dispute about the legitimacy of the regime (or alternative regimes). Such political polarization may well lead to a successful military coup (in the sense of the military seizing power), but, to maintain power, the military in such mobilized societies will have to repress – to a greater or lesser extent violently – a well-organized and hitherto influential labour movement, a political left, or likely both. This was the pattern in the "bureaucratic authoritarian" regimes of the 1960s to the 1980s that occurred mainly in Latin America. Specifically, Munck lists six such regimes that fit this pattern: Argentina from 1966 to 1973 and again from 1976 to 1983, Brazil from 1964 to 1985, Chile from 1973 to 1990, Greece from 1967 to 1974, and Uruguay from 1973 to 1985.[8] Indeed, it was no coincidence that, of these regimes, the two that were less modern in a socioeconomic sense – Brazil and Greece – were clearly less repressive than the others, where sustained repression, including political "disappearances," were needed to break the left.

In summary, then, the military has difficulty exerting influence when there is high political culture; the government is seen as having a legitimate and moral right to govern; there are high levels of public involvement in and attachment to civil institutions; and a state has widespread public approval, legitimacy, and a procedure for transferring power.[9] Kohn offers a warning here, however: Even in democracies with rich traditions of unbroken civilian dominance, war and security can (and have) become so important in national life and so central to the definition of the state that the military, particularly during or after crisis or war, can use its expertise or public standing to limit civilian influence into military affairs.[10]

THE BASIC PROBLEM OF CIVIL–MILITARY RELATIONS

As noted, the military is an actor that can potentially invalidate **responsible government**. However, most countries determine that they require some sort of military force for national protection. The resulting trade-off has been made clear by Muthiah Alagappa, who comments that "the central paradox of the modern state is how to create a military strong enough to protect the nation-state from external and internal threats but at the same time prevent it from dominating the state or becoming an instrument for internal repression."[11] Richard H. Kohn seconds this view, noting that "the purpose of the military is to defend society, not define it."[12]

In a modern democracy, the military must be not only institutionally separate from other parts of government but also subordinate to the state, and civil authorities must have legitimate control over the means of forcible coercion. In other words, there must be civilian control over the military. By civilians, we mean all organizations and individuals that are not attached to the military, including the majority of the state administrative structure and civil society. Civilian control is thus generally defined as governments and their agencies having the authority to determine the organization, resources, and purpose of the armed forces without threat of military interference.[13] Civilian control and military influence are consequently two sides of the same issue and are often measured by plotting their relationship with each other along the a continuum, as we shall do in the next section of this chapter.

Felipe Agüero, however, downplays the term "civilian control," suggesting that it indicates some potential for "antagonistic relations" between the two actors.[14] The armed forces, presumably, have behaved in some fashion that requires not only checks and balances to be imposed by the civilian regime but also constant civilian intervention in military affairs to ensure harmonious relations between the two actors. Instead of the term "civilian control," Agüero recommends that social scientists use the term "civilian supremacy" in their analyses; in fact, we shall use both (with supremacy the stronger category) in our continuum below. Specifically, Agüero defines **civilian supremacy** as the "ability of a civilian, democratically elected, government to conduct general policy without interference from the military, to define the goals and general organization of national defense, to formulate and conduct defense policy, and to monitor the implementation of military policy."[15]

Ideally, the civilian supremacy model requires non-military decision makers to determine such things as the military's function or purpose, its extent and composition, its allocation of resources, and its involvement in domestic politics and foreign affairs (including war and defence). Although the military may retain jurisdiction in determining its own professional functions, it must necessarily be under the policy control of civilian authorities and remain subordinate to the rule of law. The military must be subordinate not only to executive politicians such as the president or prime minister but also to the entire structure of government.[16] Lyle N. McAlister points out that all armed forces (even those traditionally controlled

by civilians) are political to some degree. Consequently, he defines military intervention as "the armed forces or parts thereof deliberately participating in governmental processes for purposes transcending legitimate service interests."[17] Military intervention ranges from brief and limited military incursions into civilian affairs to complete military control of the state. States themselves vary from democracies with long histories of civilian supremacy to others where the military has customarily dominated society and those that have yet to develop any institutional apparatus for restraining the armed forces from political activities.

Finally, at what point is civilian supremacy over the military achieved? Agüero suggests that there are four conditions that must be satisfied before the armed forces can be deemed subordinated.[18] First, there must be some regularity in the sense of repeated practice over time of civilian supremacy. Second, the roles and privileges of the military must be codified in the nation's constitution or other primary legal documents. Third, there must not have been any explicit challenges on the part of the military toward civilian authorities for an extended period of time. Finally, the military must demonstrate its subordination by accepting willingly a major civilian decision that was previously refused by a politically active military.

MEASURING AND CLASSIFYING CONTEMPORARY CIVIL–MILITARY RELATIONS

Using a scale of several categories based on various criteria remains the commonly accepted practice for classifying the degree of military intervention into a state's political and civilian affairs, which allows us to place countries along a continuum. Although political scientists offer a variety of these continua describing the character of military intervention, all share a polarization between civilian governance, on one side, and military governance, on the other, and offer a gradation of different levels of military involvement in between. Although Liebenow notes that "levels of military involvement in domestic politics do not shift gradually between the points on a scale, such tools remain useful for comparative analyses."[19]

Of the various continua that have been outlined and used by scholars to indicate the range of civil–military relations, Fitch's scale suits our purpose best, but it needs some modification.[20] Fitch outlines five degrees of military intervention (or not): democratic control, conditional subordination, military tutelage, military control, and military regime. As with the definitions of civilian control or supremacy offered previously, the notion of democratic control insists that the military is fully subordinate and accountable to elected officials as well as to the general rule of law. Conditional subordination exists when the military enjoys greater institutional autonomy from the civilian government and, as such, reserves the (formal constitutional or merely historical) right to intervene and impress its preferences on the civilian regime – or even remove the civilian regime in a crisis situation. Military tutelage means that the armed forces enjoy autonomy from political control, exercise the oversight

of civilian politicians in certain policy areas, and, again, retain the express right to intercede when a crisis is perceived. Countries are also classified as having the "equivalent to military tutelage" if they are autocracies led by a monarch and the military is loyal to this monarch but not to civilian officials per se. Under military control, the armed forces direct most policy areas, and the civilian government is subordinate to and exists only at the tolerance of the military. Military control thus often involves a military body that oversees (and overrules) a civilian day-to-day cabinet, such as the Council for National Security in Thailand after its 2006 coup or the Supreme Council of the Armed Forces in Egypt from February 2011 to June 2012. Finally, military rule involves a literal military government having full control over state policy, with cabinet members being drawn from the officer corps of the armed forces, such as now in Myanmar.

Our continuum is presented in Table 2.1; Fitch's analysis is modified in particular by adding the category of civilian supremacy, which we have taken from Agüero as outlined earlier.[21] For our purposes, three key differences distinguish civilian control from civilian supremacy: (1) the civilians may lack (enough) expertise in military affairs, thus leaving the military largely with effective control over security policy; (2) the military is not seriously held to account for any past human rights violations; and (3) the military is basically in control of its own internal processes, including personnel matters. That said, both civilian supremacy and civilian control preclude any constitutionally entrenched military powers, military control over civilian positions, or any military sense of a "right" to intervene in times of crisis. Both also (normally) have a vertical command structure wherein a civilian-dominated defence ministry is below the head of government and above all military staff, and this ministry has full command over the military, including operational command. This arrangement is in contrast to a vertical command structure in which military personnel dominate the defence ministry or to a dual command structure in which the (civilian) defence ministry is not in charge of determining defence strategy and executing operational commands.[22]

Overall, it is important to stress (as Table 2.1 does) that, for our purposes, the first four categories – civilian supremacy, civilian control, conditional subordination, and military tutelage – are congruent with calling a country a democracy in the basic sense of a distinction between democracy and autocracy. However, to be deemed a **liberal democracy**, as defined in Chapter 4, a country must exhibit civilian supremacy or civilian control of the military. In other words, although the categories and concepts of conditional subordination and military tutelage are congruent with democracy, they also limit a country to being an **electoral democracy**. Granted, no current countries that we would place in the military tutelage category are electorally democratic, but Brazil, for example, was when under military tutelage from 1985 to 1990. On the other side of the spectrum, the two categories of military rule and military control are both part of autocratic rule. Indeed, all of the countries that we would place in the last two categories are examples of **military authoritarianism** – a regime type that will be outlined in Chapter 8. Finally, having democratic civil–military relations is a necessary but not

Table 2.1 The Continuum of Civil–Military Relations

CIVIL–MILITARY RELATIONS	LIBERAL DEMOCRATIC		ELECTORAL DEMOCRATIC		AUTOCRATIC	
	Civilian Supremacy	Civilian Control	Conditional Subordination	Military Tutelage	Military Control	Military Rule
NUMERICAL SCORE	10	8	6	4	2	0
Military retains control over security policy	No (but minor influence)	Maybe	Maybe	Yes	Yes	Yes
Military has control over other policy areas	No	No (but minor influence)	Maybe	Some	Some/most	Most/all
Military perceives a "right" to intervene in times of national crisis	No	No	Usually	Yes	n/a (de facto)	n/a
Head of government	Civilian	Civilian	Civilian	Civilian	Caretaker; military or military-backed president; or, if civilian prime minister, then a figurehead or "front"	Top
Vertical command structure, with a civilian-dominated defence minister above the armed forces	Yes	Usually	No	No	No	No
Military defence minister	No	No	Maybe	Usually	Usually	Yes
Other military minister(s)	No	No	Maybe	Usually	Usually	Yes, a majority
Military has ability to appoint/override civilian positions	No	No	Maybe	Some	Most	Most/all
Constitutionally entrenched military powers/prerogatives	No	No	Maybe	Yes	Yes	Yes
Military has "own resources"	No	Maybe	Some/many	Some/many	Many	Many
Military is accountable for (past) human rights violations	Yes	No	No	No	No	No
Military controls its own internal processes	No	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes	Yes

Table 2.2 Ranking Nations on the Civil–Military Relations Continuum (as of the end of 2021)

Rank	Country			
10	Albania	Denmark	Korea, South	Singapore
	Antigua and Barbuda	Finland	Latvia	Slovakia
	Australia	France	Lithuania	Slovenia
	Austria	Germany	Luxembourg	South Africa
	Belgium	Greece	Malta	Spain
	Belize	Hungary	Netherlands	Sweden
	Canada	Iceland	New Zealand	Switzerland
	China	Ireland	Norway	Taiwan
	Costa Rica	Italy	Poland	Trinidad and Tobago
	Croatia	Japan	Portugal	United Kingdom
	Cyprus (Greek)	Jordan	Saint Kitts and Nevis	United States of America
	Czech Republic	Korea, North	San Marino	
8	Andorra	Estonia	Maldives	Saint Lucia
	Argentina	Ethiopia	Marshall Islands	Saint Vincent and the Grenadines
	Armenia	Georgia	Mauritius	Samoa
	Azerbaijan	Grenada	Micronesia	São Tomé and Príncipe
	Bahamas	Guyana	Moldova	Senegal
	Bahrain	Haiti	Monaco	Serbia
	Barbados	India	Mongolia	Seychelles
	Belarus	Iran	Montenegro	Solomon Islands
	Bhutan	Iraq	Morocco	Tanzania
	Bosnia-Herzegovina	Israel	Mozambique	Tonga
	Botswana	Ivory Coast	Namibia	Tunisia
	Bulgaria	Jamaica	Nauru	Turkmenistan
	Cameroon	Kazakhstan	Nepal	Tuvalu
	Cape Verde	Kenya	North Macedonia	Ukraine
	Chile	Kiribati	Palau	United Arab Emirates
	Cuba	Kyrgyzstan	Panama	Uzbekistan
	Djibouti	Lebanon	Papua New Guinea	Vanuatu
	Dominica	Lesotho	Peru	Vietnam
	Dominican Republic	Libya	Philippines	Zambia
	East Timor	Liechtenstein	Romania	
	Eritrea	Malaysia	Russia	
6	Afghanistan	Comoros	Indonesia	Rwanda
	Angola	Congo, DR (Kinshasa)	Kosovo	Sierra Leone
	Bangladesh	Congo, R (Brazzaville)	Laos	Somalia
	Benin	Ecuador	Liberia	South Sudan
	Bolivia	El Salvador	Madagascar	Sri Lanka
	Brazil	Equatorial Guinea	Malawi	Suriname
	Burkina Faso	Fiji	Mauritania	Syria
	Burundi	Gabon	Mexico	Tajikistan
	Cambodia	Gambia	Nicaragua	Thailand
	Central African Republic	Ghana	Niger	Turkey
	Chad	Guatemala	Nigeria	Uganda
	Colombia	Honduras	Paraguay	
4	Algeria	Guinea-Bissau	Togo	Yemen
	Egypt	Pakistan	Venezuela	Zimbabwe
~4	Brunei	Oman	Saudi Arabia	Swaziland
	Kuwait	Qatar		
2	Guinea	Mali	Sudan	
0	Myanmar			

sufficient condition for being a democracy overall. Civilian supremacy or control can be found in many autocracies, such as China, North Korea, and Russia.

Table 2.2 lists the countries of the world as of the end of 2021 in terms of where they place on this continuum, with countries listed using the 10 to 0 score given under the categories of Table 2.1. Countries listed as "~4" have the "equivalent to military tutelage." One sees that most countries of the world now have either civilian supremacy or civilian control, although only a minority enjoy the highest category of civilian supremacy. Still, these rankings show a definite increase in average civilian control (and a corresponding decrease in average military control) compared with those of a generation ago. This positive trend is due not only to the "third **wave of democratization**" (see Chapter 9) but also to the fact that assorted new democracies have implemented the various techniques to increase civilian control over the military discussed previously. Indeed, today, there are just a dozen or so countries in which the military is dominant over the civilian authority (and these countries, by definition, are autocracies). Let us stress, however, that in many countries the military is subordinate only conditionally to civilian control, making these countries at best electoral democracies for the moment (even when democratic overall). Furthermore, in these democratic cases, the military, by definition, certainly could intervene and overthrow the civilian authority in a future crisis, as has happened in recent crises in Thailand and Mali.

THE MEANING AND GOALS OF DEVELOPMENT

Scholars still debate what is meant by development. In part, this debate exists because some scholars argue for, or are criticized for having, a concept of development that is very much focused on the current features of developed Western countries. For them, development means "getting to Denmark," in Fukuyama's apt phrase – with "Denmark" not meaning literally Denmark but a developed country with effective state institutions and good outcomes.[23] For example, as Huntington notes,

> By the mid-1970s, substantial bodies of literature … existed elaborating the importance of growth, equity, democracy, stability, and autonomy for developing societies and analyzing the ways in which those societies might best make progress toward those goals. Implicit in the widespread acceptance of these goals was also the acceptance of an image of the Good Society: wealthy, just, democratic, orderly, and in full control of its own affairs, a society, in short, very much like those found in Western Europe and North America. A backward society was poor, inequitable, repressive, violent, and dependent. Development was the process of moving from the latter to the former.[24]

This "modernization school" argument tended to produce three different debates, the first two within the school and the last one between the school and its critics. The first debate was

whether all these goals were equally desirable. The second was whether all these goals were equally compatible or whether some had to be sacrificed (at least for a time) to achieve others. Thus, it was and is argued that democracy will impede economic development. The third debate was whether all these goals were still possible. That they were not was the critique of the "dependency school," whose proponents argued that the "core" nations of the North Atlantic had so structured the international economic and political order that it was next to impossible for "peripheral" nations to develop because these states were permanently stuck in a dependent situation. At a minimum, this critique implied that, without autonomy, the other goals of development would be difficult if not impossible to achieve.

Of these goals, the notions of wealth and egalitarianism are more socioeconomic. To these could be added other economic and social aspects of modernity or modernization: for example, high levels of education and literacy, a shift from agriculture to industry and services, urbanization, long life expectancy, and low infant mortality. Certainly, these features are part of any broader notion of development; as will be noted in the next chapter, wealth, life expectancy, and education are combined in the UN's **Human Development Index (HDI)**. Yet none of these are explicitly political. What, then, is meant by **political development**? Huntington's list includes democracy, order, and autonomy, to which can be added the notion of institutionalization. Elsewhere, Huntington defines institutionalization generally as "the process by which organizations and procedures acquire value and stability" and thus become complex (with formal internal structures and hierarchies), adaptable, coherent, and autonomous from other institutions.[25] In terms of specifically political organizations, one means, of course, standard political institutions such as executives, legislatures, and judiciaries, which collectively both make and implement national laws and policies, as well as arm's length organizations such as electoral bodies. Above and beyond these, Huntington lays particular stress on the role of political parties in structuring political demands or "inputs" in modern societies with their consequent mass participation in politics.[26]

The notion of order may sound somewhat "authoritarian," but what Huntington means here is political stability and the ability of governments to govern, which, in turn, he relates back to their level of **political institutionalization**. His classic work in this regard, *Political Order in Changing Societies*, is blunt in setting out the "problem" here; although the book was written in the 1960s and political circumstances have changed (obviously the Soviet Union no longer exists, for example), it is still worth quoting today because it distinguishes between countries not according to their form of government (their regime type) but instead according to their government's degree of legitimacy:

> The United States, Great Britain, and the Soviet Union have strong, adaptable, coherent political institutions: effective bureaucracies, well-organized political parties, a high degree of popular participation in public affairs, working systems of civilian control over the military, extensive activity by the government in the economy, and reasonably effective procedures

> for regulating succession and controlling political conflict. [They] command the loyalties of their citizens and thus have the capacity to tax resources, to conscript manpower, and to innovate and to execute policy. If the [Soviet] Politburo, the [British] Cabinet, or the [US] President makes a decision, the probability is high that it will be implemented through the government machinery.
>
> [The situation is quite different] in many, if not most, of the modernizing countries of Asia, Africa, and Latin America. These countries … suffer real shortages of food, literacy, education, wealth, income, health, and productivity. [H]owever, there is a greater shortage: a shortage of political community and of effective, authoritative, legitimate government … [I]n many cases, governments simply do not govern …
>
> In many modernizing countries governments are still unable to [control the governed], much less [control themselves]. The primary problem is not liberty but the creation of a legitimate public order … Authority has to exist before it can be limited, and it is authority that is in scarce supply.[27]

Obviously, Huntington is assuming here that government is a good in itself, a point rejected by anarchists. Yet it is hard to see any goal of development being achieved in a state of anarchy. What is then, perhaps, actually controversial among the previous list of political goals is democracy. Many would argue that it is naïve to assume that everyone and every society wants to be democratic, much less will be. Writing in the 1960s, Rustow and Ward clearly stressed the "non-linkage" between democracy and modernization, even if they do note the linkage between egalitarianism and modernization:

> In the political sphere, it is advisable not to link the broad historical concept of modernization with any particular regime or ideology. Democracy and representative government are not implied in our definition of modernization. Czar Peter of Russia [Peter the Great], Sultan Mahmud of Turkey, and Emperor Meiji of Japan were modernizers, but decidedly not democrats or conscious forerunners of democracy. Germany was more modern in the 1930s than in the 1880s, though its government was less representative and less liberal …
>
> There are nonetheless certain definite political characteristics that modernizing societies share. Commonly modernization … proceeds toward some form of mass society – democratic or authoritarian. Under whatever regime, the hallmarks of the modern state are a vastly expanded set of functions and demands. Public services come to include education, social security, and public works while civic duties involve new forms of loyalty, tax payment and, in a world of warring states, military service. The very concepts of public service and civic duty, indeed, are among the vital prerequisites of modern politics.
>
> The tendency, moreover, is for services and obligations to become universal: schooling for all children, a road into every village, conscription for all men, and a tax out of every pay envelope. Hence political modernization clearly has egalitarian tendencies. The performance of

> all the new or expanded services usually means a vast increase in public employment, just as the more intensive interaction among citizens is accompanied by a vast expansion in the network of communications.[28]

Development and modernization thus involve increased state capacity, which, in turn, requires a change in bureaucratic structures. As Max Weber points out, in medieval Europe there was a "patrimonial" system of government in which the ruler was not only an all-powerful autocrat but also able to appoint and promote individuals to administrative positions personally and arbitrarily, based entirely on his (or rarely her) personal judgments. Likewise, the ruler arbitrarily modified these positions or responsibilities, which were thus fluid and without fixed limits or clear relations of authority (except to the ruler). The officials concerned often came from the personal household of the ruler and, in any case, had no particular technical qualifications. Finally, as an extension of the ruler, these officials may or may not have deigned to serve the public; usually a payment of tribute was required to get something done. In the modern (Western) state, these administrative patterns have been replaced by a permanent **bureaucracy**, which is based on a rational hierarchy of authority and which employs full-time civil servants who are hired by formal contracts and promoted based on training and experience, who have defined rights and duties and fixed salaries, and who serve the public neutrally and without using their positions for direct personal gain.[29]

MODERNIZATION WITHOUT DEMOCRACY

Chinese political history provides a good illustration of the distinction between failed and successful modernization – separate from democracy.[30] The last imperial era in China was that of the Qing Dynasty, which, except for its prestigious merit-based bureaucracy, lacked modern institutions (e.g., there was no national army, just regional ones). From the 1840s, the government could not protect the country from foreign encroachments. In 1911, a revolution toppled the longstanding Qing Dynasty, and a **republic** was proclaimed. A new provisional constitution was issued in 1912, and an election was held in 1912–13 for a new House of Representatives – the only relatively free national election ever held in China. However, the leader of the party that won the most seats was assassinated before he could become premier, and the parliament was ultimately suppressed by the autocratic president. Various regional warlords soon replaced the weak authority of the state. Although many of these warlords were brought under control by the late 1920s, not all were, and the Nationalist government really only controlled the east of the country. Ultimately, China would descend into a civil war between the forces loyal to the government of the Republic of China led by the Kuomintang (the Nationalists) and the forces of the Communist Party of China.

It is clear that, in the first half of the twentieth century, both legitimate government and political stability were absent in China. Political violence was commonplace. In contrast, after the communists came to power in 1949, they established effective control over mainland China. The communist institutions now function effectively and with regularity. For example, the National People's Congress is chosen every five years indirectly and with very limited competition. Leaders post-Mao changed regularly too, every decade or so, most recently in 2012 from Hu Jintao to Xi Jinping, and these changes were planned out and occurred reasonably smoothly. However, in 2018 the two-term limit for the president was removed, indicating that Xi Jinping could remain China's "paramount leader" indefinitely. Despite this change, China has achieved political modernization, even though it is not at all democratic.

NATION BUILDING

Of course, one can note that the challenges of modernization have been harder in China, given its huge size. The size of a country also leads to the issue of national identity – the first factor in the ideal sequence of political development. As Whittlesey notes, "a large state may be weaker than a less well-endowed smaller state because the material conditions of political unity function only in the presence of the emotion of nationality."[31] In other words, state building is easier when there is a clear national identity involved and perhaps easiest when there is complete ethnic homogeneity; both of these circumstances are more likely when a state does not cover a large geographic area. However, states with what amounts to an ethnically homogeneous population are very few in the world: Iceland, Japan, and North and South Korea stand out here, although the Scandinavian countries were also this way until postwar immigration. That said, immigration, if accompanied by some level of assimilation, will not lessen national identity provided it existed before. So perhaps a better way to phrase the issue is to assess the level of ethnic homogeneity at independence. Relating ethnicity to size, one sees that, indeed, the homogeneous nations mentioned are not huge, yet there are also many small countries with multiple ethnic groups – for example, Belgium, Bhutan, Bosnia-Herzegovina, Cameroon, Ghana, Moldova, Sierra Leone, Trinidad and Tobago, and the United Arab Emirates.

In any case, even if a country is ethnically diverse, national identity is facilitated if the country has a dominant ethnic core (provided it is tolerant of minorities). Thus, the national histories of many of the countries of Western Europe started with a core ethnic group (such as the English) or territory (such as the Île de France or the allied German-speaking cantons of Uri, Schwyz, and Unterwalden). Over the course of many centuries, other territories were added to these (sometimes willingly, sometimes not), until the creation of, respectively, today's United Kingdom, France, and Switzerland. This long time span meant that an initial state expanded into new territories, which, sooner or later, usually considered it legitimate – a much easier situation than that of much of Africa and Asia, where independence put multiple

ethnic groups into new countries, and few of these ethnic groups could claim any historical dominance.[32] One exception, as Smith notes, is India, where national identity is centred on the Hindi-speaking Hindus of northern and central India.[33] As for Canada, one cannot forget its initial British majority. On the one hand, this majority accommodated the French minority through **federalism** and assimilated many subsequent waves of immigrants. On the other hand, for generations this dominant ethnic group saw itself as "British"; *Canadian* identity would develop slowly.

Countries that, at independence, do not have a strong sense of national identity (even for the dominant group) have to establish this identity if they wish to facilitate the legitimacy of the state. This political development requires a conscious process of "nation building," some of which comes through state building, especially through the creation of standardized mass education. However, nation building also involves the creation (or strengthening) of an intangible national identity. As Smith stresses, "[t]he 'nation' is not, as we see, built up only through the provision of 'infrastructures' and 'institutions,' as 'nation-building' theories assumed; but from the central fund of culture and symbolism and mythology provided by shared historical experiences."[34] "Shared historical experiences" is a broad category, and a vague one. The reality is that the creation of national identity involves differentiating one's nation from some *other* nation or nations, and thus the role of the *other* is crucial. Such differentiation, moreover, has come most strongly through war, at least in Western Europe where war not only "made the state," as noted previously, but also made or at least reinforced the nation. As Howard's study of Europe notes, "[s]elf-identification as a Nation implies almost by definition alienation from other communities, and the most memorable incidents in the group-memory consisted in conflict with and triumph over other communities."[35]

A similar argument could be made for the United States, starting with its War of Independence, especially because those still loyal to Britain fled to Canada. But what if independence involves no struggle? In Africa, for example, only a few states (Angola, Guinea-Bissau, Mozambique, Namibia, and Zimbabwe) had to fight a war to gain independence.[36] Most Latin American countries technically fought wars, but these were so brief (Colombia's excepted) as to have little effect in terms of establishing a national identity. Consequently, Latin American countries overwhelmingly suffered from political instability and weak or even failed states during their first decades of independence. Exceptions were Brazil, which retained a monarchy until 1889, and Chile due to its military successes. As Valenzuela writes,

> It is doubtful that Chileans considered themselves a nation before independence …
>
> However, the clear-cut [1839] military victory in the war against the Peru-Bolivia Confederation, a victory without parallel in Latin America, gave the small, divided nation a powerful new sense of confidence and purpose, creating tangible symbols of patriotism and nationality. These feelings were [later] reinforced with the [1883] victory of Chilean forces

in the War of the Pacific, which led to the incorporation of large portions of Peruvian and Bolivian territory.[37]

Needless to say, it is not so much the fighting of a war but the actual winning of one that builds national identity. Winning at other more peaceful international events, such as the Olympics, also helps a people develop a national identity.

SEQUENCING POLITICAL DEVELOPMENT

Ironically, even if there is some debate about whether to consider democracy the ultimate goal of political development, there has been for a long time a fair consensus among scholars regarding the ideal sequence by which political development should occur if one wishes to produce a stable, democratic state. More accurately, one could say "should have occurred" historically, as this classic model of political development is no longer truly viable given the slow evolution required. This sequence of steps goes as follows:[38]

- First, there should be a national identity producing national unity. In Nordlinger's analysis, "a national identity may be said to exist when the great majority of the politically relevant actors accord the nation's central symbols and its political elite(s) greater loyalty than that which they maintain toward subnational units, such as tribes, castes, and classes, and toward political elite(s) residing outside the system's territory."[39] The resulting national unity thus ensures that people "have no doubt or mental reservations as to which political community they belong to."[40]
- Second, over time, state structures that are legitimate and effective are established and institutionalized and penetrate throughout the country. These institutions are usually ultimately codified in a constitution.[41] At this point, after these first two steps, one can consider the country modernized in a basic sense.
- Third, the various elite groups engage in competition with each other, usually by forming rudimentary political parties. Even if these parties have small memberships and minimal organization, they can still become institutionalized over time. Political competition thus shifts from occurring between individuals to occurring between political parties. Such parties are impersonal, ongoing, and open to members exercising their political rights as citizens.[42] The "prize" for which the parties are competing may not be total power if the country still has a relevant monarch. Nevertheless, if successful, this stage of elite competition will produce alternations back and forth in power, leading elites to become tolerant of each other and to commit to the proto-democratic procedure of regular elections. Rustow calls this stage the "habituation phase," during which these new habits lead to the internalization of democratic norms.[43]

- Fourth, if responsible government does not already exist (as it does in republics), then it is created by monarchs and nobles giving up their political power to elected governments.
- Fifth and finally, voting rights slowly expand until there is universal suffrage.[44]

There are several reasons for this sequence. If a territory is without a national identity, any government institution will have great difficulty in getting its wishes followed – unless, of course, it uses coercion, which obviously will not increase the legitimacy of the state. State building should be a slow process because, whenever there is a large expansion of organizational structures, individuals tend to be more concerned with the competition for promotion than with the overall performance of the organization.[45] Moreover, any state structure that is new or rapidly expanding will be less coherent than an already institutionalized one; too many such expanding structures will be problematic. Time is also required for trust to develop between political competitors. Even if political competition is just among the elites, it will take some time for the more conservative to trust the more liberal and vice versa (that is, for each group to trust that the other will not go too far). Robert Dahl summarizes the historical path to this trust in successful polities:

> the rules, the practices, and the culture of competitive politics developed first among a small elite, and the critical transition from nonparty politics to party competition also occurred initially within the restricted group. Although … party conflict was often harsh and bitter, the severity of conflict was restrained by ties of friendship, family [and] class … that pervaded the restricted group of notables who dominated the political life of the country.[46]

A slow expansion of the franchise incorporates and socializes new groups bit by bit into an already existing political culture of tolerance and moderation. On the other hand, if there is no expansion to include new groups, the society is likely to become radicalized. Last but not least, if universal suffrage comes "too soon," for example, in the absence of established political parties and other strong institutions, this will likely either overwhelm the system or lead to a conservative reaction and ultimately to repression, as in Southern Europe. Table 2.3 gives the dates of **party system** institutionalization (defined here as stable competition between two or more parties, each with a clear voting base), responsible government, and universal male suffrage for the advanced industrial countries. Looking at the dates, one sees that, if universal male suffrage came last (with or without universal female suffrage at the same time), countries overwhelmingly underwent a stable and successful pattern of political development.

If universal male suffrage came earlier than the other factors, political development was unstable, with breakdowns in democracy (nineteenth-century France, Greece, Argentina).[47] Universal suffrage coming before responsible government led to the creation of mass "irresponsible" parties because these could not aspire to government, as was the case in Imperial

Table 2.3 The Sequencing of Political Development in the Advanced Industrial States

Country	Decade of Party System Institutionalization	Year of Responsible Government	Year of Universal Male Suffrage
Australia	1900s	1901[a]	1902[c]
Austria	1890s	1918	1907
Belgium	1880s	1831	1919
Canada	1860s	1867[b]	1920[d]
Denmark	1870s	1901	1915
Finland	1860s	1917	1906
France	1900s	1875	1848
Germany	1860s	1918	1869[e]
Greece	1910s	1875	1844/1864
Iceland	(1910s)	(1915)	1920
Ireland	1920s	1921	1923
Italy	1910s	1861	1912/1919
Japan	1890s	1947	1925
Luxembourg	1900s	1919	1918
Netherlands	1880s	1848	1917
New Zealand	(1890s)	(1856)	(1879)
Norway	1880s	1884	1898
Portugal	1910s	1911	1918
Spain	1930s	1869	1869
Sweden	1880s	1917	1921
Switzerland	1890s	1848	1848
United Kingdom	1860s	1832	1918
United States	1820s	1789	1870

Note: Dates in brackets are pre-independence.

[a] 1856 in each colony.

[b] 1854 in the province of Canada.

[c] Before federation in each of the colonies, although full rights for Aboriginal Australians not given until 1962.

[d] Full rights for Indigenous Peoples not given until 1960.

[e] 1849 in Prussia.

Germany. Finally, if responsible government came first, or at least before institutionalized parties, the result was either governmental instability for a time as governments collapsed quickly (Belgium, colonial New Zealand, United Kingdom, and for that matter some Canadian provinces) or heavy **clientelism** as governments "bought" legislative support or even rigged elections (Italy, Spain).

Even if this ideal sequence is followed, there still may be resistance and conflict along the way. Consequently, as Berman stresses, "the idea that a gradual, liberal, non-violent path to democracy exists is based on a misreading or misinterpretation of history. Although such a path is certainly attractive in theory, there are in fact very few cases of stable liberal democracies that developed in this manner."[48] For example, though the United Kingdom is usually given as a country with stable political development, it did experience the violent breakaway of most of Ireland in 1916–22. As Berman notes, autonomy (home rule) for Ireland was the one

reform of this period over which the traditional elites were intransigent.[49] Thus, if one wants to note ideal patterns of political development, it is really the three Scandinavian countries of Denmark, Norway, and Sweden that stand out. Norway, in particular, experienced a political development characterized by a cohesive national identity beginning in the ninth century and growing under the external control of first Denmark and then Sweden, very little political violence (and none in achieving final independence from Sweden in 1905), ever-increasing democracy, trust in government, and a "remarkably stable and effective" democratic system[50] in a country with strong regional, cultural, and class divisions (or "cleavages").[51]

Denmark, Norway, Sweden, and the United Kingdom all share the trait of being constitutional monarchies. As Lipset notes, most of the historically stable Western democracies are monarchies.[52] Monarchies seem most relevant in the fourth and fifth steps of political development because a monarch's support for or at least acceptance of these changes goes a long way to reassuring both traditional elites and the groups pressing for change. That is, "The preservation of the monarchy has apparently retained for these [Western] nations the loyalty of the aristocratic, traditionalist, and clerical sectors of the population which resented increased democratization and equalitarianism. And by accepting the lower strata and not resisting to the point where revolution might be necessary, the conservative orders won or retained the loyalty of the new 'citizens.'"[53] Such behaviour can be contrasted with that of monarchs in Imperial Russia or the Middle East. Of course, even though the general point about monarchies aiding political development still applies today in a theoretical sense, it is not much help if a country does not have a legitimate monarchy. Table 2.4 lists all the monarchies of the world today, using their official names, distinguishing between those that are pure figureheads (in countries that have completed all five steps of political development) and other monarchies. As can be seen, there are no Indigenous monarchies in the Americas, and many monarchies but no figurehead ones in the Middle East.[54]

At the opposite extreme of a country such as Norway, then, are many countries in Africa and Asia, which, when they became independent, had no national identity or viable political institutions nor did much to improve state capacity but which, nevertheless, in the spirit of the times, introduced elections with universal suffrage. It is no great surprise that democracy did not take root in these countries and that political instability and non-democratic rule have been quite common. Is this the fault of colonialism? Certainly the map of Africa in particular was drawn with little concern for traditional tribal identities. Yet perhaps the bigger issue is the nature of colonial rule. In countries that were British colonies, stable political institutions and competitive elections often predated independence. For example, Trinidad and Tobago had its first elections in 1925, decades before its independence in 1962. Granted, only some of the members of the Legislative Council were elected and the franchise was quite limited, but the elections were fair. In India as well there were elections before independence (although no completely universal national ones), and the Indian National Congress Party dated back to 1885 and was highly organized. This institution is invariably argued to be one of the factors

Table 2.4 Monarchies in the World Today (as of the end of 2021)

Country (official name)	Location (geographic subregion)	Ruling Dynasty	Since
FIGUREHEAD MONARCHIES			
Kingdom of Belgium	Western Europe	House of Belgium	1920
Kingdom of Denmark	Northern Europe	House of Glücksburg	1863
State of Japan	East Asia	Imperial House of Japan	539
Kingdom of Lesotho	Southern Africa	House of Moshesh	1822
Grand Duchy of Luxembourg	Western Europe	House of Nassau-Weilburg	1890
Kingdom of the Netherlands	Western Europe	House of Orange-Nassau	1544
Kingdom of Norway	Northern Europe	House of Glücksburg	1905
Kingdom of Spain	Western Europe	House of Bourbon	1700/1975
Kingdom of Sweden	Northern Europe	House of Bernadotte	1818
United Kingdom of Great Britain and Northern Ireland	Western Europe	House of Windsor	1917
OTHER MONARCHIES			
Kingdom of Bahrain	Middle East	House of Khalifa	1783
Kingdom of Bhutan	South Asia	House of Wangchuck	1907
Nation of Brunei, the Abode of Peace	South East Asia	House of Bolkiah	1485
Kingdom of Eswatini	Southern Africa	House of Dlamini	18th century
Hashemite Kingdom of Jordan	Middle East	House of Hashemite	1921
State of Kuwait	Middle East	House of Sabah	1718
Principality of Liechtenstein	Western Europe	House of Liechtenstein	1608
Principality of Monaco	Western Europe	House of Grimaldi	1297
Kingdom of Morocco	North Africa	House of Alaouite	1631
Sultanate of Oman	Middle East	House of Al Said	1744
State of Qatar	Middle East	House of Thani	1825
Kingdom of Saudi Arabia	Middle East	House of Saud	1744
Kingdom of Thailand	South East Asia	House of Chakri	1782
Kingdom of Tonga	Polynesia	House of Tupou	16th century
United Arab Emirates	Middle East	(Six ruling families)	18th and 19th centuries

central to India's relative political and democratic stability. Another key factor contributing to the enduring and stable nature of Indian governance is the competent Indian Civil Service, which dates back to the early 1800s.[55] In contrast, other colonial powers, such as the Belgians or French, generally left their ex-colonies with little in the way of institutions or stable political patterns at the time of independence. Likewise, most of the new countries of Eastern and Central Europe that appeared as a result of the collapse of empires occasioned by World War I lacked any institutionalized administrative structures, in large part because non-ethnic majority bureaucrats left instead of staying around to work for the new states.[56]

NOTES

1 Weber, *The Theory of Social and Economic Organization*, 328ff.
2 Weber, *The Theory of Social and Economic Organization*, 363–4.

3 Weber, *Economy and Society*, 928.
4 Alagappa, "Investigating and Explaining Change," 47.
5 Finer, *The Man on Horseback*, 78.
6 Fitch, *The Armed Forces and Democracy in Latin America*, 170, 140.
7 Finer, *The Man on Horseback*, 79–80.
8 Munck, *Authoritarianism and Democratization*, 26–31.
9 Finer, *The Man on Horseback*, 78.
10 Kohn, "How Democracies Control the Military."
11 Alagappa, "Investigating and Explaining Change," 29
12 Kohn, "How Democracies Control the Military," 142.
13 Trinkunas, "Crafting Civilian Control in Argentina and Venezuela," 163.
14 Agüero, *Soldiers, Civilians, and Democracy*, 19.
15 Agüero, *Soldiers, Civilians, and Democracy*, 19.
16 Liebenow, *African Politics*, 251; Kohn, "How Democracies Control the Military," 144–5.
17 McAlister, "The Military," 144.
18 Agüero, *Soldiers, Civilians, and Democracy*, 21–2.
19 Liebenow, *African Politics*, 251.
20 Fitch, *The Armed Forces and Democracy in Latin America*, 39. For other continua, see Alagappa, "Asian Civil–Military Relations"; Finer, *The Man on Horseback*, 77–78; Liebenow, *African Politics*, 251–2; and Nordlinger, *Soldiers in Politics*, 22.
21 Agüero, *Soldiers, Civilians, and Democracy*, 19.
22 Pion-Berlin, "Defense Organization and Civil-Military Relations in Latin America."
23 Fukuyama, *The Origins of Political Order*, 14. The original use of Denmark as a generic successful state is found in Pritchett and Woolcock, "Solutions When the Solution Is the Problem," 192. Both Fukuyama and Pritchett and Woolcock emphasize that the institutions of "Denmark" cannot just be copied in the developing world, or at least not with any guarantee of similar success in a different context.
24 Huntington, "The Goals of Development," 6.
25 Huntington, *Political Order in Changing Societies*, 12.
26 Huntington, *Political Order in Changing Societies*, 89.
27 Huntington, *Political Order in Changing Societies*, 1–8 passim.
28 Rustow and Ward, *Political Modernization in Japan and Turkey*, 4–5.
29 Weber, "The Theory of Social and Economic Organization."
30 On China's political development from the Qing period to today, see Spence, *The Search for Modern China*.
31 Whittlesey, *The Earth and the State*, 23.
32 Smith, "State-Making and Nation-Building," 245–57 passim.
33 Smith, "State-Making," 255.
34 Smith, "State-Making," 258.
35 Howard, *War and the Nation State*, 9.
36 Herbst, *States and Power in Africa*, 128.
37 Valenzuela, "Chile: Origins and Consolidation of a Latin American Democracy," 212–13.
38 The following draws from Nordlinger, "Political Development"; Rustow, "Transitions to Democracy"; and Diamond, Hartlyn, and Linz, "Introduction: Politics, Society, and Democracy in Latin America," 13–15.
39 Nordlinger, "Political Development," 498.
40 Rustow, "Transitions to Democracy," 350.

41 Table 1.1 gives the years of every contemporary state's first and current constitutions for reference.
42 The creation of political parties as autonomous legal entities is an important step in the change from the "limited access order" of the natural state to an "open access order" with freedom of organization, in the analysis of North, Wallis, and Weingast, *Violence and Social Orders*.
43 Rustow, "Transitions to Democracy," 360.
44 An alternative and traditional way of analysing political development is to view this process as a series of crises or challenges that all nations must meet to achieve democratic stability – these being crises of identity, authority/legitimacy, penetration, participation, and distribution. See Binder et al., *Crises and Sequences in Political Development*.
45 Nordlinger, "Political Development," 513.
46 Dahl, *Polyarchy*, 36.
47 It was certainly the case generally in Latin America that universal male suffrage came well after the creation of elected responsible governments. However, as we shall see, most of these systems lacked national unity and an effective state.
48 Berman, *Democracy and Dictatorship in Europe*, 9.
49 Berman, *Democracy and Dictatorship in Europe*, 212.
50 Eckstein, *Division and Cohesion in Democracy*, 11; Fasting and Sørensen, *The Norwegian Exception?*
51 Nordlinger, "Political Development," 512; Eckstein, *Division and Cohesion in Democracy*, Chapter 2 and 119–20.
52 Lipset, *Political Man*, 65–6.
53 Lipset, *Political Man*, 66.
54 On the survival of the monarchies of the Middle East and North Africa, see Yom and Gause, "Resilient Royals: How Arab Monarchies Hang On."
55 Huntington, *Political Order in Changing Societies*, 84.
56 The two exceptions here were Czechoslovakia and Finland. These countries also had decades of competitive elections before independence. Not coincidentally, they were the only two newly independent countries in the region whose democracies survived the interwar period.

CHAPTER THREE

State Effectiveness and Political Economy

In This Chapter You Will Learn

- what the different types of states are (in terms of state effectiveness and penetration) and the factors that matter in terms of what type a state a country has;
- what "building state capacity" means, and the geographic and demographic challenges in doing so;
- what is meant by the First, Second, and Third World; and
- how scholars and key international organizations classify states.

STATES AS INSTITUTIONS

There are four different types of **states**, that is, the bureaucratic structures of a regime. These are listed in Table 3.1. In the "default" type, which we shall call an **effective state**, the state controls the national territory and the borders and has sufficient domestic penetration to ensure that national laws and policies are in effect throughout the country. To this end, the state has a stable judicial system,[1] the **bureaucracy** is based on the Weberian principles noted in Chapter 2, and there is sufficient state capacity to raise tax revenues and (in the contemporary world) to provide at least primary education for the vast majority of children. Such an effective state is certainly not all-powerful, but it is legitimate both throughout the country and across the various social classes. Only about a quarter of the world's countries have effective states. These are overwhelmingly European countries of Western (as opposed to Eastern) Christianity,

Table 3.1 Levels of State Strength (as of the end of 2021)

EFFECTIVE STATE						
Andorra	Chile	France	Kuwait	Netherlands	San Marino	United Arab Emirates
Australia	China	Germany	Latvia	New Zealand	Serbia	United Kingdom
Austria	Costa Rica	Hungary	Liechtenstein	North Macedonia	Seychelles	United States
Bahamas	Croatia	Iceland	Lithuania	Norway	Singapore	Uruguay
Barbados	Cyprus	Ireland	Luxembourg	Oman	Slovakia	Vietnam
Belgium	Czech Republic	Israel	Malaysia	Poland	Slovenia	
Botswana	Denmark	Italy	Malta	Portugal	Spain	
Brunei	Estonia	Japan	Mauritius	Qatar	Sweden	
Bulgaria	Finland	Korea, South	Monaco	Romania	Switzerland	
Canada			Montenegro		Taiwan	
FLAWED STATE						
Albania	Cambodia	Fiji	Kazakhstan	Namibia	Samoa	Togo
Algeria	Cape Verde	Gabon	Kenya	Nauru	São Tomé and Príncipe	Tunisia
Antigua and Barbuda	Comoros	Gambia	Kiribati	Nepal	Saudi Arabia	Turkey
Argentina	Congo, R	Ghana	Korea, North	Nicaragua	Senegal	Turkmenistan
Armenia	Cuba	Greece	Kosovo	Pakistan	Sierra Leone	Tuvalu
Bahrain	Djibouti	Grenada	Kyrgyzstan	Palau	Solomon Islands	Uganda
Bangladesh	Dominica	Guinea	Laos	Panama	South Africa	Uzbekistan
Belarus	Dominican Republic	Guinea-Bissau	Lesotho	Paraguay	Sri Lanka	Vanuatu
Belize	East Timor	Guyana	Liberia	Peru	Suriname	Zambia
Benin	Ecuador	Honduras	Malawi	Philippines	Tajikistan	Zimbabwe
Bhutan	Egypt	India	Maldives	Russia	Tanzania	
Bolivia	El Salvador	Indonesia	Marshall Islands	Rwanda	Thailand	
Bosnia-Herzegovina	Equatorial Guinea	Iran	Mauritania	Saint Lucia	Tonga	
Brazil	Eritrea	Ivory Coast	Mongolia	Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	Trinidad and Tobago	
Burundi	Eswatini	Jamaica	Morocco	Saint Kitts and Nevis		
		Jordan	Micronesia			
WEAK STATE						
Afghanistan	Central African Republic	Congo, DR	Iraq	Moldova	Papua New Guinea	Syria
Angola	Chad	Georgia	Lebanon	Mozambique	Somalia	Ukraine
Azerbaijan	Colombia	Guatemala	Madagascar	Myanmar	South Sudan	Venezuela
Burkina Faso		Ethiopia	Mali	Niger	Sudan	
Cameroon		Haiti	Mexico	Nigeria		
COLLAPSED STATE						
Libya	Yemen					

their offshoots (Australia, Canada, New Zealand, the United States), and countries in East and South East Asia, many of which have traditional Confucian emphases on education and meritocracy. Given the COVID-19 pandemic, it is worth noting the differences in vaccination rates (for the 188 countries with data): As of the end of 2021, the countries with effective states have fully vaccinated on average 67.7 per cent of their population, more than double the rate of all other countries (30.6 per cent).[2] A ***t*-test** here (with equal variances not assumed) gives a value of 13.565, which is highly significant at the .000 level. More generally, the countries with effective states have on average 31.3 doctors per 10,000 people, whereas all other countries have on average only 10.9 doctors per 10,000 people.[3] A *t*-test here (with equal variances not assumed) gives a value of 10.099, which is also highly significant at the .000 level. State strength also correlates strongly with indicators of socioeconomic development, such as the UN Human Development Index (discussed below) or the Legatum Prosperity Index.[4]

In contrast, a **flawed state** is not as effective in terms of depth of penetration or legitimacy. This relative ineffectiveness can be seen in its lower levels of bureaucratic quality, its higher levels of corruption and tax avoidance (especially when levels of tax avoidance are compared to those of other countries in its region),[5] and its problematic economic performance. As well, a flawed state will have more political riots and rebellions. Greece is a clear contemporary example of a flawed state and is known for its consequent economic difficulties. Greece is estimated to have the largest shadow economy (as a percentage of the national economy) in the advanced industrial world.

A **weak state** is even less effective than a flawed state in that actual areas of the country are outside of government control. That is, it has problems not just of depth but also of breadth. A weak state is not able to impose national policies throughout the country; indeed, its effect may be limited to the capital and selected other areas, usually those adjacent to the capital. Elsewhere, it lacks a presence, or what presence it has is seen as illegitimate and is thus ignored.[6] Within a weak state, individual state actors may arbitrarily act to enrich themselves personally rather than follow any legal obligations. For this reason, Peter Evans prefers the term "predatory state" to "weak state," at least for countries like the Democratic Republic of the Congo.[7] In any case, a weak state will be inadequate for economic and social development. Often, a weak state arises because a country lacks a national identity (as discussed in Chapter 2).

As noted, a weak state will be in control of the whole national capital at least and be able to impose most of its policies there and possibly elsewhere. However, at the extreme, a state may simply or essentially cease to function. This is a **collapsed state**, in which there is still an internationally recognized (de jure) government, but it does not control (most of) the capital or any other major centre. Instead of state authority, there is anarchy, multi-actor civil war, or fragmentation of the country into various autonomous regional areas, often controlled by warlords or local militias. By "multi-actor civil war," we mean a civil war involving multiple actors, often including foreign ones, such as the wars in Iraq or Lebanon. However, a state in the throes of a civil war that divides the country in two along a frontline is not deemed to have

Table 3.2 Levels of State Strength at the Start of 1914

Effective States	Flawed States	Weak States
Australia	Albania	Bolivia
Austria	Argentina	China
Belgium	Brazil	Colombia
Canada	Bulgaria	Dominican Republic
Chile	Costa Rica	Ecuador
Denmark	Cuba	El Salvador
France	France	Ethiopia
Germany	Greece	Haiti
Japan	Guatemala	Honduras
Liechtenstein	Hungary	Liberia
Luxembourg	Iran	Mexico
Monaco	Italy	Nepal
Netherlands	Newfoundland	Nicaragua
New Zealand	Peru	Panama
Norway	Portugal	Paraguay
Sweden	Romania	Venezuela
Switzerland	Russia	
United Kingdom	San Marino	
United States	Serbia	
Uruguay	South Africa	
	Spain	
	Thailand	
	Turkey	

collapsed, as long as it has a national government that still effectively controls "its" territory and adjacent national borders but not the "rebel" territory. (Examples here would be Sri Lanka until recently or the United States during its Civil War.) As Table 3.1 shows, only Libya and Yemen are currently (as of the end of 2021) collapsed states. However, several other countries – Afghanistan, Angola, Burundi, Democratic Republic of the Congo (Kinshasa), Iraq, Lebanon, Liberia, Sierra Leone, and Somalia – have also seen their states collapse in the past decades, but states have since been re-established in these places. That said, there is a possibility of such states collapsing again.

Of course, as "politics, like nature, abhors a vacuum," one may wonder why a neighbouring country does not take over a state that has collapsed or at least grab some choice territory. Historically, this was certainly the pattern in Europe and also in China when Japan took advantage of, first, the collapse of the Qing Dynasty and, later on, the volatile political situation in the Republic of China between the world wars to seize large parts of Chinese territory in the 1930s. However, as was noted in the introduction, the postwar world has laid great stress on the inviolability of national borders. The international community thus tries to re-establish collapsed states and has never officially declared a state to have failed for good.

Consequently, before 1945 collapsed states of longer than a brief time period were rare. However, there was a broad range of other types of states. Table 3.2 gives the classification at

Table 3.3 Proto-Nation-States at the Start of 1914

Current Country	Note	Status at the Start of 1914
Andorra		Co-protectorate of France and Spain
Bahrain		Protectorate of the United Kingdom
Bhutan		Protectorate of the United Kingdom
Botswana	(then Bechuanaland)	Protectorate of the United Kingdom
Brunei		Protectorate of the United Kingdom
Czech Republic	(then the Kingdom of Bohemia and the Margraviate of Moravia)	Crown lands within the Austro-Hungarian Empire
Egypt	(autonomous territory within the Ottoman Empire)	De facto protectorate of the United Kingdom
Eswatini		Protectorate of the United Kingdom
Finland		Autonomous Grand Principality within the Russian Empire
Iceland		Home rule within Denmark
Kuwait		Protectorate of the United Kingdom
Maldives		Protectorate of the United Kingdom
Morocco		Protectorate of France
Oman	(then Muscat and Oman)	Protectorate of the United Kingdom
Qatar		Autonomous territory within the Ottoman Empire
Solomon Islands		Protectorate of the United Kingdom
Tonga		Protectorate of the United Kingdom
Tunisia		Protectorate of France
United Arab Emirates	(then the Trucial States)	Protectorate of the United Kingdom

the start of 1914. Effective states then were largely limited to Western Europe and its offshoots, though also found in Japan, Chile, and Uruguay. The share of weak states can be noted as being higher than today. Additionally, various other current countries that were not independent back in 1914 but had some domestic political autonomy and ruled over an ongoing, relatively stable population and territory could be classified as proto-nation-states (with ethnic and/or civic nationalism), as is done in Table 3.3.

These were mostly flawed proto-nation-states, but those in Finland and Iceland were effective. To this end, from today's perspective, Eberhard Kienle notes how Egypt and Tunisia differ from the rest of the Middle East and North Africa in terms of state formation: "Like the classic nation states that emerged in Western Europe, Tunisia and Egypt have for a considerable length of time both been ruled by central governments that applied the same rules and practices to a population living roughly within the same borders."[8] Morocco has likewise been "by and large an historically consolidated entity which [also] comes closer than other members of the Arab League to the nation-state model."[9]

Perhaps a more common phrase than "collapsed state" is "failed state." Indeed, there is a "Failed States Index" produced by *Foreign Policy* magazine and the Fund for Peace. However, this index is problematic because many of its 12 measures of state failure (or, more precisely, of the risk of failure) are more evaluative of lack of socioeconomic development or **liberal democracy** (see Chapter 5) than of state effectiveness. Thus, North Korea is consistently

deemed by this index to be a "failed state," but it would be hard to argue that this regime does not control its people or its borders. A more useful, or at least more precise, view is that of the Crisis States Research Centre (CSRC) of the London School of Economics, which chooses to "define a 'failed state' as a condition of 'state collapse' [for example] a state that can no longer perform its basic security and development functions and that has no effective control over its territory and borders. This term is used in very contradictory ways in the policy community (for instance, there is a tendency to label a 'poorly performing' state as 'failed' – a tendency we reject)." The CSRC also defines a "crisis state" as one in "danger of state collapse" and a "fragile state" as one "significantly susceptible to crisis."[10] The CSRC definitions of crisis and fragile states are compatible with our concept of weak states. In any case, beyond the failed states noted earlier, various other weak (or crisis) states have certainly come close to failure. For example, the Solomon Islands is generally seen as having been a "failing" state in the early part of this century, until matters were turned around – in large part due to Australian-led foreign intervention.

Finally, one might expect the opposite of "weak states" to be "strong states," and Migdal has certainly used this term.[11] At first glance, communist states might appear to be strong. However, if by state *strength*, as opposed to merely adequate *effectiveness*, we mean a situation in which the state bureaucracy is highly autonomous from political actors and social interests, communist states are "merely" effective to their ends. The real example of a strong state – or a "super-effective" state – is one that has promoted capitalist development successfully and is thus called a *(capitalist) developmental state.* This term refers in particular to the East Asian cases of Japan, South Korea, and Taiwan, but it has also been used for France. In all of these countries, industrial development and planning have been central in the postwar era (or since the interwar era in Japan).[12] Besides autonomy, the bureaucracy in the key economic ministries of developmental states is known for being highly meritocratic and respected, what Johnson summarizes as "a powerful, talented, and prestige-laden economic bureaucracy" when he describes the situation in Japan.[13] These bureaucracies attract and select the top students from the most elite universities and schools, such as the Tokyo University Law School and the *École nationale d'administration* in France. Such developmental states can only occur if the civil service has enormous prestige (which is not the case in North America); if the state is very centralized (not the case in **federalism**); if the bureaucracy is, in fact, small and skilled; and if economic development is the overriding national goal (even at the expense of consumers and the environment).

STATE BUILDING

Consequently, we are unlikely to see many more developmental states. We may, however, see some weak states become effective. Shifting "upwards" in this regard – for example, from a

weak state to an effective one or even establishing a weak state where no state existed – can be seen as the phenomenon of *building state capacity* or, in Mann's phrasing, developing the *infrastructural power* of the state.[14] As outlined earlier, creating or increasing such state capacity would seem to be both a part of **political development** and an aid to socioeconomic development. So why do more states not do this? The answer relates, in part, to national attitudes to bureaucracy, as noted. However, it is also the case that, if a bureaucracy is autonomous, with its own recruitment procedures and qualifications, then it cannot be used for political patronage. As Geddes notes, the bureaucracy (and appointments to it) can be used to provide benefits to constituents, to other politicians whose support one needs, and to members of a supportive political party, or the bureaucracy can be used to develop and implement policies in the broad national interest – but these are alternatives, not a package of choices.[15] For politicians who are primarily focused on their own short-term political interests, the establishment of an autonomous, merit-based bureaucracy is hardly something to be supported. That said, modernization-related attitudinal change and public pressure may well lead to the realization and institutionalization of bureaucratic autonomy, such as happened with the creation in 1883 of the United States Civil Service Commission and the creation in 1908 of Canada's Civil Service Commission (now the Public Service Commission) – each based on the merit system.

However, the building of state capacity does not occur in a vacuum. It is easier or harder depending on a country's physical geography, which facilitates control or penetration, and national identity, which facilitates legitimacy. In terms of political geography, Whittlesey argues that the ideal shape of the state is "chunky rather than elongate," with population density strongest in the centre and diminishing toward the borders and with these borders involving geographic barriers such as oceans, mountains, deserts, jungles, or other natural dividers.[16] There are obviously some trade-offs involved here. For example, Chile is bordered by the Pacific Ocean on the west, the Andes Mountains on the east, and the Atacama Desert in the north (which is good), but all this comes at the "price" of being very elongate. Poland (in its various incarnations) has always had a desirably chunky shape but few natural barriers between it and other countries, with the unfortunate result that it has been invaded often throughout its history. Small island states tend not to have these trade-offs. Of the larger states, Japan and Spain are good examples of countries with all of these various features, although they have been challenged by internal mountain ranges.

Although the shape of a state's territory is important, Whittlesey does not think there is an ideal size for a state. Bigger is better in the sense that a large state will more likely have more, and more varied, natural resources. However, bigger states are also more likely to have multiple centres of population density and greater challenges in terms of communication. Consider the importance of railways and later air travel for integrating Canada or the United States. Prior to the introduction of these technologies, roads and rivers were the sole methods of non-ocean transport, but only roads can go most anywhere. Consequently, a dense and good-quality road network facilitates state capacity; think of the Roman Empire ("all roads lead to Rome"). As

Whittlesey summarizes, "[e]fficient transportation consolidates political areas, whether the Roman Empire or the United States of America. The lack of ready means of circulation is a source of political weakness whatever the density of population, as the plight of [pre-communist modern] China proves."[17]

Thus, although the size of a state may well affect the challenge of establishing communications, *all* states except the tiniest are faced with the challenge of ensuring effective communications, especially roads, so as to facilitate the penetration of state authority. This point can be related to the weakness of many states in contemporary Africa. Herbst's recent comprehensive study points out that numerous sub-Saharan African states have an unfavourable or at best neutral geography in regard to population distribution and, moreover, that few such states have been willing or able to increase their road densities greatly. Indeed, in a couple of African countries there are fewer kilometres of roads today than there were at independence, or at best neutral. Again, the European powers were rarely interested in building effective states in their African colonies![18]

SIZE AND DEMOGRAPHY OF COUNTRIES AND STATE STRENGTH

Countries vary tremendously in their size. Table 3.4 gives the population, area (excluding coastal waters), and population density of the countries of our analysis. Does size matter for state control? Today, the largest countries by area – Russia, Canada, China, the United States, Brazil, and Australia – are all bigger than the Roman Empire at its peak. However, Russia has historically been seen as "too big" or at least "too sparse" for Western-style development. As Lynch notes, "Russia's immense spaces have constituted a significant burden on the country's ability to govern itself, not to mention to modernize effectively."[19] Of course, countries can control greater areas today than they could historically due to modern communications. That said, governing an ever-larger area does work against effective central control. If one puts the categories of state strength outlined in Table 3.1 into a 0 to 3 scale (with an effective state being 3), one finds a negative **correlation** ($r = -0.243$) between the level of state strength and the logged area of the country. (The correlation with logged population is less than this ($r = -0.182$), as population density facilitates state control.) However, there is a stronger negative correlation between the level of state strength and the rural share of the population ($r = -0.417$), confirming that weak states are most likely to be found in more rural (and thus less "modern") societies where the population is harder to reach from the centre.[20] There is a much stronger positive correlation between the level of state strength and the median age of the population ($r = 0.669$), indicating that countries with older populations are more effectively controlled and more stable politically.[21] Table 3.4 provides the urban and rural shares of population and the median age of the population for all countries.

Table 3.4 Size and Demography of Countries, 2020

Country	Population Total (thousands)	Area (sq. km)	Population Density (population per sq. km)	Urban Population %	Rural Population %	Median Age (years)
Afghanistan	38928.3	652230	59.6	26.0	74.0	18.4
Albania	2877.8	28748	105.0	62.1	37.9	36.4
Algeria	43851.0	2381741	18.4	73.7	26.3	28.5
Andorra	77.3	468	164.4	87.9	12.1	44.9
Angola	32866.3	1246700	26.4	66.8	33.2	16.7
Antigua and Barbuda	97.9	443	222.6	24.4	75.6	34.0
Argentina	45195.8	2780400	16.5	92.1	7.9	31.5
Armenia	2963.2	29743	104.1	63.3	36.7	35.4
Australia	25499.9	7741220	3.3	86.2	13.8	37.9
Austria	9006.4	83871	109.3	58.7	41.3	43.5
Azerbaijan	10139.2	86600	122.7	56.4	43.6	32.3
Bahamas	393.2	13880	39.3	83.2	16.8	32.3
Bahrain	1701.6	760	2238.9	89.5	10.5	32.5
Bangladesh	164689.4	143998	1265.2	38.2	61.8	27.6
Barbados	287.4	430	668.3	31.2	68.8	40.5
Belarus	9449.3	207600	46.6	79.5	20.5	40.3
Belgium	11589.6	30528	382.7	98.1	1.9	41.9
Belize	397.6	22966	17.4	46.0	54.0	25.5
Benin	12123.2	112622	107.5	48.4	51.6	18.8
Bhutan	771.6	38394	20.2	42.3	57.7	28.1
Bolivia	11673.0	1098581	10.8	70.1	29.9	25.6
Bosnia-Herzegovina	3280.8	51197	64.3	49.0	51.0	43.1
Botswana	2351.6	581730	4.1	70.9	29.1	24.0
Brazil	212559.4	8514877	25.4	87.1	12.9	33.5
Brunei	437.5	5765	83.0	78.3	21.8	32.3
Bulgaria	6948.4	110879	64.0	75.7	24.3	44.6
Burkina Faso	20903.3	274200	76.4	30.6	69.4	17.6
Burundi	11890.8	27830	463.0	13.7	86.3	17.3
Cambodia	16719.0	181035	94.7	24.2	75.8	25.6
Cameroon	26545.9	475440	56.2	57.6	42.4	18.7
Canada	37742.2	9984670	4.2	81.6	18.4	41.1
Cape Verde	556.0	4033	138.0	66.7	33.3	27.6
Central African Republic	4829.8	622984	7.8	42.2	57.8	17.6
Chad	16425.9	1284000	13.0	23.5	76.5	16.6
Chile	19116.2	756102	25.7	87.7	12.3	35.3
China	1439323.8	9596961	153.3	61.4	38.6	38.4
Colombia	50882.9	1138910	45.9	81.4	18.6	31.3
Comoros	869.6	2235	467.3	29.4	70.6	20.4
Congo, DR (Kinshasa)	89561.4	2344858	39.5	45.6	54.4	17.0

(*Continued*)

Table 3.4 (Continued)

Country	Population Total (thousands)	Area (sq. km)	Population Density (population per sq. km)	Urban Population %	Rural Population %	Median Age (years)
Congo, R (Brazzaville)	5518.1	342000	16.2	67.8	32.2	19.2
Costa Rica	5094.1	51100	99.8	80.8	19.2	33.5
Croatia	4105.3	56594	73.4	57.6	42.4	44.3
Cuba	11326.6	110860	106.4	77.2	22.8	42.2
Cyprus (Greek)	1207.4	9251	130.7	66.8	33.2	37.3
Czech Republic	10709.0	78867	138.6	74.1	25.9	43.2
Denmark*	5792.2	43094	136.5	88.1	11.9	42.3
Djibouti	988.0	23200	42.6	78.1	21.9	26.6
Dominica	72.0	751	96.0	71.1	28.9	34.0
Dominican Republic	10847.9	48670	224.5	82.5	17.5	28.0
East Timor	1318.4	14874	88.7	31.3	68.7	20.8
Ecuador	17643.1	283561	71.0	64.2	35.8	27.9
Egypt	102334.4	1001450	102.8	42.8	57.2	24.6
El Salvador	6486.2	21041	313.0	73.4	26.6	27.6
Equatorial Guinea	1403.0	28051	50.0	73.1	26.9	22.3
Eritrea	3546.4	117600	35.1	41.3	58.7	19.2
Estonia	1326.5	45228	31.3	69.2	30.8	42.4
Eswatini	1160.2	17364	67.5	24.2	75.8	20.7
Ethiopia	114963.6	1104300	115.0	21.7	78.3	19.5
Fiji	896.4	18274	49.1	57.2	42.8	27.9
Finland	5540.7	338145	18.2	85.5	14.5	43.1
France	65273.5	551500	119.2	81.0	19.0	42.3
Gabon	2225.7	267667	8.6	90.1	9.9	22.5
Gambia	2416.7	11295	238.8	62.6	37.4	17.8
Georgia	3989.2	69700	57.4	59.5	40.5	38.3
Germany	83783.9	357022	240.4	77.5	22.5	45.7
Ghana	31072.9	238533	136.6	57.3	42.7	21.5
Greece	10423.1	131957	80.9	79.7	20.3	45.6
Grenada	112.5	344	330.9	36.5	63.5	32.0
Guatemala	17915.6	108889	167.2	51.8	48.2	22.9
Guinea	13132.8	245857	53.4	36.9	63.1	18.0
Guinea-Bissau	1968.0	36125	70.0	44.2	55.8	18.8
Guyana	786.6	214969	4.0	26.8	73.2	26.7
Haiti	11402.5	27750	413.7	57.1	42.9	24.0
Honduras	9904.6	112090	88.5	58.4	41.6	24.3
Hungary	9660.4	93028	106.7	71.9	28.1	43.3
Iceland	341.3	103000	3.4	93.9	6.1	37.5
India	1380004.4	3287263	464.1	34.9	65.1	28.4
Indonesia	273523.6	1904569	151.0	56.6	43.4	29.7
Iran	83993.0	1648195	51.6	75.9	24.1	32.0
Iraq	40222.5	438317	92.6	70.9	29.1	21.0

Country	Population Total (thousands)	Area (sq. km)	Population Density (population per sq. km)	Urban Population %	Rural Population %	Median Age (years)
Ireland	4937.8	70273	71.7	63.7	36.3	38.2
Israel	8655.5	20770	400.0	92.6	7.4	30.5
Italy	60461.8	301340	205.6	71.0	29.0	47.3
Ivory Coast	26378.3	322463	83.0	51.7	48.3	18.9
Jamaica	2961.2	10991	273.4	56.3	43.7	30.7
Japan	126476.5	377915	346.9	91.8	8.2	48.4
Jordan	10203.1	89342	114.9	91.4	8.6	23.8
Kazakhstan	18776.7	2724900	7.0	57.7	42.3	30.7
Kenya	53771.3	580367	94.5	28.0	72.0	20.1
Kiribati	119.4	811	147.5	55.6	44.4	23.0
Korea, North	25778.8	120538	214.1	62.4	37.6	35.3
Korea, South	51269.2	99720	527.3	81.4	18.6	43.7
Kosovo	1907.6	10887	175.2	38.3	61.7	29.6
Kuwait	4270.6	17818	239.7	100.0	0.0	36.8
Kyrgyzstan	6524.2	199951	34.0	36.9	63.1	26.0
Laos	7275.6	236800	31.5	36.3	63.7	24.4
Latvia	1886.2	64589	30.3	68.3	31.7	43.9
Lebanon	6825.4	10400	667.2	88.9	11.1	29.6
Lesotho	2142.3	30355	70.6	29.0	71.0	24.0
Liberia	5057.7	111369	52.5	52.1	47.9	19.4
Libya	6871.3	1759540	3.9	80.7	19.3	28.8
Liechtenstein	38.1	160	238.4	14.4	85.6	43.4
Lithuania	2722.3	65300	43.4	68.0	32.0	45.1
Luxembourg	626.0	2586	241.7	91.5	8.5	39.7
Madagascar	27691.0	587041	47.6	38.5	61.5	19.6
Malawi	19130.0	118484	202.9	17.4	82.6	18.1
Malaysia	32366.0	329847	98.5	77.2	22.8	30.3
Maldives	540.5	298	1801.8	40.7	59.3	29.9
Mali	20250.8	1240192	16.6	43.9	56.1	16.3
Malta	441.5	316	1379.8	94.7	5.3	42.6
Marshall Islands	59.2	181	328.9	77.8	22.2	23.1
Mauritania	4649.7	1030700	4.5	55.3	44.7	20.1
Mauritius	1271.8	2040	626.5	40.8	59.2	37.5
Mexico	128932.8	1964375	66.3	80.7	19.3	29.2
Micronesia	115.0	702	164.3	22.9	77.1	24.4
Moldova	4034.0	33851	122.8	42.8	57.2	37.6
Monaco	39.2	2	26338.3	100.0	0.0	53.8
Mongolia	3278.3	1564116	2.1	68.7	31.3	28.2
Montenegro	628.1	13812	46.7	67.5	32.5	38.8
Morocco	36910.6	446550	82.7	63.5	36.5	29.5
Mozambique	31255.4	799380	39.7	37.1	62.9	17.6
Myanmar	54409.8	676578	83.3	31.1	68.9	29.0
Namibia	2540.9	824292	3.1	52.0	48.0	21.8
Nauru	10.8	21	541.7	100.0	0.0	26.7
Nepal	29136.8	147181	203.3	20.6	79.4	24.6

(*Continued*)

Table 3.4 (Continued)

Country	Population Total (thousands)	Area (sq. km)	Population Density (population per sq. km)	Urban Population %	Rural Population %	Median Age (years)
Netherlands	17134.9	41543	508.2	92.2	7.8	43.3
New Zealand	4822.2	267710	18.3	86.7	13.3	38.0
Nicaragua	6624.6	130370	55.0	59.0	41.0	26.5
Niger	24206.6	1267000	19.1	16.6	83.4	15.2
Nigeria	206139.6	923768	226.3	52.0	48.0	18.1
North Macedonia	2083.4	25713	82.6	58.5	41.5	39.1
Norway	5421.2	323802	14.8	83.0	17.0	39.8
Oman	5106.6	309500	16.5	86.3	13.7	30.6
Pakistan	220892.3	796095	286.5	37.2	62.8	22.8
Palau	18.1	459	39.3	81.0	19.0	33.6
Panama	4314.8	75420	58.0	68.4	31.6	29.7
Papua New Guinea	8947.0	462840	19.8	13.3	86.7	22.4
Paraguay	7132.5	406752	18.0	62.2	37.8	26.3
Peru	32971.8	1285216	25.8	78.3	21.7	31.0
Philippines	109581.1	300000	367.5	47.4	52.6	25.7
Poland	37846.6	312685	123.6	60.0	40.0	41.7
Portugal	10196.7	92090	111.3	66.3	33.7	46.2
Qatar	2881.1	11586	248.2	99.2	0.8	32.3
Romania	19237.7	238391	83.6	54.2	45.8	43.2
Russia	145934.5	17098242	8.9	74.8	25.2	39.6
Rwanda	12952.2	26338	525.0	17.4	82.6	20.0
Saint Kitts and Nevis	53.2	261	204.6	30.8	69.2	35.5
Saint Lucia	183.6	616	301.0	18.8	81.2	34.5
Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	110.9	389	284.5	53.0	47.0	32.9
Samoa	198.4	2831	70.1	17.9	82.1	21.8
San Marino	33.9	61	565.6	97.5	2.5	44.7
São Tomé and Príncipe	219.2	964	228.3	74.4	25.6	18.6
Saudi Arabia	34813.9	2149690	16.2	84.3	15.7	31.8
Senegal	16743.9	196722	87.0	48.1	51.9	18.5
Serbia	6829.8	77474	88.2	56.4	43.6	41.6
Seychelles	98.3	455	213.8	57.5	42.5	34.2
Sierra Leone	7977.0	71740	110.5	42.9	57.1	19.4
Singapore	5850.3	697	8357.6	100.0	0.0	42.2
Slovakia	5459.6	49035	113.5	53.8	46.2	41.2
Slovenia	2078.9	20273	103.2	55.1	44.9	44.5
Solomon Islands	686.9	28896	24.5	24.7	75.3	19.9
Somalia	15893.2	637657	25.3	46.1	53.9	16.7
South Africa	59308.7	1219090	48.9	67.4	32.6	27.6

Country	Population Total (thousands)	Area (sq. km)	Population Density (population per sq. km)	Urban Population %	Rural Population %	Median Age (years)
South Sudan	11193.7	644329	18.3	20.2	79.8	19.0
Spain	46754.8	505370	93.7	80.8	19.2	44.9
Sri Lanka	21413.3	65610	341.5	18.7	81.3	34.0
Sudan	43849.3	1861484	24.8	35.3	64.7	19.7
Suriname	586.6	163820	3.8	66.1	33.9	29.0
Sweden	10099.3	450295	24.6	88.0	12.0	41.1
Switzerland	8654.6	41277	219.0	73.9	26.1	43.1
Syria	17500.7	185180	95.3	55.5	44.5	25.6
Taiwan	23816.8	35980	672.6	78.9	21.1	42.5
Tajikistan	9537.6	143100	68.1	27.5	72.5	22.4
Tanzania	59734.2	947300	67.4	35.2	64.8	18.0
Thailand	69800.0	513120	136.6	51.4	48.6	40.1
Togo	8278.7	56785	152.2	42.8	57.2	19.4
Tonga	105.7	747	146.8	0.0	100.0	22.4
Trinidad and Tobago	1399.5	5128	272.8	53.2	46.8	36.2
Tunisia	11818.6	163610	76.1	69.6	30.4	32.8
Turkey	84339.1	783562	109.6	76.1	23.9	31.5
Turkmenistan	6031.2	488100	12.8	52.5	47.5	26.9
Tuvalu	11.8	26	393.1	64.0	36.0	26.0
Uganda	45741.0	241038	228.9	25.0	75.0	16.7
Ukraine	43733.8	603550	75.5	69.6	30.4	41.2
United Arab Emirates	9890.4	83600	118.3	87.0	13.0	32.6
United Kingdom	67886.0	243610	280.6	83.9	16.1	40.5
United States	331002.6	9528960	36.2	82.7	17.3	38.3
Uruguay	3473.7	176215	19.8	95.5	4.5	35.8
Uzbekistan	33469.2	447400	78.7	50.4	49.6	27.8
Vanuatu	307.2	12189	25.2	25.5	74.5	21.1
Venezuela	28435.9	912050	32.2	88.3	11.7	29.6
Vietnam	97338.6	331210	313.9	37.3	62.7	32.5
Yemen	29826.0	527968	56.5	37.9	62.1	20.2
Zambia	18384.0	752618	24.7	44.6	55.4	17.6
Zimbabwe	14862.9	390757	38.4	32.2	67.8	18.7

Sources: Central Intelligence Agency, *The World Factbook* (Washington, DC: CIA, 2020), accessed July 2020, https://www.cia.gov/library/publications/the-world-factbook/; United Nations, Department of Economic and Social Affairs, Population Division, *World Population Prospects: The 2019 Revision* (New York: United Nations, May 2019), accessed July 2020, https://population.un.org/wpp/; United Nations estimates; author's calculations and estimates.

* Mainland Denmark Only

Table 3.5 Multiple Regression on Level of State Strength

	B	Std. Error	t	Significance Level
Median age	0.048	0.004	12.328	0.000
Successor state of twentieth-century dissolution without now being in the European Union (dummy variable)	–0.606	0.107	–5.674	0.000
A Sahara/Sahel country (dummy variable)	–0.459	0.128	–3.582	0.000
Constant	0.781	0.128	6.083	0.000
N = 195				
adjusted r^2 = 0.539				

Besides median age of the population, a couple historical/regional factors affect current state strength. Dissolution also seems to produce weak or at least rarely effective successor states, inasmuch as the process occurs quickly and it may not reflect strong national identities, especially where the new states are themselves multi-ethnic and/or multi-religious; and most peripheral successor states lack their own bureaucratic structures at creation. The one key counterfactor here is European Union membership, which both requires and aids in state building, including in states created as a result of **dissolution**. Regarding dissolution, here we speak of the post–Cold War successor states (the dissolutions of the Soviet Union, Yugoslavia, and Czechoslovakia), but also the dissolution of the Ottoman Empire post–World War I (other empires ended then, but their core states, such as Austria, remained). Also worth noting is the lack of state effectiveness in the Sahara and Sahel regions of Northern Africa where the terrain and traditional nomadic population combine with colonial-drawn borders (and capital cities usually lying outside these regions) to make state control especially challenging.[22] As shown in Table 3.5, a **multiple regression** that combines median age, a **dummy variable** of being a successor state of twentieth-century dissolution without now being in the European Union, and a dummy variable of being a Sahara/Sahel country explains over half the variance in the level of state strength.

POLITICAL AND ECONOMIC CLASSIFICATIONS OF STATES

When scholars categorized states according to their political and economic differences, the most common method throughout much of the postwar period was to use a threefold grouping into the First World, the Second World, and the Third World. The key features of these categories are clearly summarized by Harris, Moore, and Schmitz in Table 3.6.[23] The First World comprised the developed capitalist economies of the United States, Canada, Western Europe, Japan, Australia, and New Zealand, which were and are still often referred to as simply the "West." The Second World comprised the Soviet Union and Eastern Europe (broadly defined), or what was often called the "East." These countries were seen as developed, but they followed

Table 3.6 First, Second, and Third World Countries after World War II

TYPICAL "INTERNAL" FEATURES	FIRST WORLD (developed)	SECOND WORLD	THIRD WORLD (developing)
Political system	Liberal democratic	Communist; single party	Mixed; rarely democratic
Economic system	Market oriented (but usually with large welfare states)	Centrally planned	Variable
Income level	High	Mixed; generally medium	Low
TYPICAL "EXTERNAL" FEATURES	**FIRST WORLD (developed)**	**SECOND WORLD**	**THIRD WORLD (developing)**
Main trading partners	Other First World countries	Other Second World countries	First World countries
Geopolitical relationships	Competitor of the Second World	Competitor of the First World	Area of geopolitical competition between the First and Second World
Aid and power relationships	Former colonial power dominating the Third World; still aid donor to this world and dominant over most of its countries	Aid donor to and influential in parts of the Third World	Aid recipient; subordinate
Influence in international economic institutions	High	Low	Low

Source: Adapted from Dan Harris, Mick Moore, and Hubert Schmitz, "Country Classifications for a Changing World," IDS Working Paper 326 (Brighton: Institute of Development Studies, University of Sussex, May 2009), 11 (Table 2.1). Used with permission.

a communist economic and political system. Thus, the distinction between the First World and the Second World was primarily a political one. Finally, the Third World included everywhere else: African, Asian, Latin American, and Caribbean countries that were generally non-aligned but, more crucially, were seen as less developed. As Spero points out, the Western system of First World countries has involved many dense patterns of *interdependence*, with reasonable symmetry among the countries concerned. In contrast, the North–South system between the First and Third Worlds also involved much interaction, but these dealings were between unequal actors, with the Third World in a situation of *dependence*; that is, Third World countries were dependent on those of the First World for market access, investment, and finance and the reverse was not true. Finally, Second World economies were closely tied to each other in terms of economic planning and trade, but as a group they interacted very little with the rest of the world. So Spero characterized the East–West system as one of *independence*.[24] That said, for the purposes of comparative politics and economics, almost every country fell into one of these three groupings. (Countries such as Israel, South Africa, and China were, in various ways, borderline cases.)

With the fall of the Berlin Wall, the Second World no longer exists even if there are still some communist **political regimes** remaining. However, it would be a leap to put many Eastern European and especially Soviet successor states into the First World. How, then, does one

determine today whether a state is part of the advanced industrial world? To avoid crude geographical distinctions, one can look at whether a state possesses some of the seven features shown in Table 3.7. First is having a high income of $20,000 or more per capita, which is the definition of an advanced economy given by Spence.[25] Second is being classified as a highly innovative economy in the Bloomberg Innovation Index, an index that is based on seven metrics, such as research and development expenditures, professionals engaged in research and development per population, tertiary education graduates, and patents.[26] Third is being a member of the Organisation for Economic Co-operation and Development (OECD). Membership in the OECD is effectively restricted to developed capitalist economies as the organization conceives this. Fourth is being a country that draws in migrants, presumably from less-developed areas. This factor is measured by determining whether international migrants are over 10 per cent of the population. Fifth, conversely, is having a lack of human flight and brain drain, as measured by the Fragile States Index of the Fund for Peace.[27] Sixth is whether a country has a clearly positive net international position, meaning its foreign assets far exceed its foreign liabilities. Net foreign assets must measure at least 20 per cent of gross domestic product (GDP) for the most recent data.[28] Seventh and last is whether a country significantly donates foreign aid (giving $50 or more per capita). Table 3.7 lists all 48 countries with at least two of these features, arranging countries in descending order according to how many factors they possess. We would argue that at least five or six features are needed for a country to be considered part of the "core" of the advanced industrial or developed world. Indeed, six countries in Europe – Belgium, Denmark, Germany, the Netherlands, Norway, and Switzerland – have *all seven* of these features.

Various non-Western countries do make this list, led by oil-rich Kuwait, Qatar, and the United Arab Emirates. For its part, China is not on this list, as the only criterion it meets is having a highly innovative economy. (Eight OECD members – Chile, Colombia, Hungary, Lithuania, Mexico, Poland, Slovakia, and Turkey – are also not on this list, as they have no other features.)

Many countries on this list of advanced industrial economies would not have been here a generation ago; however, they are on the list today because of rapid growth and structural change. Table 3.8 gives a list of the dozen postwar high-growth economies; it uses the common definition of a high-growth economy: national income growing at a rate of at least 7 per cent a year or more (thus doubling every decade) for at least 25 years.[29] As can be seen, most of these economies are in Asia – including the high-growth territory of Hong Kong. Moreover, of these economies, only Hong Kong, Japan, South Korea, Singapore, and Taiwan have actually caught up with Western countries in terms of income per capita; no non-Asian high-growth economy has. Other developing countries, even initially high-growth ones, usually get stuck in what is called the "middle-income trap": They reach middle-income status but are unable to transition their economy from labour-intensive to capital- and knowledge-intensive industries, so they do not reach advanced industrial status and its related per capita wealth.[30]

Table 3.7 The Most Developed Nations

	GNI per capita in 2010 dollars is 20,000 or more	Highly innovative economy	OECD member	International migrants over 10% of the population	Lack of human flight and brain drain	Positive net international position	Foreign aid per capita $50 or more	Total factors
Belgium	1	1	1	1	1	1	1	7
Denmark	1	1	1	1	1	1	1	7
Germany	1	1	1	1	1	1	1	7
Netherlands	1	1	1	1	1	1	1	7
Norway	1	1	1	1	1	1	1	7
Switzerland	1	1	1	1	1	1	1	7
Australia	1	1	1	1	1		1	6
Austria	1	1	1	1	1		1	6
Canada	1	1	1	1	1		1	6
France	1	1	1	1	1		1	6
Iceland	1	1	1	1	1		1	6
Ireland	1	1	1	1	1		1	6
Japan	1	1	1		1	1	1	6
Luxembourg	1		1	1	1	1	1	6
Sweden	1	1	1	1	1		1	6
United Kingdom	1	1	1	1	1		1	6
United States	1	1	1	1	1		1	6
Finland	1	1	1		1		1	5
Italy	1	1	1		1		1	5
Kuwait	1			1	1	1	1	5
New Zealand	1		1	1	1		1	5
Qatar	1			1	1	1	1	5
Singapore	1	1		1	1	1		5
United Arab Emirates	1			1	1	1	1	5
Bahrain	1			1	1	1		4
Czech Republic	1	1	1		1			4
Israel	1	1	1	1				4
Liechtenstein	1			1		1	1	4
Saudi Arabia	1			1		1	1	4
Slovenia	1	1	1	1				4
Spain	1		1	1	1			4

(*Continued*)

Table 3.7 (Continued)

	GNI per capita in 2010 dollars is 20,000 or more	Highly innovative economy	OECD member	International migrants over 10% of the population	Lack of human flight and brain drain	Positive net international position	Foreign aid per capita $50 or more	Total factors
Andorra	1			1		1		3
Brunei	1			1		1		3
Greece	1		1	1				3
Korea, South	1	1	1					3
Oman				1	1	1		3
Portugal	1		1		1			3
San Marino	1			1		1		3
Taiwan	1	[1]				1		3
Bahamas	1			1				2
Cyprus	1			1				2
Estonia			1	1				2
Latvia			1	1				2
Libya				1		1		2
Malta	1					1		2
Monaco	1			1				2
Nauru				1		1		2
Palau				1		1		2

Sources: World Bank, "GNI per Capita," https://data.worldbank.org/indicator/NY.GNP.PCAP.CD; Bloomberg Innovation Index 2019 (with estimate for Taiwan); OECD, https://www.oecd.org/about/members-and-partners; World Bank, "International Migrant Stock," https://data.worldbank.org/indicator/SM.POP.TOTL.ZS; Fund for Peace, Fragile States Index 2020; Philip R. Lane and Gian Maria Milesi-Ferretti (2017), "International Financial Integration in the Aftermath of the Global Financial Crisis," IMF Working Paper 17/115; OECD, "Net ODA," https://data.oecd.org/oda/net-oda.htm.

Table 3.8 List of Postwar High-Growth Economies

Country	Location (geographic subregion)	Start Year	End Year
Botswana	Southern Africa	1966	2004
Brazil	South America	1950	1980
China	East Asia	1977	2015
*Hong Kong**	*East Asia*	*1960*	*1997*
Indonesia	South East Asia	1968	1997
Japan	East Asia	1946	1973
Korea, South	East Asia	1963	1997
Malaysia	South East Asia	1967	1997
Oman	Middle East	1962	1997
Singapore	South East Asia	1965	2000
Taiwan	East Asia	1947	2000
Thailand	South East Asia	1959	1996

* Data for Hong Kong are in italics as this region was not a sovereign state.

Source: Based on calculations from the data set of the late Angus Maddison, with updates. See the data under the heading "Historical Statistics," http://www.ggdc.net/maddison/oriindex.htm. This data set is updated by his colleagues at the *Maddison Project*, http://www.ggdc.net/maddison/maddison-project/home.htm.

Whether China will be able to escape this middle-income trap is a central question for the next couple of decades in the world economy, but that it will seems quite probable.[31] Indeed, based on his cut-off for establishing high-income status, Felipe sees this happening quite soon.[32]

Although advanced industrial states have various structural features in common, they differ in terms of ideologies and resulting policies. There are four main types in this regard. First, there is a Northern European type of industrial state, such as in Austria, Germany, and Sweden, which is characterized by high taxes and high welfare spending, powerful but cooperative and integrated labour unions, a highly skilled workforce, and flexible labour markets. Second, there is a Southern European type, as in Greece, Italy, and Spain, which has medium to high taxes and similar welfare spending but also inflexible labour markets. Their lack of competitiveness with Northern Europe has proven challenging, at least in the context of a common European currency. Third, there is an Anglo-Saxon type, as in the United States, Canada, and the United Kingdom. These states have low to medium taxes, similarly low to medium welfare spending, weak labour unions, flexible labour markets, and relatively high income inequality. Finally, there is an East Asian type of industrial state, as in Japan, Singapore, and South Korea. This type has a strong export focus, low taxation, low welfare spending, weak or co-opted labour unions, but relatively low income inequality due to land reforms (often imposed externally) and high-quality universal education. As noted previously, these East Asian countries are often called capitalist development states.

Furthermore, if there is no longer a grouping called the Second World, then it obviously does not make much sense to still use the term *Third* World. Two alternatives are common

these days. The first is to call African, Asian, Caribbean, Latin American, and Middle Eastern countries "developing states" or "less-developed states" in contrast to the developed states of the First World. The second, more geographic, approach is to refer to the "South" versus the "North" because Third World countries generally are geographically to the south of the First World (Australia and New Zealand excepted, of course).[33] However, the increasing heterogeneity of the "developing world," which now includes countries at varying levels of development, makes one question whether *any* single category can cover all of the "South" – that is, all of Africa, Asia, the Caribbean, Latin America, and the Middle East.

Table 3.9 outlines various alternative measures of development and how countries are classified today. The World Bank puts countries into four groupings based on per capita income: "low," "lower middle," "upper middle," and "high." The United Nations assesses development more broadly in its **Human Development Index (HDI)**. The HDI combines three factors: (1) life expectancy, (2) years of schooling, and (3) gross national income per capita, which is corrected for variations in purchasing power and is adjusted by being logged.[34] These combined factors lead to a standardized score in which higher values indicate higher levels of development. Based on the HDI, the UN then groups countries into "low," "medium," "high," and "very high" human development. Next, we can contrast countries in terms of their fertility rates, that is, mean births per woman in her childbearing years (estimates are for 2021). Countries are classified into one of three categories: high fertility (more than 5.00), medium fertility (2.10 through 5.00), and low fertility (less than 2.10, which is the replacement-level fertility rate, at least for most industrialized countries).[35] This last category is, in a sense, "too low" because at these levels national populations will shrink absent any immigration. Finally, Table 3.9 also gives a more specific and contemporary sense of development: internet users as a percentage of the population, which measures the level of global communications access. In a country where a significant number of people access the internet, both literacy and technology can be seen as broadly diffused – as opposed to being restricted to the elite. Here we divide countries into the following five categories based on 2020 values (or on those of the most recent year): very low internet usage (less than 10 per cent of the population), low internet usage (from 10 to 29 per cent), medium internet usage (from 30 to 49 per cent), high internet usage (from 50 to 69 per cent), and very high internet usage (70 per cent or more).

THE LEAST DEVELOPED COUNTRIES

As noted, many countries that in the early postwar period used to be quite underdeveloped are now moderately or even (in East Asia) highly developed. However, other countries remain quite underdeveloped – especially those in sub-Saharan Africa and south Asia. The most underdeveloped countries are shown in Table 3.10, which ranks countries as to how many of the following features they currently have (assuming they have at least two): (1) a "permanent"

Table 3.9 Alternative Classifications of Development

	World Bank (per capita) Income Group Category for 2020	United Nations Human Development Index Category for 2020	Fertility Rate 2021	Level of Global Communications Access 2020 (internet usage as a percentage of the population)
Afghanistan	Low	Low	Medium	Very low
Albania	Upper middle	High	Low	Very high
Algeria	Lower middle	High	Medium	High
Andorra	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Angola	Lower middle	Medium	High	Medium
Antigua and Barbuda	High	High	Low	Very high
Argentina	Upper middle	Very high	Medium	Very high
Armenia	Upper middle	High	Low	High
Australia	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Austria	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Azerbaijan	Upper middle	High	Low	Very high
Bahamas	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Bahrain	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Bangladesh	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Barbados	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Belarus	Upper middle	Very high	Low	Very high
Belgium	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Belize	Upper middle	High	Medium	Medium
Benin	Lower middle	Low	High	Low
Bhutan	Lower middle	Medium	Low	Medium
Bolivia	Lower middle	High	Medium	High
Bosnia-Herzegovina	Upper middle	High	Low	Very high
Botswana	Upper middle	High	Medium	High
Brazil	Upper middle	High	Low	Very high
Brunei	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Bulgaria	Upper middle	Very high	Low	Very high
Burkina Faso	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Burundi	Low	Low	High	Very low
Cambodia	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Very high
Cameroon	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Medium
Canada	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Cape Verde	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	High
Central African Republic	Low	Low	Medium	Very low
Chad	Low	Low	High	Low
Chile	High	Very high	Low	Very high
China	Upper middle	High	Low	Very high
Colombia	Upper middle	High	Medium	High
Comoros	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Very low
Congo, DR (Kinshasa)	Low	Medium	High	Low
Congo, R (Brazzaville)	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Very low
Costa Rica	Upper middle	Very high	Low	Very high
Croatia	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Cuba	Upper middle	High	Low	High

(*Continued*)

Table 3.9 (Continued)

	World Bank (per capita) Income Group Category for 2020	United Nations Human Development Index Category for 2020	Fertility Rate 2021	Level of Global Communications Access 2020 (internet usage as a percentage of the population)
Cyprus (Greek)	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Czech Republic	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Denmark*	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Djibouti	Lower middle	Low	Medium	High
Dominica	Upper middle	High	Low	High
Dominican Republic	Upper middle	High	Medium	Very high
East Timor	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Ecuador	Upper middle	High	Low	High
Egypt	Lower middle	High	Medium	Very high
El Salvador	Lower middle	Medium	Low	High
Equatorial Guinea	Upper middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Eritrea	Low	Low	Medium	Very low
Estonia	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Eswatini	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Ethiopia	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Fiji	Upper middle	High	Medium	Medium
Finland	High	Very high	Low	Very high
France	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Gabon	Upper middle	High	Medium	High
Gambia	Low	Low	Medium	High
Georgia	Upper middle	Very high	Low	Very high
Germany	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Ghana	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	High
Greece	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Grenada	Upper middle	High	Low	High
Guatemala	Upper middle	Medium	Medium	Medium
Guinea	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Guinea-Bissau	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Guyana	Upper middle	Medium	Low	Medium
Haiti	Low	Low	Medium	Medium
Honduras	Lower middle	Medium	Low	Medium
Hungary	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Iceland	High	Very high	Low	Very high
India	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Medium
Indonesia	Upper middle	High	Low	High
Iran	Upper middle	High	Low	Very high
Iraq	Upper middle	Medium	Medium	Medium
Ireland	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Israel	High	Very high	Medium	Very high
Italy	High	Very high	Low	High
Ivory Coast	Lower middle	Low	Medium	Very high

	World Bank (per capita) Income Group Category for 2020	United Nations Human Development Index Category for 2020	Fertility Rate 2021	Level of Global Communications Access 2020 (internet usage as a percentage of the population)
Jamaica	Upper middle	High	Low	Very high
Japan	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Jordan	Upper middle	High	Medium	High
Kazakhstan	Upper middle	Very high	Medium	Very high
Kenya	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Kiribati	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Korea, North	Low	..	Low	..
Korea, South	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Kosovo	Upper middle	..	Low	Very high
Kuwait	High	Very high	Medium	Very high
Kyrgyzstan	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Medium
Laos	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Latvia	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Lebanon	Upper middle	High	Low	Very high
Lesotho	Lower middle	Low	Medium	Medium
Liberia	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Libya	Upper middle	High	Medium	Low
Liechtenstein	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Lithuania	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Luxembourg	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Madagascar	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Malawi	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Malaysia	Upper middle	Very high	Medium	Very high
Maldives	Upper middle	High	Low	High
Mali	Low	Low	High	Low
Malta	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Marshall Islands	Upper middle	High	Medium	Medium
Mauritania	Lower middle	Low	Medium	Low
Mauritius	High	Very high	Low	High
Mexico	Upper middle	High	Medium	Very high
Micronesia	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Medium
Moldova	Lower middle	High	Low	Very high
Monaco	High	..	Low	Very high
Mongolia	Lower middle	High	Low	High
Montenegro	Upper middle	Very high	Low	Very high
Morocco	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Very high
Mozambique	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Myanmar	Lower middle	Medium	Low	Low
Namibia	Upper middle	Medium	Medium	Medium
Nauru	High	..	Medium	High
Nepal	Lower middle	Medium	Low	Low
Netherlands	High	Very high	Low	Very high
New Zealand	High	Very high	Low	Very high

(*Continued*)

Table 3.9 (Continued)

	World Bank (per capita) Income Group Category for 2020	United Nations Human Development Index Category for 2020	Fertility Rate 2021	Level of Global Communications Access 2020 (internet usage as a percentage of the population)
Nicaragua	Lower middle	Medium	Low	Low
Niger	Low	Low	High	Low
Nigeria	Lower middle	Low	Medium	Medium
North Macedonia	Upper middle	High	Low	Very high
Norway	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Oman	High	Very high	Medium	Very high
Pakistan	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Palau	High	Very high	Low	Low
Panama	High	Very high	Medium	High
Papua New Guinea	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Paraguay	Upper middle	High	Low	High
Peru	Upper middle	High	Low	High
Philippines	Lower middle	High	Medium	Medium
Poland	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Portugal	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Qatar	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Romania	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Russia	Upper middle	Very high	Low	Very high
Rwanda	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Saint Kitts and Nevis	High	High	Low	Very high
Saint Lucia	Upper middle	High	Low	Medium
Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	Upper middle	High	Low	High
Samoa	Upper middle	High	Medium	Medium
San Marino	High	..	Low	High
São Tomé and Príncipe	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Medium
Saudi Arabia	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Senegal	Lower middle	Low	Medium	Medium
Serbia	Upper middle	Very high	Low	Very high
Seychelles	High	High	Low	Very high
Sierra Leone	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Singapore	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Slovakia	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Slovenia	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Solomon Islands	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Somalia	Low	..	High	Very low
South Africa	Upper middle	High	Medium	High
South Sudan	Low	Low	High	Very low
Spain	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Sri Lanka	Lower middle	High	Low	Medium
Sudan	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Suriname	Upper middle	High	Low	Medium
Sweden	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Switzerland	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Syria	Low	Medium	Medium	Medium
Taiwan	High	..	Low	Very high

	World Bank (per capita) Income Group Category for 2020	United Nations Human Development Index Category for 2020	Fertility Rate 2021	Level of Global Communications Access 2020 (internet usage as a percentage of the population)
Tajikistan	Low	Medium	Medium	Low
Tanzania	Lower middle	Low	Medium	Low
Thailand	Upper middle	High	Low	High
Togo	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Tonga	Upper middle	High	Medium	Medium
Trinidad and Tobago	High	High	Low	Very high
Tunisia	Lower middle	High	Low	High
Turkey	Upper middle	Very high	Low	Very high
Turkmenistan	Upper middle	High	Low	Low
Tuvalu	Upper middle	..	Medium	Medium
Uganda	Low	Low	High	Low
Ukraine	Lower middle	High	Low	Very high
United Arab Emirates	High	Very high	Low	Very high
United Kingdom	High	Very high	Low	Very high
United States	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Uruguay	High	Very high	Low	Very high
Uzbekistan	Lower middle	High	Low	Very high
Vanuatu	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Venezuela	Upper middle	High	Medium	High
Vietnam	Lower middle	High	Low	Very high
Yemen	Low	Low	Medium	Low
Zambia	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low
Zimbabwe	Lower middle	Medium	Medium	Low

* Mainland Denmark only

Sources: World Bank, "World Development Indicators," http://databank.worldbank.org/data/download/site-content/OGHIST.xls; United Nations, "Human Development Index (HDI)–2019 Rankings," http://hdr.undp.org/en/2020-report; CIA, "Country Comparison: Total Fertility Rate," in *The World Factbook*, https://www.cia.gov/library/publications/the-world-factbook/fields/356rank.html#UP; International Telecommunication Union, "Percentage of Individuals Using the Internet, 2000–2019," ICT Indicators Database, https://www.itu.int/en/ITU-D/Statistics/Pages/stat/default.aspx.

Table 3.10 The Most Underdeveloped Nations

	Always a low-income country	Population in abject poverty 25% or more	Infant mortality rate of 50 or more	Literacy rate below 75%	Labour force in agriculture 50% or more	Total
Central African Republic	1	1	1	1	1	5
Chad	1	1	1	1	1	5
Guinea	1	1	1	1	1	5
Guinea-Bissau	1	1	1	1	1	5
Mali	1	1	1	1	1	5
Sierra Leone	1	1	1	1	1	5
South Sudan	1	1	1	1	1	5

(*Continued*)

Table 3.10 (Continued)

	Always a low-income country	Population in abject poverty 25% or more	Infant mortality rate of 50 or more	Literacy rate below 75%	Labour force in agriculture 50% or more	Total
Angola	1	1	1	1		4
Benin	1	1	1	1		4
Burundi	1	1		1	1	4
Comoros	1		1	1	1	4
Congo, DR (Kinshasa)	1	1	1		1	4
Ethiopia	1	1		1	1	4
Liberia	1	1	1	1		4
Madagascar	1	1		1	1	4
Malawi	1	1		1	1	4
Mauritania	1		1	1	1	4
Mozambique		1	1	1	1	4
Niger	1	1		1	1	4
Nigeria	1	1	1	1		4
Rwanda	1	1		1	1	4
Burkina Faso	1	1		1		3
Haiti	1	1		1		3
Ivory Coast		1	1	1		3
Kenya	1	1			1	3
Lesotho		1	1		1	3
Nepal	1			1	1	3
Papua New Guinea		1		1	1	3
Senegal	1	1		1		3
Somalia	1		1		1	3
Tanzania	1	1			1	3
Togo	1	1		1		3
Uganda	1	1			1	3
Zambia	1	1			1	3
Afghanistan	1			1		2
East Timor		1		1		2
Bangladesh	1			1		2
Bhutan				1	1	2
Cameroon	1		1			2
Eritrea	1				1	2
Gambia	1			1		2
Pakistan			1	1		2
Solomon Islands		1			1	2
Sudan	1			1		2
Zimbabwe	1				1	2

	Always a low-income country	Population in abject poverty 25% or more	Infant mortality rate of 50 or more	Literacy rate below 75%	Labour force in agriculture 50% or more	Total
Congo, R (Brazzaville)		1				1
Egypt				1		1
Equatorial Guinea			1			1
Eswatini		1				1
India				1		1
Korea, North					1	1
Laos					1	1
São Tomé and Príncipe		1				1
Tajikistan					1	1
Vanuatu					1	1

(since 1950) situation of being low income, thus being in what economists call a "low-level equilibrium trap";[36] (2) a significant share of the population (25 per cent or more) in abject poverty (living on less than $1.25 a day); (3) a high infant mortality rate (50 or more deaths per 1,000 live births); (4) a lack of literacy (defined as less than 75 per cent of the population being literate); and (5) a high share of the labour force (50 per cent or more) still in agriculture. Generally, the countries in this list have very low or low income, even when not "permanently" so. Also, although India is at least developing in a dynamic sense, most of the countries on this list are stagnating. As Paul Collier notes, countries failing to develop (what he calls the "bottom billion" of the world's population) are burdened by various hard-to-solve and usually interrelated "traps": repeated internal conflicts (civil wars), an overreliance on natural resources, being landlocked with bad neighbours, and having bad governance.[37] Conversely, as noted, China – where the population in abject poverty has declined by several hundred million in a generation – is not on this list and does not have these "traps."

Overall, though, the majority of the world's population lives neither in the least developed countries nor in the most developed countries, but rather in intermediate nations such as Brazil, China, Indonesia, and Russia (to note some of the most populous ones). Crucially, even if stuck in the "middle-income trap," these intermediate nations all have some sort of middle class, not in the Western sense but certainly in terms of people with some resources living above the poverty line – thus potentially making them more critical citizens in terms of demanding accountability and good government performance. That said, it is important to note the regional variations within the developing world, in particular the strong growth in the Asian middle class since 1990 and the still-small middle class in sub-Saharan Africa.[38]

NOTES

1 The notion of including a stable judicial system as one of the components of an effective state comes from Merquior, "Patterns of State-Building in Argentina and Brazil," 276.
2 Mathieu et al., "A Global Database of COVID-19 Vaccinations."
3 World Health Organization, *World Health Statistics 2019*. Data from 2009 to 2018.
4 See www.prosperity.com.
5 Schneider, "Shadow Economies Around the World." For the size of the shadow economy in OECD countries, see Table 3.8 in Schneider's article, p. 611. On the contrast between the neighbouring flawed state of Argentina and effective state of Chile in terms of tax compliance, see Bergman, *Tax Evasion and the Rule of Law in Latin America*.
6 In some weak states, the state presence may be not just ignored but, indeed, physically opposed. Rotberg thus uses the term "failed state" to refer to those states experiencing civil war or insurrections combined with – or indeed resulting from – the failure of the state to deliver socioeconomic "goods" (security, public services, economic growth) in the areas it does control. He lists Afghanistan, Angola, Burundi, the Democratic Republic of the Congo, Liberia, Sierra Leone, and Sudan as the failed states of the turn of the century, with Somalia as a collapsed state. Rotberg, "The New Nature of Nation-State Failure."
7 Evans, *Embedded Autonomy*, 44–45.
8 Kienle, "Popular Contestation, Regime Transformation and State Formation," 145–6.
9 Kienle, "Popular Contestation, Regime Transformation and State Formation," 152.
10 CSRC, "Crisis, Fragile and Failed States."
11 Migdal, *Strong Societies and Weak States*.
12 See Johnson, *MITI and the Japanese Miracle*; Wade, *Governing the Market*; and, more generally, Woo-Cumings, *The Developmental State*.
13 Johnson, *MITI and the Japanese Miracle*, 21.
14 Mann, "The Autonomous Power of the State," 113.
15 Geddes, *Politician's Dilemma*, 134–9.
16 Whittlesey, *The Earth and the State*, 23.
17 Whittlesey, *The Earth and the State*, 11.
18 Herbst, *States and Power in Africa*; see Chapter Five on "National Design and the Broadcasting of Power," 139–72.
19 Lynch, *How Russia Is Not Ruled*, 26.
20 On the central historical role of rural civil society in keeping the state weak in Guinea-Bissau, see Forrest, *Lineages of State Fragility*.
21 On the "youth bulge" and political violence, see Urdal, "A Clash of Generations?"
22 There are 15 countries that contain Sahara and/or Sahel terrain. On the Sahel, and its relationship with the Sahara, see Marshall, *The Power of Geography*, 160–87.
23 Harris, Moore, and Schmitz, "Country Classifications for a Changing World," 10–11.
24 Spero, *The Politics of International Economic Relations*, 11–15.
25 Spence, *The Next Convergence*, 19. Data are from 2019 or most recent year. 2010 dollars are used to be consistent with when Spence's book was published.
26 Bloomberg Innovation Index 2019. A score of 70 or more on the index is needed to meet this criterion.
27 Fragile States Index 2020. A score of 3.3 or less out of 10 on this component is needed to meet this criterion.

28 The central source here is Lane and Milesi-Ferretti, "International Financial Integration in the Aftermath of the Global Financial Crisis."
29 Spence, *The Next Convergence*, 19, 53.
30 Spence, *The Next Convergence*, 100–2.
31 Spence, *The Next Convergence*, 103, 195; World Bank, *China 2030*, 12.
32 Felipe, "Tracking the Middle-Income Trap," 25.
33 For a visual illustration of this dividing line, see Webster, *Introduction to the Sociology of Development*, 5 (Map 1.1).
34 That is, the HDI compresses the effects of increased per capita income by logging this data because it is felt that "the transformation function from income to capabilities is likely to be concave." UNDP, *Human Development Report 2011*, 168. Logging is used, for example, in the Richter scale for earthquakes and, more generally, when extreme values throw off the average. With the standard base 10 logarithm, when the number goes up by 1, the effect goes up by 10.
35 United Nations Department of Economic and Social Affairs, Population Division, "The End of High Fertility Is Near."
36 The base source here is Felipe, "Tracking the Middle-Income Trap," and his cut-off for low income is GDP per capita in 1990 PPP (purchasing power parity) dollars continuously below $2,000 from 1950 (even if then a colony) through 2010. This has been updated through 2016 data, and with additional countries added from the data set of the late Angus Maddison. See the data under the heading "Historical Statistics," http://www.ggdc.net/maddison/oriindex.htm.
37 Collier, *The Bottom Billion*.
38 Ravallion, "The Developing World's Bulging (but Vulnerable) Middle Class." On Asia specifically, see also the Asian Development Bank, "The Rise of Asia's Middle Class."

This page intentionally left blank

CHAPTER FOUR

Electoral Democracies, Liberal Democracies, and Autocracies

In This Chapter You Will Learn

- what the minimal factors needed for an electoral democracy are;
- what the "fallacy of electoralism" means;
- what the five specific aspects of liberal democracy are, and how these developed historically;
- what a semi-open autocracy is;
- what a closed autocracy is;
- what the differences are between liberal democracy, electoral democracy, semi-open autocracy, and closed autocracy;
- where each country in the world fits into this typology; and
- what critiques have been made of and improvements suggested for liberal democracies.

DEMOCRACY AND THE *DEMOS*

Democracy is a difficult concept to define, or at least one that is hard to define succinctly. The word has its root in the Greek term *demos*, meaning "the people," combined with the suffix "-cracy" from the Greek *kratos*, meaning "power" or "strength." Thus, the people are clearly part of a democracy. But in what way or ways? In his Gettysburg Address of 1863, Abraham Lincoln eloquently spoke of "government of the people, by the people, and for the people." Yet each of these aspects is problematic at some level. Government "of the people" refers to the

people being the actual decision makers. But rarely in the world does a national legislature, for example, exactly mirror its society in terms of age (parliamentarians are, on average, older than their nation's mean age), gender (every democratic national parliament has a male majority, or a balance in Mexico, although the extent of this gender imbalance varies greatly), education (parliamentarians tend to be better educated than the average citizen, and many would defend this reality), or occupational background (politicians, at least in North America, overwhelmingly come from legal backgrounds). The issue here may be simply the possibility of an "average person" holding office, however "average" may be defined.

Government "by the people" implies that the people are somehow participating in the process. Participation could mean voting, speaking out publicly on an issue, or contacting a government official. Yet, outside of Switzerland, where it is the constitutional and political reality that most issues will be dealt with ultimately through public initiatives or referenda, rarely do the people in any democracy actually make decisions on policies. (An *initiative* is a citizen-sponsored or "bottom-up" proposal for a policy change, whereas a *referendum* is a vote whereby the population has the final say on proposed government legislation or constitutional changes.[1]) Democracies are essentially delegative rather than direct, although political analysts like Robert A. Dahl (discussed later in this chapter) argue that they should be more direct to be truly democratic. Certainly in Canada, it has been a political convention since the Charlottetown Accord (although not a formal constitutional requirement) that major constitutional changes will require approval in a national referendum.

Finally, government "for the people" could mean government in the public interest or, more simply, "good government." But a benevolent dictator could rule "for the people," and certainly many dictators claim to be acting in the national interest. The issue is who decides whether the government or a specific policy is a good one. Rousseau wrote of the "general will," but this theoretical concept does not seem to exist naturally. There must be some *political* process for determining what the people want. And investigating this process will lead us shortly into the realm of elections. It is worth noting here that some people may not understand a proposed policy, or, even if they understand it, they may not have a strong opinion on it as long as it is still theoretical. Consequently, people tend to have clearer opinions on *actual* policies and *actual* governments. Because people are thus generally able to decide whether what they have had for, say, the last four years has been "good government," they are able to decide whether they want "more of the same."

ELECTIONS AND ACCOUNTABILITY

And if the people do not like what they have had? Presumably, then, they would remove the current government at the next election. Indeed, one rare succinct definition of democracy is Przeworski's: "Democracy is a system in which parties lose elections."[2] In fact, this simple statement carries some important assumptions: First, there is someone else to vote for; second, the

governing party or president will actually hand over power; and third, elections are not just *a way* but *the only acceptable way* to remove governments. Each of these points is understood to be part of democracy. Moreover, as Przeworski further notes, elections occur under set rules (an institutional framework) that structure the competition.[3] In a sense, then, the role of the people in a democracy, at a minimum, involves choosing between the electoral alternatives on offer. Mirroring this point is another: Being chosen by the voters – directly or indirectly – is the only way one acquires a democratic right to govern. This point is, essentially, the definition of democracy offered several decades ago by Schumpeter: "[T]he democratic method is that institutional arrangement for arriving at political decisions in which individuals acquire the power to decide by means of a competitive struggle for the people's vote."[4] Thus, democracy involves *competition*; if there is only one party or choice on the ballot, there cannot be democracy. Competition and elections also provide for vertical *accountability*, that is, accountability of the government party or parties to the voters. Even if this accountability is admittedly after the fact, the desire to be re-elected should produce "good government," or at least better government than if there were no accountability at all.

Conversely, if a political system has no competition and no true accountability, then those in power will presumably stay there indefinitely, regardless of the wishes of the people. Such a political system is called an **autocracy**. The Greek root *auto* means "self," and thus an autocracy is literally the absolute rule by one individual (the autocrat). However, for our purposes, autocracy also applies to rule by a group as long as this group is unaccountable to the *demos* as a whole. Autocracies do have great variations within them, but for now the key point is that an autocracy is the opposite of a democracy.

ELECTORAL DEMOCRACY VERSUS LIBERAL DEMOCRACY

Schumpeter's definition of democracy can certainly be called minimalist. He does not even assume that political competition will be perfectly fair; instead, he draws a parallel with business competition in the marketplace, which he notes is hardly ever perfect.[5] Business competition can involve fraud, false advertising, and the general attempt of bigger firms to squeeze out smaller ones. Sometimes established firms can collude to keep control over a market. Ideally, though, procedures are in place to prevent such restraints on business competition. It is the same for political competition: This involves not just two or more parties or candidates competing, but also procedures to ensure the fairness of the competition, such as laws against bribery or coercion. In political competition, the key test is usually whether an opposition party or candidate has a reasonable opportunity to defeat the incumbent party or candidate; failure to do so must be because the voters, in fact, prefer "more of the same" to any of the alternatives, rather than because of fraud or coercion. For the population to assess opposition proposals fairly, they must have access to them and at least relatively unbiased commentary on them.

Although Schumpeter does not equate democracy with freedom per se, he does note that a situation in which everyone is free to run for office (though few may have the resources to do so) is likely to lead to "a considerable amount of freedom of discussion *for all*" and likewise "a considerable amount of freedom of the press."[6] In summary, then, Schumpeter sees democracy as involving sufficient if imperfect competition for political office in the context of some civil liberties. At the time he wrote, this definition of democracy seemed acceptable, inasmuch as the countries that had competitive elections were rarely "flawed" on other matters. However, today most political systems have elections with at least some degree of competition, if only because of international pressure to hold elections. Furthermore, inevitably, elections are relatively rare events (held usually every four or five years),[7] whereas democracy is ideally an ongoing process.

Consequently, to equate elections with democracy is to commit what Terry Lynn Karl and others call the "fallacy of electoralism" – the assumption that an election, just by being held, will produce representative yet competitive parties or candidates, effective and accepted political institutions, and a legitimate government that is then able to govern. As Karl notes, electoralism as an ideology "elevates elections over all other dimensions of democracy."[8] Certainly, having an elected and thus downwardly accountable government is a key difference between a democracy and an autocracy, but full democracy needs more. Indeed, a non-competitive, non-democratic election, which is no rarity in the world, may produce citizens who are cynical of elections even if these do become or had earlier been somewhat free and fair. Russians today under Vladimir Putin appear to fit this description.

Even if an election is basically free and fair, it is nevertheless crucial to distinguish between the minimal nature of an **electoral democracy** and a full-fledged **liberal democracy**. The recent work of Larry Diamond is very clear in this regard:

> *Electoral* democracy is a civilian, constitutional system in which the legislative and chief executive offices are filled through regular, competitive, multiparty elections with universal suffrage [thus producing the vertical accountability of responsible government].
>
> … In addition to the elements of electoral democracy, [*liberal* democracy] … requires, first, the absence of reserved domains of power for the military or other actors not accountable to the electorate, directly or indirectly. Second, in addition to the vertical accountability of rulers to the ruled (secured mainly through elections), it requires the horizontal accountability of officeholders to one another; this constrains executive power and so helps protect constitutionalism, legality, and the deliberative process. Third, it encompasses extensive provisions for political and civil pluralism as well as for individual and group freedoms, so that contending interests and values may be expressed and compete through ongoing processes of articulation and representation, beyond periodic elections.
>
> Freedom and pluralism, in turn, can be secured only through a "rule of law," in which legal rules are applied fairly, consistently, and predictably across equivalent cases, irrespective of the class, status, or power of those subject to the rules.[9]

Consequently, one should note that whereas an electoral democracy is not a liberal democracy, a liberal democracy is an electoral democracy – and then some. In other words, we can group together liberal democracies and electoral democracies into a complete list of electoral democracies, if that is our only concern or threshold.

THE FIVE ELEMENTS OF LIBERAL DEMOCRACY

For our purposes, liberal democracy involves no less than five separate elements, as outlined in Table 4.1. First there is **responsible government**, a concept with which many students of political science have some trouble. Responsible government does not mean just that the government is responsible to the people, in the sense of accountability "downwards," but that the government is *only* responsible to the people and not to any other political actor who may be "pulling the strings," perhaps behind the scenes. Potentially, two political "string pullers" are (1) a monarch and (2) the military. At one extreme, one could argue that a monarch is, by definition, an affront to democracy, because a monarch is neither elected nor accountable. A more moderate distinction, though, and the one used in Chapter 2, is to ask whether the monarch exercises any real political power or is merely a symbolic figurehead. Only in the former case does a monarch violate – to a partial or complete degree – the principle of responsible government. As for the military, it must be under civilian control for there to be a liberal democracy. Conversely, if the military controls the civilian government, then the government is not accountable "downwards" to the people, and accountability is undemocratic. As noted in Chapter 2, military intervention in the past few decades has been most common in Latin America and Africa, but it has also occurred in parts of Asia and even in Southern Europe.

The struggle for responsible government was and is central to the struggle for democracy. Power being finite, the issue is whether it is concentrated in the hands of democratically chosen politicians or non-democratic actors. It is not enough to have an elected "government" if it is not the *real* government: Responsible government includes the "explicit criterion that the elected government must to a reasonable degree have effective power to rule."[10] In this vein, J. Samuel Valenzuela has emphasized the problematic factor of "nondemocratically generated *tutelary powers*," which

> attempt to exercise broad oversight of the government and its policy decisions while claiming to represent vaguely formulated fundamental and enduring interests of the nation-state. A regime cannot be considered a consolidated democracy if those who win government-forming elections are placed in state power and policymaking positions that are subordinate in this manner to those of nonelected elites … Part of the process of building European democracies in the nineteenth and early twentieth centuries was to eliminate the tutelary power held

Table 4.1 Definitional Features of Liberal Democracy

1. RESPONSIBLE GOVERNMENT
   - Political decisions are taken in a reasonably transparent way by elected officials (or those under their authority) who are thus directly accountable to the electorate or, ultimately, accountable via an elected parliament, and are not accountable to a tutelary monarch or military.
   - Governments are thus never overthrown nor deposed by such tutelary actors nor, indeed, forced out of office by any non-constitutional means, such as public protests.
   - Horizontal accountability exists via checks and balances on the executive and especially by oversight bodies.
   - A non-accountable head of state (such as a monarch) has at most a minimal political role and no power over policy.
   - There is full civilian executive control over the military.
2. FREE AND FAIR COMPETITION FOR POLITICAL OFFICE
   - Elected officials are chosen and peacefully removed in free, fair, and relatively frequent elections with minimal or ideally no coercion of the voters.
   - Political parties can freely form and compete in elections (note that in some countries antidemocratic parties are banned) as can individual citizens as candidates, with no constraints in terms of voter or media access.
3. FULL AND EQUAL RIGHTS OF POLITICAL PARTICIPATION
   - Practically all adults have the right to vote, without discrimination against certain groups.
   - Likewise, most adults have the right to run for office, without discrimination against certain groups.
   - There is only one vote per person.
4. FULL CIVIL LIBERTIES
   - There is freedom of expression, including online commentary; this includes the right to criticize public officials and governmental policies.
   - There is freedom of the press, with the media independent of the government and able to scrutinize and criticize it without retribution or self-censorship; as part of this freedom, various alternative, non-governmental sources of information exist, as well as unblocked access to the internet.
   - There is academic freedom, including institutional autonomy for universities.
   - There is freedom of organization (into autonomous groups).
   - There is freedom of religion.
5. A LEGALLY BASED, WELL-FUNCTIONING STATE, WITH EFFECTIVE AND FAIR GOVERNANCE
   - The state, that is, the political-bureaucratic system, penetrates effectively and more or less evenly throughout the country.
   - The rule of law clearly exists and is upheld by an independent, unbiased judiciary, with independent courts usually ensuring legal compliance by the government and administration.
   - Political and bureaucratic corruption is minimal or ideally non-existent, as public office holders are effectively prevented or at least disincentivized from abusing their positions by various integrity mechanisms.
   - Citizens have an effective right of access to official information.

> by monarchs, making cabinets and prime ministers accountable only to elected parliaments, and armies subordinate to decisions taken by the government rather than the crown. In recent transition settings, the military have often sought to place themselves in such a tutelary role.[11]

In fact, such a tutelary role has a long tradition in most Latin American militaries. In contrast, in a liberal democracy, it is not only acceptable but indeed necessary for bureaucrats and political executives to be supervised by "oversight bodies" so as to prevent or at least minimize abuse of power. The first type of these bodies is the office of a parliamentary ombudsperson (in some

countries called a people's defender or public defender), which was first created in Sweden in 1809. This office is focused on overseeing the **bureaucracy**, not elected politicians. The second type is a supreme audit institution, often called an auditor general or comptroller general, to aid in fiscal and managerial accountability. Auditing bodies and individuals date back to medieval times, but the first modern ones were set up in the nineteenth century, such as the one established by William Gladstone (then chancellor of the exchequer) in the United Kingdom in 1866. Beyond these bodies are the more general checks and balances on the executive of the legislature and the courts.

Moreover, it should be stressed in our analysis of responsible government that we are assuming that there *is* a government and, furthermore, that it presides over a sovereign, autonomous, existing state. Consequently, liberal democracy – or indeed democracy generally – cannot exist in a colony because political authority ultimately rests with the non-accountable imperial power.[12] That said, colonies can certainly have some liberal democratic elements, which would facilitate them becoming liberal democracies at independence (see "The Cultural Legacy" in Chapter 5 for more on democracy and colonialism.) Equally, democracy cannot exist in a **collapsed state** since no authoritative decisions are actually taken or effectively implemented. This is true even if there is an elected "government," as was the case in Iraq after its 2005 election and in Libya post-Qaddafi.[13] Finally, democracy is also not possible under a foreign military occupation that seeks to impose its preferred government independent of public opinion. For example, in Hungary in November 1945, the Independent Smallholders Party won a clear majority of seats with 57 per cent of the vote. However, the occupying Soviets forced the Smallholders into a coalition government – specifically, one in which the Communists controlled the Interior Ministry (and thus the police) and other portfolios, which then allowed the Communists to threaten and marginalize their political opponents.[14]

Note also that accountability is down to the electorate, that is, the people expressing themselves via the democratic process of elections. Accountability is much more dubious when "the people" (in reality only some of them) effect the removal of an elected government via mass public protests, which have often led to the fall of presidents in countries such as Argentina, Bolivia, and Ecuador. The reality of a liberal democracy is that, unless recall provisions are in place, voters have to wait, perhaps impatiently, until the next election to legitimately remove a government. Obviously, though, more patience is likely required in countries with fixed terms for governments, which is the case in **presidential systems**, for example.

Second, a liberal democracy also requires *free and fair competition* or, alternatively, the holding of free and fair elections. The terms "free" and "fair" have some overlap, but the basic distinction is as follows. "Free" refers to the opportunities and rights of individuals not just to run for office (or to form political parties and run for office as party candidates) but also to be able to campaign publicly and access the media. Freedom in this context is thus the ability to participate. "Fair" refers to the electoral process, which must be unbiased with regard to the various candidates and parties and transparent in its procedures. Harassment of opposition

candidates; bribery, vote buying, or, alternatively, coercion and intimidation of voters; obstruction of opposition supporters' access to the polls, including having significantly fewer polling stations in opposition areas; manipulating voters' lists, for example, by removing opposition supporters or padding the lists with dead or non-existent "government supporters"; stuffing individual ballot boxes; "premarking" ballots; and the manipulation of vote totals are all examples of unfair or biased electoral practices.[15] In a liberal democracy, elections are normally unaffected by such flaws, being carried out in a highly professional if not "squeaky clean" manner in terms of the actual voting on election day and the subsequent official vote tabulations, which are transparent and thus can be monitored by the competing candidates or parties. In contrast, electoral democracies may experience localized voting irregularities. However, these irregularities do not affect who is the overall winner and thus do not thwart the voters' wishes. In contrast, autocratic elections are characterized by widespread and systematic election fraud or pro-regime bias in the election campaign. Assuming it exists, election freedom thus essentially occurs during the campaign. Election fairness, however, occurs during the campaign, on the election day or days, and, indeed, afterwards in terms of certification of the results. Spain in 1936 under its Second Republic provided an interesting example of an election that was unfair both on and after election day. Specifically, the victorious Popular Front coalition did not feel that its still narrow majority (based on very close vote results) provided a sufficient quorum for the quick passage of legislation. Consequently, the coalition set out to "improve" its position, taking advantage of a non-neutral electoral process. As Payne notes,

> Under the Republican system, the first major task of a new parliament was to elect a *comisión de actas* (electoral commission) to review the electoral results and determine if they should be cancelled or reversed in any district on account of fraud or other improprieties. This meant in effect that the victors in each election had the power to sit in judgment on the losers and determine if their parliamentary representation should be reduced still further. This power had been exercised with moderation by the center-right in 1933, but the [leftist] Popular Front, consistent with its intention to eliminate all political opposition it could, intended to conduct a sweeping review of all the districts won by the center-right in 1936. The extreme left demanded cancellation of nearly all rightist victories, judging, as *El Socialista* put it on 20 March, that "not a single deputy of the right can say that he won his seat fairly." Membership of the commission was voted on 17 March with a heavy leftist majority.[16]

In the end, the extreme left certainly did not get its wish, but still dozens of seats were reassigned or annulled, and the subsequent elections held were under unfair and fraudulent conditions. Although, overall, some seats were given to the centre and one to the right, these concessions were essentially for show, as the vast majority of seats that changed hands went to the left, which, in turn, lost not a single one. Election irregularities that had benefited the Popular Front were, not surprisingly, mostly ignored. As Payne concludes, "[e]lectoral fraud

had been frequent in the history of parliamentary government in Spain, but this explicit and highly formalized reassignment of voting results was without precedent."[17] A similar post-election elimination of opposition seats occurred in Bulgaria after its 1920 election, in which enough opposition victories were annulled to give the incumbent government a majority of the remaining seats.

A necessary but not sufficient component of a fair election is a secret ballot,[18] whose introduction represented a key historical step in election fairness. The use of a secret ballot began in Australia – more specifically, in South Australia in 1856 – and then spread out to other countries. (Indeed, for a time in the United States, the secret ballot was known simply as the "Australian ballot.") In Canada, the central role of ensuring the fairness of federal elections is played by the chief electoral officer (who personally cannot vote) and the Chief Electoral Office, which dates back to 1920. The number of analogous offices worldwide has expanded greatly in the past two decades as a means of removing the administration of elections from the government of the day.[19] One key country, however, that lacks such an office is the United States, and this deficiency has led to such problems and controversies as occurred in its 2000 presidential election in Florida. Finally, it must be stressed that, in rare circumstances, elections may still be free and fair without responsible government, but they will not be "relevant" in the sense of determining the government. Recent parliamentary elections in Morocco are examples of this phenomenon. So too have been all elections in Monaco.

The third element a liberal democracy requires is *full and equal rights of political participation.* (Of course, it is unlikely that absolutely everyone will use such rights, but that is the nature of any right.) "Full" here refers to having universal adult suffrage, as opposed to excluding women, the poor, the illiterate, Indigenous Peoples, and soon all who have been excluded at times historically throughout the world. After World War I, universal (white) male suffrage was common, and in almost all Protestant nations universal (white) female suffrage was also granted. In nations where other religions were prominent, universal female suffrage was generally not granted until after World War II. Yet even granting women the vote did not necessarily bring full suffrage, as literacy requirements continued in many nations, especially in Latin America. Indeed, voting rights for illiterates were not granted until the late 1970s in Ecuador and Peru, and not until 1988 in Brazil. It should also be stressed that, today, "adulthood" for voting purposes is set at 18 years in the vast majority of countries,[20] but still ranges from 16 in such countries as Austria and Brazil to 20 or 21 in some East and South East Asian countries. A cut-off of 21, the Western norm until the 1970s, is still a clear drop from the minimum age for suffrage in nineteenth-century Europe, which was as high as 30 years (Denmark) and often 25. Moreover, those higher age thresholds in the nineteenth century occurred in the context of much shorter lives: in 1900, the average life expectancy in Western Europe was 46 and only 35 in Spain![21] Also, because countries were at a lower level of socioeconomic development, there was much greater variation of life expectancy across social classes. Consequently, high minimum ages for suffrage produced indirect (but probably intentional) class biases in

electorates independent of any wealth requirements. The same point can be made for literacy tests, although these were often directed more at Indigenous Peoples in South America, for example, or at Black people in the US south.[22]

"Equal" political participation in this context refers to each voter having but one vote or, more generally, the same number of votes. Some **electoral systems**, for example in Germany and New Zealand, give everyone two votes (see Chapter 7). Historically, however, countries such as Belgium, Prussia (Germany), and the United Kingdom not only restricted who could vote but effectively or in fact gave extra or additional votes to certain voters based on a *régime censitaire*, that is, based on property or income (tax payments) or business ownership; a *principe capacitaire*, that is, based on education level; and even male head of household status. "One person, one vote" – and no more – was not fully established in the United Kingdom until 1948, for example.[23] Moreover, the assumption here is that legislative elections determine the entire legislature; in the modern world, a partly elected legislature does not meet democratic standards. So, for example, although the Tongan Legislative Assembly has 17 out of 26 seats elected by the voters and filled by peoples' representatives, nobles elect 9 seats. These nobles' representatives were decisive in determining the government after the 2010 elections – helping to elect a noble as prime minister of Tonga rather than the leader of the party that had, in fact, won a clear majority of the 17 popularly elected seats.

The fourth characteristic of a liberal democracy is that its citizens enjoy *full civil liberties.* Civil liberties are often constitutionally enumerated and entrenched, such as in the Canadian Charter of Rights and Freedoms. One can note that the Schumpeterian definition of democracy does not assume full civil liberties. However, two decades after Schumpeter's book, the political scientist Robert A. Dahl argues that civil liberties are part of the necessary institutional guarantees of or requirements for proper political competition and participation.[24] Since that time, civil liberties have been seen as central to democracy – at times perhaps a bit too central, as some politicians, especially in the United States, seem to equate democracy with freedom. In fact, one can have a reasonable amount of civil liberty without responsible government or even elections if, for example, one lives under an autocratic but tolerant monarch. One of the virtues of the annual surveys of freedom by the New York–based Freedom House organization is that these give separate scores for political rights and for civil liberties, allowing one to see how these diverge.

The fifth and final element of a liberal democracy is the need for *a legally based and well-functioning state with effective and fair governance.* Civil liberties cannot truly exist in the absence of a general rule of law (as Diamond notes), and the rule of law requires an independent and unbiased judiciary as a separate component of the state. For politicians to control courts they must be able to fill them. Thus, if politicians can easily remove current judges, either by impeachment or by incentivizing their early retirement, then the judiciary is not independent.[25] The rule of law must apply to everyone, including members of the **state** itself. This point goes back to the traditional German notion of a *Rechtsstaat*, that is, a "state subject to law." The law protects the citizens against the power of the state, specifically the abuse (defined as the arbitrary use) of this power. More precisely, in the classic analysis of Carl Schmitt,

> [a] state may be termed a *Rechtsstaat* only when all administrative authority – especially that of the police – is subject to the conditions and procedure of law, and when intervention into the sphere of individual freedom is permissible solely on the basis of a law. Its identifying characteristic is the lawlike nature of the administration. The guarantee of its citizens' freedom lies in the law.[26]

Indeed, citizens in a *Rechtsstaat* have more than legally based civil liberties and freedoms: They can use the courts – and now in most liberal democracies an ombudsperson or equivalent – to seek restitution from any abuse, neglect, or unfairness by state officials. It is worth stressing that the creation of a *Rechtsstaat* was an achievement of nineteenth-century liberals (especially but not exclusively in Europe), paralleling their initiation of responsible government. Yet, because universal suffrage or even universal male suffrage often came much later, the emergence of a *Rechtsstaat* in the West came long before full **democratization**.[27]

A country cannot be considered a liberal democracy if it lacks a *Rechtsstaat*. Nor can the state be weak in the sense discussed in Chapter 3 because, if it is, the geographic areas outside of its effective control are not subject to the rule of law, and, indeed, all democratic rules are not properly enforceable throughout its realm. Colombia has been a paradigmatic example of this problem. Finally, it is not just elections that must be fair, but the whole determination and implementation of government policies. A liberal democracy cannot be said to exist if politicians or bureaucrats exhibit endemic corruption. Political corruption has received increasing analysis over the past decade or so, in particular by the Berlin-based Transparency International organization, which produces annual rankings of countries in terms of their level of corruption or lack of it.[28] Similar to the point that a liberal democratic state must have full civil liberties, the notion that it must also be a well-functioning state was not dealt with by political analysts several decades ago, or perhaps meeting this standard was just assumed to have occurred, especially as the focus was often on Western countries only. But this aspect is now assessed in many international comparisons of democracy.

Finally, let us stress again that, of the five elements of liberal democracy, the first three – responsible government, free and fair competition, and full and equal rights of political participation – are needed in the contemporary world for a state to be considered an electoral democracy as opposed to an autocracy. One of the main international texts laying out these factors is the 1990 Copenhagen Document of the Conference on Security and Co-operation in Europe.[29] Later in this chapter the key article of this document is provided in full as a detailed "check list" of the components of electoral democracy. That said, historically, all electoral democracies in the sense of regimes with responsible government and free and fair competition would have lacked the universal and equal suffrage aspect considered a requirement of democracy today. Consequently, in Chapter 9 we shall introduce the qualified notion of a "moderately inclusive electoral democracy."

POLITICAL REGIMES IN THE WORLD TODAY

Even if most, if not all, of the five elements of liberal democracy tend to go together, they are conceptually and empirically separate. In particular, we have noted that civil liberties can exist under autocracy. Thus, just as we can distinguish liberal democracies from electoral democracies, we can distinguish what we shall call *semi-open autocracies* from *closed autocracies*. A semi-open autocracy has a political opposition of some elected significance – that is, say, 15 per cent or more of the seats held by national parties opposed to the regime[30] – and some genuine civil liberties. A closed autocracy tolerates no or next to no political opposition and has no civil liberties or next to none.[31] The term "semi-open" as opposed to simply "open" is used to connote the fact that, in semi-open autocracies, there are fewer civil liberties than in a liberal democracy or, indeed, in most electoral democracies.

To repeat, in an electoral democracy, regular, free elections are held and conducted properly and are sufficiently fair that the outcome reflects a competitive process. There may be some constraints in terms of local campaigning or media access and/or localized voting irregularities that would not be found in a liberal democracy. In contrast, though, in a semi-open autocracy, multi-party/multi-candidate elections are definitely held but the freedom to run is restricted and/or the fairness is limited so as to effectively prevent a truly competitive process (indeed, there may be serious irregularities in the voting and counting process), and/or the elections do not determine directly or indirectly the key position of political power. That said, sometimes in a semi-open autocracy a unified opposition can win despite all its handicaps (especially if the ruling party is divided) and a regime transition (see Chapter 9) occurs. Finally, in a closed autocracy, elections are simply not held, or there is only one choice, or if there are multi-party/multi-candidate elections these are blatantly unfair. Consequently, the government will "win" a supermajority of votes (more than 70 per cent up to all the votes).[32]

Table 4.2 outlines four regime types, each with decreasing levels of democracy from left to right. Consequently, a liberal democracy is the most democratic regime type, and a closed autocracy is the least; a closed autocracy is thus the antithesis of a liberal democracy. Electoral democracies and semi-open autocracies fall between these two extremes, having some to most civil liberties but lacking both the full civil liberties and, in particular, the strong rule of law found in liberal democracies. Again, though, the key distinction between an electoral democracy and a semi-open autocracy is that, in the former, the government can be voted out and thereby replaced, whereas in the latter it effectively cannot. The concept of a semi-open autocracy parallels Ottaway's description of a "semi-authoritarian regime":

> The most important characteristic of semi-authoritarian regimes is the existence and persistence of mechanisms that effectively prevent the transfer of power through elections from the hands of the incumbent leaders or party to a new political elite or organization. It is the existence of such mechanisms that makes the term *semi-authoritarian* more appropriate

Table 4.2 Democracies and Autocracies as Regime Types

	Liberal Democracy	Electoral Democracy	Semi-open Autocracy	Closed Autocracy
Political Parties and Elections and Overall Political Opposition	Free and fair competition involving two or more parties; citizens can change their government through elections; an open and usually strong political opposition	Two or more parties exist; open political opposition; citizens can change their government through elections, but elections are sometimes not completely free and fair	Usually more than one party; limited political pluralism and consequent political opposition; however, national elections are not free and fair enough to actually change the government (or do not determine the government)	Either one official party or all parties are forbidden, although political independents can sometimes be elected if they are not openly anti-regime
Socioeconomic Pluralism	Many autonomous actors in the economy and broader society (of course, not all have equal political influence)	Often quite extensive social and economic pluralism	Some social and economic pluralism, perhaps pre-dating the autocratic regime	No significant social pluralism; usually some economic and religious pluralism
Civil Liberties	Full civil liberties	Civil liberties are usually incomplete if not limited	Civil liberties are limited or at best incomplete	No or next to no civil liberties
Ideology	Emphasis on civilian authority, the rule of law, individualism, and minority rights	Usually no formal guiding ideology	No formal guiding ideology; at best distinctive tendencies	No formal guiding ideology unless totalitarian; usually nationalistic
Mobilization	Participation largely generated autonomously by civil society and by competing parties	Participation largely generated autonomously by civil society and by competing parties	Participation largely generated autonomously by civil society, but with some restrictions	Emphasis on demobilization, except at some historical points
Legitimacy of Authority	Legitimacy comes from legal-rational authority, even if some leaders may be aided by their personal charisma	Legitimacy usually comes from legal-rational authority, although the processes are imperfect	Wide range of legitimizing factors, including the illusion of legal-rational authority	Legitimacy comes from tradition and claims of acting in the national interest
Constraints on Authority	Clearly constrained by the constitution, the courts and the rule of law, a professional bureaucracy, and sociopolitical pluralism	Clearly constrained by the constitution; only somewhat constrained by the courts and the rule of law, the bureaucracy, and sociopolitical pluralism	Constrained only somewhat (if at all) by the constitution, courts, the rule of law, and the bureaucracy; constrained more by sociopolitical pluralism, especially the independent media	A leader or perhaps a small group enjoys legally undefined limits but, in fact, is somewhat constrained by the bureaucracy, the military, and economic actors

(*Continued*)

Table 4.2 (Continued)

	Liberal Democracy	Electoral Democracy	Semi-open Autocracy	Closed Autocracy
Political Accountability to Population	Definite political accountability to the voters at elections and to society in an ongoing sense	General political accountability to the voters at elections and to society in an ongoing sense	No true political accountability	No political accountability
Leadership Duration	Leaders must subject themselves to periodic free and fair elections; transitions are legitimate and smooth	Certain political leaders must subject themselves to periodic elections; tutelary actors are shielded from this	Individual leaders may well be of limited duration; often, elections "confirm" new leader, however produced	Leadership usually for life unless overthrown
Transition to (Liberal) Democracy		Usually a gradual removal of selected remaining barriers	A variety of scenarios; however, a stable, negotiated transition can occur in competitive autocratic regimes with developed civil societies	Needs to go first through a semi-open autocratic phase with some sociopolitical pluralism, unless defeated in war and occupied by a foreign power willing to democratize

Source: Based, in part, on concepts in Juan J. Linz and Alfred Stepan, *Problems of Democratic Transition and Consolidation: Southern Europe, South America, and Post- Communist Europe* (Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1996), Table 3.1 and 4.2, with modifications.

> than any that contains the word *democracy* – if power cannot be transferred by elections, there is little point in describing a country as democratic, even with qualifiers. These mechanisms for blocking power transfers function despite the existence of formally democratic institutions and the degree of political freedom granted to the citizens of the country. Semi-authoritarian states [semi-open autocracies] may have a reasonably free press. The regime may leave space for autonomous organizations of civil society to operate, for private businesses to grow and thus for new economic elites to arise. The regime may hold fairly open elections for local or regional governments or even allow backbenchers from the government party to be defeated in elections … [However,] there is no way to challenge [successfully] the power of the incumbents. At the center, competition is a fiction; even if elections are held, outsiders are not allowed to truly challenge the power of the incumbents. Elections are not the source of the government's power [even if they are claimed as such for the purposes of legitimization], and thus voters cannot transfer power to a new leadership.[33]

Table 4.3 classifies all of the countries of the world into the four regime types listed in Table 4.2 based on each country's situation as of the end of 2021. We find 39 cases of liberal

Table 4.3 Democracies and Autocracies (as of the end of 2021)

Total Regimes = 195

LIBERAL DEMOCRACIES (N = 39)				
Andorra	Chile	Iceland	Netherlands	Spain
Australia	Costa Rica	Ireland	New Zealand	Sweden
Austria	Czech Republic	Italy	Norway	Switzerland
Bahamas	Denmark	Korea, South	Portugal	Taiwan
Barbados	Estonia	Latvia	Saint Kitts and Nevis	United Kingdom
Belgium	Finland	Lithuania	Saint Lucia	United States
Canada	France	Luxembourg	San Marino	Uruguay
Cape Verde	Germany	Micronesia	Slovenia	
ELECTORAL DEMOCRACIES (N = 67)				
Antigua and Barbuda	Dominica	Kosovo	Namibia	Seychelles
Argentina	East Timor	Lebanon	Nauru	Slovakia
Armenia	Ecuador	Lesotho	Nepal	Solomon Islands
Belize	Gambia	Liberia	Nigeria	South Africa
Bhutan	Ghana	Liechtenstein	North Macedonia	Sri Lanka
Bolivia	Greece	Malawi	Palau	Suriname
Botswana	Grenada	Maldives	Panama	Trinidad and Tobago
Brazil	Guyana	Malta	Paraguay	Tuvalu
Bulgaria	India	Marshall Islands	Peru	Ukraine
Burkina Faso	Indonesia	Mauritius	Poland	Vanuatu
Colombia	Israel	Mexico	Romania	Zambia
Croatia	Jamaica	Moldova	Samoa	
Cyprus	Japan	Mongolia	Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	
Dominican Republic	Kiribati	Montenegro	São Tomé and Príncipe	
SEMI-OPEN AUTOCRACIES (N = 48)				
Albania	Fiji	Ivory Coast	Mozambique	Singapore
Algeria	Gabon	Jordan	Niger	Tanzania
Angola	Georgia	Kenya	Pakistan	Thailand
Bangladesh	Guatemala	Kuwait	Papua New Guinea	Togo
Benin	Guinea-Bissau	Kyrgyzstan	Philippines	Tonga
Bosnia-Herzegovina	Haiti	Madagascar	Russia	Tunisia
Central African Republic	Honduras	Malaysia	Senegal	Turkey
Comoros	Hungary	Mauritania	Serbia	Uganda
Congo, DR	Iran	Monaco	Sierra Leone	Zimbabwe
El Salvador	Iraq	Morocco		
CLOSED AUTOCRACIES (N = 41)				
Afghanistan	China	Ethiopia	Nicaragua	Syria
Azerbaijan	Congo, R	Guinea	Oman	Tajikistan
Bahrain	Cuba	Kazakhstan	Qatar	Turkmenistan
Belarus	Djibouti	Korea, North	Rwanda	United Arab Emirates
Brunei	Egypt	Laos	Saudi Arabia	Uzbekistan
Burundi	Equatorial Guinea	Libya	Somalia	Venezuela
Cambodia	Eritrea	Mali	South Sudan	Vietnam
Cameroon	Eswatini	Myanmar	Sudan	Yemen
Chad				

democracy. Next, 67 countries are electoral democracies without being liberal democracies. Elections are still central for determining who has power, but these countries lack full civil liberties or a clear rule of law. A few of these electoral democracies, especially in Latin America, also have incomplete civilian control over their militaries (see Chapter 2). Liechtenstein is classified here because of the continuing real political power of its Grand Duke, a fact made explicit in its constitutional revision of 2003 and effectively accepted by the voters when the referendum of 2012 – to eliminate the royal veto over legislation passed in referenda – was unsuccessful. Next are 48 semi-open autocracies. These include Singapore, which will be discussed in Chapter 8. Singapore is known for its efficient, incorrupt bureaucracy, but the country remains dominated by a People's Action Party (PAP) that maintains power, in part, by harassing and intimidating the political opposition. Another semi-open autocracy, Monaco (where the government, led by a French national civil servant, is accountable to the prince but not to the freely and fairly elected legislature), is worth noting for its "liberal" extension of civil liberties to citizens, who certainly enjoy these to a greater extent than in almost all electoral democracies. A similar point can be made for Tonga. Finally, 41 countries are closed autocracies. Of these closed autocracies, several do not hold popular national elections at all (Afghanistan, Brunei, China, and Saudi Arabia) or have not yet since independence (Eritrea and South Sudan), or only have non-partisan elections with restricted suffrage (Qatar and the United Arab Emirates); the rest are one-party systems or hegemonic party systems that allow very little opposition, elected or otherwise, or are currently under military rule or control. Overall, the first two categories combined give us 106 of the world's 195 regimes, or 54 per cent. This is a reasonable breadth of democracy. On the other hand, only a little more than a fifth of the world's regimes are liberal democracies, and this number has clearly decreased over the last decade. Moreover, the category with the most growth in recent years has been that of semi-open autocracies.

To repeat, this list is the way the countries line up as of the end of 2021. Of course, individual countries have shifted (and will shift) categories over time. For example, Mexico was a semi-open autocracy through the early 1990s, in as much as national elections were clearly not fair. They got "better" starting in the 1970s, but even as late as the 1988 presidential election most independent observers assumed that votes and vote totals were doctored to produce a win for Carlos Salinas, the candidate of the ruling Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI). However, by the 1990s – in part due to an independent electoral commission established by constitutional reform in 1990 and made fully autonomous from the executive in 1996 – Mexican elections were increasingly free and fair, a change that culminated in the victory of Vincente Fox of the opposition PAN in the 2000 presidential election. The PRI returned to power in 2012, in a free and fair election, and then lost the presidency again in 2018. That said, Mexico is an electoral and not a liberal democracy because of serious and interrelated problems

with civil liberties, geographic penetration of the state, the rule of law, and corruption – much of which are related to its drug cartels.

BEYOND LIBERAL DEMOCRACY?

Despite the fact that only a minority of regimes worldwide are liberal democracies, one can argue (especially if one lives in such a system) that political systems can still do better in some ways. We have already noted that democracies function indirectly in that elected representatives make the decisions. Thus, one way in which a system could go beyond liberal democracy is to have a more *direct democracy*, in which the population as a whole makes decisions on specific issues. Switzerland, in fact, decides most controversial issues this way. Deciding policy by ballot also happens at the state level in parts of the United States, especially in its western states (most notably Oregon and California). However, because direct democracy is rarely combined with compulsory voting, the "population as a whole" actually boils down to whomever shows up to vote; in Switzerland, this is normally less than 50 per cent of eligible voters, basically the better off and more educated ones. Moreover, referenda on policy issues often involve large sums of money being spent to sway the voters, and it is no surprise that, most of the time, the side with more money is the victorious one.

A more substantive but still hardly universal critique of liberal democracy is that it is focused on political *procedures* and not *policy outcomes*; in other words, it may involve accountable, competitive, and procedurally fair government, but there is no guarantee that the policies produced by such a government are substantively equal to everybody, for example, in providing equal access to health care and education.[34] In this vein, Huber, Rueschemeyer, and Stephens distinguish between formal and social democracy; the latter also involves high levels of political participation across all social categories (what they call separately "participatory democracy") and "increasing equality in social and economic outcomes." For them, the key factors leading from formal democracy to social democracy are working-class organization in terms of political parties, trade unions, and peasant leagues, as well as an effective state that is autonomous from the dominant socioeconomic interests. These combine to produce the welfare state policies that are central to social democracy.[35] Of course, a list of such social democracies would be rather brief and largely drawn from Northern Europe – in short, a tiny subset of all democracies or even of all liberal democracies.

THE COPENHAGEN DOCUMENT

The Organization for Security and Co-operation in Europe (OSCE), previously the Conference on Security and Co-operation in Europe (CSCE), groups together the countries of Europe, post-Soviet Central Asia, and Canada and the United States. On June 29, 1990, the

member-states adopted the Document of the Copenhagen Meeting of the Conference on the Human Dimension of the CSCE, more commonly known simply as the Copenhagen Document. Within this document are wide-ranging commitments to democratic practices, including commitments to hold genuinely free and fair elections and to invite CSCE (now OSCE) observers to scrutinize one's own elections so as to enhance democratic electoral processes. Although not phrased for the purpose of defining democracy, this document speaks thoroughly to the concept of electoral democracy and outlines various of its aspects. Parts of Articles 5 and 6 and especially Article 7 are the most definitional:

(5.4) [An essential element of justice is] a clear separation between the State and political parties; in particular, political parties will not be merged with the State …
(6) The participating States declare that the will of the people, freely and fairly expressed through periodic and genuine elections, is the basis of the authority and legitimacy of all government …
(7) To ensure that the will of the people serves as the basis of the authority of government, the participating States will
(7.1) hold free elections at reasonable intervals, as established by law;
(7.2) permit all seats in at least one chamber of the national legislature to be freely contested in a popular vote;
(7.3) guarantee universal and equal suffrage to adult citizens;
(7.4) ensure that votes are cast by secret ballot or by equivalent free voting procedure and that they are counted and reported honestly with the official results made public;
(7.5) respect the rights of citizens to seek political or public office, individually or as representatives of political parties or organizations, without discrimination;
(7.6) respect the right of individuals and groups to establish, in full freedom, their own political parties or other political organizations and provide such political parties and organizations with the necessary legal guarantees to enable them to compete with each other on a basis of equal treatment before the law and by the authorities;
(7.7) ensure that law and public policy work to permit political campaigning to be conducted in a fair and free atmosphere in which neither administrative action, violence nor intimidation bars the parties and the candidates from freely presenting their views and qualifications, or prevents the voters from learning and discussing them or from casting their vote free of fear of retribution;
(7.8) provide that no legal or administrative obstacle stands in the way of unimpeded access to the media on a non-discriminatory basis for all political groupings and individuals wishing to participate in the electoral process;
(7.9) ensure that candidates who obtain the necessary number of votes required by law are duly installed in office and are permitted to remain in office until their term expires or is otherwise brought to an end in a manner that is regulated by law in conformity with democratic parliamentary and constitutional procedures.

Table 4.4 Annual/Biennial Index Surveys of Levels of Democracy

	Frequency	Geographic Coverage	Summary Categories	Underlying Scale
Economist Intelligence Unit (EIU) Democracy Index	Annual	165 countries and 2 territories	Four categories: full democracy, flawed democracy, hybrid regime, and authoritarian regime	0.00 to 10.00
Freedom House, Freedom in the World	Annual	195 countries and 15 territories	Three categories: free, partly free, and not free	0 to 100
Polity	Annual	163 countries	Three categories: democracy, anocracy, and autocracy	–10 to 10
V-Dem Index*	Annual	202 countries and territories	No overall categories	0.000 to 1.000
International Institute for Democracy and Electoral Assistance (International IDEA)	Biennial	165 countries	Three categories: democracy, hybrid regime, authoritarian regime (with democracy further divided)	0.00 to 1.00

* The V-Dem Index is, in fact, five separate indices of electoral, liberal, participatory, deliberative, and egalitarian democracy; however, the electoral democracy index is part of all the other indices (they each add to it in different ways).

OTHER CLASSIFICATION SCHEMES AND THE POSSIBILITY OF HYBRID REGIMES

In having four categories of regimes, this analysis is similar to those of the Economist Intelligence Unit (EIU) Democracy Index and Lührmann et al. (based on the broader V-Dem Index); see Table 4.4 for the former; for Lührmann et al. the four categories are liberal democracy, electoral democracy, electoral autocracy, and closed autocracy.[36] That said, Lührmann et al. qualify their classifications in that uncertain cases, which thus could be in an adjacent category (lower or higher), are indicated as such. Of course, where there are four categories these could be collapsed into just two categories (in this analysis, democracies versus autocracies). This would seem to match the binary (dichotomous) classification used by Przeworski et al. and Cheibub et al.[37] Yet for the EIU Democracy Index, the second lowest category is not a (qualified) autocracy but a "hybrid regime" (see Table 4.4); however, most of these cases would be called autocratic by other analyses.

For its part, the concept of a "hybrid regime" can have two meanings.[38] In one sense, it can mean including aspects of both democracy and autocracy, without having full democracy (liberal democracy) or full autocracy (closed autocracy). Hybrid regimes thus fall into an intermediate category. In this analysis, both electoral democracies and semi-open autocracies are intermediate categories – however, there is a clear distinction between them. In a second, stronger sense, a "hybrid regime" falls between democracy and autocracy without being

more democratic than autocratic or alternatively more autocratic than democratic even if not fully either. This conceptualization occurs in tripartite classifications such as those of Freedom House and Polity (see Table 4.4). Such classifications cannot be collapsed into two categories.[39] An alternative, or often antecedent, approach to categorization is to score countries on a summary numerical scale. This is obviously more useful for tracking slow changes in a country over time. Finally, classifications vary in terms of the coverage, especially in terms of smaller states. Table 4.4 notes these points for the five ongoing index surveys.

NOTES

1 On direct democracy in Switzerland, see Linder, *Swiss Democracy*, Chapter 3. More generally, see Butler and Ranney, *Referendums around the World*.
2 Przeworski, *Democracy and the Market*, 10.
3 Przeworski, *Democracy and the Market*, 10.
4 Schumpeter, *Capitalism, Socialism, and Democracy*, 269.
5 Schumpeter, *Capitalism, Socialism, and Democracy*, 271.
6 Schumpeter, *Capitalism, Socialism, and Democracy*, 271–2.
7 There are some exceptions here. The Micronesian Congress (constituency members) and the US House of Representatives are elected every two years, and national elections in Australia, Nauru, New Zealand, and Taiwan must be held at least every three years. On the other hand, some Latin American presidents are, or have been, elected for six-year terms.
8 Karl, "Electoralism," 95. See also Schmitter and Karl, "What Democracy Is and Is Not," 78; Karl, "The Hybrid Regimes of Central America."
9 Diamond, *Developing Democracy*, 10–11.
10 Collier and Levitsky, "Democracy with Adjectives," 443.
11 Valenzuela, "Democratic Consolidation in Post-Transitional Settings," 62–3.
12 Linz and Stepan, "Toward Consolidated Democracies," 17–19.
13 On Libya, see Brownlee, Masoud, and Reynolds, *The Arab Spring*, 170–4.
14 Palasik, *Chess Game for Democracy*.
15 On the various practices of electoral manipulation and fraud, see Schedler, "Elections without Democracy"; and Birch, *Electoral Malpractice*.
16 Payne, *The Collapse of the Spanish Republic*, 210.
17 Payne, *The Collapse of the Spanish Republic*, 212.
18 Elklit and Svensson, "What Makes Elections Free and Fair?" 35–7.
19 López-Pintor, *Electoral Management Bodies as Institutions of Governance*.
20 Blais, Massicotte, and Yoshinaka, "Deciding Who Has the Right to Vote," 43–51.
21 Maddison, *The World Economy*, 30.
22 Katz, *Democracy and Elections*, 231.
23 Rokkan, *Citizens, Elections, Parties*, 148–9.
24 Dahl, *Polyarchy*, 2–4.
25 On such practices see Castagnola, *Manipulating Courts in New Democracies*.

26 Schmitt, *Verfassungslehre*, 130, as translated by and quoted in Slagstad, "Liberal Constitutionalism and Its Critics," 106.
27 Linz and Stepan, "Toward Consolidated Democracies," 19.
28 To be more precise, Transparency International ranks countries in terms of *perceived* levels of corruption.
29 The Conference on Security and Co-operation in Europe changed its name to the Organization for Security and Co-operation in 1995, after the collapse of the Soviet Union required it to adopt a new role.
30 In Singapore, opposition parties have fewer seats than this but that is due in part to its highly majoritarian electoral system; Singapore can still be considered a semi-open rather than a closed autocracy.
31 Levitsky and Way call this last group "full authoritarian" regimes, which they note either (1) lack national-level multi-party elections or (2) are hegemonic in that they exclude major opposition parties or candidates from national elections, engage in large-scale vote fraud, or imprison or drive underground or into exile much of the political opposition to the regime – thus reducing elections to a facade. Levitsky and Way, *Competitive Authoritarianism*, 6–7, 365.
32 This is not to say that a party can never win 70 per cent of the vote in a democratic parliamentary election: This has happened in a new democracy when one party groups most of the democratic forces (such as Armenia in 2018) or with a very lopsided result in a two-party system (such as Barbados in 2018).
33 Ottaway, *Democracy Challenged*, 15; italics in original.
34 Handelman, *The Challenge of Third World Development*, 28.
35 Huber, Rueschemeyer, and Stephens, "The Paradoxes of Contemporary Democracy," 324.
36 Lührmann, Tannenberg, and Lindberg, "Regimes of the World (RoW)."
37 Przeworski, Alvarez, Cheibub, and Limongi, *Democracy and Development*; Cheibub, Gandhi, and Vreeland, "Democracy and Dictatorship Revisited."
38 On the general concept of hybrid regimes see Diamond, "Thinking about Hybrid Regimes"; Morlino, "Are There Hybrid Regimes?"; Mufti, "What Do We Know about Hybrid Regimes after Two Decades of Scholarship?"
39 A three-fold classification of Latin American country regimes from 1900 through 2010 as being one of democratic, semi-democratic, or authoritarian is found in Mainwaring and Pérez-Liñán, *Democracies and Dictatorships in Latin America*. They do, though, combine their first two categories into "competitive regimes."

This page intentionally left blank

CHAPTER FIVE

Factors Conducive to Democracy

In This Chapter You Will Learn

- what factors facilitate democracy as opposed to autocracy;
- where quantifiable, the differences between democracies and autocracies and between liberal democracies and electoral democracies on these factors and their statistical significance;
- which factors collectively matter most in terms of where countries rank on the four-category scale of liberal democracy, electoral democracy, semi-open autocracy, and closed autocracy; and
- which countries are thus "logical" end cases of this scale.

OVERVIEW

Our discussion of military intervention in Chapter 2 noted a key role for national **political culture**. Indeed, this point can be broadened to a general discussion of the factors that facilitate **democracy**. Consequently, in this chapter, we build on the classifications of Chapter 4 to assess why some countries are more democratic than others based on various independent variables – that is, historical, socioeconomic, cultural, and demographic causal factors. (Note that we cannot assess why a country is in one category or another based on the political factors used to *define* the categories; to do so would be to commit a tautology.) Our first overall distinction is that between democracies, be they liberal or electoral, and autocracies, be they semi-open or closed. In other words, we are collapsing into two categories – democracy and autocracy – the

four categories defined in Chapter 4. Our second overall distinction of interest is that between liberal democracies and electoral democracies.

POLITICAL DEVELOPMENT AND DEMOCRATIZATION

In Chapter 2, we discussed historical sequences, in particular Dahl's argument about the advantages of establishing free and fair competition before universal male suffrage. This distinction does seem relevant for *prewar* developments. Table 5.1 lists the 70 sovereign states that existed at the start of 1938, that is, just before Nazi Germany's territorial expansion. These are grouped into two categories: democracies and autocracies. (A broader classification of countries in the 1930s is given in Table 10.4 in Chapter 10.) Of the countries that were democracies at that time, the vast majority developed according to Dahl's recommended route. The only major exception was France. On the other hand, Austria and Italy stand out as the only places that established, or at least attempted to establish, free and fair competition before full male participation and yet still wound up ultimately as autocracies. Various other countries in the second category besides those two did have periods of **electoral democracy** prior to 1938, but in none did free and fair competition precede universal male suffrage; instead, participation came before (Germany, Greece) or at the same time as (Argentina, Estonia, Japan, Latvia, Lithuania, Poland, Spain) competition. So, in summary, although having competition come before participation in the prewar era was neither completely necessary nor completely sufficient to maintain democracy, it certainly made it likely. Conversely, taking an alternate route – France excepted – was associated with subsequent democratic failure.

However, as Robert Dix shows, in the *postwar* era the pattern is less clear.[1] Certainly, many places – mostly former British colonies – became sovereign electoral democracies at independence after having had political competition when they were colonies, without or before full participation. Dix lists India, Trinidad and Tobago, Jamaica, and Mauritius,[2] to which one could add other places in the Caribbean. Yet other countries that followed this route, such as Burma/Myanmar, Lebanon, and the Philippines, could not maintain democracy for long periods. Democracy also broke down in both Chile and Uruguay in 1973, even though each had taken the competition-preceding-participation route (especially Chile) and had had decades of competition. Conversely, the establishment and maintenance of democracy was not fatally hindered in Israel by having participation come at the same time as competition. More critically, as Dix points out, by the 1970s the most common pattern for new democracies was neither competition preceding participation nor the direct opposite, but what he calls an "interrupted" pattern. This pattern involved an *earlier* period of some level of competition, which preceded full participation, then a shift to **autocracy** that was followed by a new attempt at **democratization**.[3] Various countries in Southern Europe, post-communist Central and Eastern Europe, and Latin America fit here. Moreover, many of these places also

Table 5.1 The World at the Start of 1938

DEMOCRACIES (liberal and electoral), N = 22				
Australia	Czechoslovakia	Ireland	Norway	United States**
Belgium*	Denmark	Liechtenstein*	South Africa**	Uruguay
Canada	Finland	Luxembourg	Sweden	
Chile*	France*	Netherlands	Switzerland*	
Costa Rica*	Iceland	New Zealand	United Kingdom	
* Suffrage restricted by gender				
** Suffrage restricted by race				
AUTOCRACIES, N = 48				
Afghanistan	Dominican Republic	Hungary	Mongolia	San Marino
Albania	Ecuador	Iran	Nepal	Saudi Arabia
Argentina	Egypt	Iraq	Nicaragua	Soviet Union
Austria	El Salvador	Italy	North Yemen	Spain
Bolivia	Estonia	Japan	Panama	Thailand
Brazil	Germany	Latvia	Paraguay	Turkey
Bulgaria	Greece	Liberia	Peru	Venezuela
China	Guatemala	Lithuania	Poland	Yugoslavia
Colombia	Haiti	Mexico	Portugal	
Cuba	Honduras	Monaco	Romania	

became democracies after the collapse or overthrow of the old autocratic regime rather than through the slow, evolutionary process that Dahl saw as most favourable.[4] Dahl did not deal with interrupted patterns, but they hardly seem implied in his model. Thus, the competition-preceding-participation "advantage" does seem less crucial in the modern era, as does the slow-inauguration "advantage." Finally, competition preceding participation is also a route that is practically impossible today, inasmuch as many autocracies have granted universal suffrage despite or in many cases because of the lack of competition and the potential to rig elections. Indeed, of today's democracies, the last one to follow the competition-preceding-participation route was South Africa, where suffrage was restricted based on race. Of course, by the 1960s, South Africa was being condemned, not praised, for restricting the expansion of its suffrage.

In this context, we can also note the concept of getting "democratization backwards," by which is meant that Western countries had most civil liberties and the rule of law in place before full participation and often before any competition. In contrast, many countries today have competition and participation without having first established the rule of law – Romania, for example.[5] The rule of law may be one of the hardest parts of a **liberal democracy** to create, so perhaps the West was "lucky" to have developed it early on. That said, we should not necessarily assume the Western sequence to have been anything like a conscious strategy. Moreover, it is not clear that the rule of law itself is easier to establish if suffrage is restricted rather than universal. Thus, the notion of getting "democratization backwards" may be more an issue of whether the "hardest part" of democracy was established early on or still remains to be done.

CONTEMPORARY FACTORS CONDUCIVE TO DEMOCRACY

Returning to the contemporary classifications outlined in Chapter 4, we can ask why some countries are more democratic than others. The reasons advanced can be divided into nine areas: (1) political culture and political leadership; (2) the military; (3) the level of development; (4) the nature of the economic system; (5) the cultural legacy; (6) the extent of homogeneity or mitigating factors; (7) population size; (8) geographical and historical factors; and (9) regional factors. Tables 5.2 through 5.4 will provide data on various differences, usually between democracies and autocracies and then between liberal democracies and electoral democracies.

Let us stress in advance that no single factor is sufficient to ensure a democracy, nor does any one of these factors prove to be absolutely necessary, as exceptions exist for each. Consequently, the most crucial factors explaining why one specific country is a democracy or autocracy may differ from those that explain another country's regime.[6] Furthermore, to use words such as "preconditions," "prerequisites," or "requirements" for democracy is incorrect; indeed, the strongest term most social scientists would use is "requisites." However, this term still implies that various factors are necessary for maintaining democracy, just not that these factors are needed in advance of establishing the democratic regime. Because there do seem to be exceptions for each of the following factors, we use the more cautious term "conducive factors."

Political Culture and Political Leadership

We will begin with the self-evident fact that the more political leaders and the people believe in democracy, its institutions, and its values, the more likely a country is to be democratic.[7] In other words, a democratic political culture – that is, one stressing civility, tolerance for opposing views, moderation, pragmatism, and a willingness to compromise – is conducive to democracy, whereas a non-democratic or indifferent political culture makes democracy less likely, both in an immediate context and over the long term.[8] What appears to be particularly crucial is the political culture of a society's political leaders and activists, because they are more likely than the average person to have a clearly developed set of political beliefs, to be actually guided in their actions by their beliefs, and to have a greater influence on political events.[9] It is not a gross oversimplification to note that democracies are usually led by people who believe in democracy and who may well expound on their beliefs, whereas autocracies are led by people who do not believe in democracy and whose actions and words aim to keep their countries autocratic. Thus, what is crucial in individual cases is the nature of political leadership, particularly the post-independence or post-democratization leadership. Where this leadership has been respectful of democratic principles – even at the price of policy goals – and competent, democracy has been more likely to survive. India is a classic example, inasmuch as

> a major reason for India's democratic development was that elites reached out to mass society to raise political consciousness, develop democratic practices, and mobilize participation – both in electoral politics and in a wide range of voluntary organizations. Political leadership and [democratic] ideology were crucial in this process, particularly in the person of Mahatma Gandhi, who emphasized the values of liberty, nonviolent and consensual resolution of conflict, and continuous incorporation of excluded groups.[10]

Gandhi's successor, Jawaharlal Nehru, Costa Rica's José Figueres, and South Africa's Nelson Mandela are other classic examples of leaders who demonstrated effectively their democratic values at a crucial point in their country's development. Figueres, for example, held free and fair elections for a Constituent Assembly after winning the 1948 civil war, accepted the defeat both of his newly drafted constitution and of his candidates for the assembly, and handed power over to his opponents. Conversely, if a country has a monarch unwilling to give up power fully – such as those contemporary non-figurehead monarchs noted in Chapter 2 – then its leadership would tend to favour a traditional autocracy.

That said, the Congress Party in India was atypical of parties struggling for independence in its long history of internal democracy (debate) and desire to represent such a range of groups and ideologies. Moreover, Nehru saw democracy as the one goal whereby India's diverse population could be unified.[11] However, the commitment of most new national leaders to democracy was much less clear, or it evolved. For example, Boris Yeltsin did hold Russia's first democratic parliamentary election in 1993, but only after he had the army shell the parliament and after he held a referendum on a new president-centred constitution, which passed in all likelihood with the padding of votes to meet the turnout requirement. Then in 1996 Yeltsin went back and forth on cancelling outright the presidential election (in which he sought re-election) before ultimately holding it.[12] Crucially, the Russian public was hardly overwhelmingly committed to the new democracy, which would end with Yeltsin's successor, Vladimir Putin.

The Military

As Chapter 2 notes, the military has been a political actor at some time or another in many nations, and it remains a potential threat to democracy in much of Africa and Latin America. Thus to "do something" about the military would definitely be conducive to preserving democracy. Basically, three successful options have been followed (these are in no way mutually exclusive). First, the armed forces of a country may be so small as to have what Robert Dahl calls "virtual insignificance" in a political sense.[13] At the extreme, this insignificance means literally having no armed forces and likewise no military spending. Iceland, for example, has never had any armed forces of its own (even though it is a NATO member). Costa Rica abolished its army in 1948–9, and Panama did likewise in 1994. Of the world's larger countries, the key example of one without an official military is Japan; after World War II, the United States effectively

imposed on Japan a constitution that forbade them from maintaining land, sea, or air forces. Japan has since created a small "self-defence force," but it is both militarily and politically insignificant, most certainly in comparison with the strength and influence of the military in prewar Japan. More generally, even if one's armed forces are large enough to deter what few enemies one has, they can still be small or "insignificant" enough as a share of the population that they could not effectively take over, occupy, and administer the country in the face of civilian opposition or even lack of cooperation. Canada's small armed forces (now numbering 68,000 in a country of 38 million) are an obvious example here. In fact, the peacetime armed forces of both the United Kingdom and the United States prior to World War II were never significant in a numerical sense. Moreover, to the end of the nineteenth century, the armed forces of the United States were essentially local militias, lacking any central control. Central control is needed for a military regime. Citizen militias also played a decentralizing role in the modern histories of other countries, such as Canada, the United Kingdom, and Switzerland.[14]

However, many countries have or have had significant armed forces for security reasons, especially since the rise of large standing armies in eighteenth-century Europe. Consequently, if the first option of an insignificant army is not chosen, and would be foolish to choose given hostile enemies, then the maintenance of democracy requires ensuring that the armed forces are not individually and psychologically apart from and feeling superior to the rest of society. One way to achieve this condition – and the second option overall – is to have an armed force composed of the "population as a whole." This scenario involves calling all or random citizens into the armed forces, normally through either universal or male conscription. These citizens serve a term in the military and may (as in Switzerland) go back annually for manoeuvres, but, throughout their lives, they are definitely citizens and not professional soldiers. The proto-democracy of ancient Athens was certainly facilitated by having such a citizen militia from the seventh century BCE onwards. In contrast, nineteenth-century continental Europe tended to create professional armies with less democratic consequences – a pattern that remains to this day in much of Latin America. Finally, if the armed forces are in fact an organization of lifetime professionals "cut off" socially from the rest of society, then democracy requires providing them with a democratic indoctrination. This indoctrination can be accomplished as part of military training that inculcates loyalty to the constitution and civilian authorities – something that, in their own way, communist countries were and are highly successful in doing. Conversely, as we saw in Chapter 2, if the constitution establishes the armed forces as the ultimate political "umpire" (as has been the case in Latin America), then such indoctrination is next to impossible; instead, an opposite antidemocratic indoctrination is likely to occur. And, as we saw, even if military intervention is not a constitutional "duty," when a professional military is a separate social order that feels superior to civilian authorities (in part due to this professionalism), then the armed forces may resist civilian control and claim a "right" to intervene, as in Pakistan, Thailand, and parts of Africa.[15] Therefore, an antecedent factor in facilitating democracy is a democratic political culture, especially attitudes in favour of civilian rule and

democracy, held by political elites and activists. Such beliefs may have little to do with the level of a country's socioeconomic development (and thus are a separate factor), although they may arise from historical patterns.[16]

Empirically, we can measure the "military participation ratio" of a country, that is, the size of armed forces per 1,000 population. The most recent global figures that can be calculated are for 2020 (using data on the size of armed forces from *The Military Balance*).[17] As is shown in Table 5.2, the mean military participation ratio for all autocracies is 4.632, whereas for all democracies it is 2.983. However, a ***t*-test** here, with equal variances not assumed, yields a value of only −1.774; this measure is thus not statistically significant. Nor does a statistically significant distinction exist between liberal democracies and electoral democracies. However, we can also measure military spending as a share of total government expenditure to see how much each **state** prioritizes the military. Data (for 2020 or the most recent year) are from the SIPRI Military Expenditure Database, with additions.[18] Here we see a more striking difference: The value for autocracies is more than double that of democracies (8.330 vs. 3.587), and a *t*-test yields a value of −6.537, which is significant at the 0.000 level. In contrast, the difference here between electoral democracies and liberal democracies is not a statistically significant one.

The Level of Development

Looking at Table 4.3 in Chapter 4, we see that perhaps the most obvious distinction between democracies and autocracies is that democracies tend to be wealthier. For decades, a link between wealth and democracy has been made by social scientists, especially Seymour Martin Lipset.[19] Moreover, the causal link is clearly from wealth to democracy, not the other way around.[20] Autocracies can often deliver economic growth just as well as democracies can, and sometimes better (think of China in recent decades). However, the significance of wealth to democracy really involves not just wealth per se but broader, related aspects of development: industrialization, urbanization, and related economic diversity; literacy and advanced education; and low infant mortality and a long life expectancy. These various factors produce a society that is not just developed but also *dynamic* (in the sense of having economic growth and social mobility) and *pluralist* (in the sense of having many groups and independent organizations, especially in the economy).[21] However, such dynamism and pluralism will not flow from development if a wealthy country has its wealth concentrated in a few hands; the oil-rich nations of the Middle East that belong to the Organization of Petroleum Exporting Countries are the clearest examples of this qualification. Nor does such pluralism exist under a communist economic system in which individuals and most groups lack independent economic resources.

These various factors of development lead to a broad distribution (as opposed to a concentration) of what Tatu Vanhanen calls "**power resources**." These are the economic, intellectual, and organizational resources that an individual or group can bring to bear in the struggle for political power.[22] In social terms, broadly distributed power resources means a society with a

Table 5.2 Differences in Explanatory Factors between Categories

1. ALL AUTOCRACIES VERSUS ALL DEMOCRACIES

	Total N	Mean for All Autocracies	Mean for All Democracies	*t*-test (equal variances not assumed)	Significance Level (2-tailed)
Military participation ratio per 1,000 population, 2020	195	4.632	2.983	–1.774	0.079
Military expenditure as a share of government spending, 2019 or most recent year	195	8.330	3.587	–6.537	0.000
HDI value, 2019	188	0.645	0.788	7.337	0.000
GNI per capita, most recent year ($US at PPPs)	191	12855	25764	4.527	0.000
Life expectancy, 2019 (years)	191	69.078	75.601	6.696	0.000
Mean years of schooling (population 25 and above), 2019	189	7.229	9.990	6.742	0.000
Median age of population, 2020	195	26.243	33.922	6.412	0.000
Urbanization, 2020 (percentage)	194	53.752	63.938	3.091	0.002
Internet users per 100 population, 2020	193	45.474	68.218	5.738	0.000
Cell phones per 100 population, 2020	193	95.788	113.998	3.605	0.000
GINI coefficient, most recent year	169	39.133	37.945	–0.996	0.321
Ethnic fractionalization (Fearon data)	156	0.524	0.423	–2.476	0.014
Linguistic diversity, 2017 (Ethnologue)	192	0.542	0.369	–4.058	0.000
Intensity of cleavage divisions and related violent conflict (BTI, with additional estimates)	195	5.28	3.25	–7.017	0.000
Total population, 2020 (logged)	195	1.106	0.525	–4.546	0.000
equivalent in millions		*12.754*	*3.348*		
Cool water index (Welzel)	167	0.308	0.517	6.436	0.000
Latitude of the country	195	21.06	28.97	3.382	0.000
Latitude of the capital	195	21.21	28.96	3.302	0.001
Latitude of the centre of population, 2018	195	21.13	29.00	3.383	0.000
Independence before 1930	195	0.22	0.46	3.603	0.000
Temperate-zone established autocentric-development state	195	–0.417	0.350	6.072	0.000

2. ELECTORAL DEMOCRACIES VERSUS LIBERAL DEMOCRACIES

	Total N	Mean for All Electoral Democracies	Mean for All Liberal Democracies	*t*-test (equal variances not assumed)	Significance Level (2-tailed)
Military participation ratio per 1,000 population, 2020	107	3.080	2.817	–0.433	0.666
Military expenditure as a share of government spending, 2019 or most recent year	107	3.781	3.254	–0.884	0.379
HDI value, 2019	103	0.730	0.884	8.084	0.000
GNI per capita, most recent year ($US at PPPs)	106	16619	41887	7.040	0.000
Life expectancy, 2019 (years)	104	72.937	80.158	7.567	0.000
Mean years of schooling (population 25 and above), 2019	104	9.045	11.608	5.906	0.000

2. ELECTORAL DEMOCRACIES VERSUS LIBERAL DEMOCRACIES

	Total N	Mean for All Electoral Democracies	Mean for All Liberal Democracies	*t*-test (equal variances not assumed)	Significance Level (2-tailed)
Median age of population, 2020	107	30.235	40.256	7.949	0.000
Urbanization, 2020 (percentage)	106	57.594	74.674	4.122	0.000
Internet users per 100 population, 2020	107	58.369	85.137	7.672	0.000
Cell phones per 100 population, 2020	107	110.336	120.289	1.813	0.073
GINI coefficient, most recent year	94	40.249	33.947	–3.982	0.000
Ethnic fractionalization (Fearon data)	75	0.515	0.280	–4.613	0.000
Linguistic diversity, 2017 (Ethnologue)	104	0.414	0.294	–2.239	0.027
Intensity of cleavage divisions and related violent conflict (BTI, with additional estimates)	107	3.79	2.33	–5.121	0.000
Total population, 2020 (logged)	107	0.461	0.634	0.831	0.408
equivalent in millions		*2.891*	*4.308*		
Cool water index (Welzel)	84	0.396	0.700	7.568	0.000
Latitude of the country	107	21.49	41.82	6.321	0.000
Latitude of the capital	107	21.64	41.54	6.430	0.000
Latitude of the centre of population, 2018	107	21.63	41.67	6.475	0.000
Independence before 1930	107	0.30	0.74	4.918	0.000
Temperate-zone established autocentric-development state	107	–0.206	1.306	7.440	0.000

large middle class rather than with a sharp divide between a small elite and the impoverished masses – in Barrington Moore's classic phrase, "no bourgeois, no democracy."[23] Developed societies with deconcentrated power resources are conducive to democracy for two reasons. First, this diversity of power resources means that more people and groups can demand a say in the system, resist domination by others, and engage in competition and bargaining with other groups – all while having the resources to do such things effectively.[24] Likewise, it is that much harder for an individual or a small group to suppress its competitors and establish an autocracy. As Vanhanen summarizes, "[t]he concentration of power resources leads to autocratic political structures, whereas the wide distribution of the same resources makes the sharing of power and democracy possible."[25] Second, in developed societies, the greater equality of conditions and socioeconomic opportunities fosters the existence of ideologies of equality (rather than of hierarchy and deference) and positive-sum rather than zero-sum behaviour. In turn, these beliefs and behaviours make it more likely that most people will be willing to share power with others and able to see the point of cooperation – to have, in other words, a predisposition toward the previously mentioned notions of a democratic political culture.[26] Generally, as noted in Chapter 2, those with the most power (the traditional elites) have to feel that they will not lose everything in a more open system; such a feeling is more likely if most of the rest of society consists of people with something to lose and with moderate attitudes rather than with nothing to lose and radical or revolutionary attitudes.

Although this diversity of power resources is most likely to occur in urban industrial societies, it is still possible in more rural ones. The central economic issue here is the pattern of land ownership. When a society is still predominantly rural and most land is owned by relatively few large landowners, then the power resources are too concentrated to favour democracy; autocratic rule is more likely to exist. If the pattern of land ownership is such that most land is held by independent family farmers rather than by large landowners, then a large middle class and, consequently, the diversification of economic resources can arise. Democratic development was facilitated by this typical "family farmer" pattern of land ownership in the British settler societies of Australia, Canada, New Zealand, and the United States, as well as in some of the smaller Western European countries (those of Scandinavia and Switzerland, to be specific).[27] In contrast, land ownership was highly concentrated in most of nineteenth-century Europe, with consequent antidemocratic effects; consider, for example, the role of the Junkers in Prussia and Imperial Germany. A similar concentration of land ownership has been the norm in most of the developing world, with rare exceptions (Costa Rica is one). It is worth stressing that, besides demilitarizing postwar Japan, the United States also effected a major land reform there.

As mentioned, Table 5.2 summarizes the statistical differences between, first, autocracies and democracies, and, second, electoral democracies and liberal democracies. These two sets of groupings are compared in terms of eight different measures of socioeconomic development. First is the United Nations **Human Development Index (HDI)**, with values for 2019. Then there are its key component measures for our purposes: GNI (gross national income) per capita at purchasing power parities for the most recent year, life expectancy for 2019, and years of education of the population age 25 and above for 2019 (but not the expected level for a child starting school, as that will not affect the current regime). Note that a small number of countries are missing in each case.[28] The calculations show statistically significant differences both between the values for all democracies and all autocracies and between those for liberal democracies and electoral democracies for all four measures. Importantly, the overall HDI value shows the strongest relationship, indicating the utility of this broader and thus presumably better measure of development.[29] Years of schooling is also a superior measure to literacy, although the latter is also used in studies of democratization.[30] Literacy can be considered a problematic measure for two reasons. First, we are talking about basic reading and writing ability, not the complex expression of ideas. Second, and more crucially, because literacy is defined as a basic concept in many societies, essentially everyone is deemed to be literate; that is, in many countries a value of 99 per cent is given – though one doubts that all are equally literate.

Next, we can assess a couple of the demographic variables mentioned in Chapter 3: the median age of the population and the level of urbanization (that is, the percentage of the population living in urban areas), both estimated for 2020.[31] Democracies do have older populations and more urbanized societies than do autocracies, and liberal democracies likewise are

older and more urbanized than electoral democracies. However, although these relationships are all statistically significant, those for age are much stronger than those for urbanization.

The last two socioeconomic variables measure communications access, both of which allow for access to alternative sources of information (assuming these are not censored) and facilitate social organization. The first measure is the level of internet access per 100 people as of 2020.[32] (A fivefold assessment of internet access was reported in Chapter 3; see Table 3.9.) The other variable here is the number of cell phones, also per 100 people as of 2020.[33] As Table 5.2 shows, both of these variables are statistically significant in terms of the difference between autocracies and democracies. However, the difference in cell phone usage is statistically significant only between autocracies and democracies; the difference between electoral and liberal democracies is small and statistically insignificant. Finally, to repeat, these eight variables in Table 5.2 in their varying ways tap into the same issue: the level of socioeconomic development. It is not surprising then that all of these variables without exception are statistically intercorrelated in a significant way (at the 0.01 level, two-tailed tests).

In terms of measuring socioeconomic *equality*, most data on family farms is not up to date enough to make a credible cross-national analysis across regime types. However, an alternative measure of equality – and one more crucial for urbanized societies – is the GINI index, which measures income distribution in a country. This ranges from 0 to 1, where 0 indicates a completely equal distribution of income across households and 1 indicates a single household having the entire national wealth and everyone else having absolutely nothing. GINI data exist for 169 countries, so there are gaps. The findings here amount to the inverse of those for cell phones: That is, though the GINI index is higher in autocracies than in democracies, the difference is small and not statistically significant. However, the spread between electoral democracies and liberal democracies is much bigger and is statistically significant. Crucially, the GINI index is actually slightly higher in electoral democracies than in autocracies (means of 40.249 versus 39.133). Two different conclusions are possible here. The first is that there is no direct relationship between equality and electoral democracy, just liberal democracy. The second is that the relationship is a more long-term one between equality and democratic *survival*.[34] In this sense, many contemporary electoral democracies could well be risking breakdown if they remain highly inegalitarian.

The link between development and democracy may be strong, but it is neither completely perfect nor fully deterministic. India is the classic example of a longstanding electoral democracy that is underdeveloped in various socioeconomic ways. In contrast, both Qatar and Singapore have the highest level of socioeconomic development in each of the categories of Table 3.9, but both are still autocracies. These three countries are thus clear "outliers" in terms of the relationship between development and democracy. More generally, if we contrast the list of the least developed nations (Table 3.10) with the list of countries according to regime type (Table 4.3), we see that not only India but also Bhutan, Burkina Faso, East Timor, Gambia, Lesotho, Liberia, Malawi, Nepal, Nigeria, São Tomé and Príncipe, the Solomon Islands, and Vanuatu currently

(end of 2021) combine aspects of underdevelopment with being an electoral democracy (none of them are liberal democracies, though). Conversely, although most of the nations categorized as core economies (with at least five such features) are democracies, Kuwait, Qatar, Singapore, and the United Arab Emirates are not (compare Table 3.7 and Table 4.3).

The Nature of the Economic System

Classical liberalism was as much about securing property rights, free markets, and free trade as it was about securing political freedoms and **responsible government** – and it was certainly more interested in promoting these goals than in advocating universal suffrage. To the extent that democracy involves freedom, and freedom has both political and economic dimensions, we would expect democracies to have market economies. However, autocracies can have market economies as well; a market economy allows an autocratic elite to enrich itself.[35] Such an economic system presumably would be more likely to lead ultimately to democracy than a statist economic system in which economic resources are controlled by the state and thus concentrated power resources. Autocracy is further reinforced if the state-controlled resources are large enough (as in oil-rich autocracies) to fund public spending without, or with less, taxation.[36]

To test this hypothesis, we can measure the role of the state in contemporary economies in terms of the public sector share of GDP, state-owned enterprises as a share of total industry (industrial production or investment), combined government and state-owned industry employment as a share of total employment, and the extent of government regulation of the economy. Data on such variables are not always available for every country, and sometimes there are differences in assessment, but generally most analyses agree in terms of basic national classifications and comparative patterns.[37] Consequently, we shall use here not a single continuous variable but rather two different **dummy variables** reflecting three categories. The first dummy variable, that of a capitalist market economy, is for economies with a predominance of private ownership and low-to-moderate government regulation of the economy. No exclusion is made for having a large welfare state. There are currently 59 countries that are deemed to have capitalist market economies. The contrasting dummy variable is for a statist economy, that is, an economy with significant levels of government ownership, regulation, or overall control of the economy. Of the contemporary world economies, only 30 are clearly statist. All of the remaining economies – the majority (106) – fall in between these extremes, having a mixed capitalist–statist economy or being in transition away from a statist economy, as in China. They form a residual category.

The relationships between economic systems and **political regimes** are quite striking. Of the 59 capitalist market economies, 49 are democracies – with the vast majority of these (36) being liberal democracies – and only 10 are autocracies, with only 4 of these being closed autocracies. Of the 30 statist economies, *every single one* is an autocracy, with the majority (18) being closed autocracies. In each case, a statistical test (**Pearson chi-square**) confirms the

significance of the dummy variable. In contrast, the residual economies divide basically evenly: 57 are democracies and 49 are autocracies.

The Cultural Legacy

It has been argued that British colonialism was more favourable for later democratic development than being a colony of other imperial powers. For example, seeking to explain the strength and durability of liberal democracy in the Commonwealth Caribbean, Sutton argues that "[t]he **Westminster model**, which was bequeathed to all Caribbean countries on independence, has taken root in the Caribbean and enjoyed widespread support. Its persistence is the single most important explanation for the comparative success of democracy in the region."[38] By the "Westminster model," Sutton does not mean executive-dominated **parliamentary systems** (although these are also the "norm" in the Caribbean) but the democratic principles of constitutionalism, limited government, civilian supremacy, competitive elections (which began before independence), and civil liberties.[39] British colonialism generally left behind such features and much greater **political institutionalization** than was the case for the former colonies of other European powers. France comes second in this regard, followed by the Netherlands; at the other extreme, Belgium and Portugal were "the worst" in terms of their imperial legacies. We shall assess this point by looking at the entire list of colonies and protectorates that became independent after 1945 – that is, all countries outside of continental Europe that gained their independence from 1945 onwards. Information about these countries and when they became independent can be found in Table 1.1.[40] The total here is 103 countries. We have divided these into former British colonies or protectorates and all other places. Table 5.3 first compares the current regime of all former British colonies and protectorates that became independent since 1945 with that of all the former dependencies of other imperial powers that became independent since that date. There is indeed a relationship here: Most of the former British colonies and protectorates are now democratic, whereas most (almost two-thirds) of the other places that have become independent since 1945 are now autocracies. This difference is statistically significant. That said, Sutton's specific point about the Westminster model "taking root" is still important: British colonialism planted more democratic roots (including pre-independence legislatures and other institutions) first in the white settler countries of Australia, Canada, New Zealand, and the United States, and then later on in the Caribbean and Pacific, than it did in most of Africa and Asia. These earlier-settled areas inherited the true British colonial legacy. Dag Anckar has emphasized this point: He makes a distinction between "long-time" and "short-time" British colonies – "long time" means having been under British control for 100 years or more at the time of independence.[41] Consequently, the second part of Table 5.3 groups the countries into two categories: former longstanding (long-time) British colonies and protectorates and all other former colonies and protectorates. It shows that the relationship between having been a *longstanding* British colony or protectorate and being a

Table 5.3 Colonial Legacy and Democracies versus Autocracy (for ex-colonies and protectorates that became independent starting in 1945)

MODEL ONE			
Colonial Legacy	Total Democracies End of 2021	Total Autocracies End of 2021	Total Ex-Colonies End of 2021
British	29	20	49
Other	19	35	54
TOTALS	48	55	103
Pearson chi-square is 5.946 (significance level of 0.015).			
MODEL TWO			
Colonial Legacy	Total Democracies End of 2021	Total Autocracies End of 2021	Total Ex-Colonies End of 2021
Longstanding British	17	5	22
Other	31	50	81
TOTALS	48	55	103
Pearson chi-square is 10.575 (significance level of 0.001).			

democracy is highly significant statistically, much more so than in the results gained in the first modelling of the data (**significance level** of 0.001 versus 0.015).

Another aspect of culture that is argued to affect whether countries become democracies or autocracies is their religious heritage. The key factor appears to be the extent to which a religion is hierarchical and dogmatic, traits that do not lend themselves to questioning authority or demanding participation. Certainly, future Canadian prime minister Pierre Trudeau thought in the 1950s that the hierarchical nature of Catholicism was part of the reason Quebec, up until that time, was less democratic than other parts of Canada. As he wrote then,

> French Canadians are Catholics; and Catholics have not always been ardent supporters of democracy. They are authoritarian in spiritual matters; and since the dividing line between the spiritual and the temporal may be very fine or even confused, they are often disinclined to seek truth in temporal affairs through the mere counting of heads. If this be true in general, it is particularly so in the case of the clergy and laity of Quebec, influenced as they were by the Catholicism of nineteenth-century France, which largely rejected democracy as the daughter of the [French] Revolution.[42]

In contrast, Protestantism, some argue, is a much more individualistic religion, and thus Protestant countries are more likely to be democratic. As is the case with theories about the historical sequences of democratization, this point was certainly once empirically valid. The British colonial and religious legacy also fed into power resources given the role of Protestant missionaries in the development and spread of mass education, newspapers, and voluntary

organizations. Indeed, Woodberry argues that Protestant missionaries are what explains the level of democracy in non-Western countries, not British colonialism per se.[43]

Looking again at the democracies and autocracies listed in Table 5.1, we see that, of the various democracies at the start of 1938, over 60 per cent were either Protestant or mixed Protestant–Catholic (usually with the Protestants politically dominant). There were eight Catholic democracies then – Belgium, Chile, Costa Rica, France, Ireland, Liechtenstein, Luxembourg, and Uruguay – although most of these had not yet granted (full) female suffrage (nor, for its part, had mixed Protestant–Catholic Switzerland), and, in Chile, the suffrage was quite restricted. In any case, there were many more than eight Catholic autocracies at the time. In contrast, only three of the 1938 autocracies were dominated by Protestants – Estonia, Germany, and Latvia. It is still the case today that almost all countries in which Protestantism dominates are democracies (except for Eswatini and Tonga), and most are liberal democracies. However, the list of liberal and electoral democracies today contains many Catholic, Orthodox, and non-Christian countries. Certainly, it no longer seems the case that Catholicism tends to work against democracy, in large part due to changes in the Catholic Church in the 1960s that made it much more sympathetic to the poor and oppressed. Religious distinctions now centre more on Islam, because the vast majority of today's 46 majority-Islamic states are either semi-open or closed autocracies. Several, however, are electoral democracies (Burkina Faso, Gambia, Indonesia, Kosovo, Lebanon, and Maldives), while many others have been in the past (Albania, Bangladesh, Comoros, Iraq, Kyrgyzstan, Malaysia, Mali, Niger, Pakistan, Senegal, Sierra Leone, Tunisia, Turkey, and briefly Mauritania).

Some scholars focus on developmental aspects rather than on religion as an explanation for the number of Islamic-dominated autocracies, noting that Muslim societies are generally either underdeveloped or have highly concentrated oil-based wealth – neither of which are socioeconomic situations favouring democracy.[44] Yet socioeconomic factors only explain part of the story in terms of the correlation between Muslim societies and autocracy.[45] Moreover, the relationship is much clearer for Arab countries than for all Muslim ones.[46] Why? Eric Chaney has contributed an important observation: Muslim democracies tend to be at the geographic edges of the Muslim world,[47] and they adopted Islam by choice. In contrast, the countries at the geographic core of the Muslim world were conquered by the early caliphs and had Islam imposed on them. More crucial was the imposition of political institutions, especially of Islamic laws that compelled power sharing between the military and religious leaders, both committed to maintaining the political status quo to the exclusion of all other potential centres of political power, such as a merchant class. The state was thus highly centralized, with slave armies, and civil society was weak. Where these patterns lasted, autocracy became well entrenched. Specifically, Chaney defines the area of "Arab conquest" as those countries that had at least half of their current landmass conquered by Arab armies by 1100 CE and were thus ruled for centuries by Muslim dynasties. His other criterion is that these dynasties had to still rule in both 1500 CE and 1900 CE. (Spain, therefore, is excluded because its Muslim political

institutions vanished centuries ago.) Chaney's "persistent boundaries of the Islamic world" from 1100 CE today comprises 29 countries wherein democracy was quite rare as of 2010.[48]

Ahmet T. Kuru would agree on the negative effect of this ulema-state alliance (as he calls it), but he stresses the lack of not just an independent middle class but also intellectuals free to propose new ideas and, along with the middle class, create new institutions. Thus, whereas Barrington Moore's classic argument was 'no middle class, no democracy' ("No bourgeois, no democracy," op. cit.), Kuru broadens this to argue "no intelligentsia/bourgeoisie, no development."[49] Kuru also notes how Spain during the long period of the Inquisition involved a similar alliance between the clergy and the aristocracy that likewise impeded development.[50]

Ethnic Homogeneity and Political Polarization

All other things being equal, it is reasonable to assume that the agreements and compromises needed to make democracy work and survive are easier if the society is not sharply divided, with each side feeling that the other threatens its goals and underlying values. Although such polarization can be conceived of in class terms, it is important to remember that many economic issues can be dealt with by "splitting the difference," that is, by setting program spending, tax levels, or specific tariffs at the halfway level between what two opposing groups want. Compromise can be achieved if there is a collective will. In contrast, one cannot split the difference in terms of the number of official languages or religions in a country. Consequently, when a society is very heterogeneous in ethnocultural terms, we expect democracy to be less likely to survive.

To investigate this hypothesis, we first must make a basic distinction between homogeneous and heterogeneous societies, with the former being defined as one in which the dominant ethnolinguistic group is at least 70 per cent of the total population and all other groups are each below 10 per cent of the total population. Defined as such, homogeneous countries currently number 77 and heterogeneous countries 118. The 77 homogenous countries are mostly democratic (52 democracies versus 25 autocracies), whereas the heterogeneous countries lean slightly to autocracy (55 democracies, 63 autocracies). If one prefers a continuous rather than a dichotomous measure, Fearon has provided values on ethnic fragmentation for 156 countries.[51] These fractionalization scores range from 0.000 (perfect ethnic homogeneity) to 1.000 (complete ethnic fragmentation) for each country. As Table 5.2 shows, the mean ethnic fragmentation scores for all autocracies (with data) is 0.524, whereas for all democracies it is 0.423, with the difference statistically significant. The difference is likewise statistically significant between the values for electoral democracies and liberal democracies. More complete country coverage is available using the linguistic diversity measure from the *Ethnologue* encyclopedia, which includes 192 of our countries.[52] As shown in Table 5.2, the patterns are confirmed with the almost-complete country set: Democracies are less diverse linguistically than autocracies, and liberal democracies are clearly less diverse than electoral ones. Phrasing these patterns the reverse way, one sees that autocracies are more heterogeneous than democracies, and electoral

democracies are even more heterogeneous when compared to liberal democracies. Of course, the relationship is far from perfect. There are certainly many "homogeneous autocracies"; for example, one cannot get much more homogeneous than North Korea. Conversely, one can find various cases of heterogeneous democracies, such as Canada.

It is important to note here that there are ways to mitigate ethnocultural pluralism if the political elites (including the constitution drafters) are willing to do so. The most comprehensive way has been argued to be a system of **consociational democracy** (or consociationalism). This political system is based on power sharing as opposed to majoritarianism, and it involves four aspects: (1) rule by a grand (broad) coalition; (2) mutual and thus minority vetoes on all sensitive issues; (3) proportionality not just in the cabinet but also in the civil service and official agencies and boards; and (4) local autonomy, including ultimately **federalism** where the various groups are geographically concentrated.[53] The classic cases of consociationalism are the small but divided European countries of Austria, Belgium, the Netherlands, and Switzerland, all of which reached their "high point" of consociational development in the late 1950s.[54] Key aspects of consociationalism still exist today in Belgium and to a lesser extent in Switzerland, but Austria and the Netherlands have become much more homogeneous as previous "cleavages" or divisions have lessened or even vanished. Arend Lijphart argued that there were many elements of consociationalism in India, which helped to explain the survival of democracy in that diverse, "subcontinental" country.[55] Even if complete consociational democracy is not implemented, the use of some of its more flexible aspects – such as federalism, or at least some form of regional government where the minorities form a local majority – can accommodate ethnocultural divisions.

Conversely, the political elites may not be willing to accommodate ethnolinguistic differences. They may even exacerbate them in a country. And even an ethnically homogeneous society can be sharply divided over public policies – even if it finds splitting the differences easier. At the extreme are polarized societies in which political conflicts become violent, up to and including civil war. The extent of such polarization and conflict is measured for most developing countries in the "conflict intensity" scores (from 1 to 10, with 10 the most intense) in the Bertelsmann Transformation Index (2020).[56] For all missing countries estimates were made. The data in Table 5.2 indeed show that the intensity of cleavage divisions and related violent conflict is much higher in autocracies than democracies, and likewise is much higher in electoral democracies than in liberal democracies – in both cases the relationship is very significant statistically. That said, there is a clear inverse relationship between the intensity of cleavage divisions and related violent conflict and the median age of the population (r = −0.508), reflecting perhaps greater violent conflict in countries with young populations.

Population Size and Island Status

One factor relating to democracy that social scientists did not emphasize much early in the postwar era but that they have stressed in recent decades is population size. Many countries

that became independent in the 1970s and 1980s are small, and democracy has survived in most of these. Smallness is normally defined by population size, as opposed to area. Still, scholars differ somewhat on what is meant by a "small" population. The most common procedure is to use a population cut-off of 1 million, as Dag Anckar and likewise Jack Corbett and Wouter Veenendaal do.[57] Empirically, using 2020 populations (from Table 3.4) and the current distribution of regimes, the 38 countries with fewer than 1 million people divide into 32 democracies and 6 autocracies (so a 5.33:1 ratio in favour of democracies), whereas the 157 countries with more than a million people are divided more or less evenly into 83 autocracies and 74 democracies.

Still, one can assess actual population as well as a given breakpoint of smallness. However, because national population levels are so skewed, in Table 5.2 the population values (in millions) for 2020 are logged. The average logged population for all democracies is 0.525, whereas the average logged population for all autocracies is 1.106. As noted in the table, the equivalent "real" numbers are averages of 3.348 million people for all democracies and 12.754 million people for all autocracies; thus, autocracies have, on average, well over three times the population of democracies. The *t*-test of the logged population, with equal variances not assumed, shows that this difference in size between democracies and autocracies is statistically significant. In contrast, there is little difference in logged population between electoral democracies and liberal democracies: Liberal democracies are actually slightly more populous with an average logged population of 0.634 (that is, 4.308 million people), whereas electoral democracies have an average logged population of 0.461 (that is, 2.891 million people). In any case, this relationship is insignificant statistically given the variance within each group. In summary, democracies, be they electoral or liberal democracies, have smaller populations than autocracies.

A state having a small population is seen to favour democratization for four reasons, some of which are antecedent factors of previous points. First, there is the assumption that small island states and small countries are more likely to be homogeneous than other countries. This assumption is true: The 77 homogeneous countries are smaller, on average, than the 118 heterogeneous ones (with mean logged populations of 0.607 and 0.910, respectively). This difference is also statistically significant at the 0.05 level. Yet there are also some small heterogeneous states, such as Fiji, Mauritius, and Trinidad and Tobago,[58] and certainly ethnic heterogeneity in Fiji is at the centre of its inability to maintain democracy. Second, in small states people have a greater chance of reaching and influencing decision makers, so they develop feelings of political efficacy and participation in politics more. (Although this is not the central explanatory factor for voter turnout, turnout in elections is indeed higher in smaller countries than in larger ones.) Political leaders, in turn, are more attentive to individual citizens in small states.[59] For this reason, Diamond stresses political decentralization in large states as a desirable policy in and of itself, although Dana Ott is more skeptical here.[60] Third, elites in small states are more likely to be cooperative than confrontational.[61] This behaviour occurs, in part, because

the smaller number of elites makes it likely that all know each other and, in part, because the country does not want to appear vulnerable to outsiders. Indeed, small size is one of the factors seen to facilitate consociationalism.[62] Fourth and finally, small *island* states have no direct neighbours and thus no hostile neighbours or at least land neighbours; therefore, they can spend less on defence and undertake more easily one of the options for taming military coercion. With the exception of Fiji, no small island state has experienced a military coup. Beyond this, even if a small country is not an island, it may see little point in military spending because it cannot defend itself against a hostile enemy without help (or, to put this point more charitably, it will be unlikely to have an aggressive military posture vis-à-vis its neighbours). The assumption here is that there will be less militarization in small states regardless of whether they are islands.[63] In fact, a **correlation** between population size (logged) and military participation ratios for 2020 yields a statistically insignificant value of 0.074, but the correlation between population size (logged) and military expenditure as a share of government spending is a statistically significant 0.328.

Relatedly, Diamond argues that the greater frequency of both electoral and liberal democracy in former Anglo-American colonies is a spurious result of the fact that these are more likely to be smaller than the former colonies of other powers. As noted earlier, he argues that small countries and especially microstates are likely to be democracies – whether they are former Anglo-American colonies or not (that is, the ratios are basically the same).[64] These points are confirmed in this analysis. The 23 longstanding British colonies noted earlier are heavily skewed to tiny countries – in terms of population, the median country is Guyana, with 786,600 people. The feature of being a longstanding British colony is not a statistically significant predictor of regime type once this factor is controlled for the population threshold (of 1 million). It is, of course, doubtful that the British made a special effort to colonize tiny places, but it does make sense that their tiny colonies would wait longer for independence. Indeed, the remaining dozen or so British Overseas Territories today all have populations of less than 100,000 (the largest is Bermuda at 72,000).[65]

Geographical and Historical Factors

In terms of *geography*, one can note that the areas of Arab conquest in the earlier analysis were and are largely desert. Indeed, democracy and more broadly development tend to be associated with more temperate climates. In particular, Christian Welzel has developed the "cool water theory," wherein democracy first arose in coastal areas with relatively cool temperatures in each season (and only temporary freezing in winter) and year-round rainfall and thus abundant freshwater resources. As such, the vital resource of (potable) fresh water was deconcentrated, as was political power. Moreover, in cool water regions hunter-gatherer societies were viable. Consequently, state formation came later in such coastal areas (compared to the early despotic states of Asia) and was instead more "bottom-up."[66] The opposite geo-climate to a

cool water condition is a very hot and dry condition, or what would be called a dry desert in the Köppen climate classification. Looking at Welzel's cool water index country scores (based on their historically most populated areas) for 167 cases, the mean here is much higher for democracies (0.517) than for autocracies (0.308), and the difference is significant statistically. The *t*-test is even higher for the difference between liberal democracies (mean of 0.700) and electoral democracies (mean of 0.396).

More generally, scholars have argued that latitude affects development broadly and politics specifically, crucially via its relationship to the presence of parasites and infectious diseases – these being much more common at low latitudes. Both life expectancy and infant mortality relate back to the extent of parasite stress. Politically, the extent of parasite stress relates to both collectivism–individualism and autocracy–democracy.[67]

Various measures of latitude exist: the geographic latitude of the country (mean latitude), the latitude of the capital city, and finally the latitude of the centre of population (this being where an equal number of people are north and south of this centre and likewise an equal number are east and west). Table 5.2 shows all three such measures, though given its focus on population (where the people actually live), the latitude of the centre of population seems superior to either that of the country as a whole or that of the capital city. One sees in the table that, regardless of measure, democracies are found at higher latitudes than autocracies and that liberal democracies in particular are found at high latitudes. (The mean latitude of electoral democracies is only slightly higher than that of autocracies.) *t*-tests of the differences are statistically significant for all three measures of latitude, both between democracies and autocracies and between liberal democracies and electoral democracies, and the values are highest for the latitude of the centre of population.

In terms of *history*, we have assessed the colonial legacy of former colonies that have become independent since 1945. The broader factor here is the timing of (first) independence for all countries. The distinctive breakpoint for this would seem to be in the late 1920s (as noted in Chapter 1, from 1927 to 1931 inclusive there were no new countries, cf. Table 1.1). The countries that became independent up through the post–World War I period (that is, up through the predecessor of Saudi Arabia in 1926) not only often struggled for their independence but generally were **de facto states** at the time of their consequent international recognition. As such, they had progressed somewhat along the steps of **political development** (Chapter 2), thus facilitating potential democracy. In contrast, the countries becoming independent since the 1930s have not generally needed to demonstrate de facto status; rather, they have arisen mostly because of decolonization coming from the end of global legitimacy of colonization.[68] We can assess earlier versus later independence at this breakpoint of 1930 (thus a dummy variable). Of the 69 countries with earlier independence, 49 are now democracies (71.0 per cent) and 20 are now autocracies. In contrast, of the 126 countries with late independence, only 57 are democracies (45.2 per cent) whereas 69 are autocracies. The Pearson chi-square value is 11.940, which is significant at the 0.000 level.

Consequently, four factors of geography, history, and economic development can be combined here into what is called being a **temperate-zone established autocentric-development state**. The first factor is the latitude of the population centre of the country (integer value). The second factor is the cool water index value of Welzel, for which estimates are made for missing cases based on their neighbours or their region. The third, dichotomous, factor is whether the country became independent before 1930. The fourth, also dichotomous, factor is whether the country was able to begin successful autocentric development in the nineteenth century. (There were only 18 such countries.) Following Dieter Senghaas, autocentric development combines "self-sustained growth *and* social development … based on an increasingly differentiated (and inter-linked) agro-industry structure."[69] Such development involved more than just early industrialization, and conversely could occur in a sophisticated agricultural exporting economy such as Denmark. The four factors all intercorrelate significantly (at the 0.01 level, two-tailed tests). **Factor analysis** (principal components analysis) thus reduces these four factors to a single **standardized variable** on which Denmark, the United Kingdom, and the Netherlands score the highest. Democracies average a positive value on this standardized variable, whereas autocracies average a negative value. A *t*-test between democracies and autocracies here is highly significant statistically. In fact, though, the positive mean value for democracies is driven by liberal democracies, which average more than one standard deviation from the mean. Electoral democracies actually have a slightly negative mean value. The difference here is highly significant statistically, as is shown in Table 5.2.

Regional Factors

A final observation from Table 4.3 is that the countries that are autocracies tend to be surrounded largely, if not wholly, by other autocracies. Consequently, they can avoid pressure to democratize both from their neighbours and from their own people, who, especially in a semi-open autocracy, could well be aware of the situation in neighbouring countries. (Access to information, of course, is easier today with the spread of communications such as satellite dishes and the internet.)[70] Conversely, there have been "positive regional outliers" – that is, democracies that are more or less surrounded by autocracies, such as India and Israel today (although India is big enough not to be affected easily by its neighbours) or Czechoslovakia in the late 1930s.

If the countries of an area establish an organized regional association *and* if most members of this body are democratic, then they may use the regional organization to try to encourage the spread of democracy or at least to discourage attempts to overthrow current democracies in the region. We see this pattern today on two continents: Europe, via the Council of Europe and the Organization for Security and Co-operation in Europe, and Latin America, via the Organization of American States (OAS). The OAS, along with the United States and others, intervened to neutralize coups in both Guatemala in 1993 and Paraguay in 1996.[71] Even in Africa, where

coups are occurring again, two coups in São Tomé and Príncipe back in 1995 and 2003 each fizzled out after about a week due to opposition from neighbouring West African countries.

A stronger type of regional pro-democracy effect was the foreign pressure or influence of the European Union (EU) on would-be members. EU membership is, in theory, conditional on a country being a liberal democracy – not that the EU uses this precise phrase, but that is what the stated membership criteria comprise, even if the standard of a well-functioning state is not always followed when it comes to minimizing corruption in particular. This membership requirement has acted as a pro-democratic incentive to EU neighbours wishing to join (but only if they thought they had a reasonable chance of admission). However, it seems to have little effect once a country is a member – given that EU member Hungary has fallen from liberal democracy to electoral democracy status[72] to now being a semi-open autocracy.

In contrast to regional organizations that promote democracy or, at least, electoral democracy are those that tolerate or even bolster autocracy. The first such organization is the now 10-member Association of Southeast Asian Nations (ASEAN),[73] founded in 1967, which has always emphasized the **sovereignty** of its members and the parallel doctrine of non-interference in internal affairs, although there has been some modest lessening of this doctrine with regard to Myanmar.[74] The second such organization is the Shanghai Cooperation Organisation (SCO) founded in 2001 by China, Russia, and four of the ex-Soviet Central Asian states (Kazakhstan, Kyrgyzstan, Tajikistan, and Uzbekistan),[75] which recently in 2017 expanded to include India and Pakistan. As Ambrosio argues, this organization emphasizes stability over regime change, opposes external democracy promotion in Central Asia, and, indeed, argues that each country is entitled to its own path of political development. Although this "Shanghai Spirit" does not explicitly forbid democracy in the standard sense of the term (India is currently an electoral democracy, for example), it crucially allows all sorts of "models" of democracy that have nothing to do with or that even counteract the definitional features of liberal democracy presented in Table 4.1.[76]

A MULTIVARIATE ANALYSIS

To keep the analysis simple (or at least simpler), we have focused so far on dichotomies, first between all democracies and all autocracies and then between liberal democracies and electoral democracies. We have also generally looked at the variables in turn without too much focus on the ones that matter most. However, by classifying the categories used in Table 4.3 into a four-point scale (with liberal democracy as "1," electoral democracy as "2," semi-open autocracy as "3," and closed autocracy as "4"), we can make a **multiple regression** analysis of all the quantifiable and dummy variables, which allows us to consider how significant various factors are in collectively explaining regime type – as opposed to the many individual factors in Table 5.2. The results are reported in two ways in Table 5.4. Model One assesses just

Table 5.4 Regressions on Regime Type (1 to 4 scale)

MODEL ONE	B	Std. Error	t	Significance Level
Non-figurehead monarch (dummy variable)	1.048	0.184	5.695	0.000
Military expenditure as share of government spending, 2020 (or most recent year)	0.032	0.010	3.132	0.002
Intensity of cleavage divisions and related violent conflict (BTI, with additional estimates)	0.081	0.026	3.050	0.003
Temperate-zone established autocentric-development state	–0.261	0.062	–4.237	0.000
Capitalist market economy (dummy variable)	–0.494	0.131	–3.759	0.000
Statist economy (dummy variable)	0.679	0.144	4.703	0.000
Population below 1 million, 2020 (dummy variable)	–0.368	0.137	–2.687	0.008
Constant	1.982	0.152	13.007	0.000
N = 195				
Adjusted r^2 = 0.614				

MODEL TWO	B	Std. Error	t	Significance Level
Non-figurehead monarch (dummy variable)	0.861	0.184	4.685	0.000
Military expenditure as share of government spending, 2020 (or most recent year)	0.023	0.010	2.286	0.023
Intensity of cleavage divisions and related violent conflict (BTI, with additional estimates)	0.065	0.026	2.536	0.012
Temperate-zone established autocentric-development state	–0.249	0.058	–4.257	0.000
Capitalist market economy (dummy variable)	–0.452	0.125	–3.623	0.000
Statist economy (dummy variable)	0.699	0.137	5.094	0.000
Population below 1 million, 2020 (dummy variable)	–0.289	0.131	–2.207	0.029
In area of longstanding Arab conquest (dummy variable)	0.411	0.148	2.778	0.006
ASEAN member/SCO member (dummy variable)	0.638	0.154	4.131	0.000
Constant	1.961	0.147	13.323	0.000
N = 195				
Adjusted r^2 = 0.653				

domestic or internal factors. The following seven such variables are key: (1) the existence of a non-figurehead monarch dummy variable; (2) the share of military expenditure in government spending; (3) the intensity of cleavage divisions and related violent conflict; (4) the extent of being a temperate-zone established autocentric-development state (standardized variable); (5) the capitalist market economy dummy variable; (6) the statist market economy dummy variable; and (7) the tiny population (below 1 million) dummy variable. These seven variables explain over 60 per cent of the variance in the level of autocracy versus democracy across the four categories. (See the adjusted r^2 for Model One, which is 0.614.) Also, each variable is individually highly significant statistically, even allowing for the other variables.

Interestingly, variables of socioeconomic development are not included here as they are not significant once the aforementioned factors are included (and the linkage between development

and democracy is imperfect, with some 16 of the 65 countries with very high human development in the UN index being autocracies, not democracies). In particular, there is a strong relationship between such socioeconomic development variables and the temperate-zone established autocentric-development state standardized variable (e.g., $r = 0.743$ between this and the HDI value for the 188 countries with an HDI value). Consequently, the temperate-zone established autocentric-development state standardized variable can be viewed as the antecedent variable, leading to *both* high socioeconomic development and to democracy – paralleling the argument of Welzel.

Model Two then adds two further dummy variables to reflect regional factors and assesses the statistical significance of being in these groups on regime type. The first dummy variable (variable 8 overall) identifies the countries being from the area of longstanding Arab conquest, a concept discussed earlier. The second dummy variable (variable 9 overall) groups together the countries that are members of ASEAN or the SCO, as discussed earlier.[77] These two dummy variables increase the variance explained in the type of regime from 61.4 to 65.3 per cent, with each individual variable remaining significant. (See the adjusted r^2 for Model Two, which is 0.653.) Consequently, Model Two is offered as a more thorough explanation for differing political regimes. Table 5.5 provides, for reference, the actual values for each of these aforementioned variables for all countries.

These several variables explaining regime type help us see, for example, that all of the Benelux and Nordic countries are "logical liberal democracies" given their figurehead monarchs (in Benelux and Scandinavia), their limited militarization, their absence of intense cleavage divisions and related violent political conflict, their clearly being temperate-zone established autocentric-development states, and their capitalist market economies. Even more logically, both models predict Luxembourg and Iceland (in that order) – each of which has a tiny population – to be the two most democratic countries. On the other hand, the Middle Eastern monarchies of Oman and Saudi Arabia can serve as a "logical closed autocracies" given their monarchies, which actually rule their countries, their very high military expenditure as a share of government spending, and their being in the area of longstanding Arab conquest. Following up on the earlier point about development and democracy, one should note that both Oman and Saudi Arabia rank very high in the UN Human Development Index; as noted, not all countries that do so are democracies.

Alternatively, also "logical closed autocracies" are Belarus and North Korea, given their statist economies and their very high military expenditure as a share of government spending. In terms of the models, Model One predicts Eritrea (which has the highest military expenditure as a share of government spending and a statist economy) to be the most autocratic country, whereas Model Two predicts ASEAN-member Myanmar (with its intense cleavage divisions and related violent conflict, and its statist economy) to be the most autocratic country.

Of course, some countries are surprising in terms of their regime. In particular, in terms of autocracy versus democracy, Model Two predicts India and Indonesia to be semi-open

Table 5.5 Country Values for Key Variables Relevant to Regime Type, 2021 (or most recent year)

Country	Regime Category, End of 2021*	Non-Figurehead Monarch (dummy variable)	Military Expenditure as Share of Government Spending, 2019 or Most Recent Year	BTI Intensity of Cleavage Divisions and Related Violent Conflict 2020, With Additions	Temperate-Zone Established Autocentric-Development State	Capitalist Market Economy (dummy variable)	Statist Market Economy (dummy variable)	Population Less Than 1 million, 2020 (dummy variable)	In Area of Longstanding Arab Conquest (dummy variable)	ASEAN Member/SCO Member (dummy variable)
Afghanistan	4	0	4.5	9	0.106	0	0	0	1	0
Albania	3	0	4.7	3	0.721	1	0	0	0	0
Algeria	3	0	17.0	6	–0.291	0	1	0	1	0
Andorra	1	0	0.0	2	0.642	1	0	1	0	0
Angola	3	0	7.8	4	–0.980	0	1	0	0	0
Antigua and Barbuda	2	0	2.8	3	–0.565	0	0	1	0	0
Argentina	2	0	1.7	4	0.632	0	0	0	0	0
Armenia	2	0	16.7	3	–0.305	1	0	0	0	0
Australia	1	0	4.6	2	1.902	1	0	0	0	0
Austria	1	0	1.4	3	2.288	1	0	0	0	0
Azerbaijan	4	0	12.7	4	–0.378	0	0	0	1	0
Bahamas	1	0	4.1	2	–0.430	1	0	1	0	0
Bahrain	4	1	12.5	7	–0.130	1	0	0	1	0
Bangladesh	3	0	9.3	7	–0.476	0	0	0	0	0
Barbados	1	0	7.1	2	–0.642	1	0	1	0	0
Belarus	4	0	30.8	3	0.743	0	1	0	0	0
Belgium	1	0	1.8	4	2.580	1	0	0	0	0
Belize	2	0	3.8	2	–0.350	0	0	1	0	0
Benin	3	0	2.7	2	–0.965	0	0	0	0	0
Bhutan	2	1	3.1	2	–0.552	0	0	1	0	0
Bolivia	2	0	4.4	5	–0.218	0	0	0	0	0
Bosnia-Herzegovina	3	0	2.0	5	0.294	0	0	0	0	0
Botswana	2	0	9.5	1	–0.898	1	0	0	0	0
Brazil	2	0	3.2	5	–0.169	0	0	0	0	0
Brunei	4	1	10.7	2	–0.352	0	0	1	0	1
Bulgaria	2	0	4.8	4	1.082	1	0	0	0	0
Burkina Faso	2	0	8.5	7	–1.072	0	0	0	0	0
Burundi	4	0	6.9	7	–1.276	0	1	0	0	0
Cambodia	4	0	10.2	5	–0.734	0	0	0	0	1
Cameroon	4	0	5.8	8	–1.023	0	0	0	0	0
Canada	1	0	2.5	3	2.462	1	0	0	0	0
Cape Verde	1	0	1.5	4	–0.646	0	0	1	0	0
Central African Republic	3	0	8.0	9	–1.264	0	1	0	0	0
Chad	4	0	15.6	6	–0.987	0	1	0	1	0
Chile	1	0	6.3	3	0.279	1	0	0	0	0
China	4	0	4.7	5	0.436	0	0	0	0	1
Colombia	2	0	9.5	6	–0.346	0	0	0	0	0
Comoros	3	0	9.4	6	–0.738	0	0	1	0	0
Congo, DR (Kinshasa)	3	0	6.0	8	–1.276	0	1	0	0	0

(*Continued*)

Table 5.5 (Continued)

Country	Regime Category, End of 2021*	Non-Figurehead Monarch (dummy variable)	Military Expenditure as Share of Government Spending, 2019 or Most Recent Year	BTI Intensity of Cleavage Divisions and Related Violent Conflict 2020, With Additions	Temperate-Zone Established Autocentric-Development State	Capitalist Market Economy (dummy variable)	Statist Market Economy (dummy variable)	Population Less Than 1 million, 2020 (dummy variable)	In Area of Longstanding Arab Conquest (dummy variable)	ASEAN Member/SCO Member (dummy variable)
Congo, R (Brazzaville)	4	0	12.2	8	–1.272	0	1	0	0	0
Costa Rica	1	0	0.0	1	–0.107	0	0	0	0	0
Croatia	2	0	3.7	2	0.620	0	0	0	0	0
Cuba	4	0	4.5	2	0.155	0	1	0	0	0
Cyprus (Greek)	2	0	3.8	3	0.043	1	0	0	0	0
Czech Republic	1	0	2.8	1	2.392	1	0	0	0	0
Denmark	1	0	2.5	2	2.645	1	0	0	0	0
Djibouti	4	0	9.1	3	–0.416	0	0	1	0	0
Dominica	2	0	0.0	2	–0.573	0	0	1	0	0
Dominican Republic	2	0	3.7	3	0.082	0	0	0	0	0
East Timor	2	0	3.1	2	–0.489	0	0	0	0	0
Ecuador	2	0	6.2	3	–0.262	0	0	0	0	0
Egypt	4	0	4.6	7	0.482	0	1	0	1	0
El Salvador	3	0	4.5	4	–0.076	0	0	0	0	0
Equatorial Guinea	4	0	8.4	3	–0.778	0	1	0	0	0
Eritrea	4	0	31.1	5	–0.527	0	1	0	0	0
Estonia	1	0	5.7	3	1.360	1	0	0	0	0
Eswatini	4	1	5.0	4	–0.173	0	0	0	0	0
Ethiopia	4	0	3.2	6	–0.361	0	0	0	0	0
Fiji	3	0	5.1	6	–0.392	0	0	1	0	0
Finland	1	0	2.6	2	2.543	1	0	0	0	0
France	1	0	3.3	3	2.360	1	0	0	0	0
Gabon	3	0	8.5	2	–1.150	0	0	0	0	0
Gambia	2	0	3.0	4	–0.703	0	0	0	0	0
Georgia	3	0	5.6	5	0.010	1	0	0	0	0
Germany	1	0	2.6	2	2.518	1	0	0	0	0
Ghana	2	0	1.3	4	–1.015	0	0	0	0	0
Greece	2	0	4.8	4	0.759	0	0	0	0	0
Grenada	2	0	0.0	2	–0.661	0	0	1	0	0
Guatemala	3	0	2.8	6	–0.053	0	0	0	0	0
Guinea	4	0	8.4	6	–0.972	0	0	0	0	0
Guinea-Bissau	3	0	6.5	4	–0.723	0	1	0	0	0
Guyana	2	0	4.2	5	–0.704	0	0	1	0	0
Haiti	3	0	0.0	6	0.082	0	1	0	0	0
Honduras	3	0	5.8	6	0.081	0	0	0	0	0
Hungary	3	0	3.1	4	1.328	1	0	0	0	0
Iceland	1	0	0.0	1	1.598	1	0	1	0	0
India	2	0	9.1	6	–0.768	0	0	0	0	1
Indonesia	2	0	4.7	5	–0.536	0	0	0	0	1
Iran	3	0	11.7	5	0.072	0	1	0	1	0

Country	Regime Category, End of 2021*	Non-Figurehead Monarch (dummy variable)	Military Expenditure as Share of Government Spending, 2019 or Most Recent Year	BTI Intensity of Cleavage Divisions and Related Violent Conflict 2020, With Additions	Temperate-Zone Established Autocentric-Development State	Capitalist Market Economy (dummy variable)	Statist Market Economy (dummy variable)	Population Less Than 1 million, 2020 (dummy variable)	In Area of Longstanding Arab Conquest (dummy variable)	ASEAN Member/SCO Member (dummy variable)
Iraq	3	0	8.3	9	–0.456	0	1	0	1	0
Ireland	1	0	1.0	3	1.489	1	0	0	0	0
Israel	2	0	12.1	7	–0.061	1	0	0	0	0
Italy	1	0	2.6	2	0.944	1	0	0	0	0
Ivory Coast	3	0	5.0	5	–1.015	0	0	0	0	0
Jamaica	2	0	5.4	4	–0.576	0	0	0	0	0
Japan	2	0	2.1	1	2.244	1	0	0	0	0
Jordan	3	1	14.8	5	–0.586	1	0	0	1	0
Kazakhstan	4	0	4.6	4	–0.243	0	0	0	0	1
Kenya	3	0	4.4	6	–1.211	0	0	0	0	0
Kiribati	2	0	0.0	2	–0.720	0	0	1	0	0
Korea, North	4	0	25.0	2	0.078	0	1	0	0	0
Korea, South	1	0	10.9	2	0.112	1	0	0	0	0
Kosovo	2	0	3.2	5	0.121	0	0	0	0	0
Kuwait	3	1	10.0	4	–0.069	0	0	0	1	0
Kyrgyzstan	3	0	4.5	4	–0.301	0	0	0	0	1
Laos	4	0	0.8	3	–0.990	0	1	0	0	1
Latvia	1	0	5.2	4	1.229	1	0	0	0	0
Lebanon	2	0	10.8	6	0.009	0	0	0	1	0
Lesotho	2	0	3.1	6	–0.053	0	0	0	0	0
Liberia	2	0	1.7	4	–0.135	0	0	0	0	0
Libya	4	0	10.8	9	–0.380	0	1	0	1	0
Liechtenstein	2	1	0.0	1	1.251	1	0	1	0	0
Lithuania	1	0	5.3	1	1.394	1	0	0	0	0
Luxembourg	1	0	1.4	2	2.545	1	0	1	0	0
Madagascar	3	0	3.6	5	–0.645	0	0	0	0	0
Malawi	2	0	3.7	5	–1.068	0	0	0	0	0
Malaysia	3	0	4.2	5	–0.482	1	0	0	0	1
Maldives	2	0	3.6	4	–0.789	0	0	1	0	0
Mali	4	0	12.7	7	–0.979	0	0	0	1	0
Malta	2	0	1.2	4	0.063	1	0	1	0	0
Marshall Islands	2	0	0.0	2	–0.566	0	0	1	0	0
Mauritania	3	0	12.5	5	–0.706	0	0	0	1	0
Mauritius	2	0	0.5	1	–0.584	1	0	0	0	0
Mexico	2	0	1.9	7	0.021	0	0	0	0	0
Micronesia	1	0	0.0	2	–0.604	0	0	1	0	0
Moldova	2	0	1.0	4	0.305	0	0	0	0	0
Monaco	3	1	0.0	1	1.101	0	0	1	0	0
Mongolia	2	0	2.0	2	0.342	0	0	0	0	0
Montenegro	2	0	4.1	3	0.106	0	0	1	0	0
Morocco	3	1	12.2	4	–0.229	0	0	0	1	0

(*Continued*)

Table 5.5 (Continued)

Country	Regime Category, End of 2021*	Non-Figurehead Monarch (dummy variable)	Military Expenditure as Share of Government Spending, 2019 or Most Recent Year	BTI Intensity of Cleavage Divisions and Related Violent Conflict 2020, With Additions	Temperate-Zone Established Autocentric-Development State	Capitalist Market Economy (dummy variable)	Statist Market Economy (dummy variable)	Population Less Than 1 million, 2020 (dummy variable)	In Area of Longstanding Arab Conquest (dummy variable)	ASEAN Member/SCO Member (dummy variable)
Mozambique	3	0	3.4	5	–0.791	0	1	0	0	0
Myanmar	4	0	14.0	9	–0.668	0	1	0	0	1
Namibia	2	0	8.2	4	–0.852	0	0	0	0	0
Nauru	2	0	0.0	2	–0.720	0	0	1	0	0
Nepal	2	0	4.8	6	–0.143	0	0	0	0	0
Netherlands	1	0	2.9	2	2.603	1	0	0	0	0
New Zealand	1	0	3.3	2	2.417	1	0	0	0	0
Nicaragua	4	0	2.2	6	–0.095	0	0	0	0	0
Niger	3	0	7.4	5	–0.983	0	0	0	1	0
Nigeria	2	0	5.0	9	–0.945	0	0	0	0	0
North Macedonia	2	0	3.6	5	0.209	0	0	0	0	0
Norway	1	0	3.5	1	2.592	1	0	0	0	0
Oman	4	1	21.9	3	–0.457	0	0	0	1	0
Pakistan	3	0	17.4	8	–0.544	0	0	0	1	1
Palau	2	0	0.0	2	–0.604	0	0	1	0	0
Panama	2	0	0.0	3	0.057	1	0	0	0	0
Papua New Guinea	3	0	1.8	6	–0.670	0	0	0	0	0
Paraguay	2	0	4.1	4	0.036	0	0	0	0	0
Peru	2	0	4.8	5	–0.092	0	0	0	0	0
Philippines	3	0	4.0	6	–0.381	0	0	0	0	1
Poland	2	0	4.4	3	1.347	0	0	0	0	0
Portugal	1	0	4.2	1	0.686	1	0	0	0	0
Qatar	4	1	4.9	2	–0.146	1	0	0	1	0
Romania	2	0	6.0	3	1.017	0	0	0	0	0
Russia	3	0	11.4	4	1.042	0	0	0	0	1
Rwanda	4	0	5.0	6	–1.238	1	0	0	0	0
Saint Kitts and Nevis	1	0	0.0	2	–0.565	1	0	1	0	0
Saint Lucia	1	0	0.0	2	–0.623	1	0	1	0	0
Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	2	0	0.0	2	–0.642	1	0	1	0	0
Samoa	2	0	0.0	3	–0.469	0	0	1	0	0
San Marino	1	0	0.0	1	0.963	1	0	1	0	0
São Tomé and Príncipe	2	0	2.9	5	–0.950	0	0	1	0	0
Saudi Arabia	4	1	21.7	4	0.105	0	0	0	1	0
Senegal	3	0	5.8	4	–0.699	0	0	0	0	0
Serbia	3	0	4.6	4	0.748	0	0	0	0	0
Seychelles	2	0	3.1	4	–0.873	0	0	1	0	0
Sierra Leone	3	0	2.2	4	–0.827	0	1	0	0	0
Singapore	3	0	11.3	3	–0.490	1	0	0	0	1
Slovakia	2	0	3.5	3	0.574	1	0	0	0	0

Country	Regime Category, End of 2021*	Non-Figurehead Monarch (dummy variable)	Military Expenditure as Share of Government Spending, 2019 or Most Recent Year	BTI Intensity of Cleavage Divisions and Related Violent Conflict 2020, With Additions	Temperate-Zone Established Autocentric-Development State	Capitalist Market Economy (dummy variable)	Statist Market Economy (dummy variable)	Population Less Than 1 million, 2020 (dummy variable)	In Area of Longstanding Arab Conquest (dummy variable)	ASEAN Member/SCO Member (dummy variable)
Slovenia	1	0	2.3	2	0.762	1	0	0	0	0
Solomon Islands	2	0	0.0	5	–0.585	0	0	1	0	0
Somalia	4	0	1.7	10	–0.731	0	0	0	1	0
South Africa	2	0	2.6	4	0.275	0	0	0	0	0
South Sudan	4	0	8.1	10	–1.141	0	1	0	0	0
Spain	1	0	2.7	5	0.748	1	0	0	0	0
Sri Lanka	2	0	10.3	5	–0.712	0	0	0	0	0
Sudan	4	0	8.3	10	–0.926	0	1	0	0	0
Suriname	2	0	2.4	3	–0.555	0	0	1	0	0
Sweden	1	0	2.3	2	2.546	1	0	0	0	0
Switzerland	1	0	2.2	3	2.288	1	0	0	0	0
Syria	4	0	13.6	10	–0.356	0	1	0	1	0
Taiwan	1	0	9.8	2	–0.046	1	0	0	0	0
Tajikistan	4	0	3.3	5	–0.462	0	0	0	1	1
Tanzania	3	0	6.1	4	–1.207	0	0	0	0	0
Thailand	3	1	5.5	7	–0.272	0	0	0	0	1
Togo	3	0	6.7	5	–1.015	0	1	0	0	0
Tonga	3	1	2.1	3	–0.354	0	0	1	0	0
Trinidad and Tobago	2	0	2.0	2	–0.374	0	0	0	0	0
Tunisia	3	0	8.8	5	–0.099	0	0	0	1	0
Turkey	3	0	7.5	7	0.498	0	0	0	1	0
Turkmenistan	4	0	15.0	3	–0.351	0	1	0	1	0
Tuvalu	2	0	0.0	2	–0.585	0	0	1	0	0
Uganda	3	0	13.1	6	–1.303	0	0	0	0	0
Ukraine	2	0	8.8	9	0.313	0	0	0	0	0
United Arab Emirates	4	1	17.5	1	–0.276	1	0	0	1	0
United Kingdom	1	0	4.2	3	2.607	1	0	0	0	0
United States	1	0	7.9	6	2.037	1	0	0	0	0
Uruguay	1	0	6.4	1	1.073	1	0	0	0	0
Uzbekistan	4	0	1.4	3	–0.393	0	1	0	1	1
Vanuatu	2	0	0.0	2	–0.431	1	0	1	0	0
Venezuela	4	0	1.5	8	–0.100	0	1	0	0	0
Vietnam	4	0	8.8	3	–0.600	0	0	0	0	1
Yemen	4	0	16.5	10	–0.634	0	0	0	1	0
Zambia	2	0	4.8	4	–1.048	0	0	0	0	0
Zimbabwe	3	0	2.1	5	–0.952	0	1	0	0	0

* Liberal Democracy = 1 Electoral Democracy = 2 Semi-Open Autocracy = 3 Closed Autocracy = 4

autocracies given their moderate intensity of cleavage divisions, their lack of capitalist economies, and their memberships in the SCO and ASEAN, respectively. (One can also note their very large populations.)[78] However, India also has some of the other factors noted in this chapter – a very pro-democratic political leadership, especially at independence, and a favourable longstanding British colonial legacy, with key institutions in place before independence, as well as a strong national identity.[79] Both India and Indonesia developed federal systems (Chapter 6). Conversely, Model Two predicts Hungary to be not just a democracy, but between an electoral and a liberal democracy (as it was a couple of decades ago). One can note that Hungary is the current autocracy with the highest value on the temperate-zone established autocentric-development state standardized variable.

NOTES

1 Dix, "History and Democracy Revisited."
2 Dix, "History and Democracy Revisited," 94.
3 Dix, "History and Democracy Revisited," 95.
4 Dix, "History and Democracy Revisited," 96–8.
5 Rose and Shin, "Democratization Backwards."
6 Huntington, *The Third Wave*, 38.
7 Dahl, *Democracy and Its Critics*, 262.
8 Diamond, Linz, and Lipset, "Introduction: What Makes for Democracy?" 19.
9 Dahl, *Polyarchy*, 126–8.
10 Diamond, Linz, and Lipset, "Introduction," 20.
11 Ganguly, "Explaning India's Transition to Democracy."
12 McFaul and Petrov, "Elections."
13 Dahl, *Democracy and Its Critics*, 248.
14 Dahl, *Democracy and Its Critics*, 248–9.
15 Dahl, *Democracy and Its Critics*, 246–50.
16 Dahl, *Democracy and Its Critics*, 260–2.
17 International Institute for Strategic Studies, "International Comparisons of Defence Expenditure and Military Personnel," 529–34.
18 Stockholm International Peace Research Institute, SIPRI Military Expenditure Database, https://www.sipri.org/databases/milex.
19 Lipset, "Some Social Requisites of Democracy"; Lipset, "The Social Requisites of Democracy Revisited."
20 On this causal sequence, see Przeworski and Limongi, "Modernization."
21 Dahl, *Democracy and Its Critics*, 251.
22 Vanhanen, *The Process of Democratization*, 50–65.
23 Moore, *Social Origins of Dictatorship and Democracy*, 418.
24 Dahl, *Democracy and Its Critics*, 252.
25 Vanhanen, *The Process of Democratization*, 50.
26 Dahl, *Democracy and Its Critics*, 252.

27 Dahl, *Democracy and Its Critics*, 253–4.
28 UNDP, *Human Development Report 2020*. The value for Kosovo is from the *Kosovo Human Development Report 2016*, and that for Taiwan is calculated by its National Statistics office.
29 On the superior utility of using the HDI as opposed to just per capita wealth as a causal explanation for democracy, see Diamond, "Economic Development and Democracy Reconsidered," 457–60. On the importance of education as a specific factor, see Glaeser, Ponzetto, and Shleifer, "Why Does Democracy Need Education?," 82–3. For an analysis of levels of democracy (using Freedom House scores), which includes average years of schooling as a variable, see Rowen, "The Tide underneath the 'Third Wave.'"
30 Axel Hadenius has argued that literacy is the most central factor in explaining the differing levels of democracy in developing countries. Hadenius, *Democracy and Development*, 86–91.
31 United Nations Department of Economic and Social Affairs, Population Division, *World Population Prospects 2019*.
32 International Telecommunication Union, "Percentage of Individuals Using the Internet."
33 International Telecommunication Union, "Mobile-Cellular Subscriptions."
34 See, for example, Muller, "Democracy, Economic Development, and Income Inequality." Specifically, Muller found that of countries that were democracies as of 1961 and for which inequality data existed, those with high levels of income inequality all failed to maintain stable democracy through 1980. In contrast, most of the sample countries with intermediate levels of income inequality maintained stable democracy, as did all of the countries with low levels of income inequality (Muller 63).
35 Lindblom, *Politics and Markets*, 164–5.
36 Ross, *The Oil Curse*, 63–109.
37 The analyses used for these purposes are primarily those of the Heritage Foundation (its Index of Economic Freedom), the Fraser Institute (its Economic Freedom of the World Index), and the US Department of State (its Country Commercial Guides).
38 Sutton, "Democracy in the Commonwealth Caribbean," 68.
39 Sutton, "Democracy in the Commonwealth Caribbean," 68–9.
40 The Mediterranean countries of Cyprus and Malta are considered to be outside of continental Europe in this analysis.
41 Anckar, "Democracy as a Westminster Heritage," 66.
42 Trudeau, "Some Obstacles to Democracy in Quebec," 300.
43 Woodberry, "The Missionary Roots of Liberal Democracy."
44 Karatnycky, "The 2001 Freedom House Survey."
45 Fish, *Are Muslims Distinctive?*, 249.
46 Stepan with Robertson, "An 'Arab' More than a 'Muslim' Democracy Gap."
47 Most strikingly Indonesia in this regard.
48 Chaney, "Democratic Change in the Arab World, Past and Present." Chaney, in fact, assesses only 28 such countries, due to a lack of data for Afghanistan, which, however, is clearly in the area of Arab conquest as per his boundaries.
49 Kuru, *Islam, Authoritarianism, and Underdevelopment*, 232.
50 Kuru, *Islam, Authoritarianism, and Underdevelopment*, 190–1.
51 Fearon, "Ethnic and Cultural Diversity by Country."
52 Lewis, ed., *Ethnologue*.
53 Dahl, *Democracy and Its Critics*, 256–7; Lijphart, *Democracy in Plural Societies*.
54 Lijphart, *Democracy in Plural Societies*, 1–2.

55 Lijphart, "The Puzzle of Indian Democracy."
56 Bertelsmann Stiftung, "BTI 2020 Scores."
57 Anckar, "Democratic Standard and Performance in Twelve Pacific Microstates," 208; Corbett and Veenendaal, *Democracy in Small States*. For her part, Dana Ott uses a cut-off of 1.5 million. Ott, *Small Is Democratic*.
58 Chehabi, "Small Island States," 1136.
59 Ott, *Small Is Democratic*, 203.
60 Diamond, *Developing Democracy*, 119ff; Ott, *Small Is Democratic*, 208.
61 Ott, *Small Is Democratic*, 203.
62 Lijphart, *Democracy in Plural Societies*, 65–8.
63 See Lijphart, *Democracy in Plural Societies*, 69–70.
64 Diamond, *Developing Democracy*, 118–19.
65 A 1995 referendum on Bermudan independence was soundly defeated, with only 25.9 per cent in favour.
66 Welzel, *Freedom Rising*; Welzel, "Evolution, Empowerment, and Emancipation."
67 Thornhill, Fincher, and Aran, "Parasites, Democratization, and the Liberalization of Values across Contemporary Countries"; Thornhill and Fincher, "Democracy and Other Governmental Systems."
68 Fabry, *Recognizing States*, 147–9.
69 Senghaas, "Self-Reliance and Autocentric Development," 44; Senghaas, *The European Experience*.
70 Note the regional domino effect of democratization in the 1980s and 1990s and also of the democratic breakdowns in the 1930s (in East-Central Europe) and in the 1960s (in Latin America).
71 Halperin and Lomasney, "Guaranteeing Democracy," 137–9.
72 Jenne and Mudde, "Hungary's Illiberal Turn?"
73 Brunei, Cambodia, Indonesia, Laos, Malaysia, Myanmar, Philippines, Singapore, Thailand, and Vietnam are the current members of ASEAN.
74 Kuhonta, "Walking a Tightrope."
75 This alliance began in 1996 as the Shanghai Five with all but Uzbekistan.
76 Ambrosio, *Authoritarian Backlash*; and more generally on autocratic diffusion, Ambrosio, "Constructing a Framework of Authoritarian Diffusion."
77 Pakistan, Tajikistan, and Uzbekistan have both of these regional factors, each of which affects their regime types.
78 More broadly on "Why Indonesia should not be a democracy," see Davidson, *Indonesia: Twenty Years of Democracy*, 54.
79 Ganguly, "Six Decades of Independence," in the section on "India's Unlikely Democracy"; Stepan, Linz, and Yadav, *Crafting State-Nations*, Chapter 2. For comparisons of India and Pakistan, see Oldenburg, *India, Pakistan, and Democracy*, and Tudor, *The Promise of Power*.

CHAPTER SIX

Institutional Variations of Democracies

In This Chapter You Will Learn

- the precise definition of a presidential system and a parliamentary system;
- the strengths and weaknesses of each of these systems, and how these weaknesses might be mitigated;
- why democratic systems can be neither fully presidential nor fully parliamentary but rather "mixed";
- what the differing types of heads of state in parliamentary systems are;
- the reasons for bicameralism;
- how lower houses and upper houses differ;
- the precise definition of federalism in terms of both interstate and intrastate factors; and
- how federalism differs from other spatially based political structures.

As outlined in Chapter 4, 106 of the today's independent countries are democracies, either liberal or electoral democracies. This chapter will outline how these democracies vary in terms of their institutional features. First, we shall make a distinction between presidential and parliamentary systems. Then we note some variations in the roles and natures of legislatures. Finally, we outline what is meant by federalism and look at its alternatives. Note that the following analysis applies only to the liberal and electoral democracies in the world, so, for example, although many non-democracies are run by presidents, they are not our concern here (see Chapter 8 on these).

PRESIDENTIAL AND PARLIAMENTARY SYSTEMS

Although most readers undoubtedly have a "gut" understanding of these variations, the full definitions need to be noted. Let's start with a **presidential system**. There are five aspects to such a system:

- The positions of head of government (the one who runs the country) and head of **state** (the symbolic national head) are fused in the single office of the president.
- The presidency is a one-person executive office that cannot be shared, thus making it a "winner-take-all" position.
- The president is chosen separately from the legislature (even if on the same day), making the president independent from the legislature in terms of political survival (and vice versa).
- The president is elected for a fixed term of a specified number of years, as are legislators for their own fixed terms.
- The head of government (the president) is elected directly by the voters or possibly by an **electoral college**, which is itself directly elected for this specific purpose and no other (so it is not an ongoing body).

In short, this system provides a definite stability for the position of president. Table 6.1 lists the 25 current democracies that meet these criteria. Of these 25, 13 are in Latin America and eight in Africa. Presidentialism is clearly the most common institutional system in Latin America. In the political systems of these 25 countries, the length of the presidential term varies from four to six years, but terms longer than five years are now rare. Analyses have linked a shorter term to greater political stability because six years is a long time to wait for a head of government to leave office or face the voters again. However, not all presidents will or even can face the voters again, because almost all presidential systems (Cyprus and Gambia being the exceptions) place a limit on the number of consecutive terms one individual can serve as president – and some presidential systems go further by limiting individuals to one term only, so a president cannot *ever* run for re-election.[1] This hard constraint has been particularly common historically in Latin America, although, as of 2021, it continues to exist only in Mexico and Paraguay. Although this constraint obviously prevents someone being in office too long, it also lessens the incentive to do a good job to the extent that this is driven by a desire for re-election. Of course, even if a president can serve two consecutive terms – the most common pattern for democratic presidencies[2] – they will still be a "lame duck" in the second or final term.[3] Finally, almost all presidential systems (except for Seychelles) have a minimum age requirement for presidents well above the voting age (from 30 to 40).

Table 6.1 Liberal and Electoral Democracies, Presidential Systems (as of the end of 2021)

Country	Length of Presidential Term (years)	Maximum Consecutive Terms	Minimum Age to Serve	Electoral Formula	Vice-President	Legislative Elections (lower house)
Argentina	4	2	30	Plurality of 45%, otherwise runoff*	Yes	Concurrent, but with midterm elections for half the seats
Bolivia	5	2	30	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff*	Yes	Concurrent
Brazil	4	2	35	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff	Yes	Concurrent
Burkina Faso	5	2	35	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff	No	Concurrent
Chile	4	1	35	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff	No	Concurrent
Colombia	4	2	30	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff	Yes	Non-concurrent (two months earlier than presidential elections)
Costa Rica	4	1	30	Plurality of 40%, otherwise runoff	Yes	Concurrent
Cyprus	5	Unlimited	35	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff	Yes, but permanently vacant^	Non-concurrent (normally in different years)
Dominican Republic	4	1	30	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff	Yes	Concurrent from 2016
Ecuador	4	2	40	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff*	No	Concurrent

(*Continued*)

Table 6.1 (Continued)

Country	Length of Presidential Term (years)	Maximum Consecutive Terms	Minimum Age to Serve	Electoral Formula	Vice-President	Legislative Elections (lower house)
Gambia	5	Unlimited	30	Simple plurality	Yes	Non-concurrent (three or four months after presidential elections)
Ghana	4	2	40	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff	Yes	Concurrent
Indonesia	5	2	35	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff (plus provincial minimums)	Yes	Non-concurrent (three months earlier than presidential elections)
Liberia	6	2	35	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff	Yes	Concurrent
Malawi	5	2	35	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff**	Yes	Concurrent
Maldives	5	2	35	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff	Yes	Non-concurrent (normally in different years)
Mexico	6	1	35	Simple plurality	No	Concurrent, but with midterm elections
Nigeria	4	2	30	Simple plurality plus regional minimums, otherwise runoff	Yes	Basically concurrent (same month)
Palau	4	2	35	Consequential absolute majority***	Yes	Concurrent
Panama	5	1	35	Simple plurality	Yes	Concurrent
Paraguay	5	1	35	Simple plurality	Yes	Concurrent

Country	Length of Presidential Term (years)	Maximum Consecutive Terms	Minimum Age to Serve	Electoral Formula	Vice-President	Legislative Elections (lower house)
Seychelles	5	2	voting age	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff	Yes	Concurrent
United States	4	2	35	Absolute majority in electoral college, otherwise election by House of Representatives	Yes	Concurrent, but with midterm elections
Uruguay	5	1	35	Absolute majority, otherwise runoff	Yes	Concurrent
Zambia	5	2	35	Simple plurality	Yes	Concurrent

* In Argentina, Bolivia, and Ecuador, 40 per cent is sufficient to win outright on the first ballot if this is also at least 10 per cent above the second-place candidate.

^ In Cyprus, the vice-president is to be a Turkish Cypriot.

** Simple plurality through 2019

*** In Palau, if there are more than two presidential candidates, a national primary – open to all registered voters – is held a few weeks before, with the top two candidates then going on to the actual presidential election.

The most common method of electing a president is requiring someone to win an absolute majority of the votes on the first ballot; otherwise, there is a runoff election of the top two candidates. Some presidents, however, are elected by simple plurality; that is, there is only one ballot and the candidate with the most votes wins. Of course, under any plurality system, there is no guarantee of high let alone majority support if there are multiple candidates. In 1970 under such a system, leftist Salvador Allende won the presidency of Chile with only 36 per cent of the vote. Three years later, just over halfway into his term, he was overthrown in a military coup.[4] Some countries have qualified this plurality method by insisting that a candidate win a certain percentage of the vote, even if that percentage is less than an absolute majority – otherwise, there will be a runoff election. For its part, the United States uses a unique system to elect its president, one based not on the total popular vote (as, most recently, both the 2000 and 2016 presidential elections showed) but on candidates winning votes in an electoral college that is determined state by state.[5]

There is much less variation in presidential powers across these democracies. All of these presidents handpick their cabinets and make a range of other appointments (in both cases, presidential selections may be subject to confirmation by the legislature). They all chair the cabinet meetings and thus set the agenda, are in charge of foreign policy, and have a veto on legislation (but thresholds vary with regard to overturning presidential vetoes). Of course, a legislative veto is a negative power; it stops or delays change. In terms of bringing forth new legislation, most presidents must rely on their political skills to sell initiatives to their legislatures. Only a few presidents (those in Argentina, Brazil, and Chile) have decree powers

whereby they can effectively proclaim something to take effect unless or until there is actual legislation on the issue.

Many presidential systems, but hardly all, also have a vice-president, who in all current democracies is elected on the same ballot or "ticket" simultaneously with the president. (Other historical methods in democracies have been election on a separate ballot or the winning president then appointing a vice-president.) Vice-presidents have, at best, a minimal role in terms of legislation and policy, and they mainly serve a succession function: They are next in line if something should happen to the president.[6] In the United States prior to the 25th Amendment of 1967, the government was without a serving vice-president on many occasions, often for some years at a time. With respect to the legislature of these 25 democracies, lower house elections are sometimes fully concurrent with those for the president, meaning they are held on the same day and have the same term lengths. Concurrent elections maximize the likelihood of the president's party also controlling the lower (or single) house for the term. Non-concurrent terms and midterm legislative elections, on the other hand, have a check-and-balance effect.

A **parliamentary system** can also be viewed as having five aspects, listed here so as to provide a point-by-point contrast with a presidential system:

- The key day-to-day political position is the head of government (prime minister or equivalent), but this person is not the head of state; instead, there is almost always a separate head of state.
- The cabinet is much more of a collegial body than in presidential systems, making parliamentary cabinets amenable to coalition governments (and thus parliamentary governments are not necessarily winner-take-all).
- The government is continually dependent for its survival on maintaining the confidence, or at least the acquiescence, of the parliament.
- Consequently, the government can fall at any time during parliamentary sessions through a motion of non-confidence.
- The head of government is not chosen directly by the voters but is ultimately selected by the legislature (in effect by its partisan composition, which is arrived at through elections).

Because of non-confidence motions, a parliamentary head of government does not have any constitutionally fixed minimum term of office, so in some cases people have lasted as prime minister for only a matter of days or weeks. Another variation involves how the head of government is selected. Following Arend Lijphart, we use the broad term "selected" because of a key difference between two methods.[7] In some parliamentary systems, there is a formal vote by the parliament on a would-be prime minister or cabinet. Winning this **vote of investiture** is necessary to assume office. Such a procedure is called *positive parliamentarianism* because it requires a positive endorsement of a new or continuing government (even if the voters

have apparently already given this endorsement). In contrast, under *negative parliamentarianism*, there is no vote of investiture or "election" by the parliament that one must win. A prime minister and government are simply appointed, and they are assumed to be acceptable (they receive "negative" confirmation) unless or until there is a successful motion of non-confidence. When no party wins a majority, positive parliamentarianism is likely to lead to a majority coalition (so the government has the votes to be invested),[8] whereas negative parliamentarianism is likely to lead to a minority government of the largest party in the legislature. Because of this variation, it is also generally the case that it takes longer to form a government under positive parliamentarianism,[9] usually a month and sometimes several months. Broadly speaking, positive parliamentarianism is the more common version globally; however, the United Kingdom, Canada, and most other former British colonies use negative parliamentarianism, as do Austria, France, Portugal, and most Nordic countries.[10] Of course, majority coalitions *can* occur under negative parliamentarianism, such as happened in the United Kingdom in 2010.

Parliamentary systems obviously vary in terms of the strength of their heads of government. However, such variations relate more to contextual factors, such as whether the head of government is a party leader, how many seats the government has, and how many parties are in the government. In a coalition government, key policies and cabinet positions are worked out beforehand between or amongst the parties, leaving the head of government much less freedom to change policies or shuffle ministers than in a single-party government. These contextual variations can be shaped by institutions, such as positive versus negative parliamentarianism, but the key antecedent institution is probably the **electoral system** – which we shall get to in the next chapter.

The strongest prime ministers are found in what are called "Westminster" systems, that is, those in the British tradition. The assumption here is that a single-member electoral system (see Chapter 7) and two major parties combine to give a majority to a single party, which can thus govern alone. Yet even when not enjoying a single-party majority, Westminster prime ministers in the United Kingdom, Australia, Canada, New Zealand, Ireland, and so on often have certain largely unconstrained powers over the following:

- Early **dissolution** of the legislature for a snap election (as long it has been a few months since the last election), with the head of state largely rubber-stamping this request. That said, this prime ministerial power is no longer the case in the United Kingdom since the Fixed-Term Parliaments Act of 2011. This prime ministerial power also exists in Denmark and Spain.
- Requesting a confidence vote on a matter of legislation; that is, threatening the resignation of the government (or maybe an election depending on the previous point) if parliament does not approve the legislation. France goes further here, allowing legislation to be

deemed automatically passed if the opposition does not successfully pass a motion of non-confidence (Constitution of France, Article 49.3).
- Proroguing parliament; that is, ending a parliamentary session, which also shuts down its committees – some of which might be investigating the government. This prime ministerial power also exists in Greece.

In contrast, early dissolution may require the parliament voting for it with a supermajority (such as in Germany and now the United Kingdom), or the discretionary approval of the head of state, or is simply not allowed (as in Norway). In terms of confidence votes, the norm is that this is sought by the cabinet as a whole, not just the prime minister. As for proroguing parliament, in almost all continental European democracies either this cannot be done or parliament – in most cases a minority thereof – can reverse the prorogation, as the speaker of parliament and/or a percentage of deputies can call it (back) into session.[11]

We can now note the various strengths and weaknesses of presidential and parliamentary systems, strengths and weaknesses that tend to be the mirror image of each other. Parliamentary systems, especially non-Westminster ones, can be unstable, with governments collapsing or changing frequently (as happened in Weimar Germany or Italy after World War II). However, if a parliamentary government has both a majority and policy consensus within this majority, then it is quite likely to get its legislation passed. In contrast, presidential systems are stable in the sense of the individual president remaining in office, but there is no guarantee of any desired legislation being passed if the president's party has little strength in the legislature. Thus, presidential systems are prone to gridlock, which has no parliamentary equivalent. Indeed, a president may not even be able to count on members of their own party. In a parliamentary system, deputies almost never vote against a government of their own party because doing so could bring down the government; however, in a presidential system, there is no such constraint.

That said, within each system various procedures can mitigate the likelihood of dysfunctional outcomes. In a parliamentary system, one effective procedure is to require a "constructive vote of non-confidence" so that, in order for a prime minister or government to be removed, there must be majority support for a designated alternative, which then takes over. Given its interwar parliamentary instability, postwar Germany chose this system, and there has been only one successful non-confidence vote in Germany since World War II (in 1982). Similar requirements for a "constructive vote of non-confidence" now exist in Belgium, Lesotho, Poland, Slovenia, and Spain. A weaker but still useful variant of this procedure occurs in Portugal and Sweden, where an absolute majority of all deputies (not merely those present and voting) is needed for a successful non-confidence motion. In a presidential system, to increase the president's support in the legislature, scholars have

argued for having the entire legislature elected at the same time as the president, to maximize the president's "coat-tails effect" and for the same length of term – what we call a "concurrent" election (see Table 6.1). Certainly, having the legislature elected at a different time than the president tends to weaken the showing of the president's party in elections. For example, in the United States the president's party almost always loses support in midterm congressional elections.

MIXED SYSTEMS

Currently, the world's liberal and electoral democracies consist of some 70 pure parliamentary systems. Before subdividing these further, let's note the several systems that are neither presidential nor parliamentary but what we call "mixed." Figure 6.1 lists these. The first type has a dual executive, but the prime minister is elected directly using a popular vote separate from that for the legislature. This was the situation in Israel from 1996 through 2001, and it was also seriously discussed in the Netherlands in the 1960s and 1970s. Such a system is meant to counteract the instability that comes from a fragmented multi-party system. However, in Israel, if anything, this system exacerbated party fragmentation because people no longer had to vote for one of the larger parties in the hope that its leader would become prime minister. The second type has a dual executive but is effectively presidential because neither the president nor the prime minister is accountable to the legislature, and the president has the usual range of presidential powers. In countries with these systems (Guyana and South Korea), the prime minister is more of a "house leader" for the president, aiming to get legislation passed, than an independent political leader. The third and fourth types of mixed systems have a single executive and might, at first glance, seem fully presidential. However, in countries with the third type (Botswana, Kiribati, the Marshall Islands, Nauru, and South Africa), the president is accountable to the legislature and can be removed by a simple vote of non-confidence – as was the president of Nauru in 2004. Thus, they are more parliamentary than presidential. With the exception of Kiribati, these presidents are chosen by the legislatures and not directly by the voters – and even in Kiribati, presidential candidates are picked by and from the House of Assembly.[12] In the fourth type of mixed system, the single executive president is chosen by the legislature but thereafter is not accountable to it. These systems enjoy presidential-like stability, but their presidents lack the legitimacy of direct election. Such a system is found in Micronesia, Suriname, and Switzerland (although Swiss presidents serve only a one-year rotating term). Finally, San Marino's mixed system is analogous to Switzerland's in that it has a rotating executive. However, San Marino has a leadership term of only six months, and there are *two* joint "captains-regent" (one each representing the city and the countryside). As noted in Figure 6.1, all mixed systems are **republics**.

Figure 6.1 Liberal and Electoral Democracies, Systems of Government

PARLIAMENTARY (dual executive, with head of government accountable to legislature)				
Monarchy		Republic		
Parliamentary system with indigenous monarch	Parliamentary system with governor general	Parliamentary system with a figurehead president	Parliamentary system with a presidential corrective	Parliamentary system with presidential dominance
PRESIDENTIAL (single executive, not accountable to legislature)				
MIXED				
Mixed 1: dual executive, with prime minister directly elected (Israel 1996 to 2001)				
Mixed 2: dual executive, with prime minister not accountable (Guyana, South Korea)				
Mixed 3: single executive, accountable to legislature (Botswana, Kiribati, Marshall Islands, Nauru, South Africa)				
Mixed 4: single executive, chosen by but not accountable to legislature (Micronesia, Suriname, Switzerland)				
Mixed 5: co-executives, chosen by but not accountable to legislature (San Marino)				

Note: All mixed systems are republics.

HEADS OF STATE IN PARLIAMENTARY SYSTEMS

Two key distinctions can be made concerning the heads of state in parliamentary systems. As Figure 6.1 demonstrates, the first involves the nature of the position: Is the head of state a monarch or a president? The second involves the position's power: Is the head of state a figurehead or a relevant actor? In a relatively small group of 12 parliamentary democracies, largely in Western and Northern Europe, there is an Indigenous monarch as head of state (Belgium, Bhutan, Denmark, Japan, Lesotho, Liechtenstein, Luxembourg, the Netherlands, Norway, Spain, Sweden, and the United Kingdom). Although the monarch of Liechtenstein is an exception (see Table 2.4), these democratic monarchs have basically no political power; they "reign but do not rule" as figureheads. As of the end of 2021, the 12 Commonwealth democracies that recognize the British monarch as head of state are also formally constitutional monarchies: Antigua and Barbuda, Australia, Bahamas, Belize, Canada, Grenada, Jamaica, New Zealand, Saint Kitts and Nevis, Saint Lucia, Saint Vincent and the Grenadines, and Tuvalu.[13] In each of these Commonwealth realms, a local governor general (appointed for a fixed term) serves as the British monarch's representative and can be argued to be the country's effective head of state. However, those who wish to "cut the British link" want an Indigenous president as head of state, as is the case in the remaining Commonwealth countries.[14]

The other parliamentary liberal and electoral democracies are all republics with a president as head of state. Some of these presidents are popularly elected by the voters; others are chosen by the national legislature or by the national legislature and regional politicians combined. These presidents, especially when elected, may exercise political power. These individual powers could be the same as those exercised by presidents in presidential systems plus the power

to dissolve the legislature, which does not exist in pure presidential systems. Obviously, the more power exercised by the president as head of state, the less available to the head of government (the prime minister or equivalent), which weakens this office. Many scholars refer to parliamentary systems with strong presidents, such those in France and Russia (when Russia was democratic, anyway), as being "semi-presidential," which is normally defined as having a directly elected president with various political powers but also a prime minister and cabinet accountable to the legislature (as well as to the president). This term is problematic, however, because such systems retain the most central feature of parliamentary **democracy**: the ability to remove the prime minister and cabinet through a vote of non-confidence. Thus, these systems can all be considered parliamentary, albeit with qualifications relating to the role and power of the head of state (our second key distinction for parliamentary democracies).

Consequently, a threefold distinction is offered here,[15] as shown in Figure 6.1. First, there are 21 parliamentary systems with a president who is purely or effectively a figurehead, who normally plays only a symbolic role analogous to the one played by monarchs or governors general or who has maybe one modest or occasional power. These countries are Austria, Barbados, the Czech Republic, Dominica, Estonia, Germany, Greece, India, Israel once again after its "mixed system" period, Italy, Kosovo, Latvia, Lebanon, Malta, Mauritius, Montenegro, Nepal, Slovakia, Slovenia, Trinidad and Tobago, and Vanuatu.[16] A small minority of five of these presidents are directly elected by the voters (those of Austria, the Czech Republic, Montenegro, Slovakia, and Slovenia).

However, in other democratic parliamentary systems, the president does have a key political power or key political powers to do such things as make discretionary appointments, shape the cabinet in terms of including or excluding specific parties, chair cabinet meetings, veto legislation or send it to a referendum, issue emergency decrees, dissolve the legislature, and/or play the central role in foreign policy. These systems can be called "parliamentary systems with a presidential corrective," inasmuch as the president is able to intervene politically from time to time or control selected areas of governance or policy.[17] There are now 15 countries with this system, largely in Europe: Armenia, Bulgaria, Croatia, East Timor, Finland, Iceland, Ireland, Lithuania, Macedonia, Mongolia, Poland, Portugal, Romania, Taiwan, and Ukraine. In all of these countries except Armenia, the president is directly elected.

Finally, despite the apparent contradiction, there are democratic parliamentary systems in which coalition governments, motions of non-confidence, and the like are possible but the elected president exercises most of the executive branch's political power; in other words, doing most if not all of the key items listed above. These can be called "parliamentary systems with presidential dominance," but we should not forget that they are, ultimately, parliamentary, and if parties hostile to the president gain control of the legislature, the president will be "demoted" to a corrective role. Currently, only seven of these systems are liberal or electoral democracies: Burkina Faso, Cape Verde, France, Namibia, Peru, São Tomé and Príncipe, and Sri Lanka. Note also that both Finland and Portugal had this system but then changed to ones

with a weaker president. For its part, Russia had this system but is no longer democratic, and several other African countries (former colonies of France or Portugal) had this system but likewise have seen democracy break down. Consequently, France should be seen as the main stable example of this system in a democracy – and, in 2002, it changed its presidential and parliamentary election timing to minimize conflict between the president and the National Assembly.

COMPARING LEGISLATURES: STRUCTURAL DISTINCTIONS

Let us now turn to variations across democratic legislatures. Table 6.2 provides information on these as of end of 2021 for all liberal and electoral democracies. In terms of more formal variations across legislatures, the first structural distinction to note is whether the legislature can exert independent policymaking, normally through a system of numerous standing committees that match government departments and that assess or can introduce legislation early on in the process. Such powerful committees are standard in presidential systems but exist in only a minority of parliamentary systems, such as those of most of continental Western Europe and of Japan. In contrast, the parliaments of the United Kingdom and its former colonies, as well as those of France after 1958 under the Fifth Republic, are known for weak committees and for legislatures that are more focused on debating and "grandstanding" than on policy details. In these parliaments, it is rare for any legislation to be changed greatly from the wishes of the cabinet.

Another structural distinction regarding legislatures, and a central one, is whether the legislature is *unicameral* (has one chamber) or *bicameral* (has two chambers). Most of the current liberal and electoral democracies are unicameral, but 44 (42 per cent) are bicameral. It is extremely rare for a country to add a new upper house to a unicameral legislature, although South Africa did this when it adopted a fully democratic constitution in 1994. Newly democratic Indonesia likewise added an upper house in 2004. In contrast, several democratic countries have abolished their upper houses: Denmark (in 1953), New Zealand (in 1951), Sri Lanka (in 1971), Sweden (in 1971), and Venezuela (in 2000).[18] Because bicameral systems are in the minority, we should ask the question "Why bicameralism?" rather than "Why unicameralism?" Two reasons can be offered. First, upper houses can provide a vehicle for regional interests, especially those of less populated regions that would be outvoted in the lower house. Second, upper houses can act as a counterbalance to the lower house, independent of any regional concerns. This counterbalancing has taken differing forms. Historically, upper houses were composed of nobles or of people elected on a more restricted franchise than the lower house. These upper houses served as a conservative "check" on the popularly elected lower houses. Today, such a rationale would be seen as unacceptably undemocratic. Thus the issue has become not so much that a lower house produces excessively radical legislation as that the

Table 6.2 Liberal and Electoral Democracies, National Legislatures (as of the end of 2021)

Country	Lower House Name	Number of Members	Term (years)	Upper House Name	Number of Members	Term (years)	Mode of Designation (all unless partitioned)
Andorra	General Council	28	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Antigua and Barbuda	House of Representatives	19	5	Senate	17	5	Appointed
Argentina	Chamber of Deputies	257	4	Senate	72	6	Directly elected
Armenia	National Assembly	107	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Australia	House of Representatives	151	3	Senate	76	6	Directly elected
Austria	National Council	183	5	Federal Council	61	5 to 6	Indirectly elected
Bahamas	House of Assembly	39	5	Senate	16	5	Appointed
Barbados	House of Assembly	30	5	Senate	21	5	Appointed
Belgium	House of Representatives	150	5	Senate	60	5	50 indirectly elected/10 co-opted
Belize	House of Representatives	32	5	Senate	12	5	Appointed
Bhutan	National Assembly	47	5	National Council	25	5	20 elected/5 appointed
Bolivia	Chamber of Deputies	130	5	Chamber of Senators	36	5	Directly elected
Botswana	National Assembly	63	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Brazil	Chamber of Deputies	513	4	Federal Senate	81	8	Directly elected
Bulgaria	National Assembly	240	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Burkina Faso	National Assembly	127	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Canada	House of Commons	338	5	Senate	105	Until age 75	Appointed
Cape Verde	National People's Assembly	72	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Chile	Chamber of Deputies	155	4	Senate	50	8	Directly elected
Colombia	Chamber of Representatives	172	4	Senate	108	4	102 elected/6 by peace agreement
Costa Rica	Legislative Assembly	57	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Croatia	House of Representatives	151	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Cyprus	House of Representatives	80	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Czech Republic	Chamber of Deputies	200	4	Senate	81	6	Directly elected
Denmark	Parliament	179	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Dominica	Chamber of Assembly	31	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Dominican Republic	House of Deputies	183	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
East Timor	National Parliament	65	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Ecuador	Chamber of Representatives	137	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Estonia	State Assembly	101	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Finland	Parliament	200	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a

(*Continued*)

Table 6.2 (Continued)

Country	Lower House Name	Number of Members	Term (years)	Upper House Name	Number of Members	Term (years)	Mode of Designation (all unless partitioned)
France	National Assembly	577	5	Senate	348	6	Indirectly elected
Gambia	National Assembly	53	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Germany	Federal Diet (Bundestag)	598	4	Federal Council	69	varies	Appointed by state governments
Ghana	National Assembly	230	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Greece	Parliament	300	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Grenada	House of Representatives	15	5	Senate	13	5	Appointed
Guyana	National Assembly	65	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Iceland	Parliament	63	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
India	House of the People	545	5	Council of States	245	6	233 indirectly elected/12 appointed
Indonesia	People's Representative Council	575	5	Regional Representative Council	136	5	Directly elected
Ireland	House of Representatives	160	5	Senate	60	5	49 indirectly elected/11 appointed
Israel	Assembly of the Republic	120	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Italy*	Chamber of Deputies	630	5	Senate of the Republic	321	5	315 elected/5 appointed/1 ex-officio
Jamaica	House of Representatives	63	5	Senate	21	5	Appointed
Japan	House of Representatives	465	4	House of Councillors	248	6	Directly elected
Kiribati	House of Assembly	45	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Korea, South	National Assembly	300	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Kosovo	Assembly of the Republic	120	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Latvia	Parliament	100	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Lebanon	National Assembly	128	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Lesotho	National Assembly	120	5	Senate	33	5	22 hereditary/11 appointed
Liberia	House of Representatives	73	6	Senate	30	9	Directly elected
Liechtenstein	Diet	25	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Lithuania	Parliament	141	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Luxembourg	Chamber of Deputies	60	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Malawi	National Assembly	193	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Maldives	People's Council	87	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a

Country	Lower House Name	Number of Members	Term (years)	Upper House Name	Number of Members	Term (years)	Mode of Designation (all unless partitioned)
Malta	House of Representatives	65	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Marshall Islands	House of Representatives	33	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Mauritius	National Assembly	62	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Mexico	Chamber of Deputies	500	3	House of Senators	128	6	Directly elected
Micronesia	Congress	14	2 or 4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Mongolia	State Great Hural	76	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Montenegro	Parliament	81	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Namibia	National Assembly	96	5	National Council	42	5	Indirectly elected
Nauru	Parliament	18	3	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Nepal	House of Representatives	275	5	National Assembly	59	6	56 indirectly elected/3 appointed
Netherlands	First Chamber	150	4	Second Chamber	75	4	Indirectly elected
New Zealand	House of Representatives	120	3	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Nigeria	House of Representatives	360	4	Senate	109	4	Directly elected
North Macedonia	Assembly	123	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Norway	Parliament	169	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Palau	House of Delegates	16	4	Senate	13	4	Directly elected
Panama	Legislative Assembly	71	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Paraguay	House of Deputies	80	5	House of Senators	45	5	Directly elected
Peru	Congress of the Republic	130	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Poland	Chamber of Deputies	460	4	Senate	100	4	Directly elected
Portugal	Assembly of the Republic	230	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Romania	Chamber of Deputies	329	4	Senate	136	4	Directly elected
Saint Kitts and Nevis	National Assembly	15	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Saint Lucia	House of Assembly	18	5	Senate	11	5	Appointed
Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	House of Assembly	22	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Samoa	Fono (Legislative Assembly)	51	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
San Marino	Grand General Council	60	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
São Tomé and Príncipe	National Assembly	55	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Seychelles	National Assembly	35	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Slovakia	National Council	150	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a

(*Continued*)

Table 6.2 (Continued)

Country	Lower House Name	Number of Members	Term (years)	Upper House Name	Number of Members	Term (years)	Mode of Designation (all unless partitioned)
Slovenia	National Assembly	90	4	National Council	40	5	Elected by interest organizations
Solomon Islands	National Parliament	50	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
South Africa	National Assembly	400	5	National Council of Provinces	90	5	Indirectly elected
Spain	Congress of Deputies	350	4	Senate	265	4	208 directly elected/57 indirectly elected
Sri Lanka	Parliament	225	6	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Suriname	National Assembly	51	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Sweden	Riksdagen (Parliament)	349	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Switzerland	National Council	200	4	Council of States	46	4	Directly elected
Taiwan	Legislative Yuan	113	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Trinidad and Tobago	House of Representatives	41	5	Senate	31	5	Appointed
Tuvalu	Parliament	16	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Ukraine	Supreme Council	450	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
United Kingdom	House of Commons	650	5	House of Lords	795	life	Appointed/ hereditary/ ex-officio
United States	House of Representatives	435	2	Senate	100	6	Directly elected
Uruguay	Chamber of Representatives	99	5	House of the Senate	31	5	Directly elected
Vanuatu	Parliament	52	4	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a
Zambia	National Assembly	158	5	n/a	n/a	n/a	n/a

* Following a 2020 referendum, as of the next elections in Italy there will be 400 deputies and 200 senators.

Source: Inter-Parliamentary Union, PARLINE Database on National Parliaments, accessed December 2020, http://www.ipu.org/parline-e/ParliamentsAtaGlance.asp.

lower house may produce hasty or ill-considered legislation that needs modification. Hence the expression in Canada that the Senate is the chamber of "sober second thought."

An alternative way of looking at the continued existence of bicameralism is to note which types of countries have bicameral systems. Two factors are relevant. The first is size: Small countries having fewer citizens tend to be unicameral; larger and presumably more diverse countries, bicameral. Indeed, the upper houses in larger countries generally have a fixed regional composition. The second factor is federalism; as we shall see, federal systems are invariably bicameral. One factor that might seem relevant here is whether a country has a presidential system and its logic of "checks and balances" – not so. Of the 25 presidential systems in Table 6.1, only about half (13) are bicameral, and that includes all 6 that are federal. In other words, only 7 of the 19 non-federal presidential democracies are bicameral, which hardly indicates a pronounced direct relationship between presidentialism and bicameralism.

VARIATIONS ACROSS THE TWO CHAMBERS

What variations occur between the lower and upper houses in bicameral liberal and electoral democracies? Five main differences are worth noting. The first difference is chamber size: Lower houses are almost always larger than their corresponding upper houses. Only in the United Kingdom is this not the case (in fact, its House of Lords used to be even bigger until most of the hereditary lords were removed from it). The second difference is length of term; these are normally longer for upper houses. For example, US senators serve terms of six years, three times the two-year term of House members. Canadian senators used to be appointed for life; now they must resign at age 75, but they certainly have job security. However, one should not be too biased by these North American figures; in many countries, the term length is the same for both houses (e.g., in Bolivia, Colombia, Ireland, Poland, and Switzerland). The third difference is selection procedure; members of the lower house are invariably directly elected, but one gets to be a member of an upper house through a variety of ways: direct election, indirect election by a regional assembly (itself directly elected), appointment, and in some cases by gaining or inheriting ex-officio member status (as do the royal children in Belgium). Where indirect election occurs, often the regional assemblies will select some of their own for this additional job. The fourth difference is that, at least for the elected upper houses, these elections tend to be staggered so that only some individuals are elected at any one time (in any one year).[19] Staggered elections are extremely rare in lower houses, existing only in Argentina, where one-half of the Chamber of Deputies is elected every two years for a four-year term. (The Luxembourg Chamber of Deputies also had staggered elections until 1954.) At best, elections may be spread over a couple of weeks, as in India or nineteenth-century Canada; however, this staggering is a matter of logistics and not a "check and balance."

The fifth and final difference is that upper houses are normally weaker than lower houses in two senses: government formation and legislative power. The normal process of government formation in parliamentary systems is that only the lower house selects the government, so only lower house elections matter for coming to office. (Italy is an exception to this situation; there, the government must maintain the confidence of both houses.) Of course, in bicameral presidential systems, neither house plays this role in government formation. The second point is that, whereas lower houses have to pass legislation for it to become law, the consent of the upper house is not always required. Objections or modifications to legislation by the upper house can often be overcome by the lower house passing the legislation again after a set period of time. This is the pattern in the United Kingdom, for example. Obviously, then, an upper house that cannot actually stop or modify any legislation significantly is much weaker than one that can.

Arend Lijphart argues that, for bicameralism to be **strong bicameralism**, in which the upper house truly matters, three factors must be present.[20] First, both houses must be equal or relatively equal in terms of legislative powers. Second, the upper house must have the legitimacy to use its powers. Legitimacy normally comes from direct elections, but it could also involve, as in Germany, the upper house representing elected regional governments. In any case, Canada's appointed Senate is a perfect counterexample here. Finally, the upper house must be composed or selected in a different way from the lower house; most commonly, this difference involves changing the allocation of members to benefit less populated regions, but it may also involve a unique electoral system for each chamber or even having the two chambers elected at different times (assuming the upper house is elected). If the upper house is chosen in more or less the same way as the lower house and at the same time, it should be no surprise that its partisan composition will look the same; thus, one party or a coalition would presumably control both houses. Chile, Romania, and Uruguay are the main examples of this "duplicate" pattern.[21] In short, relatively few democracies – Argentina, Australia, Brazil, Colombia, Germany, Italy, Mexico, Switzerland, and the United States – meet these three criteria of strong bicameralism. Note that a majority of these are presidential systems. Yet, in a parliamentary system with strong bicameralism and different parties or alliances controlling the lower and upper houses, the government, which is based in the lower house, may be stable but will often find it difficult to get legislation through. In Australia, when legislation fails to get through the upper house twice, the prime minister may dissolve both houses. Of course, the resulting "*double dissolution*" election puts the government – and the prime minister's job – on the line. Should such an Australian government be re-elected yet still be unable to get the legislation through the new Senate, then a *joint sitting* of the House of Representatives and the Senate takes place, and the numerical superiority of the House is usually decisive in passing the legislation.[22] In Germany, a "double dissolution" and a consequent joint sitting are not options because the German upper house is indirectly elected, so the Germans have taken to using the term *Reformstau* ("political gridlock") to describe a situation of differing partisan control of the chambers.

COMPARING LEGISLATURES: GENDER VARIATIONS

Legislatures also vary in terms of the dominant demographic characteristics of their members: age, education, gender, and occupational background. Consequently, as noted in Chapter 4, we can assess a legislature's demographic patterns in comparison to those in the broader society as a whole. Of these characteristics, the one most thoroughly studied in a global sense is gender: To what extent is a legislature relatively balanced between men and women?[23] Again, as noted, women comprise half or less (often a lot less) of the deputies in every democratic national parliament/lower house in the world. At the extreme, as of the end of 2021, there were no women in the parliaments of two democracies in Oceania: Micronesia and Vanuatu. Besides looking at the extremes, we can also dichotomize the world's legislatures in terms of whether the female share nevertheless amounts to a **critical mass** of 30 per cent or more – as the scholarly consensus suggests that, when women reach such a critical mass, they will have a clear effect on a legislature in terms of its general behaviour (becoming less antagonistic), its policy priorities, and resulting public policies. Looking at the legislatures of the world's democracies or, more precisely, looking only at the lower chambers in the bicameral systems because, as noted, these are almost always the more important chambers, as of the end of 2021 such a critical mass of female deputies exists in only 41 of the 106 liberal and electoral democracies – and now including Canada as of its 2021 election. Of these 41 democracies, about half are in Europe. Crucially, the clear majority of these 41 countries use proportional representation (see Chapter 7). The countries with 30 per cent or more women in their single chamber or lower house generally also exhibit political leftism or progressivism – both as a broader national ideology and in terms of the strength of leftist parties – combined with non-traditional cultural values.

FEDERALISM

The previous discussion of upper houses leads us to an analysis of **federalism**. Nearly every **liberal democracy** or **electoral democracy**, unless it is very tiny, has local governments: for example, governments for townships, counties, communes, and municipalities. These need not be elected, and, even if they are, such governments are not constitutionally guaranteed. In any case, the real issue is the number of levels of government that come between the national and the local one. At one extreme is the unitary state, which has no regional governments, merely a national government with most of the power and all of the **sovereignty**, and usually some local governments. Federalism goes well beyond this: A federal state (1) has regional governments and (2) gives these regional governments constitutionally entrenched powers and some sort of national role. In other words, federalism involves a combination of "elements of *shared-rule* through common institutions and *regional self-rule* for the governments of the constituent units."[24] Table 6.3 gives the 17 liberal or electoral democracies that are constitutionally federal

Table 6.3 Liberal and Electoral Democracies, Federal Systems (as of the end of 2021)

Country	Federal Since	Key Constituent Parts (as of the end of 2021)	Origins
Argentina	1853	23 provinces and 1 autonomous city (federal capital)	Coming together
Australia	1901	6 states, 1 territory, and 1 capital territory	Coming together
Austria	1918	9 Länder (provinces)	Coming together
Belgium	1993	3 regions and 3 cultural communities [overlapping]	Holding together
Brazil	1891	26 states and 1 federal district	Mixed
Canada	1867	10 provinces and 3 territories	Mixed
Germany	1871/1919/1949	16 Länder (states)	Mixed
India	1950	28 states, 8 union territories, and 1 national capital territory	Holding together
Indonesia*	2004	31 provinces, 1 special territory, 1 special region, and 1 special capital region	Holding together
Mexico	1917	31 states and 1 autonomous entity (federal capital)	Holding together
Micronesia	1986	4 states	Coming together
Nepal	2015	7 provinces	Holding together
Nigeria	1947	36 states and 1 federal capital territory	Holding together
South Africa*	1994	9 provinces	Holding together
Spain*	1978	17 autonomous communities and 2 autonomous cities	Holding together
Switzerland	1848	26 cantons	Coming together
United States	1789	50 states and 1 federal district	Coming together

* Borderline cases of federalism

Sources: Forum of Federations, *Handbook of Federal Countries 2005*, edited by Ann L. Griffiths (Montreal, QC, and Kingston, ON: McGill-Queen's University Press, 2005); Alfred Stepan, "Toward a New Comparative Politics of Federalism, (Multi) Nationalism, and Democracy: Beyond Rikerian Federalism," in *Arguing Comparative Politics*, 315–62 (New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2001); author's additions.

or effectively federal. Note that these form a very small percentage of all liberal and electoral democracies. In short, federalism is a rare political phenomenon. Considered as a group, these countries tend to be large in area or culturally diverse or both; again, this diversity is usually regionally concentrated.

A full definition of federalism has no fewer than five features:

- two autonomous levels of government – central (federal) and regional – with each being directly elected and accountable;
- a formal division of authority specifying the powers and sources of revenue held by each level of government (each level thus, in some ways, acts directly on the citizens), as well as the level that holds the residual powers;
- a written constitution that, among other things, sets out the respective powers of each level of government and that can be changed only with some difficulty or with broad agreement;
- a supreme court to, among other things, arbitrate between the central and regional governments when there are disputes over whether one level of government may act in a certain way;

- a bicameral legislature in which the lower house represents the people as a whole but the upper house represents the regions or the people in each region. Normally, the composition of the upper house will be weighted to a lesser or greater extent in favour of the less populous regions, whereas that of the lower house is based more purely on population, which is obviously to the advantage of the more populous regions.[25]

The first four of these features speak to what is called *interstate federalism*, that is, the divisions and relations *between* the two levels of government. The last feature, in contrast, speaks to what is called *intrastate federalism*, that is, the role of the regions or regional governments *within* the national political institutions (or, if one prefers, their role in the national capital). If we view federalism in terms of these component parts, then strong interstate federalism means that the regions "matter" as regions in terms of policy areas, taxing and spending, and generally having an effect on the lives of those who live in them. In contrast, strong intrastate federalism means that the regions, especially the smaller ones, are important in a powerful upper house that produces national policy outcomes different from those one would get if power rested solely on the population-based lower house. Figure 6.2 gives a crude attempt to situate the federal systems considering these two dimensions. Thus, in Canada, for example, the provinces as provinces matter within their borders, but provincial voters are unable to use an effective Senate to counteract the weight of the two most populous provinces – Ontario and Quebec – in the House of Commons. This "incompleteness" is also found in some other systems, such as India. In contrast, most other longstanding cases of federalism feature both relevant regional governments and strong bicameralism (to use the earlier term) in which the upper house is weighted toward the less populous areas. The government of the United States is the standard example here. Overall, the least common pattern of federalism is found in Argentina and Mexico, which have strong bicameralism but weak regional governments – the polar opposite to Canadian federalism. Of course, Mexico is a relatively recent electoral democracy, so its situation may well evolve. Finally, it is worth noting that the countries that are stronger on intrastate federalism tend to be more homogeneous than those that are weaker. This is perhaps because, in more heterogeneous societies, the emphasis has been on regional autonomy, which is often asymmetrically granted in favour of the more "distinct" regions, rather than on checking and balancing the national government.

Alfred Stepan has noted that federalism evolved in three different ways, which he calls "coming together," "holding together," and "putting together" federations.[26] Under "coming together" federalism, which incorrectly has often been seen as the only way to achieve this political system, various distinct parts – which may be sovereign entities or simply separate colonies – more or less freely agree to form a single political entity. This formation involves some sort of conference or convention at which the "founding fathers" of the country work out the details. Because unanimity is required, even the smallest component parts will have a lot of say in the initial

Figure 6.2 Liberal and Electoral Democracies, Comparative Federal Systems

INTERSTATE FEDERALISM (regional governments have policy importance, especially re taxing and spending)	INTRASTATE FEDERALISM (regions, especially the smaller ones, are important via a strong upper house) — LESS SO	INTRASTATE FEDERALISM — MORE SO
MORE SO	Canada India Micronesia Spain	Australia Brazil Germany Switzerland United States
LESS SO	Austria Belgium Indonesia Nepal Nigeria South Africa	Argentina Mexico

setup. The United States is the classic example of this route to a federal structure, but it also occurred in various other countries (see Table 6.3). The second variant, "holding together" federalism, begins with a sovereign, unitary state. However, centrifugal tendencies and demands from certain regions for autonomy (if not outright independence) push the system toward federalism as an alternative to the breakup of the country or the loss of some of its territory. Thus, federalism is a means to "hold together" a polity, hence the term. Obviously, regional demands must not only exist but also reach a certain undefined level for the centre to "give in" and agree to this change. Both the amount of time for the change and the amount of time the country spent as a unitary state beforehand can vary. Belgium is a good example of the slowness of these processes. Changes toward federalism began in 1971 but were not completed until its constitutional accord of 1993. Yet, for a century and a half before 1970 (from 1830 onwards, to be precise), Belgium existed as a centralized unitary state. On the other hand, federalism in India arose only three years after its independence and was created more because of the foresight of its national leaders. Finally, "putting together" federalism is the non-democratic variant: Sovereign entities are conquered or forced into a theoretically federal entity. The creation in 1922 of the Union of Soviet Socialist Republics, to use its full name, is Stepan's standard example here. Of course, as Stepan notes, countries can combine some or all of these routes; for example, elements of all three existed in Canada from the conquest of Quebec in 1759 through to 1867.

ALTERNATIVES TO FEDERALISM

Federalism is but one of many forms of multi-level political organization. As Figure 6.3 shows, the nine different types of multi-level political organization relate to each other on two different

Figure 6.3 Federalism and Its Alternatives

	← MORE CENTRALIZED			MORE DECENTRALIZED →	
"POPULATION-BASED COMPLETENESS" TOTAL OR VERY HIGH	Unitary state	Unitary state with non-constitutionally entrenched regional governments	Federation	Hybrid	Confederation
"POPULATION-BASED COMPLETENESS" LOW		Devolution	Federacy	Self-governing territory in bilateral free association, with right to independence	Associated state (in a bilateral customs union or treaty or "compact")

Note: Everything within the shaded area involves only one sovereign polity.

dimensions. The first involves centralization versus decentralization and is fairly self-evident in Figure 6.3. However, there is a second dimension, which we call "population-based completeness," which is the extent to which the specific multi-level political organization applies on all levels to the entire population.

Let's start by looking at situations in which this population-based "completeness" is perfect or close to it. We have already distinguished between a *federation*, with its two levels of government and related features, and a *unitary state*, with but one level of government above the local one. Examples of unitary states are Estonia, Greece, Iceland, and New Zealand – all rather small places. In between a federation and a unitary state, though, are countries with regional governments and, indeed, with regional governments that are elected, as they are in a federation. However, in these states, regional governments and their powers are not "protected" by being entrenched in the constitution. Consequently, these regions could be abolished, merged, or have their powers reduced, and they have no legal right to prevent such changes. Of course, central governments might rarely choose to do such things so as to avoid annoying the public, but they could. Countries with this type of political organization are Bolivia, Colombia, France, Italy, Japan, Peru, Poland, Slovakia, and Sweden. In Sweden, regional governments have existed for centuries; in the other cases, they are much more recent. In fact, Italy seems at times to be moving somewhat toward full federalism, but it is not there yet.

Moving away from a federation toward the most decentralized system with "population-based completeness" brings us to a **confederation**. A confederation is a group of sovereign entities forming a common government for specific and limited purposes, such as defence or economics. This common government has no independent sovereignty; relies upon the constituent governments to take all key decisions, which are usually reached through unanimity; and leaves matters of implementation to the constituent governments. Thus, the "central government" (and this is definitely stretching the term) does not act directly on the citizens, and each

constituent government retains ultimate sovereignty. Compared to a federation, a confederation is also much easier to leave – it is more like an international organization. Two standard historical examples of a confederation are Switzerland for most of the period before 1848 and the United States between 1776 and 1789. Another confederation was the German Zollverein (customs union) of the nineteenth century. Confederalism seems to be an unstable type of organization over the long run, and confederations often evolve into federations, as did the previously mentioned examples, or they dissolve. Two relatively recent examples of confederal dissolution are Senegambia in 1989 and Serbia and Montenegro in 2006. The EU is often called a confederation, although this classification does not seem appropriate, especially since the Maastricht Treaty of 1993, if not earlier. On the other hand, the EU is clearly not yet a federation (and there is strong debate on this goal), and its component countries still retain considerable sovereignty even if they have "pooled" their sovereign rights in an ever-increasing number of areas. The EU is best thought of as a sort of *hybrid* between confederation and federation, as indicated in Figure 6.3.

We turn now to situations of low "population-based completeness." The first variant is currently called *devolution* in the United Kingdom but, until the 1920s, it was known as "home rule." Historically, devolution involved demands by the Celtic peripheral areas – Ireland especially but also Scotland and Wales – for their own assemblies so they would not be so dependent on the English-dominated government in London. The creation of the Irish Free State in 1922, after decades of the British government trying to find a "solution" to Irish demands, largely pushed this issue off the table, although Northern Ireland retained its own assembly from 1921 until 1972. In the latter year, the government in London first prorogued the Northern Irish Assembly (seeing it as contributing to the local political violence) and then abolished it, something that obviously could not occur under true federalism. In the 1970s, demands for local assemblies resurfaced, although now these were stronger in Scotland and Wales. In 1978, referenda on devolution were held in those two areas but were unsuccessful. Further demands were largely resisted, however, by the Conservative governments of Margaret Thatcher (1979–90) and John Major (1990–97). Still, by the end of the 1990s, an elected Scottish parliament and elected Welsh and Northern Irish assemblies were established or re-established under a Labour government. These bodies, though, especially in Wales and Northern Ireland, are quite weak compared to, say, a provincial legislature in Canada.

Where is the low "population-based completeness" in all of this? One should remember that, under federalism, every citizen also lives in a constituent part of the federation. For example, all Canadians live in either a province or a territory. Likewise, each and every constituent part (1) has its own legislature *and* (2) is represented in the national legislature. These patterns are also true for the polities with non-constitutionally entrenched regional governments everywhere. Under devolution, however, the "main part" normally does not have its own, separate legislature. There is no separate assembly or parliament for England the way there is for Scotland, Wales, and Northern Ireland, for example. Consequently, over 80 per cent of the United Kingdom's population is not represented by any regional government. (This

figure leaves aside the elected Greater London Assembly, but, even if one generously calls this a regional parliament, the rest of England – some 70 per cent of the total UK population – has only the national government and local government.)

The next variation of political organization is called a *federacy*. This type also involves a smaller region (at least in the sense of population) but one with considerable constitutionally entrenched autonomy from the larger unitary state of which it is a part. The relationship can be changed only by mutual agreement between the federacy and the central government. Consequently, what a federacy amounts to is a federal-like arrangement for a specific territory within a unitary state. This territory is normally geographically separate from the main part of the country and is linguistically different or unique in some other way. It may even have cultural–historical ties to a neighbouring state. Thus, a federacy is an asymmetrical unit of government with "special status" that still keeps the territory part of the country – and avoids full federalism.[27] Examples of federacies are the Faroe Islands within Denmark, the Åland Islands within Finland, the five "regions of special statute" within Italy,[28] and the Azores and Madeira within Portugal. All of these territories have very small populations. Although some consider Puerto Rico a federacy of the United States, this designation is not quite correct. First of all, the United States is a federal, not a unitary, system. Second, Puerto Rico is not a constituent part of the United States. Consequently, Puerto Rico has only a single resident commissioner in the US House of Representatives (who is free to speak and to introduce legislation, but who can only vote in committees). Moreover, its residents – though US citizens – cannot vote for the president unless they move to the US mainland.[29]

Even more autonomy can be granted to a small region by giving it the right to determine its own future, including independence if and when it wishes. Such a territory is self-governing (except for matters of defence, foreign affairs, and usually some other areas), but it is not sovereign. In Figure 6.3, we call a political entity in this situation "a self-governing territory in bilateral free association, with a right to independence." Some sort of treaty or equivalent will define this association. Most eastern Caribbean islands went through this stage prior to independence from the United Kingdom. Current examples are the Cook Islands with New Zealand (since 1965), Niue Island with New Zealand (since 1974), and Aruba with the Netherlands (since 1986). Greenland, which was a federacy like the Faroe Islands, now has this status vis-à-vis Denmark as of the 2009 Act on Greenland Self-Government (following a 2008 referendum in Greenland). In theory, Jammu and Kashmir was self-governing in association with India; however, India never recognized that region's right to self-determination, merely granting it special autonomy as a state (now withdrawn). Finally, the 1998 Nouméa Accord established a transition to a similar state of affairs for New Caledonia with respect to France, created a New Caledonian citizenship, and provided for three referenda on independence – the last of which was held in December 2021 (see Chapter 1). However, with all these referenda being unsuccessful, the Accord expired and New Caledonia's relationship with France is reverting to likely a federacy.

Lastly, a small sovereign country may wish to have formal links with a larger country; for example, to have the larger country take care of its defence or to use the currency of the larger country. The "larger country" may or may not have been the colonial power formerly ruling the smaller one. This small sovereign territory becomes an *associated state* of the larger country. The two countries will have a formal bilateral treaty – or a customs union if their relationship is merely economic. Formal sovereignty is retained by each part, and either can end the relationship (as in a confederation). However, the relationship is clearly asymmetrical in that one speaks of the smaller country being associated with the larger country, never the other way around. Given this asymmetry, the relationship is effectively one of low "population-based completeness." Long-lasting examples of associated states are Bhutan with India (associated since 1949), Liechtenstein with Switzerland (associated since 1923), Monaco with France (associated since 1919), and San Marino with Italy (associated since 1862). Interestingly, Monaco has never been a democracy, although of course France is a longstanding one. More recent examples of associated states are the Marshall Islands and Micronesia, each of which signed a Compact of Free Association with the United States to define their post-independence relationship. These "compacts" took effect in 1986. A similar compact was reached with Palau in 1993. Their main benefit to the United States is the maintenance of military bases in these countries; in return, the associate states each receive substantial funds.[30]

NOTES

1 In a weaker version of restrictions on re-election, the president has to spend a term out of office before being able to run again, as in Chile, the Dominican Republic, and Uruguay (after one term in office), and in Brazil (after two terms in office). In Panama and now in Costa Rica, two terms must elapse before a former president can run again. The change in Costa Rica thus allowed Óscar Arias Sánchez, the president from 1986 to 1990 (during which time he won the Nobel Peace Prize), to return to office in the 2006 presidential election.

2 This pattern did not become common in Latin America until the 1990s, when Argentina, Brazil, and Venezuela all changed their respective constitutions to permit immediate re-election to a second term. Colombia did the same in 2005. Autocratic Venezuela would later abolish term limits.

3 An equivalent "lame duck" status also applies to a final-term prime minister in the parliamentary systems of Andorra, which limits prime ministers to two consecutive complete terms (Constitution of the Principality of Andorra, Article 78.1), and Belize, which limits prime ministers to three terms in total, consecutive or not (Constitution of Belize, Article 37.2).

4 As Table 6.1 shows, since re-democratization in Chile, an absolute majority is required to be elected president.

5 Previous to 2000 and 2016, such occurrences of the US electoral college reversing the presidential popular vote were in 1824 (via the House contingent procedure), 1876 (based on the "Compromise of 1877" in which Southern Democrats accepted a Republican victory in the presidential election in exchange for the removal of federal troops from the region), 1888, and arguably 1960 (if the

Alabama Democratic votes are divided between Kennedy and unpledged electors who would ultimately vote for Harry Byrd). See Edwards, *Why the Electoral College Is Bad for America*, 44–51.

6 Baumgartner and Case, "Constitutional Design of the Executive."

7 Lijphart, *Patterns of Democracy*, 117.

8 A majority coalition is certainly likely if an absolute majority of deputies must vote in favour of a new government for it to win the vote of investiture.

9 Bergman, "Constitutional Design and Government Formation," 287–9.

10 Some clarification is needed here on Portugal and Sweden. Formally, both appear to involve positive parliamentarianism in that there is an actual vote of investiture. However, in each case, the government does not have to "win" the vote in the sense of having more votes in favour than against; it merely has to ensure or hope that there is not an absolute majority of votes (of the eligible deputies) against it. In other words, both formal abstentions and absences count on the government side. For example, in Sweden in 1981, a government was invested with 102 votes in favour, 174 votes against, 62 abstentions, and 11 absences (of the 349 deputies). See Bergman, "Constitutional Design," 297. Consequently, then, both Portugal and Sweden should be considered to have negative parliamentarianism *in effect*. In contrast, Luxembourg and the Netherlands do not formally require a vote of investiture, but each normally undertakes such a vote, so effectively they have positive parliamentarianism. Likewise in India, the convention is that there is a vote of investiture, but the president may not require this if it is obvious that the new government has a clear majority of support.

11 Goplerud and Schleiter, "An Index of Assembly Dissolution Powers"; Becher, "Dissolution Power, Confidence Votes, and Policymaking in Parliamentary Democracies"; Schleiter and Fleming, "Parliamentary Prorogation in Comparative Context."

12 Despite the worldwide recognition of Nelson Mandela, he was never directly elected by South African voters (although he would have won). Mandela was elected unopposed by the National Assembly in 1994 and so was his successor as president, Thabo Mbeki, in both 1999 and 2004. That said, in 2008, Mbeki would resign after having lost the support of his party – also a parliamentary, not a presidential, outcome. (Since 2008, elections of the South African president by the National Assembly have involved a contested vote with an opposition candidate.) Certainly for the third type of mixed system, parliamentary elections and support are what ultimately determine the single-person executive. However, the real-world cases assigned to this category are complicated by the relatively unusual natures of their party systems (see the next chapter). On the one hand, Botswana and South Africa each have had one and only one dominant party in power since independence and democratization, respectively. On the other hand, Kiribati, the Marshall Islands, and Nauru all lack political parties.

13 Barbados was in this category until it became a republic on November 30, 2021.

14 Australia held a referendum on making such a change in 1999, but it was unsuccessful.

15 Taken from Siaroff, "Comparative Presidencies."

16 Effectively, Andorra also fits here, even though it has *two* figurehead heads of state, representing, respectively, the president of France and the Bishop of Seo de Urgell in Spain.

17 The term "corrective" has a positive normative connotation, and that is the standard reality – but not always. In Weimar Germany, the corrective powers of the president were used when needed by the first president, Friedrich Ebert, but in ways that supported the democratic order and party government. The second president, Paul von Hindenburg, also used these powers reasonably in his first term. However, once re-elected in 1932, the aged Hindenburg quickly and repeatedly abused

the presidential powers of appointing and dismissing chancellors and dissolving the parliament, greatly contributing to the breakdown of Weimar democracy. On the Weimar president, see Smith, *Democracy in Western Germany*, 19–21, 27–9.

18 Though not democratic now, Venezuela was democratic at the time of this change.

19 Lijphart, *Patterns of Democracy*, 205.

20 Lijphart, *Patterns of Democracy*, 211.

21 This "duplicate pattern" used to be the situation in Italy, but elections to the House of Representatives (the lower house) now involve a large national bonus given to the leading coalition so that it will enjoy a clear majority, whereas elections to the Senate (the upper house) involve only smaller, regional bonuses. Thus, in Italy's 2006 election, the Olive Tree coalition won a comfortable majority in the lower house but only a one-seat majority in the upper house.

22 Joint sittings also occur in the weak bicameralism of India, requiring only one rejection of specific legislation by the upper house and no intervening election.

23 The Inter-Parliamentary Union is an invaluable source of data and analysis on this issue. See http://www.ipu.org.

24 Watts, *Comparing Federal Systems*, 7.

25 The Federated States of Micronesia fits the spirit if not strictly the letter of this feature. That is, the Congress in Micronesia is unicameral but functions in various ways more like a bicameral system. First of all, two different types of members are elected: one at-large member from each state (thus four of these) and ten local constituency members. These ten local congressional districts are allocated based on population, although each state must have at least one. (Currently, the allocations from biggest to smallest state are 5, 3, 1, and 1.) Moreover, the "state-at-large" members are elected for four years, whereas the local constituency members are elected for only two years. This arrangement parallels the pattern of upper house members serving longer terms than lower house members. Then, in terms of passing legislation, two readings are required: First, a bill must pass in the Congress overall (by a two-thirds vote), and then, in a final reading on a later day, each state delegation casts one block vote (again, with two-thirds needed to pass). Likewise, presidential vetoes are overridden by Congress members voting as state delegations; each delegation casts one vote, and at least three of the four delegations are needed to override the veto.

26 Stepan, "Toward a New Comparative Politics of Federalism," 320–3.

27 Stepan, Linz, and Yadav, *Crafting State-Nations*, Chapter Seven: "Federacy: A Formula for Democratically Managing Multinational Societies in Unitary States." They also provide the following ideal-type definition of federacy (p. 204): "A federacy is a political-administrative unit in an independent unitary state with exclusive power in certain areas, including some legislative power, constitutionally or quasi-constitutionally embedded, that cannot be changed unilaterally and whose inhabitants have full citizenship rights in the otherwise unitary state."

28 Three of these are linguistically distinct: German-speaking South Tyrol, French-speaking Valle d'Aosta, and largely Slovene-speaking Friuli-Venezia Giulia; the other two are islands off the mainland: Sicily and Sardinia.

29 On the relationship between Puerto Rico and the United States, see Rezvani, "The Basis of Puerto Rico's Constitutional Status." Note that he uses "federacy" in a less restrictive sense than we do, not requiring representation in the national government.

30 Note that some scholars use the term "associated state" to apply to the last two categories; however, we wish to make a distinction based on the key difference of sovereignty, so we reserve the term for the last category.

CHAPTER SEVEN

Electoral Systems, Party Systems, and Government Formation in Democracies

In This Chapter You Will Learn

- what the components of an electoral system are;
- what the various electoral systems used in the world's democracies are, and how their individual mechanics differ;
- how electoral systems vary in terms of proportionality and its inverse, disproportionality – the latter being what scholars actually calculate in terms of an election;
- the overall distinction between centralism-proportionality and localism-majoritarianism in electoral systems, and their consequences;
- what some precise ways of measuring party system fragmentation are;
- what the six main types of party systems are defined in terms of fragmentation and competition and the differences between them;
- what the differences between more and less institutionalized party systems are, and how democracies divide in terms of this distinction;
- how and why party system institutionalization matters for democratic performance and stability;
- what the variations in government formation rules and conventions are; and
- what the alternatives to a full coalition in terms of agreements between parties are.

ELECTORAL SYSTEMS

Regardless of the institutional distinctions outlined in the previous chapter, all democracies have legislatures elected in more or less free and fair elections. But how, exactly, are these

legislatures elected? In the first part of this chapter, we examine the various **electoral systems** used to elect the lower house or single chamber in all the liberal and electoral democracies in the world. Electoral systems have enormous consequences for what government is formed, or at least for which party dominates the chamber in a **presidential system**. However, it is incorrect, or at least too broad, to consider an electoral system to be the method of electing a *government*. Rather, an electoral system determines the partisan composition of the legislature by establishing, in the words of Farrell, "*the means by which votes are translated into seats in the process of electing politicians into office.*"[1]

Four aspects of an electoral system are useful for analytical purposes: district magnitude, electoral formula, ballot structure, and total size of the legislature. The first three are the most central.[2] By **district magnitude** we mean the number of seats to be filled in an electoral district. At one extreme, Israel, Moldova, the Netherlands, and Slovakia elect their parliaments in a single national calculation; thus, they each have only one district. Everywhere else, however, the country is divided into various electoral districts or constituencies.[3] For each district in a country, then, we need to know how many members are being elected – this is the district magnitude. In the United Kingdom, each of its 650 constituencies elects one member to the House of Commons; thus, the district magnitude is one, as it is in Canada and the United States. Conversely, in Israel, the district magnitude is 120 (the size of the *Knesset*). The district magnitude is likewise equal to the number of seats in the legislature or chamber in Moldova at 104, and in the Netherlands and Slovakia at 150. As long as elections are not decided by a winner-take-all electoral formula, the larger the district magnitude, the greater the proportionality.[4] Finally, a country with multiple districts does not have to have the same district magnitude in each district; indeed, this will not be the case if the districts vary in population. The *electoral formula* is the precise calculation within each district, and sometimes regionally or nationally, that allocates the seats among the competing candidates and parties. Although in theory an infinite number of such formulae could exist, in actuality there are only a few key ones. *Ballot structure* involves whether the voter makes one choice or alternatively ranks a list of competing candidates. Some scholars note a fourth aspect of an electoral system – the total size of the legislature.[5] Very small legislatures, in particular, tend to be less proportional regardless of the electoral formula.

Following from the issue of districts, wherever a polity is divided into (many) constituencies, and especially into single-member constituencies, there is the potential of **gerrymandering** – deliberately drawing constituency borders to favour one party in terms of maximizing its total overall seats – and/or **malapportionment** – having or indeed creating constituencies with significant differences in population/number of voters per seat, which thus favours parties stronger in less populated areas. Gerrymandering can be prevented by having a non-partisan body draw the constituencies. However, partisan drawing of constituencies by the majority party is common in most US states (affecting both the state legislature and the state's seats in the US House of Representatives). More generally, majoritarian (and thus "winner-take-all")

electoral systems are more prone to gerrymandering as the payoff is high, perhaps contributing to a seat majority (see below).[6] As for malapportionment, as noted in the previous chapter this may be not just intentional but justifiable in the *upper houses* of federal systems so as to counterbalance the populated areas that dominate the lower house. However, malapportionment in *lower houses* will make the final outcome less equal compared to the overall votes. For example, in Mongolia the capital of Ulaanbaatar has 24 of the 76 seats in parliament (31.6 per cent) but as of 2018 it has 1.49 million people out of a total national population of 3.24 million (46.0 per cent).[7] To prevent (growing) malapportionment in single-member electoral systems, most such countries *reapportion* seats and redraw constituency borders every decade or so.

Table 7.1 classifies all the various electoral systems in today's liberal and electoral democracies, grouped into three main categories based on their overall national effects. First are *majoritarian* electoral systems, so named because of their tendency to give a majority of seats to one party. To repeat, this is a tendency, not a "guarantee." Such a majority of seats will often occur even if the party does not win a majority of the popular vote, a circumstance known as a **manufactured majority** because the majority in the legislature has been "manufactured" by the electoral system. Sometimes this manufactured majority is "spurious" in that it does not even go to the party leading in the popular vote but rather to the second-place party in terms of national votes. Such a "spurious majority" occurred, for example, in the US House of Representatives in 2012 and twice in a row in New Zealand (1978 and 1981) – in the latter case leading to demands for electoral system change, which eventually occurred.[8] In these majoritarian electoral systems, there is no conscious attempt to make the final percentage of seats match the overall percentage of the vote won by each party. Very rarely in majoritarian electoral systems, the legislature's composition *is* close to the distribution of the votes (the Canadian federal election of 1925 is one exceptional example) but this proportionality is a "fluke" rather than anything automatic or required. Indeed, even if there is a **hung parliament** in which no one party has a majority, a majoritarian system still normally produces a bias in favour of the largest party or parties. Table 7.2 shows this pattern clearly for the UK election of 2010, contrasting this with the "exceptional" Canadian election of 1925, also given in Table 7.2.

Proportional electoral systems, the second category, have proportionality as an explicit goal. They try to match the share of seats won with the share of votes won, except perhaps when it comes to the representation of very tiny parties. Consequently, in these systems a single party should not win a majority of seats unless it has won a majority of the popular vote or something very close to it. The third category includes systems that combine elements of each of the first two types to produce a pattern somewhat in between – that is, with some elements of proportionality but not the clear overall pattern found in the second category.

Far and away the most common type of majoritarian system is the *single-member plurality (SMP)* electoral system, which is used in the United Kingdom and many former British colonies, including Canada and the United States. In this system, the district magnitude is one: A single member is elected at a time in each district. To win the seat, a candidate needs to have

Table 7.1 Types of Electoral Systems (as of the end of 2021)

MAJORITARIAN SYSTEMS			
Single-member plurality	Antigua and Barbuda	Grenada	Saint Kitts and Nevis
	Bahamas	India	Saint Lucia
	Barbados	Jamaica	Saint Vincent and the Grenadines
	Belize	Lesotho	Samoa
	Bhutan	Liberia	Solomon Islands
	Botswana	Malawi	Trinidad and Tobago
	Canada	Maldives	United Kingdom
	Dominica	Micronesia	United States
	Gambia	Nigeria	Zambia
	Ghana	Palau	
Single-member majority-plurality	France		
Single-member majority (alternative vote)	Australia	Kiribati	
Mixture of single-member, dual-member, and/or multi-member plurality	Marshall Islands	Mongolia	Tuvalu
	Mauritius*	Nauru^	
Single non-transferable vote	Vanuatu		
PROPORTIONAL SYSTEMS			
Single transferable vote	Ireland	Malta**	
Party list proportional representation	Argentina	Estonia	Norway
	Armenia	Finland	Paraguay
	Austria	Greece**	Peru
	Belgium	Guyana	Poland
	Brazil	Iceland	Portugal
	Bulgaria	Indonesia	Romania*
	Burkina Faso	Israel	San Marino^^
	Cape Verde	Kosovo	São Tomé and Príncipe
	Chile	Latvia	Slovakia
	Colombia	Lebanon	Slovenia
	Costa Rica	Liechtenstein	South Africa
	Croatia*	Luxembourg	Spain
	Cyprus	Moldova	Sri Lanka
	Czech Republic	Montenegro	Suriname
	Denmark	Namibia	Sweden
	Dominican Republic	Netherlands	Switzerland
	Ecuador	North Macedonia	Uruguay
Mixed-member proportional (fully compensatory)	Bolivia	Lesotho	New Zealand
	Germany		
IN-BETWEEN SYSTEMS			
Parallel	Andorra	Korea, South	Seychelles
	East Timor	Lithuania	Taiwan
	Italy	Nepal	Ukraine
	Japan	Panama	
Mixed-member semi-compensatory	Mexico		

* Includes some single-member constituencies for ethnic minorities

** Includes (Greece) or may include (Malta) extra seats for the largest party; in Malta, so as to give it a parliamentary majority

^ With preferential voting in Nauru

^^ Possible runoff between top two coalitions

Table 7.2 Comparing Two Hung Parliaments in History and Their Disproportionality

a.

United Kingdom May 2010 (total of 650 seats)	Vote %	Seats	Seat %	Percentage Difference
Conservative Party	36.05	306	47.08	11.03
Labour Party	28.99	258	39.69	10.70
Liberal Democrats	23.03	57	8.77	–14.26
United Kingdom Independence Party	3.10	0	0.00	–3.10
British National Party	1.90	0	0.00	–1.90
Scottish National Party	1.66	6	0.92	–0.74
Green Party of England and Wales	0.89	1	0.15	–0.74
Plaid Cymru (the Party of Wales)	0.56	3	0.46	–0.10
Main Northern Irish Parties				
Sinn Fein	0.58	5	0.77	0.19
Democratic Unionist Party	0.57	8	1.23	0.66
Social Democratic and Labour Party	0.37	3	0.46	0.09
Ulster Conservatives and Unionists	0.34	0	0.00	–0.34
Alliance	0.14	1	0.15	0.01
Others and independents	1.82	2	0.31	–1.51

Note: Total disproportionality (based on individual parties) was 22.68. As shown, each of the two largest parties received a significant seat bonus, as did the two largest parties in Northern Ireland – which has its own party system.

b.

Canada October 1925 (total of 245 seats)	Vote %	Seats	Seat %	Percentage Difference
Conservatives	46.48	116	47.35	0.87
Liberals	39.87	99	40.41	0.54
Progressives	8.95	24	9.80	0.85
Others and independents	4.70	6	2.45	–2.25

Note: Total disproportionality was only 2.25. As shown, the seat bonus for the leading party was only 0.87. Ironically, a party with 46 per cent of the vote would normally win a manufactured majority under such a national vote distribution.

more votes than any other candidate; all that is required is a plurality of votes, not necessarily a majority. Of course, some victors will have won a majority of the votes in their constituencies, but again, winning a majority is not required. Indeed, *no* specific share of the vote is required to win under SMP; the winning share will vary with the number and strength of the candidates. Consequently, the frequently used description of these elections as "first-past-the-post" races is incorrect and inappropriate: There is no actual "post." (A more accurate analogy would be the kind of set-time race in which whoever is leading when time runs out is declared the winner.) Under SMP, the election is a series of individual races in however many districts there are. No link exists between overall votes won and overall seats won, nor is any consolation prize given for coming second in a constituency. Indeed, a party that comes second everywhere wins the same number of seats – zero –as a party that comes, say, last everywhere.

One criticism of such a system is that the winning candidate in a district may have won only a minority of the vote; in other words, most people did not vote for them. One solution to this "problem" could be to have a runoff vote between the top two candidates. In fact, although various presidential elections have runoff votes (see Chapter 6), the only current **democracy** that actually does this at the legislative level is Lithuania for its single-member seats. The French National Assembly, which uses a single-member electoral system, follows a related procedure: a runoff election in every constituency in which nobody wins a majority on the first ballot. However, rather than restricting the runoff to the top two candidates, the rules allow any candidate who gets 12.5 per cent of the constituency's electorate – that is, of the total potential vote – on the first ballot to contest the runoff. Candidates above this threshold are not *obliged* to contest the runoff, and parties will often make deals between the ballots (if not before) that involve candidates who clear the threshold withdrawing in favour of other, stronger candidates of allied parties. Such strategic withdrawal is necessary because only a plurality is needed to win the runoff, and a plurality may be all that is achieved when there are more than two candidates. Consequently, the French system is categorized as a "single-member majority-plurality."

The Australian House of Representatives requires that candidates achieve overall majority support. These elections (and also now those of Kiribati) use the alternative vote, namely, a *preferential ballot* to determine the ultimate winner. So, rather than just indicating one preferred choice, each voter ranks all the candidates: 1, 2, 3, and so on. Then a calculation is made of each candidate's "first preferences" – their number of "1"s. If one candidate receives a majority, the counting stops. However, if no candidate has a majority of first preferences, then the candidate with the least number of first preferences is dropped, and the second preferences of their voters are distributed. If this does not push anyone over the 50 per cent level, then the next least popular candidate is dropped, and so on. Of course, if a voter has unpopular tastes, it may be that their vote keeps being recounted until they are using, say, their fifth preference! Nevertheless, at some point, a candidate will win a majority of preferences – even if the win requires getting down to two final choices.

To repeat, all of these systems use single-member districts (district magnitudes of one). However, also classified as majoritarian systems are those that use a combination of SMP, dual-member plurality, and multi-member plurality. Here we emphasize the plurality aspect – that is, the electoral formula. In such systems, the voter gets as many votes as there are members to be elected in the constituency, and the parties normally also run that number of candidates. Assuming that voters vote for each and every candidate of their preferred party, then one party will win all the seats in the constituency with each of their candidates getting (basically) the same number of votes, but not necessarily a plurality. Of course, a voter may "mix and match" candidates across parties, but doing so is rare, or at least rare enough that it is seldom the case that candidates of more than one party are elected. Although this pattern of plurality voting in districts of varying magnitude (but none very large) exists today only in Mauritius, Mongolia,

and three Pacific island states (see Table 7.1), it should be stressed that it was used historically in some Canadian provinces.

The final type of majoritarian electoral system is called a single non-transferable vote (SNTV). As in the previous examples, deputies are elected in multi-member districts. However, the voter is given only *one* vote that must be cast for a specific candidate. A plurality electoral formula is used so that, if it is a five-member district, then the top five candidates all get elected. As voters get only one vote, they have to choose among the candidates of their preferred party, assuming there are more than one of these. A voter cannot vote for all the candidates of a given party (because each voter only has one vote), nor can a voter rank the candidates, as in a preferential ballot. Consequently, multiple candidates of the same party must compete against each other (on something other than party label, obviously). Also, larger parties have to decide strategically how many candidates to run in a district: too many and they will divide the vote excessively, too few and an extra seat that could have been won will be lost. Generally, a party with overall majority support in a district will run, say, three candidates in a five-member district and hope to elect all three. Conversely, small parties will run only one candidate in a district and hope to get about one-fifth (or whatever) of the vote to win one seat. Although SNTV is now used only in Vanuatu, from 1947 through 1993 it was the system used in Japanese lower house elections.

All of these majoritarian electoral systems can lead to manufactured majorities; even if this phenomenon does not occur, the system generally creates an imbalance between the percentage of votes won and the percentage of seats won by individual parties. This imbalance amounts to a deviation from pure proportionality (wherein the seat percentage exactly equals the vote percentage for every party) and is more commonly phrased in terms of how *dis*-proportional the election results are. Mathematically, we measure the disproportionality of elections (under all electoral systems) by the Loosemore-Hanby **index of disproportionality**, which sums the absolute value of each party's vote share to seat share difference and then divides this total by two (because some party's excessively high percentage of seats must be balanced by some other party's excessively low percentage) to get a value between 0 and 100 – the higher the number, the greater the disproportionality.[9] For example, for the countries that use SMP and have political parties, the average index of disproportionality value is 19.1; for all countries using majoritarian electoral systems and having political parties, the average index of disproportionality value is 20.6 (calculated from Table 7.5 below). In such majoritarian systems, parties whose support is broad geographically but not very deep locally (such as the federal Progressive Conservatives in Canada in 1993) will come up short, with most of their votes "wasted" (not electing the desired candidate). Yet it is also the case that parties that are extremely popular locally (such as the Canadian federal Conservatives in much of Alberta and Saskatchewan) will have candidates winning with well over half the vote; all of these "surplus" votes are also wasted.[10] Thus, by definition, any single-member system is disproportional; so too are multi-member plurality systems.

Electoral systems that are proportional in their philosophy avoid both of these features: that is, they use multi-member rather than single-member districts, and they use a non-plurality electoral formula. One type of proportional system is that of the single transferable vote (STV), used in Ireland and Malta and also for the Australian Senate. The STV electoral system has the moderate district magnitude (usually three to five) and the single vote of the SNTV system; however, it not only allows but often requires voters to indicate their preferences (1, 2, 3, etc.) across all the candidates of all the parties. This preferential ballot structure is the same as that of the alternative vote, but in an alternative vote only one person gets elected. Under STV, a few people will get elected in each constituency. The key mechanism is the establishment of an electoral quota, known as the "Droop quota," which is one more than the total number of valid votes divided by the total number of district seats plus one. This quota is thus the smallest share of the vote needed to elect a full number of candidates, but no more. Consequently (in rounded-up terms), for a five-member district the quota is 17 per cent, for a four-member district the quota is 21 per cent, and for a three-member district the quota is 26 per cent. Indeed, for a single-member district the quota is 51 per cent, which is the definition of single-member *majority* systems such as that of the Australian lower house.[11] As is the case with the alternative vote, unpopular candidates get dropped from the ballot, and the second (and subsequent) preferences of their voters get transferred. Even more multiple rounds of counting take place to elect all the candidates. However, what is really different from the alternative vote (and SMP too, of course) is that under STV one can never win "too many" votes. Whenever a candidate reaches or exceeds the quota – be this on the first or a subsequent count – that candidate is declared elected. At this stage, any preferences the elected candidate has that are above the quota are then redistributed as a share of the next preferences of *all* that candidate's voters. These subsequent preferences will, presumably, help to elect someone else of the same party. And although parties do run only a reasonable number of candidates given their size, unlike in SNTV systems, parties operating under an STV electoral formula do not run the same danger of splitting their vote if they run an excessive number of candidates because surplus preferences transfer.

Although the electoral formula used in STV systems is certainly proportional, the small district magnitude can prevent this system from achieving full proportionality. That is, although a quota of 17 per cent or 21 per cent is certainly better for smaller parties than 51 per cent or even being the plurality candidate, 17 per cent may still be too high for small parties. They would not win any seats in a given constituency; conversely, another party (usually the largest) will win, say, one seat too many given the voters' first preferences. Such a problem is less the greater the district magnitude; however, because voters can or must rank multiple candidates of various parties and because the more candidates to be elected, the more rounds of counting are involved, for practical purposes STV is not normally used with a district magnitude of more than five or six.[12] Indeed, in Ireland many constituencies have a district magnitude of only three or four. (However, in Malta, all districts have a magnitude of five.) On

the other hand, the modest district magnitudes and constituency sizes mean that all deputies have clear local ties.

These patterns are essentially inverted in the main form of proportional representation, the party list system. Indeed, party list proportional representation is the single most common type of electoral system in the world's democracies because of its dominance in continental Europe and Latin America (see Table 7.1). We have already noted that Israel, Moldova, the Netherlands, and Slovakia each has only one electoral district, and parties offer only national lists. However, the usual pattern for party list proportional representation is to divide the country into a few districts (normally the provinces or equivalents if there are regional governments), each of which elects perhaps 10 or 20 or 40 members who are no more locally based than at this regional level. Spain is an exception in that some of its districts have magnitudes as low as three. Under party list proportional representation, some seats may also be allocated at the national level to "correct" any imperfections that are a consequence of regional level calculations, as is the case in Sweden. Voters normally vote for the party list as a whole, although, as we shall see, some systems allow (or, in Finland, require) the voter to express a preference within the list. Still, unlike in the STV system, the voter in party list proportional representation does not rank everyone or express a series of preferences. Thus, the basic electoral formula is quite simple: A party that wins, say, 10 per cent of the votes gets 10 per cent of the seats. Of course, parties usually win fractional amounts of votes whereas seat numbers are integers, so varying formulae exist to determine which party gets the last unclaimed seat (some formulae favour larger parties, some favour smaller ones). There is no quota per se, as in the STV system. However, what matters usually is a legal threshold of support that a party must meet in order to win any proportional seats at all. This threshold is often 4 or 5 per cent of the national vote, but it may be established regionally instead. Thresholds may also be higher for coalitions of parties. The real-world highest value here for a single party is the legal threshold of 10 per cent of the national vote found in Turkey, which, in its 2002 election (Turkey then being a democracy), eliminated all but two parties. The real-world lowest value here is the legal threshold of 2 per cent of the national vote found in Denmark.[13] Yet even where no legal thresholds are in place, an effective threshold based on the size of the legislature exists. For example, the Dutch lower house has 150 members, so a party that cannot win 1/150th of the vote (0.667 per cent) is out of luck.

Indeed, party list proportional representation only truly lives up to its "name" consistently – by providing near-perfect proportionality – when the legal threshold is low or non-existent *and* when the average district magnitude is medium or high, such as in Israel (current disproportionality value of 2.7), South Africa (1.8), and Sweden (1.5). Conversely, a high threshold (as in Turkey, most extremely) and small district magnitudes (as in Burkina Faso or in Peru outside of Lima)[14] do not normally result in very proportional representation. Overall, the average index of disproportionality value for party list proportional representation systems is 10.7 – about half that of majoritarian systems but far from zero. Lack of a proportional outcome despite

the use of party list proportional representation is particularly common in new democracies or those without institutionalized party systems (discussed below), where often huge numbers of parties compete and voters are not clear about which parties are likely to be successful or, conversely, marginal. In this situation, large numbers of "wasted" votes go to parties that fail to clear the threshold. For example, in the last parliamentary election in Slovakia in 2020, no less than six parties and one two-party coalition each got at least 2 per cent of the vote but failed to clear the required threshold for seats (5 per cent for each party and 7 per cent for the coalition), contributing to an overall disproportionality value of 28.5 (see Table 7.5 below).

Given that party list proportional representation, as its very name indicates, involves lists of candidates, which individual candidates of a party actually get elected? A continuum of ballot structures and thus outcomes exists, from the structure giving parties the most control over the process to the one giving voters the most flexibility. These are detailed for specific countries in Table 7.3. A closed-list system gives each political party the power to determine the order of its candidates on the list, and the voters cannot change this ranking. Consequently, if a party wins, say, four seats, the top four candidates named on that party's list are elected. In contrast, an open list allows voters to indicate their preferences in terms of the individual candidates on a party list. With enough preferences, a candidate will "move up" the list and conceivably become one of those elected. That said, what it takes to move up the list and, thus, the likelihood of a candidate's election varies greatly from system to system. Moreover, the party still draws up the initial list, so starting at the top, even if no guarantee, gives a candidate a better chance to be elected. In some countries, though, the list is what we call "open and completely decisive" – that is, the party does not rank candidates but provides instead an alphabetical list. Voters must vote specifically for an individual party candidate, and although these votes collectively determine how many seats a party wins, the individual preference votes decide entirely which candidate or candidates are elected. Finally, some countries using an open and completely decisive list go further and make the list "free" by giving the voters multiple votes, which can not only be assigned within a given party in terms of its candidates but also spread across the lists of differing parties (a process known as *panachage*). These "open, free, and completely decisive" lists thus provide the greatest flexibility for the voter – and conversely the least control for the parties.

One attempt to combine party list proportional representation with at least partial local constituency representation is called mixed-member proportional (MMP) representation. This system has been used in Germany since its first postwar election in 1949 and has also been adopted in Bolivia, Lesotho, and New Zealand – in the case of New Zealand as a conscious change away from a SMP system. Under MMP representation, a certain number of deputies (half in Germany) are elected in local constituencies using SMP voting. Thus, everyone can be said to have a local member of parliament, although this matters more in New Zealand than it ever has in Germany. The other deputies are elected from regional party lists. Voters have separate votes for the local candidate and for the party list, and they can engage in "ticket-splitting." Of these two votes, the party list is by far the more important because the goal of the

Table 7.3 Party List Proportional Representation and Ballot Structure (as of the end of 2021)

CLOSED LIST			
Argentina	Dominican Republic	Namibia	São Tomé and Príncipe
Benin	Guyana	North Macedonia	South Africa
Cape Verde	Israel	Paraguay	Spain
Costa Rica	Lebanon	Portugal	
Croatia	Montenegro	Romania	
OPEN LIST			
Austria	Estonia	Liechtenstein	Slovakia
Bulgaria	Greece	Netherlands	Slovenia
Belgium	Iceland	Norway	Sri Lanka
Cyprus	Indonesia	Peru	Suriname
Czech Republic	Kosovo	Poland	Sweden
Denmark	Latvia	San Marino	Uruguay
OPEN AND COMPLETELY DECISIVE LIST			
Brazil	Chile	Colombia	Finland
OPEN, FREE, AND COMPLETELY DECISIVE LIST (voter has multiple votes and is free to combine these across parties)			
Ecuador	Luxembourg	Switzerland	

Note: Armenia combines a closed national list and open regional lists.

system is to make the final outcome of seats as proportionally close as possible to the party list share of the vote for all those parties above the legal threshold. Thus if a party gets 40 per cent of the party list vote, it should, at the end of the process, have 40 per cent of the total seats in the parliament. How many seats it gets from the party lists will vary inversely with how many it wins in the single-member constituencies. For example, if the constituency-to-list seat ratio is 50:50 and a given party won 20 per cent of the list vote but only 10 per cent of the constituency seats (and thus only 5 per cent of the overall seats from the constituency part) it would "need" another 15 per cent overall for proportionality. Consequently, it would receive 30 per cent of the list seats. Of course, all of the usual biases of the SMP system apply to the local seats, so smaller parties, such as the Greens in Germany or New Zealand, may *never* win a local seat and will get all of their seats from the party lists. Yet as long as sufficient numbers of seats are available in the list portion (as is the case under the German 50:50 ratio), the overall result will be quite proportional. Consequently, the MMP system can be said to be *fully compensatory*, in that the party list seats should fully compensate any party above the threshold that won too few seats in the local constituencies. Hence, this electoral system is clearly in the proportional category. Indeed, the average index of disproportionality for the four MMP systems is 5.8, well below the average for the party list proportional representation systems.

The final category of electoral systems comprises those that are neither fully majoritarian nor fully proportional; instead, they fall in between as a compromise (or perhaps because of an internal contradiction). The more common variant is usually called a parallel system. In these, local deputies are elected (usually using a SMP formula), as are deputies from regional or national lists. Voters usually have two separate votes. However, each component's electoral formula remains totally independent; that is, only the calculation of party list seats is proportional to the party list vote, regardless of how well a party did in the local, single-member constituencies. Because the seats determined by the locally elected constituencies invariably will be disproportional and because the party list seats in no way compensate for this disproportionality, the overall result will not be fully proportional. However, results should be more proportional than if, say, all the seats were elected using a SMP formula. Consequently, the ratio of locally elected seats to party list seats is crucial: If the system is heavily weighted toward the locally elected seats (as in South Korea), the result will be more disproportional than if the ratio is 50:50, all other things being equal. Overall, though, the average index of disproportionality for all parallel systems is 16.3, not surprisingly between that of all majoritarian and all proportional systems.

Finally, mixed-member semi-compensatory electoral systems, as in Mexico, fall basically between the parallel systems and the pure proportional representation ones, conceptually and normally in terms of their index of disproportionality (for which the Mexican value is 15.2). These semi-compensatory systems do take into account the results of the single-member constituencies when allocating the party list seats, but not to the extent of aiming to achieve full proportionality. Instead, some compensation is achieved, normally by "capping" the leading party. For example, in Mexico, no party may have more than 60 per cent of the seats.

CENTRALISM-PROPORTIONALITY VERSUS LOCALISM-MAJORITARIANISM IN ELECTIONS

In order to assess the various electoral systems of all democracies on an overall linear scale, we shall measure six aspects of elections and electoral systems. Specifically, the related questions here ask whether, at one extreme, elections involve centralized competition between national parties (with proportionate party results) or whether, at the opposite extreme, elections are fought between local candidates in local constituencies (with little national proportionality). The six factors measured are shown in Table 7.4, which ranks the world's electoral democracies by their summary scores on this additive index.

The first factor in this index is the ballot structure, namely, whether the voter is voting for a party, ranking a list of candidates including within the same party, or voting for just one individual candidate. Countries are scored 2 if the ballot is a pure party ballot (closed-list PR); 1 if the ballot is a preference ballot (open-list PR, STV, dual-member plurality) or a dual

Table 7.4 Index of Electoral System and Election Localism versus Centralism (as of the end of 2021)

	Ballot Structure (voter perspective) (range of 0 to 2)	Importance of Local Candidate in Campaign (range of 0 to 2)	Average District Magnitude (range of 0 to 2)	Total Size of Legislature (lower house) (range of 0 to 2)	Type of Electoral System (Maj = 0, Prop = 2) (range of 0 to 2)	Use of By-elections (range of 0 to 2)	Total (out of 12)
Croatia	2	2	2	2	2	2	12
Israel	2	2	2	2	2	2	12
North Macedonia	2	2	2	2	2	2	12
South Africa	2	2	2	2	2	2	12
Argentina	2	2	1	2	2	2	11
Dominican Republic	2	2	1	2	2	2	11
East Timor	2	2	2	1	2	2	11
Moldova	2	2	2	1	2	2	11
Montenegro	2	2	2	1	2	2	11
Portugal	2	2	1	2	2	2	11
Romania	2	2	1	2	2	2	11
Spain	2	2	1	2	2	2	11
Burkina Faso	2	2	0	2	2	2	10
Cape Verde	2	2	1	1	2	2	10
Costa Rica	2	2	1	1	2	2	10
Czech Republic	1	1	2	2	2	2	10
Germany	1	2	1	2	2	2	10
Guyana	2	2	1	1	2	2	10
Indonesia	1	1	2	2	2	2	10
Kosovo	1	1	2	2	2	2	10
Latvia	1	1	2	2	2	2	10
Namibia	2	2	1	1	2	2	10
Netherlands	1	1	2	2	2	2	10
Paraguay	2	2	1	1	2	2	10
Poland	1	1	2	2	2	2	10
Slovakia	1	1	2	2	2	2	10
São Tomé and Príncipe	2	2	1	1	2	2	10
Sweden	1	1	2	2	2	2	10
Armenia	1	1	1	2	2	2	9
Austria	1	1	1	2	2	2	9
Belgium	1	1	1	2	2	2	9
Bulgaria	1	1	1	2	2	2	9
Denmark	1	1	1	2	2	2	9
Ecuador	1	1	1	2	2	2	9
Finland	0	1	2	2	2	2	9
Greece	1	1	1	2	2	2	9
Lebanon	1	1	1	2	2	2	9

(*Continued*)

Table 7.4 (Continued)

	Ballot Structure (voter perspective) (range of 0 to 2)	Importance of Local Candidate in Campaign (range of 0 to 2)	Average District Magnitude (range of 0 to 2)	Total Size of Legislature (lower house) (range of 0 to 2)	Type of Electoral System (Maj = 0, Prop = 2) (range of 0 to 2)	Use of By-elections (range of 0 to 2)	Total (out of 12)
Luxembourg	1	1	2	1	2	2	9
Norway	1	1	1	2	2	2	9
Peru	1	1	1	2	2	2	9
Sri Lanka	1	1	1	2	2	2	9
Bolivia	1	1	0	2	2	2	8
Brazil	0	0	2	2	2	2	8
Cyprus	1	1	1	1	2	2	8
Estonia	1	1	1	1	2	2	8
Iceland	1	1	1	1	2	2	8
Liechtenstein	1	1	2	0	2	2	8
Malta	1	1	1	1	2	2	8
Slovenia	1	1	1	1	2	2	8
Suriname	1	1	1	1	2	2	8
Switzerland	1	0	1	2	2	2	8
Uruguay	1	1	1	1	2	2	8
Chile	0	1	0	2	2	2	7
Colombia	0	0	1	2	2	2	7
Italy	1	1	1	2	1	1	7
New Zealand	1	1	0	2	2	1	7
Panama	1	1	1	1	1	2	7
San Marino	1	1	0	1	2	2	7
Ukraine	1	1	1	2	1	1	7
Andorra	1	1	1	0	1	2	6
Ireland	1	0	1	2	2	0	6
Korea, South	1	1	0	2	1	1	6
Lesotho	0	1	0	2	2	1	6
Lithuania	1	1	0	2	1	1	6
Mexico	1	1	0	2	1	1	6
Nepal	1	1	0	2	1	1	6
Japan	1	0	0	2	1	1	5
Taiwan	1	1	0	1	1	1	5
Seychelles	1	1	0	0	1	1	4
Australia	0	1	0	2	0	0	3
Canada	0	1	0	2	0	0	3
France	0	1	0	2	0	0	3

	Ballot Structure (voter perspective) (range of 0 to 2)	Importance of Local Candidate in Campaign (range of 0 to 2)	Average District Magnitude (range of 0 to 2)	Total Size of Legislature (lower house) (range of 0 to 2)	Type of Electoral System (Maj = 0, Prop = 2) (range of 0 to 2)	Use of By-elections (range of 0 to 2)	Total (out of 12)
Ghana	0	1	0	2	0	0	3
Malawi	0	1	0	2	0	0	3
Mauritius	1	1	0	1	0	0	3
Mongolia	1	1	0	1	0	0	3
Nigeria	0	1	0	2	0	0	3
United Kingdom	0	1	0	2	0	0	3
Vanuatu	0	1	1	1	0	0	3
Zambia	0	1	0	2	0	0	3
Botswana	0	1	0	1	0	0	2
Gambia	0	1	0	1	0	0	2
India	0	0	0	2	0	0	2
Jamaica	0	1	0	1	0	0	2
Liberia	0	1	0	1	0	0	2
Maldives	0	1	0	1	0	0	2
United States	0	0	0	2	0	0	2
Antigua and Barbuda	0	1	0	0	0	0	1
Bahamas	0	1	0	0	0	0	1
Barbados	0	1	0	0	0	0	1
Belize	0	1	0	0	0	0	1
Bhutan	0	1	0	0	0	0	1
Dominica	0	1	0	0	0	0	1
Grenada	0	1	0	0	0	0	1
Marshall Islands	1	0	0	0	0	0	1
Nauru	1	0	0	0	0	0	1
Samoa	0	0	0	1	0	0	1
Saint Kitts and Nevis	0	1	0	0	0	0	1
Saint Lucia	0	1	0	0	0	0	1
Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	0	1	0	0	0	0	1
Solomon Islands	0	0	0	1	0	0	1
Trinidad and Tobago	0	1	0	0	0	0	1
Tuvalu	1	0	0	0	0	0	1
Kiribati	0	0	0	0	0	0	0
Micronesia	0	0	0	0	0	0	0
Palau	0	0	0	0	0	0	0

ballot (mixed or parallel systems); and 0 if the ballot is a pure candidate ballot (single-member systems, SNTV, or what was called earlier "open and completely decisive" list systems in which the vote is, in fact, for a candidate, not a party). Israel, South Africa, and Spain are examples of countries that score 2 on this factor; Ireland, New Zealand, and Switzerland are examples of countries that score 1; and Brazil, France, and the United Kingdom are examples of countries that score 0.

The second factor is the importance of the individual local candidate versus the national party in election campaigns. Measurement of this factor is based on such features as "inherited seats" (within a family), local spending or even local election organizations (such as *koenkai* in Japan), pork-barrelling of spending by politicians, individual candidate endorsements by third parties such as interest groups, and the ability of independents to get elected. Countries are scored 2 if the local candidates are of little importance (e.g., closed party list PR systems); 1 if they are of some importance; and 0 if they are of considerable importance. Argentina, Germany, and South Africa are examples of countries that score 2 on this factor; Canada, France, and the United Kingdom are examples of countries that score 1; and Brazil, India, and the United States are examples of countries that score 0.

The third factor is the average district magnitude (the number of MPs elected in a district), rounded to the nearest integer value. This reflects whether politicians compete in large regional or national constituencies or in smaller local ones. For this calculation, if a country has a separate national tier (as Sweden does), this tier is treated as one district and averaged accordingly. Countries are scored 2 if the average district magnitude is high, defined as 12 or higher; 1 if the average district magnitude is medium, defined as from 4 to 11; and 0 if this measure is low, defined as from 1 (the minimum possible) to 3.[15] Assessed separately are MMP and in-between systems that use both single-member and large regional or national districts; those that have a majority of list seats (e.g., Italy) are scored 1, whereas those that have a majority of SMP seats (e.g., Japan) are scored 0. Israel, the Netherlands, and South Africa are examples of countries that score 2 on this factor; Ireland, Germany, and Spain are examples of countries that score 1; and Canada, the United Kingdom, and the United States are examples of countries that score 0.

The fourth factor is the total size of the legislature in seats. This relates to the previous factor of district magnitude, as these two factors comprise the "seat product model" of Rein Taagepera, which predicts the effective number of parties.[16] As noted earlier, very small legislatures tend to be less proportionate. Here we shall define "very small" as having less than 50 members; countries with such legislatures are scored 0. Legislatures of at least 50 but less than 120 members – 120 being the median value of sole or lower house size in the world's current democracies – are deemed smaller; countries with such legislatures are scored 1. Every legislature from the median up (120 or more members) is deemed "sufficiently large" (to be representative); countries with such legislatures are scored 2. Andorra, Barbados, and Palau are examples of countries that score 0 on this factor; Botswana, Costa Rica, and Iceland are

examples of countries that score 1; and Chile, Nigeria, and Portugal are examples of countries that score 2.

The fifth factor is the overall nature of the electoral system in terms of majoritarianism versus proportionality. This measurement simply duplicates the broad overall categories assigned in Table 7.1: majoritarian, proportional, and in between. Countries are scored 0 if the electoral system is majoritarian; 2 if the electoral system is proportional; and 1 if the electoral system is between these two extremes. Australia, Canada, and the United States are examples of countries that score 0 on this factor; Italy, Japan, and Mexico are examples of countries that score 1; and Belgium, New Zealand, and South Africa are examples of countries that score 2.

The sixth and final factor is whether vacancies that arise during a parliamentary term (in the lower house if bicameral) – due to the death, resignation, and so on of a deputy – are filled via by-elections or not. (For the US House of Representatives these are called "special elections.") By-elections are not used under party list proportional representation, as the norm is to replace the deputy with the next name on the party list. By-elections, as with other "second-order" elections (that is, those *not* determining the national government) tend to have lower turnout and greater support for smaller and/or protest parties and/or independents than do national elections. Though by-elections do reflect attitudes to national parties, they are not as nationally focused as a general election. Overall, then, they work against a system of national parties focusing on national issues.[17] Countries are scored 2 if by-elections are never held; 1 if by-elections are held for some or most vacant seats (such as the constituency seats but not the list seats in mixed systems); and 0 if by-elections are held for all vacant seats. Germany, Malta, and Sweden are examples of countries that score 2 on this factor; New Zealand and South Korea are examples of countries that score 1; and Canada, Ireland, and the United Kingdom are examples of countries that score 0. One should note the differences here between Germany and New Zealand even though both use a mixed-member proportional electoral system, and between Malta and Ireland even though both use a single transferable vote electoral system.[18]

These six measures combined produce an aggregate score of centralism-proportionality versus localism-majoritarianism in elections, and this score ranges from a maximum of 12 to a minimum of 0. At one extreme, countries such as Croatia, Israel, and South Africa score a 12, indicating complete centralism and proportionality. At the other extreme, Kiribati, Micronesia, and Palau each score a 0, indicating complete localism and majoritarianism.

THE INHERENT LOCALISM-MAJORITARIANISM TENSION

Returning specifically to electoral systems, one sees that those categorized as local and majoritarian, in fact, display a systemic tension because a single-member system produces two rather different effects. It makes political competition localized, at least formally, and – assuming cohesive parties are competing – it leads to overall disproportionality in the election results,

which favours single-party governments. In contrast, an electoral system using closed party list proportional representation makes political competition more centralized, but it also, as its name implies, leads to proportional overall results and coalition governments. A single transferable vote electoral system falls between these systems in terms of localization but will also produce reasonably proportionate results. Consequently, for single-member systems, the issue is whether a political party (or at least the single governing party) is normally able to direct how its members vote, occasional backbench revolts notwithstanding. In the classic Westminster model, this party control is indeed the usual reality (even if that control is less in the United Kingdom than, say, in Canada). Thus, the overall majoritarian nature of elections trumps the localized aspect. Conversely, the reverse is true if no political parties exist, obviously; if the party system is highly fragmented and inchoate, as in the Solomon Islands; and if the political system is presidential, so no incentive of government survival exists to aid party discipline. This last pattern certainly occurs in the United States and, indeed, relates to other aspects of weak party control in that country, such as control over candidate nominations and election spending. In all of these non-Westminster examples of single-member electoral systems with limited party control, then, the localized aspect of politics trumps the national one. It is not a coincidence that a politician in the United States popularized the phrase "all politics is local."[19] In summary, the inherent tension between the localized aspect and the majoritarian aspect of these systems is normally resolved in favour of one or the other.

FURTHER CONSEQUENCES OF LOCALISM-MAJORITARIANISM VERSUS CENTRALISM-PROPORTIONALITY

For their part, localized-majoritarian systems have a strong emphasis on *accountability*, both in terms of the localized and the majoritarian aspects of these systems, and this feature is seen as a central virtue. A local member of parliament is directly elected, or perhaps a modest number of local members are elected in a small multi-member district, as in SNTV or STV. An unpopular local member can thus be voted out. Likewise, majoritarian outcomes tend to lead to single-party governments, at least in **parliamentary systems**, so it is clear who is in charge (there is "clarity of responsibility"). Consequently, an unpopular governing party can be specifically punished. This kind of punishment was doubtless seen most spectacularly in the 1993 Canadian election, when the incumbent Progressive Conservatives went from a single-party majority to winning only two seats out of 295. Changes of government in such localized-majoritarian systems thus normally involve a full alternation between parties – that is, a completely different one takes over (the Liberals in the 1993 Canadian example). In contrast, centralized-proportional systems use party list voting, and often the list is closed or hard to change even if it is open. Thus, voting out an individual deputy who is supported by their party is difficult. Also, governments under proportional systems tend to be multi-party

coalitions (taking weeks if not months to form), so it may be hard to know which specific governing party to blame for something. Elections are rarely decisive in determining winners (South Africa being one key exception here); interparty bargaining may matter as much or more. Consequently, a governing party could be unpopular and lose support but still remain in government if it bargains well with other parties or is needed numerically for a majority or a stronger minority government. An example of this comes from Germany. Going into its 2005 election, the Social Democrats (SPD) was the major party in a coalition with the Greens, and the SPD leader, Gerhard Schröder, was the chancellor. In the election, the SPD was seen as the main loser electorally, dropping by over 4 per cent of the vote. In contrast, the Green vote declined only slightly. Yet, although Schröder ceased to be chancellor after the elections, the SPD remained in government, now as junior partners in a coalition with the Christian Democrats. One could argue that those who wanted the SPD out of office were thus left frustrated.

In contrast, centralized-proportional systems are seen to do better in terms of *inclusiveness*. They yield a more diverse parliament, one that includes many parties representing many points of view and more women deputies. Indeed, the **correlation** between this scale and the number of parties with at least 2 per cent of the seats (P2%S) for the most recent election is a strong 0.529 (see Table 7.5 below for P2%S values). Likewise, the correlation between this scale and the percentage of women in either the lower or single house of parliament for the most recent election is 0.503. Centralized-proportional elections also lead, at least in parliamentary systems, to a broad-based government involving multiple parties that have the support of a majority or at least a strong plurality of the population. In contrast, localized-majoritarian systems, with their biased (disproportionate) election outcomes, have not only single-party governments usually (as noted) but often single-party governments with a limited national base. For example, the British Labour Party won only 35 per cent of the vote in 2005 but formed a single-party majority based on the 55 per cent of the seats it won. Yet when this 35 per cent of the vote is combined with a turnout of only 61 per cent in that election, one sees that this particular single-party majority was directly endorsed by only a little over *one-fifth* of the electorate.

PARTY SYSTEMS

For any election, one can indicate what can be called the "party pattern" based on that individual election. However, for there to be a party system the basic pattern must hold for a certain duration – for most systems, at least three elections. Almost every democracy has a party pattern for each election and a party system where durable enough. For simplicity's sake, the following will speak just of party systems, but most distinctions apply to party patterns as well.

A **party system** involves the relationship among the various political parties in a territory, that is, their total number, relative size, competitiveness, and so on. (In some countries, the

concept may make more sense in terms of blocs of parties.) For a party system to exist, a country must have at least two parties; one party by itself does not interact with any other party. Almost every democracy has a party system; the exceptions are six island states in Oceania (Kiribati, the Marshall Islands, Micronesia, Nauru, Palau, and Tuvalu), which do not have formal political parties for cultural/traditional reasons.[20] (Similarly, there are no territorial parties in the Northwest Territories or Nunavut in Canada.) To be clear, party-like alliances may form in the legislatures of these six democracies, but everyone is elected as an independent. (In contrast, if political parties did not exist because they were banned, then a system would not be democratic.)

Party systems can be assessed and compared in three ways. The two traditional ways are in terms of fragmentation and polarization.[21] By *fragmentation*, we mean how many parties there are, both in an absolute sense and allowing for relative size. By *polarization*, we mean the ideological spread among parties, between the two most extreme parties, or perhaps between the two largest parties. Polarization is, however, difficult to measure and compare globally, and we do not attempt to do so in this analysis. Note, too, that the ending of communism in Eastern Europe and the decline of the far left have meant that left–right ideological gaps in most of the world are not what they were a generation ago.[22] The newest way in which scholars look at party systems is in terms of institutionalization. By *party system institutionalization*, we mean the extent to which individual parties are well organized, have stable and deep roots in society or in segments of society, are consistent in their ideological positions vis-à-vis each other, and experience relatively stable interparty competition; also included in this concept is the extent to which political parties and elections have high legitimacy.[23] Scholarly concern with the organizational structure and capacity of individual parties goes back to the 1960s, but it originally focused more on party institutionalization than on broader party *system* institutionalization.[24]

Measuring party system fragmentation is essentially objective because it involves tabulating the "hard" numbers of votes and seats for various parties. Table 7.5 provides a range of data on the most recent elections (as of the end of 2021) in the world's democracies. These data are mostly based on the distribution of parliamentary seats, although a few are based on vote share. The actual measure of party system fragmentation (PFRG) used by scholars weights the parties by size, as is done for the effective number of parties (ENPP). However, the calculation of party system fragmentation is different from the calculation of an "effective number," which was explained in Chapter 1. In the calculation of party system fragmentation, the sum of the squared decimal values of all parties is subtracted from 1.000 rather than taking its inverse, as in the calculation of an "effective number." Consequently, party system fragmentation ranges from zero (0.000), when a single party has all the seats, to one (1.000), when no party has any seat. This latter situation cannot exist, of course, as long as political parties are being elected, so a value of 1.000 would occur only in those countries noted above without political parties. As Table 7.5 shows, the most fragmented democracies with parties – Brazil and the Solomon Islands – have parliamentary fragmentation values of 0.939 and 0.935, respectively. (Perhaps

Table 7.5 Most Recent Elections for All Liberal and Electoral Democracies (as of the end of 2021)

YEAR = Year of elections
PFRG = Parliamentary fragmentation
ENPP = Effective number of parliamentary parties
P2%S = Parties with 2 per cent or more of the seats
P15%V = Parties with 15 per cent or more of the vote
2PSS = Two-party seat share (combined seat percentage of the top two parties in terms of seats)
2PVS = Two-party vote share (combined vote percentage of the top two parties in terms of seats)
1PSS = One-party seat share (seat percentage of the top party in terms of seats)
1PVS = One-party vote share (vote percentage of the top party in terms of seats)
ED = Electoral decisiveness (EM = earned majority, MM = manufactured majority, HP = hung parliament)
SR 1:2 = Ratio of seats between the top party and the second-largest party
SR 2:3 = Ratio of seats between the second-largest party and the third-largest party
TVOL = Total volatility (vote shares) between the given election and the previous one [Pedersen Index]
DISP = Disproportionality between seat percentages and vote percentages (for all parties) [Loosemore-Hanby Index]

	YEAR	PFRG	ENPP	P2%S	P15%V	2PSS	2PVS	1PSS	1PVS	ED	SR 1:2	SR 2:3	TVOL	DISP
Andorra	2019	0.737	3.81	5	2	64.3	65.8	39.3	35.1	HP	1.57	1.75	22.9	17.0
Antigua and Barbuda	2018	0.215	1.27	3	2	94.1	96.3	88.2	59.2	EM	15.00	1.00	4.8	33.4
Argentina (total parliament)	2021	0.580	2.38	3	2	91.4	80.9	45.9	39.6	HP	1.01	14.63		10.8
Armenia	2021	0.482	1.93	3	2	93.5	75.1	66.4	53.9	EM	2.45	4.14	30.1	19.7
Australia	2019	0.623	2.65	3	2	85.4	67.7	45.0	33.3	HP	1.11	3.81	6.1	22.0
Austria	2019	0.746	3.94	5	3	60.7	58.6	38.8	37.5	HP	1.78	1.29	19.5	3.2
Bahamas	2021	0.295	1.42	2	2	100.0	88.7	82.1	52.5	EM	4.57	∞	24.7	29.5
Barbados	2018	0.000	1.00	1	2	100.0	94.9	100.0	72.8	EM	∞	∞	29.2	27.2
Belgium	2019	0.897	9.70	11	1	30.0	25.5	16.7	16.0	HP	1.25	1.11	17.2	8.9
Belize	2020	0.271	1.37	2	2	100.0	98.4	83.9	59.6	EM	5.20	∞	13.0	24.3
Bhutan*	2018	0.462	1.86	2	2	100.0	100.0	63.8	55.0	EM	1.76	∞	55.0	8.8
Bolivia	2020	0.562	2.28	3	2	87.7	83.9	57.7	55.1	EM	1.92	2.44	14.0	3.8
Botswana	2019	0.483	1.94	3	2	93.0	88.5	66.7	52.6	EM	2.53	5.00	21.9	14.9
Brazil	2018	0.939	16.5	13	0	21.1	22.0	10.9	10.3	HP	1.08	1.41	23.1	9.5
Bulgaria	2021	0.812	5.31	7	2	52.5	47.8	27.9	25.3	HP	1.14	1.74	30.5	8.9
Burkina Faso	2020	0.756	4.11	9	1	59.8	47.9	44.1	34.6	HP	2.80	1.54	26.6	20.3
Canada	2021	0.637	2.76	4	3	82.5	66.4	47.3	32.6	HP	1.34	3.72	5.7	18.0
Cape Verde	2021	0.545	2.20	3	2	94.4	89.6	52.8	50.0	EM	1.27	7.50	4.5	4.9
Chile	2021	0.758	4.13	5	3	58.1	46.4	34.2	25.4	HP	1.43	1.00	33.7	18.4
Colombia	2018	0.844	6.39	6	2	40.4	36.5	21.1	18.5	HP	1.09	1.07	19.5	15.3
Costa Rica	2018	0.789	4.73	6	3	54.4	37.6	29.8	19.5	HP	1.21	1.40	35.9	19.2
Croatia**	2020	0.686	3.19	6	2	74.8	62.1	46.2	37.3	HP	1.61	2.56	16.1	13.0
Cyprus	2021	0.792	4.81	7	2	57.1	50.1	30.4	27.7	HP	1.13	1.67	19.1	14.6
Czech Republic	2021	0.700	3.34	4	3	71.5	54.9	36.0	27.1	HP	1.01	1.92	13.5	19.9
Denmark***	2019	0.835	6.06	10	2	52.0	49.3	27.4	25.9	HP	1.12	2.69	21.0	4.8
Dominica	2019	0.245	1.32	2	2	100.0	100.0	85.7	58.9	EM	6.00	∞	1.9	26.8
Dominican Republic	2020	0.637	2.75	4	2	84.7	72.4	45.3	40.8	HP	1.15	12.50	27.1	13.1
East Timor	2018	0.593	2.46	4	2	87.7	83.8	52.3	49.6	MM	1.48	4.60	7.6	3.9
Ecuador	2021	0.790	4.76	5	1	55.5	43.8	35.8	29.8	HP	1.81	1.50		15.9

(*Continued*)

Table 7.5 (Continued)

	YEAR	PFRG	ENPP	P2%S	P15%V	2PSS	2PVS	1PSS	1PVS	ED	SR 1:2	SR 2:3	TVOL	DISP
Estonia	2019	0.761	4.19	5	3	59.4	52.0	33.7	28.9	HP	1.31	1.37	17.5	9.0
Finland	2019	0.842	6.34	8	3	39.5	35.2	20.0	17.7	HP	1.03	1.03	9.2	8.1
France	2017	0.644	6.68	6	2	75.1	44.4	55.3	28.6	MM	2.79	2.68	44.8	34.0
Gambia	2017	0.624	2.66	6	3	67.9	54.9	58.5	37.5	MM	6.20	1.00		25.5
Germany	2021	0.793	4.83	6	2	54.8	49.8	28.0	25.7	HP	1.05	1.67	16.1	8.6
Ghana	2020	0.504	2.01	2	2	99.6	96.6	49.8	50.4	HP	1.00	∞	4.5	3.6
Greece	2019	0.631	2.71	6	2	81.3	71.4	52.7	39.9	MM	1.84	3.91	22.6	12.8
Grenada	2018	0.000	1.00	1	2	100.0	99.4	100.0	58.9	EM	∞	∞	0.7	41.1
Guyana	2020	0.515	2.06	2	2	98.5	98.0	50.8	50.7	EM	1.06	31.00	3.4	0.8
Iceland	2021	0.841	6.29	8	2	46.0	41.7	25.4	24.4	HP	1.23	1.63	14.8	6.1
India	2019	0.671	3.04	8	2	65.4	56.9	55.8	37.4	MM	5.83	2.26	6.4	25.4
Indonesia	2019	0.866	7.47	9	1	37.0	31.6	22.3	19.3	HP	1.51	1.09	12.7	10.9
Ireland	2020	0.833	5.98	7	3	46.9	47.1	23.8	22.4	HP	1.03	1.06	17.6	4.1
Israel	2021	0.883	8.52	13	1	39.2	38.1	25.0	24.2	HP	1.76	1.89	16.9	2.7
Italy	2018	0.768	4.32	6	3	55.7	49.4	36.0	32.2	HP	1.83	1.11	28.4	10.1
Jamaica	2020	0.363	1.57	2	2	100.0	99.8	76.2	57.0	EM	3.20	∞	6.9	19.1
Japan	2021	0.629	2.69	6	2	76.8	54.7	56.1	34.7	MM	2.72	2.34	13.6	22.1
Kiribati	2020	1.000		No Parties										
Korea, South**^	2020	0.522	2.09	3	2	94.3	87.6	60.0	47.3	MM	1.75	17.17	26.4	14.0
Kosovo	2021	0.713	3.49	5	2	64.2	67.3	48.3	50.3	HP	3.05	1.27	26.0	8.2
Latvia	2018	0.844	6.39	7	1	39.0	34.2	23.0	19.9	HP	1.44	1.00	44.9	12.2
Lebanon**	2018	0.780	4.55	7	2	57.8	54.7	35.2	39.0	HP	1.55	1.45		13.8
Lesotho	2017	0.746	3.93	7	2	66.7	66.3	41.0	40.5	HP	1.60	2.73	16.6	3.1
Liberia	2017	0.832	5.96	6	1	56.2	29.9	28.8	15.6	HP	1.05	4.00		29.5
Liechtenstein	2021	0.659	2.93	4	2	80.0	71.8	40.0	35.9	HP	1.00	3.33	3.0	8.2
Lithuania	2020	0.794	4.85	8	2	58.2	43.8	35.5	25.8	HP	1.56	2.46	27.3	16.5
Luxembourg	2018	0.781	4.56	7	4	55.0	45.2	35.0	28.3	HP	1.75	1.20	11.4	9.8
Malawi	2019	0.810	5.26	5	2	60.9	48.4	32.3	26.0	HP	1.13	5.50	22.7	13.4
Maldives	2019	0.433	1.77	5	1	80.5	57.0	74.7	45.8	MM	13.00	1.00	22.6	28.9
Malta	2017	0.507	2.03	2	2	98.5	97.1	55.2	55.0	EM	1.28	29.00	2.2	1.4
Marshall Islands	2019	1.000		No Parties										
Mauritius	2019	0.556	2.25	4	3	83.9	70.4	61.3	37.7	MM	2.71	1.75		25.9
Mexico	2021	0.756	4.09	7	3	62.4	54.2	39.6	35.3	HP	1.74	1.63	14.9	15.2
Micronesia	2019	1.000		No Parties										
Moldova	2021	0.507	2.03	3	2	94.1	80.0	62.4	52.8	EM	1.97	5.33	43.5	14.3
Mongolia	2020	0.313	1.46	2	2	96.1	69.4	81.6	44.9	MM	5.64	11.00	16.1	36.6
Montenegro	2020	0.730	3.71	7	2	70.4	67.6	37.0	35.1	HP	1.11	2.70	10.2	2.9
Namibia	2019	0.537	2.16	8	2	82.3	82.1	65.6	65.5	EM	3.94	4.00	20.2	2.4
Nauru	2019	1.000		No Parties										
Nepal	2017	0.710	3.44	5	2	66.9	66.0	44.0	33.2	HP	1.92	1.19		18.5
Netherlands	2021	0.884	8.59	14	2	38.7	36.9	22.7	21.9	HP	1.42	1.41	15.4	3.8
New Zealand	2020	0.617	2.61	4	2	81.7	75.6	54.2	50.0	EM	1.97	3.30	24.8	7.8
Nigeria	2019	0.512	2.05	3	2	94.3	88.7	61.6	47.4	MM	1.89	12.78		15.3
North Macedonia	2020	0.693	3.25	4	2	75.0	70.5	38.3	35.9	HP	1.05	2.93	16.1	6.6
Norway	2021	0.820	5.56	7	2	49.7	46.8	28.4	26.3	HP	1.33	1.29	10.1	7.6
Palau	2020	1.000		No Parties										
Panama	2019	0.675	3.08	4	3	74.6	52.4	49.3	30.0	HP	1.94	2.25	17.8	24.1
Paraguay	2018	0.650	2.86	6	2	73.8	56.8	52.5	39.1	MM	2.47	1.31	18.6	21.1
Peru	2021	0.839	6.20	10	0	46.9	24.7	28.5	13.4	HP	1.54	1.50	35.2	30.1
Poland	2019	0.638	2.76	5	2	80.2	71.0	51.1	43.6	MM	1.75	2.73	10.2	9.3

	YEAR	PFRG	ENPP	P2%S	P15%V	2PSS	2PVS	1PSS	1PVS	ED	SR 1:2	SR 2:3	TVOL	DISP
Portugal	2019	0.651	2.87	5	2	81.3	67.4	47.0	38.2	HP	1.37	4.16	11.4	13.9
Romania	2020	0.767	4.30	5	3	61.5	54.1	33.3	28.9	HP	1.18	1.69	22.6	14.0
Saint Kitts and Nevis**	2020	0.298	1.42	2	2	100.0	92.0	81.8	54.9	EM	4.50	∞	5.4	27.0
Saint Lucia	2021	0.401	1.67	2	2	88.2	93.0	76.5	50.1	EM	6.50	∞	12.0	31.4
Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	2020	0.480	1.92	2	2	100.0	99.9	60.0	49.6	MM	1.50	∞	3.0	10.4
Samoa	2021	0.519	2.08	2	2	98.0	92.0	49.0	55.4	HP	1.00	∞	36.8	12.4
San Marino	2019	0.784	4.63	6	3	53.3	51.6	35.0	33.3	HP	1.91	1.10		2.3
São Tomé and Príncipe	2018	0.609	2.56	4	2	87.3	82.1	45.5	41.8	HP	1.09	4.60	19.1	6.7
Seychelles	2020	0.408	1.69	2	2	100.0	97.2	71.4	54.8	EM	2.50	∞	7.8	16.6
Slovakia	2020	0.771	4.37	6	2	60.7	43.3	35.3	25.0	HP	1.39	2.24	35.9	28.5
Slovenia	2018	0.853	6.81	9	1	42.2	37.6	27.8	25.0	HP	1.92	1.30	22.2	12.1
Solomon Islands	2019	0.935	15.3	8	0	32.0	23.1	16.0	13.6	HP	1.00	2.00	30.7	14.3
South Africa	2019	0.611	2.57	5	2	78.5	78.3	57.5	57.5	EM	2.74	1.91	9.3	1.8
Spain	2019	0.782	4.59	7	3	59.7	48.8	34.3	28.0	HP	1.35	1.71	12.7	12.0
Sri Lanka	2020	0.525	2.10	3	2	88.4	83.0	64.4	59.1	EM	2.69	5.40	22.3	8.1
Suriname	2020	0.717	3.53	6	2	70.6	63.4	39.2	39.5	HP	1.25	2.00	26.5	15.4
Sweden	2018	0.822	5.63	8	3	48.7	48.1	28.7	28.3	HP	1.43	1.13	11.8	1.5
Switzerland	2019	0.844	6.41	6	3	46.0	42.4	26.5	25.6	HP	1.36	1.34	11.0	5.7
Taiwan	2020	0.593	2.46	4	2	87.6	67.3	54.0	34.0	MM	1.61	7.60	26.0	20.3
Trinidad and Tobago	2020	0.497	1.99	2	2	100.0	96.2	53.7	49.1	MM	1.16	∞	10.3	4.6
Tuvalu	2019	1.000		No Parties										
Ukraine	2019	0.621	2.64	5	1	70.0	56.2	59.9	43.2	MM	5.91	1.65	77.9	16.7
United Kingdom	2019	0.582	2.39	3	2	87.2	75.8	56.2	43.6	MM	1.81	4.21	9.6	17.2
United States	2020	0.500	2.00	2	2	100.0	98.6	51.0	50.8	EM	1.04	∞	2.9	1.4
Uruguay	2019	0.698	3.31	4	2	72.7	70.2	42.4	40.5	HP	1.40	2.31	14.3	2.9
Vanuatu	2020	0.902	10.24	8	0	30.8	22.3	17.3	10.1	HP	1.29	1.00	37.6	26.0
Zambia	2021	0.576	2.36	2	2	91.0	81.9	52.6	46.2	MM	1.37	60.00	11.4	9.5

* Based on the second round, which is limited to the top two parties from the first, primary round

** Calculated by electoral alliances

*** Mainland Denmark only

^ Vote shares and DISP weighted by the two components of the South Korean electoral system

the following scenario is more illustrative: In a 100-seat legislature, if 100 different parties each win one seat, then the fragmentation value is 0.990.)

Another way of looking at party system fragmentation is to count the effective number of parties, which, as noted, weights parties by size (as does PFRG) but expresses this measurement differently, on a scale with a minimum of 1 and no absolute maximum value. Finally, one can simply count all the parties without weighting them to give an integer value. However, should we consider a party with only one or two seats as being relevant? To measure the number of empirically relevant parties, we use a cut-off of at least 2 per cent of the seats because, as noted, 2 per cent of the votes is now the minimum legal threshold found in an actual proportional representation (PR) system. Although the maximum number of parties with 2 per cent of the seats could be 50 (100 per cent divided by 2 per cent, if that is the threshold), the

real-world current maximum is 14 relevant parties in the Netherlands, followed by 13 relevant parties in Brazil and Israel. Additionally, along with some other countries, Brazil does not have any parties reaching the threshold of 15 per cent of the popular vote (see Table 7.5).

Table 7.5 also presents various measures of looking at the top party or the top two parties in terms of both seats and votes. Of central concern is whether any one party has won a majority of seats, which would give it control of the legislature and, outside of presidential systems, the government. Alternatively, if no one party has a majority, the hung parliament necessitates legislative compromise and will likely produce a coalition government, again, assuming we are discussing parliamentary rather than presidential systems. As of the end of 2021, there are 42 cases of single-party majorities in the world's 100 democracies with political parties – certainly fewer than the 58 hung parliaments. The subsequent issue is whether those majority governments are **earned majorities**. Has a political party "earned" a majority of seats by winning a majority of the popular vote, or was the majority "manufactured" by the electoral system? Of the 42 majorities, 23 are earned but 19 are manufactured. Interestingly, although the 19 manufactured majorities include SMP systems such as those in India, Nigeria, the United Kingdom, and Zambia, manufactured majorities also occur in rare party list proportional representation systems (e.g., in Paraguay) and in-between systems (e.g., in Japan). Thus a majoritarian electoral system is not the absolutely only type to have a manufactured majority. What is largely eponymous about majoritarian electoral systems is the fact that, leaving aside those without political parties, around two-thirds currently have single-party majorities. Some of these are manufactured; the rest are, by definition, earned. And although the earned majorities could involve only a modest "seat bonus" for the largest party (as has normally been the case in the United States, for example), it is often the case that a party with 50-something per cent of the vote gets around 80 per cent of the seats (as in many Caribbean systems). So, we return to the general high level of disproportionality in majoritarian electoral systems. For (comparative) information, the last column of Table 7.5 gives the index of disproportionality wherever possible for each democracy.

The previous descriptions of party systems have involved either a continuum (e.g., more to less fragmentation) or a dichotomy (e.g., a single-party majority or not). That said, we can also group the various party systems of democracies into a few types based on durable patterns of the number of relevant parties (P2%S) and on certain key relative sizes. Arguably, there are six types of party systems:

1. A *competitive two-party system* has two relevant parties, which alternate in power at various times. In any given election, or at least in most of them, each of the two parties has a reasonable chance of winning. The US party system is a clear example of this, although more for its Senate than its House of Representatives (which has been less competitive for long periods of time).[25] Even better examples of competitive two-party systems are Malta and most of the former British colonies of the Caribbean.

2. An *imbalanced two-party system* also has only two relevant parties, but one party is in power for a very long time, and the other has little chance of winning elections. Botswana, until recently, was the best national example of this type; some state legislatures in the United States still fit this pattern.
3. A *moderately multi-party system* has anywhere from three to six relevant parties, but it usually has four or five, still a moderate number. This party system is fairly deconcentrated in that the top two parties have less than 80 per cent of the seats (2PSC is below 80.0). Because no one party can win an outright majority, coalition government is the norm in a moderately multi-party parliamentary system. Examples include the party systems of Austria and Germany in Europe and Costa Rica in Latin America.
4. A *two-and-a-half-party system* is a distinctive subtype of a moderately multi-party system. This system also involves from three to six relevant parties, although usually only three to five. Of these, two parties are much larger than the rest, making a clear distinction between the two main parties and the "half" party or parties. In contrast to a moderately multi-party system, a two-and-a-half-party system involves the top two parties together winning 80 per cent or more of the seats. Also, only a small gap in size between the top two parties exists, a feature measured by the ratio of seats between the top party and the second-largest party (SR 1:2 in Table 7.5). It is thus possible, but never certain, in this type of party system for one of the main parties to win an outright majority of seats. If such a single-party majority does not occur, the likely government is a coalition between one of the main parties and a smaller party. Consequently, a party that is not one of the big two (that is, the "half" party in this system) could wind up with disproportionate influence, especially if it is an acceptable coalition partner to both main parties and can play these off against each other. Longstanding examples of such a party system have existed in Australia and West Germany (pre-reunification); more recent ones are in São Tomé and Príncipe and South Korea.[26] Note, too, that Canada had this type of party system through the early 1980s, with the Liberals and Progressive Conservatives as the two main parties and the NDP and, for a time, Social Credit each as a smaller "half" party. One difference in the Canadian version of this party system was that hung parliaments led to minority governments and early elections rather than to coalition governments.
5. A *highly multi-party system* is very fragmented and has more than six relevant parties. There are rarely any large parties, usually only medium and small ones. Not only are coalition governments the norm in non-presidential examples of this system, as they are in countries with a moderately multi-party system, but also the coalition governments in highly multi-party systems usually involve three or more parties, so they can be quite difficult to hold together. We have already noted the Netherlands and Brazil as current illustrations of such a party system. Belgium, Denmark, and Finland are other European examples; Chile and Indonesia are other non-European examples. As its name suggests, a highly multi-party system is so fragmented that, unless there is cooperation among the

parties, governance can be difficult and the quality of government will suffer. The party system of Weimar Germany is a historical example: It featured many parties and little cooperation – indeed, parties were often clearly antagonistic and polarized – and, as noted earlier, the democratic regime ultimately broke down.

6. A *one-party predominant system* should not be confused with a pure one-party system, as in China or Cuba, which by definition is non-democratic. Rather, one-party predominant systems are multi-party systems in that they have at least three relevant parties. However, one of these parties is much larger than the rest, as evidenced by a large gap between the first and second party in both votes and seats (on seats, see SR 1:2 in Table 7.5). This one large party is so big that it both predominates in parliament and controls the government for decades or, at a minimum, for a long period of time. Obviously one way to be in power indefinitely is to have an ongoing majority of seats. As noted earlier, such seat majorities can occur in one of two ways. The first is to have an ongoing majority of votes; that is, a series of earned majorities. A second way, especially in a majoritarian or mixed electoral system, is to enjoy manufactured majorities as the largest party (in votes) facing a fragmented opposition. Yet even without a majority of seats, a party can remain in office for many terms either as a minority government or leading a coalition (and negative versus positive parliamentarianism will shape this distinction) as long as it can prevent all the opposition parties from uniting against it. This might occur if the main opposition party is not an acceptable leadership alternative for much of rest of the opposition due to its perceived extremism (as were the Communists in Italy or the Socialists in Japan until the 1990s), or if the predominant party has opponents both on its left and its right.[27] The ability of the major party in a one-party predominant system to dominate the legislature even in the absence of a majority is the key difference between this system and the imbalanced two-party system. If the traditionally dominant party fails to win a majority in the imbalanced two-party system, presumably the traditional opposition party has done so and will take power. In a one-party predominant system, displacing the dominant party from power involves not only that party failing to win a majority but also having most if not all of the traditional opposition parties band together – a coalition that is usually not very durable. Classic cases of this party system type involved the predominance of the Social Democrats in Sweden, the Christian Democrats in Italy, Mapai/the Labour Party in Israel, and the (conservative) Liberal Democrats in Japan.[28] Current examples are the neighbouring cases of the predominance of the Botswana Democratic Party, the South West Africa People's Organisation (SWAPO) in Namibia, and the African National Congress (ANC) in South Africa. However, depending on the requirements for one-party predominance in terms of continuity and of monopoly of power, the number and duration of such cases vary greatly. The Appendix to this chapter will outline these factors and list all qualifying cases.

PARTY SYSTEM INSTITUTIONALIZATION

All of the party systems listed previously describe patterns that are both clear and durable with, for example, the number of relevant parties in a country remaining more or less constant over several elections. In most cases, the patterns have also involved the same specific parties over several elections. However, such stability in parties is not a given in democracies. Acknowledging this fact leads us to another contemporary aspect of party systems: party system institutionalization, that is, the extent to which the party system is coherent and stable in terms of the main parties, how these parties differ in terms of ideology and core voters, and how they are tied to society. This concept was developed by Mainwaring and Scully in their 1995 edited book on Latin America.[29] An updated measure of this concept was then done for Latin America by the Inter-American Development Bank.[30] With some modifications, the Mainwaring and Scully approach has also been applied to Africa by Kuenzi and Lambright.[31] However, no cross-continent global study of party system institutionalization has ever been done. The studies that do exist have used largely the same variables in assessing institutionalization in a given country, these being:

- the interelection volatility in parties' support, summed for all parties (the lower the better);
- the difference between presidential and legislative election support (the more people vote for the same party at both levels the better);
- the age of all parties with at least 10 per cent of the vote or, alternatively, of the top two parties (the older the better);
- the dominance of long-established parties;
- the general legitimacy of parties and elections, including both citizens and political leaders seeing elections as the only legitimate way to gain and hold power; and
- the acceptance of electoral defeat by losing parties.

To repeat, institutionalized party systems have low volatility over time, durable parties with clear roots in society (presumably based on relevant social cleavages such as ethnicity, language, religion, religiosity, class, or region), and broad support for parties and elections as legitimate political institutions. These studies rank the countries concerned on a continuum or at least suggest multiple broad categories of institutionalization, with the lowest category being called by Mainwaring and Scully "inchoate" party systems.[32]

Unfortunately, what works for one region becomes problematic when applied globally. Some countries lack credible – or any – party vote statistics, which are needed to calculate volatility (and also disproportionality; see Table 7.5). Measuring variations in presidential and legislative voting does not require a full presidential system, as this system was defined in the previous chapter, but it does assume an elected president. Mainwaring and Scully define

a long-established party as one founded by 1950. Kuenzi and Lambright note, however, that because most African countries did not become independent until around 1960, 1970 is the relevant cut-off date for that continent. They also add, "[s]hould one want to conduct a study that includes countries from multiple world regions, this indicator may need to be adjusted accordingly."[33] However, adjusting this indicator back and forth may cause it to lose its comparative utility. Consequently, rather than developing a full continuum of party system institutionalization, we settle for a basic dichotomy of more institutionalized party systems versus less institutionalized ones, as listed in Table 7.6. Hard numbers have been used where they exist, but so too has a general sense of the party system's "rootedness" in society in various countries. Of particular utility for assessing this "rootedness" in developing and post-communist countries are the Bertelsmann Transformation Index's country scores for the party system, which emphasize the extent to which the party system is stable and socially rooted. Beyond less institutionalized party systems are those Pacific states with no parties at all. For the more institutionalized party systems, the various numerical features of fragmentation and specific types outlined earlier are quite likely to remain with only modest variations for a given country. However, for the less institutionalized party systems "all bets are off"; these may well look very different come their next election.

Beyond being relevant in and of itself, party system institutionalization has clear broader ramifications for comparative democratic performance and stability. The advantages of an institutionalized party system are multiple.[34] First, institutionalized parties are better able not only to articulate but also to aggregate, channel, and reach compromises among citizens' demands. Second and conversely, an institutionalized party system is obviously more accountable than one in which parties come and go or change constantly. Third and consequently, in an institutionalized system, the parties have value in and of themselves, so politicians are more likely to consider the long-term effects of their decisions. Fourth, an institutionalized party system will have greater party discipline, making it easier for the legislature to function (all other things being equal in terms of fragmentation). A fifth point related to the fourth is that an institutionalized party system is more likely to be able to deliver support to the political executive, producing less gridlock and immobility than in an inchoate system. Sixth and finally, party system institutionalization reduces the corruption that occurs under traditional patterns of personal relationships and among politicians who are patrons to local clients. Indeed, a comparison between the more and less institutionalized party systems in terms of the 2020 scores of Transparency International's Corruption Perceptions Index,[35] where the data exist, yields an average score of 62.7 for the more institutionalized party systems and an average score of 43.0 for the less institutionalized party systems (with a higher score indicating less corruption). A ***t*-test** here, with equal variances not assumed, gives a high value of 6.816, which is significant at the .000 level. Overall, then, party system institutionalization can certainly be seen to lead to more effective government.

Table 7.6 Party System Institutionalization (as of the end of 2021)

MORE INSTITUTIONALIZED PARTY SYSTEMS			
Antigua and Barbuda	Denmark	Japan	Portugal
Australia	Dominica	Liechtenstein	Saint Kitts and Nevis
Austria	Estonia	Luxembourg	Saint Lucia
Bahamas	Finland	Malta	Saint Vincent and the Grenadines
Barbados	Germany	Mauritius	São Tomé and Príncipe
Belgium	Ghana	Mexico	South Africa
Belize	Greece	Montenegro	Sweden
Botswana	Grenada	Namibia	Switzerland
Canada	Guyana	Netherlands	Taiwan
Cape Verde	Iceland	New Zealand	Trinidad and Tobago
Chile	India	Nigeria	United Kingdom
Cyprus	Ireland	Norway	United States
Czech Republic	Jamaica	Poland	Uruguay
LESS INSTITUTIONALIZED PARTY SYSTEMS			
Andorra	East Timor	Lesotho	Romania
Argentina	Ecuador	Liberia	Samoa
Armenia	France	Lithuania	San Marino
Bhutan	Gambia	Malawi	Slovakia
Bolivia	Georgia	Maldives	Slovenia
Brazil	Indonesia	Moldova	Solomon Islands
Bulgaria	Israel	Mongolia	Spain
Burkina Faso	Italy	Nepal	Sri Lanka
Colombia	Korea, South	North Macedonia	Suriname
Costa Rica	Kosovo	Panama	Ukraine
Croatia	Latvia	Paraguay	Vanuatu
Dominican Republic	Lebanon	Peru	Zambia
SYSTEMS WITHOUT POLITICAL PARTIES (or, at most, loose parliamentary "groupings")			
Kiribati	Micronesia	Palau	Tuvalu
Marshall Islands	Nauru		

GOVERNMENT FORMATION

Parliamentary governments can be divided into four main types in terms of the number of parties in the cabinet and their seats in the legislature, as shown in Figure 7.1. Which type is formed in a given situation? With regard to post-election government formation in parliamentary systems, the formation rules provide the starting point. For example, is a formal **vote of investiture** required? (See the previous chapter.) Granted, if one party has won a majority of seats, this vote is a formality. However, in the common occurrence of a hung parliament, this procedure will predispose the formation of a majority coalition to win such a vote. In contrast,

Figure 7.1 Types of Parliamentary Government by Number of Parties in the Cabinet and Legislative Support

LEGISLATIVE SUPPORT	PARTIES IN CABINET: One	PARTIES IN CABINET: More than One
More than 50 Per Cent	Single-party majority	Majority coalition
50 Per Cent or Less	Single-party minority	Minority coalition

if no such vote is required (*negative parliamentarianism*), the largest party may simply form a minority government, or a couple of parties may form a coalition but one still lacking a majority. Scandinavia has often seen small minority governments with less than 40 per cent of the seats.[36] A single-party minority is also common in countries with a strong political convention that the largest party should form the government by itself, as is the case in Canada.[37]

Absent these features, however, a parliamentary system is likely to have a majority coalition government, and coalition formation involves a choice among various combinations, not all of which include the largest party. The different possibilities are obviously more numerous the more parties there are, in particular in a highly multi-party system. As noted in the previous chapter, Israel from 1996 through 2001 held three separate direct elections for the prime minister, but that took it out of the realm of parliamentary systems. In a parliamentary system with a hung parliament and the need for a coalition, then, someone normally is given the first "try" (opportunity) to form a government, and that person is thus designated the **formateur**. If this would-be head of government is successful in forming a coalition and, if required, getting this coalition approved by parliament in a vote of investiture, then and only then do they actually become the head of government. If the first would-be formateur is unsuccessful, another is appointed, and so on. At some point, however, if no one can form a government, fresh elections may have to be called. Still, one wants to be the first formateur because there are advantages to going first, and, if the first formateur is successful, there is no opportunity for anyone else.

How is the formateur determined? In Greece since 1986, the constitution specifies that the leader of the largest party becomes the first formateur, and, if that individual is unsuccessful, the leader of the second-largest party becomes the next formateur. In Ireland, the deputies propose candidates and the lower house (Dáil) votes on one, leaving the president merely to make the appointment. But in most countries, no presupposition exists in favour of the largest party or its leader (even if that person is often asked to form the government), and normally the head of state decides who has the best chance of forming a government (occasionally the speaker decides, as in Sweden since 1975).[38] This role does allow a certain discretion for the

head of state, if not indeed an outright bias, as there are often multiple feasible options in terms of both a coalition of parties and a prime minister. Presidents in parliamentary systems do use this power to favour their own parties and equally to exclude from government parties they do not like (that is, parties distant from them ideologically), when possible.[39] In countries where the head of state is a president, and especially an elected one, this bias is an accepted reality. However, the head of state who is a monarch may well want to remain scrupulously neutral (at least in appearance). In this case, the head of state might rely on an **informateur** to consult the political parties as to their coalition and policy preferences and then give advice on the selection of a formateur. The first use of an informateur was in Belgium, but informateurs have also been used in other Northern European multi-party parliamentary democracies such as Denmark and the Netherlands.[40] The informateur is normally an elder statesperson or at least a politician without further ambition – someone who can provide an objective assessment of the political situation.

If a single party wins a majority, a government is normally formed quite quickly. Indeed, in the United Kingdom, a new prime minister of a single-party majority government is sometimes sworn in the day after the election, with the rest of the cabinet following shortly. However, a hung parliament offers no guarantee that the first formateur will be successful or that the whole process will be quick. The formation period could last a month or two or much longer. The record here is clearly that of Belgium, where, after the election of June 2010, a government was not finally formed and invested into office until December 2011 – 18 months later! (The previous government continued serving in a caretaker capacity.) After its most recent election, in May 2019, Belgium's government formation took 16 months to fully complete. Both extremely long formations reflect Belgium's extreme legislative fragmentation and paralysis.[41] Institutionally, the only alternative here is putting a time limit on the total formation period and holding new elections if no government is formed by the end of this time. This process occurs in both Greece and Israel.

What of governmental formation in presidential systems? First, note that coalition governments can and do occur in these systems, especially in Latin America.[42] In the United States, the two-party system works against coalitions, as it does in two-party parliamentary systems. Overall, though, the government formation process in presidential systems is much simpler than in parliamentary systems. The head of government (the president) has already been directly elected by the voters and is separate from the legislature. Consequently, no vote of investiture is ever needed. The president can also be seen as a quasi-formateur, in that they are the one trying to bring other parties into government. But no government can exclude the president's party, so a lot fewer combinations are possible in a presidential system than in a parliamentary one, keeping the party system (that is, the number and size of parties) constant. Finally, without votes of investiture or motions of non-confidence, having 50 per cent plus one legislative support does not affect government formation and survival (although it does affect the administration's ability to pass legislation), so in a multi-party system a near majority may suffice.[43]

ALTERNATIVES TO EXECUTIVE COALITIONS

Up to this point, a coalition has meant an entity that includes more than one party in the cabinet. Strictly speaking, this is an *executive coalition*. However, parties may support the government but not get or ask for cabinet seats, and thus their members could avoid being bound by cabinet solidarity across all issues. These parties could still form a *legislative coalition*, in that they would vote together on matters of confidence, on most legislation, or on certain agreed-upon issues. A good example here is the government formed after the June 2012 elections in Greece by conservative Prime Minister Antonis Samaras. Although his government was often referred to as a three-party coalition, it is important to note that the two centre-left parties backing him and voting for his government barred their MPs from taking seats in cabinet. Instead, each party nominated two independents. In this way, the two parties presumably hoped to limit their association with the economic austerity measures of the government.

Indeed, governments can receive support from other parties or from independents in a range of ways.[44] Table 7.7 lists the main arrangements here, and this list can be nuanced even further.[45] The first type, a full executive coalition, is fairly common and is the standard government of much of continental Europe. It also existed from 2010 to 2015 in the United Kingdom with a Conservative–Liberal Democrat coalition government. The second type is less common and has arisen recently in countries such as New Zealand and Sweden, where it is called "contract parliamentarianism." This arrangement shares the permanent nature (for a given parliamentary term) and policy detail of a full coalition, but it allows the smaller party to have a minister in perhaps its main area of concern (say, the environment for a green party) while not requiring this smaller party to defend publicly everything the government does. Contract parliamentarianism can also arise if the smaller party pledged during the election campaign not to enter into a coalition with the major party or with any party and wishes to keep this pledge formally. Even though legislative support from this smaller party may yield what is effectively a legislative majority (via a legislative coalition) with the same stability as a majority government, technically minority *governance* still exists in terms of the formal cabinet.[46]

The next two types of support involve a smaller party or independents keeping a government in office by voting with it on (non-)confidence and supply matters (under a confidence and supply agreement) or at least not voting against it on these matters (under a cooperation agreement).[47] In return, the supporting parties or independents receive certain policy concessions. The smaller party may also get more legislative positions or "perks" in these arrangements than it would otherwise. Failing any of these arrangements, a minority government has to seek ad hoc support from other parties issue by issue. Last, it is important to note that, in a given country, more than one of these situations may occur at the same time. Thus, for

Table 7.7 Levels of Legislative Support and Coalitions

Arrangement	Duration	Policy Scope	Nature of Agreement	Ministerial and Other Positions for the Smaller Party
Full executive coalition	Indefinite (full legislative term)	All policy areas but possible agreement to disagree in certain areas	Detailed written public document	Smaller party has regular ministers in cabinet with full cabinet solidarity
Contract parliamentarianism	Indefinite (full legislative term)	Many or most policy areas; otherwise, agreement to disagree	Detailed written public document	Smaller party may have ministers, but these are outside cabinet
Confidence and supply agreement	Can be indefinite or for a short, specific period	Limited but including support on budgets and other confidence matters plus some policies desired by the smaller party; otherwise, agreement to disagree	Varies; not detailed and sometimes not written	Normally some committee or other positions
Cooperation agreement	Can be indefinite or for a short, specific period	Limited but including not opposing budgets and other confidence matters plus some policies desired by the smaller party; otherwise, agreement to disagree	Varies; not detailed and sometimes not written	Possibly some committee or other positions
Ad hoc support	None; issue by issue	Only on the specific issue	Nothing formal and public	None

example, after the 2005 elections in New Zealand, the Labour Party (with 50 out of 121 seats, just two more than its main opponent, the opposition National Party) did the following: (1) continued its minority coalition government with the Progressives (now down to one seat); (2) established contract parliamentarianism with both the New Zealand First party (with seven seats) and the United Future party (with three seats), each of which had a minister outside of cabinet (in the case of New Zealand First this was the Minister of Foreign Affairs, no small post); and (3) as additional security, reached a cooperation agreement with the Greens (with six seats).[48] The Labour–Progressive government, which was formally a minority, thus lasted the full parliamentary term.

APPENDIX: VARYING DEFINITIONS AND EXTENT OF ONE-PARTY PREDOMINANCE

There are three key differences in how one-party predominance is defined; taking a strict narrow definition in each case limits the real-world number of these systems compared to broader measures. The first issue is the meaning of predominance. In a narrow sense, this means having a single-party majority in the (lower house of) parliament and thus being able to form a single-party majority government in a parliamentary system. (In a presidential system, the party would also have to have the presidency, but a presidency is always winner-take-all.) The broader meaning, which we shall also use, is that a party need not have an absolute majority of seats and can be in a coalition with other parties – as long as it provides the head of government (prime minister or equivalent in parliamentary systems) and has at least half the cabinet seats. (In some countries independent politicians serve in cabinet and these count as part of the denominator.)

The second issue is the duration of predominance. In this regard one-party predominance differs from the other types of party systems, which certainly need more than one or two elections to be a system, but not much more. (As noted earlier, for most party systems, three or more elections are needed, otherwise the system is just a pattern.) The longevity of one-party predominance is central to its definition, but the needed duration is of some scholarly debate. In his classic work, T. J. Pempel writes of dominance lasting "often for three to five decades," yet he does note in passing some examples of shorter time periods, two decades or less; Gary Cox likewise suggests "three to five decades."[49] However, most scholars consider 20 years in power to be the necessary minimum.[50] This suggests five or more consecutive election victories, assuming elections every four years. Thus even though starting in 1979 the British Conservatives won four straight majorities under Margaret Thatcher and then John Major and were in power for 18 years (but losing their majority in the seventeenth year), this did not make the 20-year cut-off, showing the challenge of this level of duration. Conversely, anything beyond a minimum of 20 years in power would be a stricter definition of predominance.

The third issue is whether predominance must be continuous, or whether a brief interruption is "permitted" as long as the predominance resumes. A strict definition would have no interruptions – even of just weeks; however, Alan Ware defines predominance as "a system where one party regularly wins enough parliamentary seats to control government on its own," and "regularly" suggests the occasional exception.[51] For our purposes a *qualified* definition allows interruptions of no more than one consecutive parliamentary/presidential term each within multi-term dominance, provided the total time period includes at least 20 years of actual dominance and the extra time period of dominance is longer than the interruption.

Consequently, we have a narrow definition of predominance that requires uninterrupted seat majorities and a broader definition that requires dominant but not complete control of

government – both of which may be qualified to have limited interruptions or "periods of exception." We can thus apply these definitions to all (electoral) democracies with historically at least universal male suffrage; the resulting classifications are given in the Appendix Table. This table uses a 20-year cut-off but also ranks each grouping by total years. One can see that using an unqualified narrow definition gives us only 10 cases of one-party predominance, but broader and qualified definitions give us many more such "uncommon" democracies and/or extend the time period of specific cases. Indeed, on a qualified broad definition the dominance of Japan's Liberal Democrats is ongoing and now totals over 60 years in power. The table also indicates how often the party in question won a majority of votes. Although this has sometimes been the case, and certainly the norm in Southern Africa (Botswana, Namibia, South Africa), generally one-party predominance reflects a manufactured majority or no legislative majority at all but a divided opposition.

Chapter 7 Appendix Table One-Party Predominant Systems in Electoral Democracies (as of the end of 2021)

Note: Only those countries where the total years vary depending on definition are listed more than once.

Country	Party	Total Years of Predominance through 2021	Specific Years of Predominance	Vote Majority?
NARROW DEFINITION (Seat majority)				
Botswana	Democratic Party	55	1966 to present	All but once
Switzerland	Radical Left/Free Democratic Party	38	1881 to 1919**	On three occasions
Namibia	SWAPO Party	32	1990 to present	Always
Gambia	People's Progressive Party	29	1965 to 1994***	Always
South Africa	African National Congress	28	1994 to present^	Always
Trinidad and Tobago	People's National Movement	24	1962 to 1986^^	Always
India	Indian National Congress	23/25	1952 to 1975 / 1977^^^	Never
Canada	Liberal Party*	22	1935 to 1957	Only once
Japan	Liberal Democratic Party	21	1955 to 1976	Initially (its first three elections)
St. Vincent and the Grenadines	Unity Labour Party	20	2001 to present	All but once

* Seat majority in 1945 included Independent Liberals.

** Parliamentary majority but nevertheless heading coalitions from 1891.

*** In fact, since 1962 (pre-independence).

^ But there was an obligatory broad Government of National Unity in the first parliamentary term.

^^ In fact, since 1956 (pre-independence).

^^^ India was autocratic from 1975 to 1977.

QUALIFIED NARROW DEFINITION (with periods of exception)				
India	Indian National Congress	32/34	1952 to 1989 with an exception in 1977–80*	Never
New Zealand	National Party	29	1949 to 1984 with exceptions in 1957–60 and 1972–5	Rarely
Malta	National Party	24	1987 to 2013 with an exception in 1996–8	All but once

* India was autocratic from 1975 to 1977

BROAD DEFINITION				
Switzerland	Radical Left/Free Democratic Party	71	1848 to 1919	Initially and then occasionally
Liechtenstein	Progressive Citizens' Party	42	1928 to 1970	Almost always
Sweden	Social Democrats	40	1936 to 1976	Twice
Luxembourg	Christian Social People's Party	34	1979 to 2013	Never

Country	Party	Total Years of Predominance through 2021	Specific Years of Predominance	Vote Majority?
Italy	Christian Democrats	33	1948 to 1981	Never
Austria	Social Democrats	30	1970 to 2000	Thrice (in a row)
Israel	Mapai/Labour	29	1948 to 1977	Never
Uruguay	Colorado Party	28	1931 to 1959	Usually
Luxembourg	Christian Social People's Party	27	1947 to 1974	Never
Austria	People's Party	24	1945 to 1970	Never
Guyana	People's Progressive Party	23	1992 to 2015	All but once
Dominica	Labour Party	22+	2000 to present	All but once
San Marino	Christian Democratic Party	21	1957 to 1978	Never
Germany	Christian Democrats (CDU and CSU)	20	1949 to 1969	Only once
QUALIFIED BROAD DEFINITION (with periods of exception)				
Japan	Liberal Democratic Party	61+	1955 to present with exceptions in 1993–6 and 2009–12	Initially
Luxembourg	Christian Social People's Party	61	1947 to 2013 with an exception in 1974–9	Never
Sweden	Social Democrats	44	1932 to 1976 with a brief exception in 1936	Twice
Italy	Christian Democrats	39	1948 to 1992 with exceptions in 1981–2 and 1983–7	Never
Uruguay	Colorado Party	37	1919 to 1959 with an exception in 1928–31	Usually
Ireland	Fianna Fáil	35	1932 to 1973 with exceptions in 1948–51 and 1954–7	Only once
Venezuela	Democratic Action	25	1959 to 1994 with exceptions in 1969–74 and 1979–84	Twice
Denmark	Social Democrats	24	1953 to 1982 with exceptions in 1968–71 and 1973–5	Never
Paraguay	Colorado Party	23+	1993 to present with an exception in 2008–13	Only once
Australia	Liberal Party	22	1949 to 1972 with an exception in 1967–8*	Never
Liechtenstein	Fatherland Union	22	1978 to 2001 with an exception in 1993	Thrice
Sweden	Social Democrats	21	1982 to 2006 with an exception in 1991–4	Never
Ireland	Fianna Fáil	21	1987 to 2011 with an exception in 1994–7	Never
Canada	Liberal Party	20	1963 to 1984 with an exception in 1979–80	Never
Norway	Labour Party	20	1945 to 1965 with a brief exception in 1963	Never
Norway	Labour Party	20	1986 to 2013 with exceptions in 1989–90, 1997–2000, and 2001–05	Never

* Exception involved the junior coalition partner having a temporary prime minister.

NOTES

1 Farrell, *Electoral Systems*, 4 (italics in original).
2 See Farrell, *Electoral Systems*, 6, on these three central aspects.
3 The total number of districts is not, in itself, a relevant factor.
4 For almost all its states, the US electoral college illustrates well this winner-take-all qualification.
5 See, in particular, Lijphart, *Electoral Systems and Party Systems*, 12.
6 Martínez i Coma and Lago, "Gerrymandering in Comparative Perspective." They also argue that there is an interactive effect between majoritarian electoral systems and the log of country size.
7 OSCE Office for Democratic Institutions and Human Rights, "Mongolia Parliamentary Elections."
8 On this phenomenon in parliamentary systems, see Siaroff, "Spurious Majorities, Electoral Systems and Electoral System Change."
9 Loosemore and Hanby, "The Theoretical Limits of Maximum Distortion." In fact, Loosemore and Hanby's original index (see page 469) ranged from 0 to 1; however, it is standard now to measure this variable from 0 to 100. For a comparison of the Loosemore-Hanby and other measures of disproportionality, see Lijphart, *Electoral Systems and Party Systems*, 58–67.
10 Indeed, to be precise, all votes beyond one more than the second-placed candidate are "surplus" and thus wasted.
11 Farrell, *Electoral Systems*, 130.
12 For a "double dissolution" election in Australia, which elects the entire Senate, the district magnitude is 12.
13 The threshold is also only 2 per cent in Mexico for the proportional representation component of its electoral system.
14 The Peruvian Congress contains 130 seats, which are spread across 26 electoral districts. The district of Lima (the main city and capital, and which also includes voters living abroad) contains 36 seats, so results there are quite proportional. The other 25 districts, though, have an average district magnitude of only 3.76, which is clearly inadequate for smaller parties.
15 The notion of larger constituencies being those with 12 seats or more is taken from Gallagher, Laver, and Mair, *Representative Government in Modern Europe*, 355.
16 Taagepera, *Predicting Party Sizes*; cf. Shugart and Taagepera, *Votes from Seats*.
17 On federal by-elections in Canada, see Loewen and Bastien, "(In)Significant Elections? Federal By-elections in Canada."
18 On Ireland's uniqueness in combining a fully proportional electoral system with by-elections, see Gallagher, "By-elections to Dáil Éireann 1923–96."
19 This statement was made by former House of Representatives Speaker Thomas P. (Tip) O'Neill, Jr. See O'Neill, *Man of the House*.
20 See Anckar and Anckar, "Democracies without Parties."
21 See Sartori, *Parties and Party Systems*.
22 On this decline in Latin America, see Payne et al., *Democracies in Development*, 148.
23 Mainwaring and Scully, "Introduction," 5; Payne et al., *Democracies in Development*, 127.
24 On party institutionalization see, for example, Huntington, *Political Order in Changing Societies*.
25 The United States has actually seen the most competition between its two parties at the level of the presidency.
26 On this type of party system in longstanding democracies and on the varied role of the "half" party or parties therein, see Siaroff, "Two-and-a-Half-Party Systems and the Comparative Role of the 'Half.'"

27 Ada Ziegfeld, "A New Dominant Party in India?" 139–41.
28 On these "classic cases," see Pempel, *Uncommon Democracies?*
29 Mainwaring and Scully, *Building Democratic Institutions*.
30 Payne et al., *Democracies in Development*, Chapter 6.
31 Kuenzi and Lambright, "Party System Institutionalization in 30 African Countries."
32 Mainwaring and Scully, *Building Democratic Institutions*, 19.
33 Kuenzi and Lambright, "Party System Institutionalization," 446.
34 Mainwaring and Scully, *Building Democratic Institutions*, 25–6; Payne et al., *Democracies in Development*, 127–8.
35 See Transparency International: The Global Coalition against Corruption, "Corruption Perceptions Index," accessed December 2020, http://www.transparency.org/research/cpi.
36 Bergman, "Formation Rules and Minority Governments."
37 Stewart, "Of Customs and Coalitions."
38 This person might not be the leader of the largest party if this party is not that large or is ideologically extreme. Both size and median position matter for becoming the party with the prime minister or other head of government. Also important is wanting to be in government, and the largest party might not want this if it has suffered an electoral loss or for other reasons. On these points, see Isaksson, "From Election to Government."
39 Kang, "The Influence of Presidential Heads of State."
40 Bogdanor, "The Government Formation Process in the Constitutional Monarchies of North-West Europe," 57–66.
41 Hooghe, "The Political Crisis in Belgium."
42 Chasquetti, *Democracia, presidencialismo y partidos políticos en América Latina*, especially Chapters 3–5. On Brazil, see Figueiredo, "Government Coalitions in Brazilian Democracy."
43 Jones puts this threshold at 45 per cent of the seats. Jones, *Electoral Laws and the Survival of Presidential Democracies*, 37–8.
44 Independents were central to determining the government after the Australian election of 2010. However, not surprisingly, the ongoing role of independents in government formation is most clearly found in Ireland, with its regular election of many independents. See Weeks, "Independents in Government."
45 In fact, Boston and Bullock list eight different forms of formal governance arrangements that have occurred in New Zealand since the mid-1990s between one of the two main parties and smaller parties. Boston and Bullock, "Multi-Party Governance," 354–6.
46 Bale and Bergman, "Captives No Longer, but Servants Still?"
47 In the United Kingdom the "Lib–Lab" (Liberal–Labour) pact of 1977–8 essentially became a cooperation agreement.
48 Boston and Bullock, "Multi-Party Governance," 358–9.
49 Pempel, "Introduction," 1–2; Cox, *Making Votes Count*, 238.
50 Ziegfeld, "A New Dominant Party in India?" 136–7.
51 Ware, *Political Parties and Party Systems*, 159.

This page intentionally left blank

CHAPTER EIGHT

Varieties of Autocracies: Totalitarianism, Sultanism, and Authoritarianism

In This Chapter You Will Learn

- what a totalitarian regime is;
- how full totalitarianism differs from incomplete or pre-totalitarianism and from post-totalitarianism;
- what a sultanistic regime is;
- how authoritarianism is a residual category of autocracy and the consequent importance of noting the specific subtypes of authoritarianism;
- how monarchs range from being all-powerful to being mere figureheads; and
- how semi-open autocracies may have a certain level of political pluralism but not the free and fair elections of democracies.

Hitherto, we have either treated all autocracies as a group (as opposed to democracies) or simply distinguished between semi-open and closed autocracies. Of course, autocracies, like democracies, vary in their institutional features. Beyond these institutional variations, autocracies also differ according to the importance of ideology, the extent of their legitimacy, and the durability of their specific autocratic leaders. In this chapter, we examine three varieties of autocracy: totalitarianism, sultanism, and authoritarianism. The first and last of these varieties can be further subdivided, making a total of nine subtypes. These subtypes are outlined in Table 8.1, which follows the layout of Table 4.2. In this analysis, we do not cover every aspect given for each subtype but rather focus on the key features. At the end of the chapter, an Appendix Table provides a list of all of the current (end of 2021) autocratic regimes in the world and their individual autocratic leaders.

Table 8.1 Subtypes of Autocratic Regimes

	Pre-Totalitarianism; Incomplete Totalitarianism	Full Totalitarianism	Post-Totalitarianism
POLITICAL PARTIES AND ELECTIONS AND OVERALL POLITICAL OPPOSITION	One official party with a monopoly of power and no political pluralism	One official party with a monopoly of power and no political pluralism; political terror is often used initially to eliminate any possibility of organized opposition	Still one official party with monopoly of power but beginnings of political pluralism
SOCIOECONOMIC PLURALISM	Some social and economic pluralism, perhaps pre-dating the regime	No significant social or economic pluralism; basically total regime control; strong hostility to pre-existing organized religion	Limited social and economic pluralism involving dissidents and some market actors and forces
CIVIL LIBERTIES	Civil liberties are non-existent or, at best, limited	No civil liberties	Tentative but limited civil liberties
IDEOLOGY	Elaborate and guiding ideology that includes a desired utopian vision	Elaborate and guiding ideology that includes a desired utopian vision	Still a state-sanctioned, elaborate, and guiding ideology but weakened faith in this
MOBILIZATION	Beginning of or partial mobilization into a wide range of regime-created obligatory organizations	Extensive mobilization into a wide range of regime-created obligatory organizations; active participation and enthusiasm both encouraged and expected	Still extensive mobilization into regime-sponsored organizations, but enthusiasm replaced by boredom or careerism; dissidents organize clandestinely
LEGITIMACY OF AUTHORITY	Legitimacy comes initially more from the method of coming to power (e.g., elections or independence struggle) than from the official ideology	Legitimacy comes from some combination of official ideology (especially its utopian goals) and the charisma of the dictator	Legitimacy weakened by de-ideologization; shift to attempts at performance legitimacy
CONSTRAINTS ON AUTHORITY	Constrained somewhat by any remaining separate political actors and broadly supported private actors	Key totalitarian leader rules with undefined limits and great unpredictability; successors tend to be more predictable and bureaucratic	Top leaders constrained by party bureaucracy and state technocrats, but not by broader civil society
POLITICAL ACCOUNTABILITY TO POPULATION	No political accountability	No political accountability	No political accountability, except to other party elites
LEADERSHIP DURATION	For arrested totalitarianism, leadership is indefinite but effectively conditional on avoiding major policy failure	Leadership effectively for life unless regime is defeated; usually a power struggle for a new leader	Leadership effectively for life subject to performance; successor picked peacefully by and from party oligarchy
TRANSITION TO (LIBERAL) DEMOCRACY	For arrested totalitarianism, the ruling party must first accept giving up or be forced to give up its monopoly of power	Needs to go first through a post-totalitarian phase with some pluralism unless defeat in war and occupation by a foreign power that is willing to democratize	Depending on the maturity of the post-totalitarianism regime, scenarios can range from regime collapse followed by an interim government to a negotiated transition

	Sultanism	Traditional Authoritarianism	Military Authoritarianism
POLITICAL PARTIES AND ELECTIONS AND OVERALL POLITICAL OPPOSITION	There may be an official party, but it is not well institutionalized; political terror is often used to eliminate any possibility of organized opposition	Can range from all parties being forbidden and no elections held to a multi-party system with competitive elections and limited political opposition (but without elections actually determining the government)	Usually all parties are forbidden, but there could be one official party; limited political opposition may be tolerated
SOCIOECONOMIC PLURALISM	Some economic and social pluralism, but these are subject to arbitrary despotic intervention	Can range from no significant to quite extensive social pluralism; usually economic pluralism	Some social and economic pluralism, perhaps pre-dating the military regime
CIVIL LIBERTIES	No civil liberties	Civil liberties can range from none at all to merely incomplete	Civil liberties are non-existent or at best limited
IDEOLOGY	No ideology worth its name; instead, personal glorification of leader and family	Stress on deference to traditional authority	Often very nationalistic; stress on economic and, occasionally, social development
MOBILIZATION	Only occasional mobilization, such as of violent para-state groups	Participation largely generated autonomously by civil society (where permitted)	Emphasis on demobilization, especially of pre-existing autonomous civil society
LEGITIMACY OF AUTHORITY	Regime lacks broad legitimacy; compliance is based largely on fear, rewards, and personal ties to leader	Traditional legitimacy	Legitimacy comes from claims of acting in the national interest
CONSTRAINTS ON AUTHORITY	Highly personalistic and arbitrary rule that is highly unpredictable; no bureaucratic professionalism possible	Constrained at most only somewhat by the bureaucracy, private economic actors, and general public opinion	Constrained at most only somewhat by the bureaucracy and private economic actors and maybe by any private media
POLITICAL ACCOUNTABILITY TO POPULATION	No political accountability	No political accountability of the monarch, but there may be some accountability of officials	No political accountability
LEADERSHIP DURATION	Leadership effectively for life unless overthrown	Leadership is for life and then carries on within the royal family	Leadership is indefinite unless the military rotates power
TRANSITION TO (LIBERAL) DEMOCRACY	Sultan highly unlikely to abdicate so must be overthrown; however, actors close to sultan may fill the resulting power vacuum and frustrate true democratization	The monarch and the royal family must be willing to settle for a largely figurehead role	Transition does not usually occur until either the military loses legitimacy (e.g., by losing a war) or thinks that it has sufficiently restructured the sociopolitical order

(*Continued*)

Table 8.1 (Continued)

	Theocratic Authoritarianism	Electoral Authoritarianism	Nationalist One-Party Regimes
POLITICAL PARTIES AND ELECTIONS AND OVERALL POLITICAL OPPOSITION	Either one official party or all parties are forbidden, although anti-regime independents may be elected	More than one political party; limited political pluralism and consequent political opposition; however, national elections are not free and fair enough to actually change the government	One official party with a monopoly of power and no political pluralism
SOCIOECONOMIC PLURALISM	No significant social pluralism; usually some economic pluralism	Many autonomous actors in economy and broader society	Some social and economic pluralism, perhaps pre-dating the regime
CIVIL LIBERTIES	Civil liberties are non-existent or at best limited	Civil liberties are usually incomplete if not indeed limited	Civil liberties are non-existent or at best limited
IDEOLOGY	Ideology derived from specific religious text or school	Stress on economic growth and social peace	Stress on nationalism and development
MOBILIZATION	Emphasis on religious mobilization	Participation largely generated autonomously by civil society and by competing parties	Partial mobilization, especially into the ruling party
LEGITIMACY OF AUTHORITY	Legitimacy comes from religious position and the authority to interpret relevant scripture	Legitimacy comes from the illusion of legal-rational authority	Legitimacy comes from the achievement of independence and possibly performance legitimacy
CONSTRAINTS ON AUTHORITY	Constrained at most only somewhat by any private economic actors or private media	Constrained only somewhat by the constitution, the courts and the rule of law, the bureaucracy, and sociopolitical pluralism	Constrained at most only somewhat by any private economic actors or private media
POLITICAL ACCOUNTABILITY TO POPULATION	No political accountability	No true political accountability, although regime does prefer to be popular in actuality	No true political accountability, although sometimes more than one candidate from the ruling party will compete
LEADERSHIP DURATION	Leadership at the top is for life; a religious assembly chooses successors	Leadership is indefinite unless the ruling party has internal limits (which have been as little as one term)	Leadership is indefinite unless the ruling party has internal limits
TRANSITION TO (LIBERAL) DEMOCRACY	Transition has never occurred willingly	The key step is having a truly free and fair election; then it becomes improving civil liberties and government fairness	Multiple parties need to be permitted, which may mean first a period of electoral authoritarianism

Source: Based in part on Juan J. Linz and Alfred Stepan, *Problems of Democratic Transition and Consolidation: Southern Europe, South America, and Post-Communist Europe* (Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1996), Table 3.1 and Table 4.2, with modifications.

TOTALITARIANISM

Although some authors treat totalitarianism as a subtype of authoritarianism, it is, in fact, a distinctive variant of autocracy. Existing for more or less time in all communist regimes as well as in Nazi Germany, totalitarianism can be characterized by three key characteristics, as detailed by Linz:

- There is a monistic [unitary] but not monolithic center of power, and whatever pluralism of institutions or groups exists derives its legitimacy from that center, is largely mediated by it, and is mostly a political creation rather than an out-growth of the dynamics of the preexisting society.
- There is an exclusive, autonomous, and more or less intellectually elaborate ideology [involving an ultimate utopian goal] with which the ruling group or leader, and the party serving the leaders, identify and which they use as a basis for policies …[1]
- Citizen participation in and active mobilization for political and collective social tasks are encouraged, demanded, rewarded, and channeled through a single party and many monopolistic secondary groups. Passive obedience and apathy … characteristic of many authoritarian regimes, are considered undesirable by the rulers.[2]

In terms of the first point, power is monopolized by the totalitarian party and its leaders. All other parties are banned, forced to merge with the totalitarian party, or "at best" allowed to continue as puppet parties under the control of the totalitarian party. This point does not mean that the official party always has and speaks only with one voice; differences, especially within the leadership, may exist, though these are subject to the constraints of the regime's ideology (the second feature described as characteristic of totalitarianism). However, these differences can never crystallize into political factions, and, certainly and crucially, no political pluralism exists in a totalitarian system.

Equally, no or at least no significant social and economic pluralism exists under totalitarianism either. Autonomous organizations, and thus an independent civil society, are forbidden. Any pre-existing organized religion is suppressed or heavily controlled, although many modern organizations do exist: trade unions, youth groups, sporting clubs, and so on. However, all of these are official groups with monopolies in their field: for example, there is just one trade union rather than a plurality of these. Usually, their names include that of the totalitarian party or its leader. Moreover, people are expected to join such groups to signal *active* support for the regime (remember that demanding these demonstrations of support is the third characteristic of totalitarian regimes). Likewise, elections are not only normal under totalitarianism (albeit without partisan choice), but an intense effort is made to mobilize every possible voter so that a claim can be made of up to 99 per cent (or even 99.9 per cent) support for the regime. **Totalitarian regimes** are unique among autocracies in the extent of their mobilization efforts

because, at least according to their ideologies, such regimes seek to fundamentally *transform* the existing society toward some ultimate utopia. From this perspective, totalitarianism is a modernizing type of autocracy.

In addition to the key features of monistic party power, a transformative ideology, and the extensive mobilization of citizen support, many scholarly analyses added political terror, especially in the 1950s and 1960s when Stalinism was a vivid memory. Political terror can be defined as "the arbitrary use, by organs of political authority, of severe coercion against individuals or groups, the credible threat of such use, or the arbitrary extermination of individuals or groups" as a means to achieve political control.[3] Linz argues that the extent of terror has varied under totalitarianism and that it can be found also in non-totalitarian systems, such as "sultanistic" ones or certain military regimes in Latin America.[4] Of course, as Dallin and Breslauer note, the extent of terror tends to be temporal: It is high in what they call the "mobilization phase" of totalitarianism, when society's resources are directed to achieving quickly a specific end or related ends, such as industrialization and the creation of a "new man." In contrast, in the "post-[intensive] mobilization phase," when the central goal is progressing "on track" without much resistance and, more generally, when an established process of socialization has led to the general legitimacy of the regime, terror is no longer needed and social compliance comes basically from "peer-group pressure."[5] That said, what is unique about totalitarian terror is its ideological justification and the totalitarian regime's organizational capacity to carry it out using party cadres.[6] Consequently, political terror, per se, does not seem so much a separate feature of totalitarianism as it is a reinforcement of the second and first characteristics described previously.

Beyond these characteristics, we can note that totalitarianism has been around only since the interwar period. Some see totalitarianism – especially fascism – as a reaction to modernity, at least in part. More convincingly, it has been noted that interwar fascism had little appeal in the older, long-established countries of Northern and Northwestern Europe; its appeal was to be found in the newer countries of Central and Eastern Europe established in the 1860s and 1870s: Austria-Hungary, Italy, Germany, and Romania (see Table 1.1). These states often experienced frustrations vis-à-vis the established powers, which seemed to block the emerging countries' desire for rapidly increasing might and respect.[7] Most crucial, perhaps, is the point that totalitarianism is, in fact, *conditional* on a certain level of modernity (and definitely on a functioning state) without which its penetrative and transformative capacities could not exist. As leading political scientist Gabriel A. Almond noted in the 1950s,

> This type of political system has become possible only in modern times, since it depends on the modern technology of communication, on modern types of organization, and on the modern technology of violence. Historic tyrannies have no doubt sought this kind of

> domination but were limited in the effectiveness of their means. Totalitarianism is tyranny with a rational bureaucracy, a monopoly of the modern technology of communication, and a monopoly of the modern technology of violence.[8]

Indeed, China's totalitarianism now includes "digital totalitarianism,"[9] in which control over a censored internet and surveillance cameras with facial-recognition software both amplify "the state's capacity to monitor and control the country's 1.4 billion people."[10] Other effective autocratic states (and even some flawed ones) are trying to emulate China in this regard.

PRE- AND POST-TOTALITARIANISM

What we have analysed so far can perhaps be more rigorously defined as *full* totalitarianism (see Table 8.1). However, a totalitarian regime does not come into existence the day or even the year totalitarian forces take power; instead, at least in each of Nazi Germany and the Soviet Union, totalitarianism took some time to establish, especially in terms of establishing control over or at least neutralizing previously powerful independent actors. For example, the Soviet Union under Lenin had much weaker communist control than under Stalin, especially if we consider Stalin's rule from 1929 onwards. Indeed, Lenin had to switch back toward free market capitalism in his New Economic Policy of 1921. Linz has aptly called *pre-totalitarian* those situations in which

> there is a political group of sufficient importance pursuing a totalitarian utopia but that has not yet fully consolidated its power … a situation in which institutions like the armed forces, the churches, business organizations, interest groups, notables or tribal rulers, the courts, or even a monarch, not clearly committed to a system excluding all pluralisms even though largely favoring a limitation of pluralism, still retain considerable autonomy, legitimacy, and effectiveness … [11]

That said, if pre-totalitarianism inevitably led to totalitarianism, it would not be worth examining here. However, in many real-world cases, this initial pre-totalitarian stage did *not* lead to full totalitarianism. Instead, the pre-totalitarian situation continued indefinitely. In other words, "the development toward totalitarianism is arrested and stabilized" although the totalitarian ideology continues to affect "considerable spheres of social life" and participation in the totalitarian party and its other organizations remains significant. Linz calls this situation "defective totalitarianism"; one could also call it incomplete totalitarianism.[12]

The most important of these "incomplete totalitarian" cases was Fascist Italy, where Mussolini remained constrained by the army, the state **bureaucracy**, business interests, the Catholic Church, and the monarchy – and conversely where each of these actors retained some autonomy from him and the PNF (the National Fascist Party). The autonomy of the state bureaucracy reflected the PNF's failure to establish full totalitarianism because "[o]nly when the party organization is superior or equal to the government can we speak of a totalitarian system."[13] As for the monarchy, King Victor Emmanuel III not only appointed Mussolini prime minister in 1922 but also formally removed him in 1943. (In contrast, in Nazi Germany after President von Hindenburg's death in 1934, no one was authorized to "fire" Hitler.) The central communist example of "incomplete totalitarianism" was Poland, where the Catholic Church was always able to maintain "a sphere of relative autonomy which gave it organizational and ideological capacities to resist its and the Polish nation's full incorporation into totalitarian structures."[14] Furthermore, agriculture was never collectivized in Poland because the Polish communist leaders did not see this policy as part of the "Polish road to socialism." The consequent social pluralism found in an autonomous and powerful Catholic Church and autonomous farmers not only was the central aspect of the "incompleteness" of Polish totalitarianism but also spilled over into weaker communist ideology, less communist mobilization, and an unstable party leadership.[15] In the 1960s and 1970s, many one-party regimes were established in Africa that were either basically communist in ideology or that largely copied communist rule but had a more indigenous ideology; they should be considered examples of "incomplete totalitarianism" too.

If full totalitarianism is established, one may ask whether it remains for generations. Here we are limited empirically to studying the communist systems, as Nazi Germany lasted only 12 years, rather short of Hitler's "thousand-year Reich." A critical juncture for all totalitarian communist systems has been the death of the key (and usually charismatic) initial leader – Stalin, Mao, Ho Chi Min. Their successors have tended to be less "revolutionary," in the sense of not really having transformative goals, being much less willing to use terror to achieve their goals, and being more concerned with preserving the status quo. As such, they are more "conservative" and predictable. Thus the totalitarian system shifts from a mobilization phase to a post-mobilization, bureaucratic phase. However, such a system – for example, the Soviet Union under Khrushchev and then Brezhnev – must still be considered fully totalitarian because the regime still tolerates no real pluralism. (Of course, Khrushchev's removal from power by the rest of the communist party leadership was somewhat incongruent with full totalitarianism.)

An actual *regime* change comes with a shift from totalitarianism to *post-totalitarianism.* Post-totalitarianism certainly does *not* mean political pluralism in the sense of, say, multiple and competing political parties. However, political dissidents begin to organize or increase their organization and become somewhat more open, and there is growing social

and economic pluralism as well; this movement to a more pluralistic economy is sometimes driven by necessity. Crucially, under post-totalitarianism, the official ideology becomes more of a façade with fewer and fewer true believers (including in the leadership). Likewise, social mobilization into **state** organizations becomes less passionate and more a matter of "going through the motions"; the people who join the official party are largely "careerists" or, more bluntly, opportunists. Because ideology and terror no longer motivate the ossified bureaucracy, there is a parallel increase in corruption.[16] This sort of post-totalitarianism, for better or worse, occurred in the Soviet Union under Gorbachev in the late 1980s. However, similar regimes arose earlier in parts of Eastern Europe – in Yugoslavia in the mid-1950s and in Hungary starting in 1962. On the other hand, Czechoslovakia and East Germany remained "hard line" and fully totalitarian until the collapse of communism, so each had only a brief post-totalitarian phase (and Albania had none at all). Only Bulgaria copied Gorbachev's reforms when they still seemed viable. China certainly has been post-totalitarian in economic matters since the late 1970s, but the regime remains highly repressive otherwise. Vietnam is now following a similar pattern.

Finally, it should be noted that the death of Stalin in Europe and of Mao in China would be considered the end of full totalitarianism under an alternative definition that requires a charismatic leader, political terror, and purges within the ruling party. What followed is what we have called the "bureaucratic" phase of totalitarianism but what this alternative definition considers "post-totalitarianism" goes through "early" and "frozen" phases.[17]

SULTANISTIC REGIMES

One communist regime not mentioned previously is Romania. In fact, although its postwar regime had certain totalitarian features – above all, a communist party and related organizations – from the late 1960s it could be better seen as an example of *sultanism.* A **sultanistic regime** is one built around an individual leader and their family, which, to a greater or lesser extent, plunder the country. The leader is glorified; exercises control by fear, terror, and spreading paranoia; and lacks any effective legitimacy. Chehabi and Linz offer a more thorough definition:

> [A] contemporary sultanistic regime … is based on personal rulership, but loyalty to the ruler is motivated not by his embodying or articulating an ideology, nor by a unique personal mission, nor by any charismatic qualities, but by a mixture of fear and rewards to his collaborators. The ruler exercises power without restraint, at his own discretion and above all unencumbered by rules or by any commitment to an ideology or value system.

> The binding norms and relations of bureaucratic administration are constantly subverted by arbitrary personal decisions of the ruler, which he does not feel constrained to justify in ideological terms. As a result corruption reigns supreme at all levels of society. The staff [or cabinet] of such a ruler is constituted not by an establishment with distinctive career lines, like a bureaucratic army or a civil service, recruited based on more or less universal criteria, but largely by people chosen directly by the ruler. Among them we very often find members of his family, friends, business associates, or individuals directly involved in using violence to sustain the regime. Their position derives from their purely personal submission to the ruler, and their position of authority in society derives merely from this relation. Although such regimes can in many ways be modern, what characterizes them is the weakness of traditional and legal-rational legitimation and the lack of ideological justification.[18]

In many ways, sultanistic regimes are the least "defendable" type of regime because they cannot claim any ultimate utopian goal, as totalitarian regimes do. Today, the main example of sultanism is the regime of Teodoro Obiang Nguema Mbasogo in Equatorial Guinea. However, there have been several important historical examples of sultanism in recent decades: the regimes of Fulgencio Batista in Cuba, Rafael Trujillo in the Dominican Republic, Jean-Claude Duvalier in Haiti, the Somoza family in Nicaragua, Jean-Bédel Bokassa in the Central African Republic, Hastings Kamuzu Banda in Malawi, Gnassingbé Eyadéma in Togo, Idi Amin in Uganda, Mobutu Sese Seko in Zaire (now the Congo, DR), the Pahlavi dynasty in Iran (especially the later stages of each Shah), Saddam Hussein in Iraq, Muammar al-Gaddafi in Libya, Hafez al-Assad in Syria, Ferdinand Marcos in the Philippines, and Nicolae Ceaușescu in Romania. Two examples of sultanistic rulers deposed wholly or partly by Western intervention are Saddam Hussein and Muammar al-Gaddafi.

Sultanistic regimes generally begin as some form of authoritarianism. For example, the regimes in Iraq and Syria were initially military in that the military-backed *Ba'ath* party controlled each country. Likewise, the sultanistic rulers of the Central African Republic, Libya, Togo, and Uganda led military coups. For their part, Marcos and Nguema each initially came to power via democratic elections.[19] In any case, the checks and balances of **democracy** or the collective rule of authoritarianism or totalitarianism gives way to personal rule by an individual under sultanism, which destroys any functioning autonomous state (assuming there was one). In contrast, Romania began as a communist totalitarian regime and then shifted to sultanism in the early 1970s.

Among the various bizarre features of a sultanistic regime, personalism stands out. The first element of personalism involves the ruler's personality cult, which probably compensates for this leader's general or total lack of charisma. The existence of these cults is probably most evident to the outside observer because of the many statues erected and portraits hung of

these leaders. Yet, beyond such omnipresence, sultanistic rulers love to give themselves titles, not only politically formal ones, such as emperor, field marshal, or *generalísimo* (supreme commander), but more general ones such as "hero" or "saviour." Sometimes they change their names to this end. For example, from 1991 until his death at the end of 2006, President Niyazov of Turkmenistan was known as "Turkmenbashi" ("Head of the Turkmen"). If not renaming themselves, sultanistic rulers (while still alive, of course) rename cities, islands, and lakes after themselves. Finally, sultanistic rulers often proclaim their own ideology because they conceive of themselves as great thinkers, and they may publish volumes of their thoughts and speeches.

The second element of personalism in a sultanistic regime is the central role played by the ruler's immediate family members, who are given formal positions. For example, Imelda Marcos (Ferdinand's wife) was a cabinet minister and mayor of Manila. Elena Ceauşescu became the second in command of the Romanian Communist Party. Saddam Hussein's sons became as infamous as their father: Uday, for a time, oversaw the state media and national sports; his relatively more stable younger brother, Qusay, the presumed heir, controlled the security and intelligence services and the armed forces. Indeed, one of the ultimate elements of "success" for a sultanistic ruler appears to be achieving enough personal and family control so that a child will be able to take over after the ruler's death; very few sultanistic rulers have been so "successful."[20]

The "cult of personality" around certain totalitarian leaders, such as Stalin and Mao, can be considered a sultanistic feature. However, the cult of personality did not carry on to the successors of these leaders. More generally, Chehabi and Linz summarize other various differences between sultanism and totalitarianism. First, sultanistic regimes (Romania and the Dominican Republic excepted) have lacked any ideology worthy of the term as well as any pro-regime intellectuals who support the regime. Second, sultanistic rulers are "in it" for personal enrichment and power for its own sake, whereas totalitarian rulers are exponents of a cause and often live modestly – or at least cultivate an ascetic image. Third, sultanistic regimes lack the dominant and well-organized single party and the related organizations that are central to totalitarianism. A fourth and related point is that sultanism, like authoritarianism, lacks the political mobilization that is central to totalitarianism. Fifth and finally, whereas totalitarianism penetrates all aspects of society and all areas of the country, sultanism varies in the extent of its penetration; groups or areas that are neither a source of enrichment nor a threat to the ruler are likely to be left more or less alone.[21] To these differences we can add the empirical fact that no sultanistic regime has ever lasted as long as the six decades of full totalitarianism in the Soviet Union.

For its part, North Korea is a unique case that truly straddles sultanism and totalitarianism, as it has basically a real ideology in *juche* (national "self-reliance") and certainly has mass mobilization. Conversely, the Workers' Party has never really been independent of the ruling family. North Korea is now into its third leader of the Kim family, something no purely sultanistic regime has ever achieved. Hereditary succession has been included as one of the

ideological principles of the regime. And its rulers have certainly been personalistic, glorified as the "Great Leader" (Kim Il-sung), "Dear Leader" (Kim Jong-il), and now the "Great Successor" (Kim Jong-un). Kim Jong-un's trusted younger sister, Kim Yo Jong, is playing an increasing role in the regime, especially at international events.[22]

AUTHORITARIAN REGIMES

The last, and probably vaguest, subtype of **autocracy** is *authoritarianism*. Linz provides the classic definition of **authoritarian regimes**:

> [P]olitical systems with limited, not responsible, political pluralism, without elaborate and guiding ideology, but with distinctive mentalities, without extensive nor intensive political mobilization, except at some points in their development, and in which a leader or occasionally a small group exercises power within formally ill-defined limits but actually quite predictable ones.[23]

Thus, authoritarian regimes are defined largely in a negative way: They lack the ideology and mobilization characteristic of totalitarianism, and they also lack the broad arbitrariness of sultanism. Authoritarian regimes are, to some extent, a *residual category* of autocracies, which makes their definition somewhat vaguer than that of totalitarian or sultanistic regimes. Furthermore, the four subtypes of authoritarianism vary in certain key ways, above all with respect to their political legitimacy.

The first subtype is **traditional authoritarianism** based on a hereditary monarchy. Monarchies were the standard form of government in pre-modern times, as lack of communications between disparate populations with no shared identity made other, modern, forms of political organization impractical.[24] Today, we still find such regimes not only in many Middle Eastern and North African countries – Bahrain, Jordan, Kuwait, Morocco, Oman, Qatar, Saudi Arabia, and the United Arab Emirates – but also in Swaziland in Africa, Brunei in Asia, and Tonga in the Pacific. As autocracies go, traditional monarchies have the advantage of normally having a clear pattern of succession, which confirms the legitimacy of the new monarch. Moreover, traditional authoritarianism as a form of government still enjoys a broad legitimacy in many areas, although this form of government has certainly lost its legitimacy in Europe over time.

Although the hereditary monarch in a traditional authoritarian system can be said to be a ruling monarch by definition, in reality these heads of state have varying degrees of power. And, as we have discussed, non-ruling hereditary monarchs play a limited political role in some democracies. Consequently, rather than just distinguishing between two categories – ruling and non-ruling monarchs – we can outline a continuum of monarchical power, moving

from the most powerful monarch ruling in the most authoritarian political system to the non-ruling monarch playing a figurehead role in the most democratic one:

- At one extreme, the monarch holds all executive powers and rules by decree. There is no elected legislature. This is the pattern in Brunei and Saudi Arabia. This was also the pattern in Imperial Russia until 1906.
- The monarch still holds all executive powers and rules by decree but also "permits" the existence of an elected legislature that can comment on legislation – but whose powers are limited. This is the pattern in Oman.
- The monarch appoints a cabinet and a separate prime minister, but the prime minister is normally a member of the royal family. The monarch rules through the cabinet rather than by decree; however, the cabinet is chaired by the monarch or takes instructions from the monarch. The elected legislature has limited or, at most, some legislative powers and no power over the government. This is the pattern in Bahrain, Swaziland, and, effectively, Kuwait. This is also essentially the pattern in Qatar and the United Arab Emirates, although their legislatures are only partly elected.
- The monarch appoints a cabinet and a separate prime minister, who is not of the royal family but is likely still a noble. The monarch rules through the cabinet rather than by decree, but the cabinet is chaired by the monarch or takes instructions from the monarch. The elected legislature has actual legislative powers but still no power over the government. This is the pattern in Monaco, where the prime ministers are civil servants from France.[25] This was also the pattern in Imperial Germany and, briefly, in Imperial Russia from 1906 to the Russian Revolution.
- There is a prime minister and cabinet separate from the monarch, and a legislature that must approve legislation and can remove the prime minister and cabinet through a motion of non-confidence, which may be unlikely if the legislature lacks discipline and organized parties. Regardless, the monarch picks the prime minister and cabinet, dismisses them freely, and indeed, either directly or indirectly, still rules the country through them. The monarch also has many direct "supporters" (in a partisan sense) in the parliament, perhaps elected with the monarch's help. This is the pattern in Jordan and Morocco. This was also the historic pattern in seventeenth- and eighteenth-century Britain (in fact, up to the 1830s).
- There is a prime minister and cabinet separate from the monarch and accountable to the legislature, which can remove the prime minister and cabinet through a motion of non-confidence. Consequently, a prime minister and cabinet need support in the legislature to get and keep power; indeed, this support is the only means to these ends. In other words, the monarch does not determine the cabinet (at least not the civilian ministers), nor does the monarch run the cabinet. However, the monarch still has a say –

if not indeed *the* say – in foreign policy or other policy areas and may even veto some legislation. This is the pattern in Bhutan and Liechtenstein today, and it was the pattern in Japan in the 1920s.

- At the other extreme, the monarch plays absolutely no role in determining the composition of cabinet. Nor does the monarch attend cabinet meetings, have any powers over policy, or any legislative vetoes. In other words, we are describing a **parliamentary system** with a figurehead monarch (see Chapter 6). This is the pattern today in the United Kingdom, the Benelux countries, Scandinavia, and Spain.

Of these seven categories, the first five would be considered autocratic and the last two democratic (granted, the second-last one is borderline). Focusing on the first four categories, we can see a clear range within traditional authoritarian regimes regarding the extent of a monarch's power. Suffice it to say that countries do not suddenly switch from, say, the first category to the last one. Thus, if a traditional monarchy is going to become a democratic or constitutional monarchy with a figurehead ruler, it invariably will go through some if not most of the intermediate categories. Of course, in many places **democratization**, or at least political change, has involved removing the monarchy altogether, especially if the monarch of the day has not wanted to "evolve."

Largely equivalent to traditional authoritarianism were certain regimes in Catholic Europe, especially Portugal under António de Oliveira Salazar and Spain under Francisco Franco. These regimes were supported by the traditional structures of authority, in particular the Catholic Church and large landowners. The regimes were nationalist and conservative, supportive of traditional society rather than transformative and mobilizational. And although they did not have a monarch at their apex, these countries had previously been monarchies, and in Spain monarchists supported the Franco regime. Moreover, Franco in fact proclaimed Spain a monarchy in 1947, served as a de facto regent (and was glorified like a monarch), and designated his successor as head of state Prince Juan Carlos (who would become king right after Franco's death, though one who would preside over a transition to democracy).

The second subtype of authoritarianism is **military authoritarianism**. In Chapter 2 we outlined a continuum of civil–military relations in which the military's control over government ranges from being non-existent to being paramount. Within this range of categories of military influence, the last two – military rule and military control – entail military authoritarianism. Certainly, because both of these categories involve an autonomous military either running the country outright or at least exercising dominant control and oversight, regimes with either mode of government cannot be called democratic.

As of the end of 2021, military authoritarianism seems to be a "dying" regime type compared with the situation in the 1960s and 1970s, existing for now only in Guinea, Mali, Myanmar, and Sudan. Latin America, in particular, has experienced a clear swing away from military

authoritarianism: As recently as the late 1970s, no fewer than 12 countries (over half of the region) were run by military authoritarian regimes,[26] but now none are, and only Venezuela has a tutelary military. Of course, one of the realities of military authoritarianism is that it does not last forever inasmuch as whatever initial legitimacy it has – arising, perhaps, from the corruption and incompetence of the previous government and the military's pledge to act in the national interest – will dissipate over time. Thus, it is rare for a single military regime to last more than a couple of decades. (Myanmar, under either military rule or military control for most of the period since 1962, is the main exception here.)

The third subtype of authoritarianism is **theocratic authoritarianism**, which involves religious-based rule. So far, all the modern examples have been cases of Islamic rule: Afghanistan under the Taliban, Iran since the 1979 Islamic Revolution, North Yemen for centuries until 1962 under the Zaydi sect, and Sudan especially from 2011 to 2019. Of these cases, Iran has developed the most elaborate institutionalized form of a theocratic regime. Figure 8.1 outlines the formal structure of power in Iran since 1989, when the separate post of prime minister was abolished. As can be seen, Iranians elect both a president and a parliament, which are the potentially democratic aspects of the regime. However, the Iranian president is a relatively weak head of state and government. As Wilfried Buchta stresses,

> [b]ecause of constitutional shackles, the power of the presidential office is not as great as is often assumed in the West. Moreover, the high public profile of the president … in the media and at international conferences encourages the false belief that the executive plays a dominant role in setting the domestic and foreign policy of Iran.[27]

In fact, the Iranian president is clearly second in terms of the overall power structure. The most powerful political position – and the first of its three key religious-based political institutions – is the *vali-ye faqih* or "ruling jurisprudent," also referred to as the Supreme Leader. The first such "supreme jurisprudent" was Grand Ayatollah Khomeini, the leader of Iran's Islamic Revolution; after Khomeini's death, he was replaced by Ayatollah Khamenei. The *faqih* not only formally confirms the president but also is the effective head of government in terms of major policy decisions and changes, and he makes many other key appointments (see Figure 8.1). This ruling jurisprudent was initially required to be a "source of emulation" and one of the highest-ranking Shi'i clerics. However, in 1989 Grand Ayatollah Khomeini, after a conflict with Grand Ayatollah Montazeri, Khomeini's likely successor, amended the constitution to lower the requirement to one of being a religious leader but not necessarily a leading authority.[28] This change opened up the position of *faqih* from the 20 or so Grand Ayatollahs (worldwide) to the 5,000 or so Ayatollahs in Iran.[29]

The *faqih* is chosen for life, making this position unaccountable – and meaning that Iran does not have **responsible government**. The choice of the supreme jurisprudent is made by the Assembly of Experts, the second religious-based political institution in Iran. The assembly

Figure 8.1 The Formal Structure of Power in Iran since 1989

		Council of Guardians (six-year terms)			serves	as the de facto upper house
					functions	as a religious supreme court
		approves all candidates for				
	elects	President (four-year term)			appoints	cabinet ministers (subject to parliamentary confirmation)
					controls	Planning and Budget Organization
					chairs	National Security Council
		and				
ELECTORATE	elects	Parliament (four-year term)			recommends	half of the Council of Guardians (six lay members; to be appointed by the Head of the Judiciary)
		and				
	elects	Assembly of Experts (eight-year term)	elects	Supreme Leader (life term)	serves as	Commander-in-Chief
					appoints	half of the Council of Guardians (six clerical members)
					appoints	Head of the Judiciary (who in turn appoints the lay jurists of the Council of Guardians, the Head of the Supreme Court, and the Chief Public Prosecutor)
					appoints	Expediency Council (which arbitrates between Parliament and the Council of Guardians)
					appoints	Chief of the General Staff of the Armed Forces
					appoints	commander of the the Revolutionary Guards
					appoints	president of state radio and television

Source: Adapted from information provided in Wilfried Buchta, *Who Rules Iran? The Structure of Power in the Islamic Republic* (Washington, DC: The Washington Institute for Near East Policy, 2000), 8.

is composed of 86 clerics deemed knowledgeable in Islamic jurisprudence and is elected for an eight-year term. With the supreme jurisprudent serving for life, a given Assembly of Experts may never be called on to make a selection. The Assembly of Experts itself is elected by universal suffrage, with the various regions of Iran each electing a set number based on population. In theory, the Assembly of Experts can also *remove* a supreme jurisprudent who is deemed unfit to serve, but this has never happened and seems highly unlikely.

The third religious-based political institution in Iran is the Council of Guardians, which, in various ways, ensures that Iran is ruled according to *shari'a* law. The council has 12 members:

six religious clerics appointed by the supreme jurisprudent and six lay scholars recommended by parliament and formally appointed by the Head of the Judiciary (see Figure 8.1). The Council of Guardians functions as a religious supreme court. Yet it is much more than that. Because all legislation passed in parliament must be approved by the Council of Guardians, it effectively serves as Iran's upper house. (As Figure 8.1 shows, a separate Expediency Council appointed by the supreme jurisprudent is used to mediate between the two "chambers.") Finally, the Council of Guardians also oversees all national elections and referenda, not merely in the sense of organizing them but most crucially by approving on religious grounds *all* candidates for elections to the presidency, the parliament, and the Assembly of Experts. Because the Council of Guardians is free to, and indeed does, reject candidates if they are too liberal or radical, it greatly limits the range of choices given to the voters. (This system still provides a broader range of candidates than under totalitarianism, though.) For the candidates who clear this central hurdle, competition has traditionally been basically fair – and, indeed, the 1997 and 2001 presidential elections, as well as the 2000 parliamentary election, were all won by reformist candidates in opposition to Ayatollah Khamenei, the supreme jurisprudent. Overall, then, we can characterize elections in Iran as being "unfree but fair."

The next subtype of authoritarianism is one that has been around for many decades but became much more common after the Cold War – and which has only been conceptualized by scholars this century: **electoral authoritarianism**.[30] In this situation, multiple political parties compete, with the winning party claiming a right to govern. Political legitimacy is based on election outcomes, which certainly sounds democratic. However, the elections are rarely free and are never fair, so the same party stays in power indefinitely. From the 1930s through the 1990s, Mexico under its Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI) was the classic example of electoral authoritarianism. The main longstanding contemporary examples are the parliamentary systems of Cambodia and Singapore and various presidential or president-dominated systems, such as Azerbaijan, Belarus, and Russia. The ruling party in an electoral authoritarian regime uses a range of tactics to achieve the election numbers it wishes and so retain power: the abuse of state resources and employees, bias in state or state-controlled media, intimidation of the political opposition, and even outright fraud. (In post-Soviet countries, these tactics are known as "administrative resources.") In some cases, the announced election results are so bogus that the regime has little credibility. In other cases, however, the ruling party and leader do have a genuine base of support in the population. Both might well achieve a plurality in a free and fair election, and indeed this democratic reality has occurred in their past – for example, with Alexander Lukashenko in the 1994 Belarus presidential election and Daniel Ortega in the 2007 Nicaragua presidential election. However, coercion, abuse of state resources, and fraud are (then) used to inflate their support to "impressively" high levels and keep them in power.[31] In the former Soviet Union, electoral authoritarian regimes may even create "fake" opposition parties and candidates (in the latter case, usually with the same name as the real ones) to split the opposition vote.

Electoral authoritarian regimes differ in terms of how much competition they actually allow. Here Levitsky and Way distinguish between competitive electoral authoritarianism, wherein opposition parties and candidates can compete meaningfully though not on a level playing field, and hegemonic (electoral) authoritarianism, wherein most opposition parties and candidates are banned, driven into exile, or imprisoned and elections – though technically multi-candidate and multi-party – are reduced to a repressive or fraudulent façade.[32] Regimes do occasionally move from one of these subtypes to the other, such as recently in Cambodia.[33] That said, hegemonic control does require a certain level of state strength.[34] Generally, though, where the rulers feel confident of re-election they can be less repressive and more tolerant in how they run elections. This confidence takes place where there is what Morse calls a credible ruling party that has "regular and predictable exchanges with supporters" (both elites and voters) and a related long-term perspective.[35] Morse's key African example of a credible ruling party is the Chama Cha Mapinduzi (CCM) in Tanzania (which has held multi-party elections since 1995), but the term would also apply to the PAP in Singapore (discussed below). Where the electoral authoritarian regime lacks a credible ruling party (and possibility is dominated by an individual president), it will vary in stability depending on the extent of international support. Finally, where countries with electoral authoritarian regimes have extensive ties to the West, they generally democratize (see the next chapter) due to both internal and external pressure. Absent both strong Western ties and ruling party credibility, electoral authoritarian regimes are unstable but do not necessarily democratize (and if they do, electoral authoritarianism may return).[36]

To note, this distinction between competitive and hegemonic electoral authoritarianism is reflected in the text distinction between semi-open and closed electoral authoritarian regimes (see the Appendix Table to this chapter). To this end, elections in competitive electoral authoritarian regimes are generally more free but less fair, and certainly not fair enough to be unqualifiedly democratic. That said, in competitive (semi-open) electoral authoritarian regimes with enough competition the opposition can actually win if not just united but highly motivated and super-organized, using such techniques as voter mobilization and parallel vote tabulation[37] – though this is very rare – whereas in closed electoral authoritarian regimes there is no chance of opposition victory and power comes more from coercion with limited legitimacy. Again, **electoral democracy** requires free and fair elections, but sometimes in politics, as in life, victory is possible even when the competition is unfairly stacked against one but still allowed. Such a victory occurred most recently in Zambia (2021), where the opposition defeated the incumbent president and party despite an uneven playing field involving constraints on opposition campaigning, bias in the state media and restrictions on the internet, and abuse of state resources. A mobilized citizenry including a sharp jump in turnout was crucial here, as of course was the main opposition party still being allowed to participate in the first place.

In Chapter 6 it was noted that the most common term limit in democratic **presidential systems** is two consecutive terms for one individual, and generally that is a hard limit (no coming back to power later on). Such term limits also apply now to presidents in parliamentary democracies, such as Finland and France. These global trends combined with pressure have led many electoral authoritarian regimes to bring in term limits as well. Yet their individual autocratic presidents – and "President" is the title of the majority of the world's autocrats (see the Appendix Table) – usually wish to rule indefinitely. Such term limits thus have been circumvented in various ways:

- changing the constitution to eliminate term limits, as occurred, for example, in Rwanda in 2015 and in China in 2018 (the latter as noted in Chapter 2);
- creating and having approved a new constitution with a "blank slate" in that any term limits in the new constitution do not apply retrospectively (that is, the previous term or terms do not "count" because there is a new constitution, so the "clock" restarts for the incumbent), as occurred most recently in 2020 in both Guinea and Russia;
- having the courts interpret away and thus remove term limits as an undemocratic restriction, as occurred for example in Nicaragua in 2009 and Honduras in 2015;

And where the term limits are not for life just for consecutive terms,

- appointing a "faithful agent" who will serve as president for one term, not seek re-election, and let the autocrat essentially still run the country during this period, as Dmitry Medvedev did for Vladimir Putin in 2008–12 (Putin would spend the term as prime minister, though effectively keeping many key presidential powers, especially over defence and security).

In contrast, just cancelling or delaying elections to avoid being removed due to term limits is rare, as obviously this is transparently quite autocratic, though this worked in Angola, postponing what would have been an election in 2002, based on the argument that the country was coming off of a civil war and needed more time to prepare for its initial election.[38]

Alternatively, Singapore is a good contemporary example of electoral authoritarianism in a *parliamentary* system; data on its post-independence elections are given in Table 8.2. The People's Action Party (PAP) has governed Singapore continuously since independence, not only winning each election but also, until recently, winning every or almost every *seat* in each election. The PAP itself attributes its success to its highly competent and basically corruption-free governments, which have presided over Singapore's economic transformation into one of the world's most wealthy and developed countries. Nor is there any election day fraud (such as ballot stuffing) in Singapore. Certainly, these facts and the PAP's

Table 8.2 Elections in Singapore since Independence

		People's Action Party			Opposition	
Year	Total Seats	Seats Won	Seat Percentage	Vote Percentage	Seats Contested	Seats Won
1968	58	58	100.0	86.7	7	0
1972	65	65	100.0	70.4	57	0
1976	69	69	100.0	74.1	53	0
1980	75	75	100.0	77.7	38	0
1984	79	77	97.5	64.8	47	2
1988	81	80	98.8	63.2	69	1
1991	81	77	95.1	61.0	36	4
1997	83	81	97.6	65.0	34	2
2001	84	82	97.6	73.7	29	2
2006	84	82	97.6	66.6	47	2
2011	87	81	93.1	60.1	82	6
2015	89	83	93.3	69.9	89	6
2020	93	83	89.2	61.2	93	10

consequent genuine popularity with many voters cannot be denied. However, it is not as if the electorate is given a free choice of alternatives. The PAP has controlled the domestic media for some time and censors the foreign media. Singapore had a diverse print media before independence and for some years thereafter, but over time, through both direct attacks on the press and the broader Internal Security Act, the media have been made to toe the party line.[39]

Opposition parties do exist in Singapore (without these there could be no claim of competitive elections), but the government constantly harasses them. Moreover, opposition candidates are required to put up a substantial deposit (about $13,000) just to compete, thus limiting the freedom of elections. Perhaps the most nefarious means of attacking the political opposition has been the launching of civil defamation lawsuits against individual opposition politicians when they criticize government leaders. These are invariably successful, not surprisingly given the PAP-biased judiciary, and they have, at times, resulted in sued opposition politicians being penalized with large sums and going bankrupt. In part as a consequence of these monetary factors but also as a general admission that the PAP will continue to govern, the opposition parties intentionally contested only a minority of the seats from 1991 to 2001 (see Table 8.2). Finally, for the past couple of decades, most of the seats in Singapore have been allocated through multi-member plurality, which involves "Group Representation Constituencies" (GRCs; currently of four or five MPs) that are winner-take-all for the plurality party list (voters can choose only between competing lists). Multi-member plurality is, of course, a rare and an extremely majoritarian **electoral system**, highly beneficial to the largest party. Only in the 2011 election did an opposition party in Singapore finally win a GRC.

Interestingly, as an admission that its victories have been somewhat excessive, the PAP began in 1984 to offer opposition parties up to three non-constituency members of parliament (NCMPs), to be awarded to the defeated opposition candidates who, nevertheless, got the highest share of the votes. The point here was to ensure that the opposition had a minimum of three seats in parliament, which, presumably, made the parliament look more "balanced." Of course, in the 1991 election, when the opposition parties won more than this target, no NCMPs were offered. Although the NCMPs were initially disparaged and refused by the opposition when they were introduced, today they are generally accepted as a sign of support to the voters who want an opposition. In 2010, the constitution of Singapore was amended to increase the potential number of NCMPs to nine, and then in 2016 this was increased again to twelve. These are potential numbers because the number of actual seats won is subtracted from this total. As such, with the opposition winning a record 10 seats in the 2020 election (see Table 8.2), only two NCMPs had to be offered. (When in 1991 more seats were won than the then-threshold, no NCMPs were offered.) In addition, starting in 1990, an increasing number of nominated members of parliament (NMPs) have also been appointed; since 2010, the number of these is nine. These NMPs are supposed to be outstanding citizens and independent voices. In any case, they are nominated by the public and chosen by a parliamentary committee. Both the NCMPs and the NMPs can speak in parliament, take part in debates, and raise questions, but they can vote only on limited measures – nothing involving the constitution, budgets, or other matters of confidence or non-confidence in the government.[40] Consequently, neither of these innovations is ever going to threaten the PAP's control of parliament.[41]

The last, historical, type of authoritarianism is what we shall call **nationalist one-party authoritarianism**. These regimes were common in post-independence Africa until the end of the Cold War. In fact, there have been a large number of situations in Africa with but a single permitted national party, though of differing regime types. One such ongoing regime has had not just a single party but also sufficient ideology and mass mobilization to qualify as totalitarian. That is in Eritrea, which continues to be totalitarian today under the People's Front for Democracy and Justice (formerly the Eritrean People's Liberation Front), which is a party with a Central Committee.[42] Conversely, in the Central African Republic, the Democratic Republic of the Congo, Equatorial Guinea, and Malawi the sole ruling party existed or exists to glorify the leader, and these regimes were/are sultanistic, as noted above. In most cases of nationalist one-party authoritarianism, though, the party ideology was simply nationalism, perhaps pan-Africanism (a broader regionalism), and leftism, along with the view that multiple political parties would be divisive for development. In many cases these regime parties were central to the struggle for independence, which was key to their legitimacy – and often they had "Liberation" or "Revolution" in their name. (Note that European totalitarian parties all arose in already-independent countries.) Elections were usually held in nationalist one-party authoritarian regimes, often of a "confirmatory" nature (voting yes

Table 8.3 Nationalist One-Party Regimes in Africa

Country	Year of Independence	Party	Acronym	Party Founded	Party Dissolved	Only Legal Party
Algeria	1962	National Liberation Front	FLN	1954		From 1962 to 1989
Angola	1975	People's Movement for the Liberation of Angola	MPLA	1956		From 1975 to 1991
Benin	1960 (as Dahomey)	People's Revolutionary Party of Benin	PRPB	1975	1990	From 1975 to 1990
Burkina Faso	1960	Voltaic Democratic Union – African Democratic Rally	UDV - RDA	1957		From 1960 to 1966
Burundi	1962	Union for National Progress	UPRONA	1960		From 1966 to 1992
Cameroon	1961	Cameroonian National Union (renamed in 1985 the Cameroon People's Democratic Movement)	UNC/ RDPC	1966		From 1966 to 1990
Cape Verde	1975	African Party for the Independence of Cape Verde (split from PAIGC; see Guinea-Bissau)	PAICV	1981**		From 1975 to 1990
Chad	1960	Progressive Party of Chad (in 1973 became the National Movement for the Cultural and Social Revolution)	PPT/ MNRCS	1947		From 1962 to 1975
Comoros	1975	Comorian Union for Progress	UCP	1982	1996	From 1982 to 1990
Congo, R	1960	Congolese Labour Party	PCT	1969		From 1969 to 1990
Djibouti	1977	People's Rally for Progress	RPP	1979		From 1981 to 1992
Egypt	1922	Arab Socialist Union	ASU	1962		From 1962 to 1976
Gabon	1960	Gabonese Democratic Party	PDG	1968		From 1968 to 1990
Ghana	1957	Convention People's Party	CPP	1949		From 1964 to 1966
Guinea	1958	Democratic Party of Guinea – African Democratic Rally	PDG – RDA	1947		From 1960 to 1984
Guinea-Bissau	1973	African Party for the Independence of Guinea and Cape Verde	PAIGC	1956		From 1974 to 1991
Ivory Coast	1960	Democratic Party of Côte d'Ivoire – African Democratic Rally	PDCI – RDA	1946		From 1960 to 1990
Kenya	1963	Kenya African National Union	KANU	1960		From 1969 (officially 1982) to 1991
Madagascar	1960	National Front for the Defence of the Revolution (alliance of parties)	FNDR	1975	1992	From 1975 to 1992
Mali	1960	Sudanese Union – African Democratic Rally	US – RDA	1945		From 1960 to 1968
Mali	1960	Democratic Union of the Malian People	UDPM	1975	1991	From 1979 to 1991

Country	Year of Independence	Party	Acronym	Party Founded	Party Dissolved	Only Legal Party
Mauritania	1960	Mauritian People's Party	PPM	1960	1978	From 1961 to 1978
Mozambique	1975	Liberation Front of Mozambique	FRELIMO	1962		From 1975 to 1990
Niger	1960	Nigerien Progressive Party – African Democratic Rally	PPN – RDA	1946		From 1960 to 1974
Rwanda	1962	Party of the Hutu Emancipation Movement	Parmehutu	1957	1973	From 1965 to 1973
Rwanda	1962	National Revolutionary Movement for Development	MRND	1975	1994	From 1975 to 1991
São Tomé and Príncipe	1975	Movement for the Liberation of São Tomé and Príncipe	MLSTP	1960		From 1975 to 1990
Senegal	1960	Senegalese Progressive Union	UPS	1958		From 1966 to 1974
Seychelles	1976	Seychelles People's Progressive Front	FPPS	1964		From 1979 to 1991
Sierra Leone	1961	All People's Congress	APC	1962		From 1978 to 1991
Somalia	1960	Somali Revolutionary Socialist Party	XHKS	1976		From 1976 to 1991
Tanganyika/ Tanzania	1961	Tanganyika African National Union	TANU	1954		From 1962 to 1977
		(in 1977 merged with Zanzibar sister party to become the Party of the Revolution)	CCM	1977		From 1977 to 1992
Togo	1960	Rally of the Togolese People	RPT	1969	2012	From 1969 to 1991
Tunisia	1956	New Constitutional Liberal Party/Socialist Destourian Party	NPLC/PSD	1934		From 1963 to 1981
Zambia	1964	United National Independence Party	UNIP	1959		From 1973 to 1990

or no to the ruling party/president), though in a couple of cases independents or more than one candidate of the ruling party would run. These regimes varied in terms of the institutionalization of the ruling party, including its ability to last through multiple leaders as opposed to just the founding leader.[43] Table 8.3 thus provides a list of all such nationalist one-party regimes in Africa that lasted at least a few years, though it also includes the Convention People's Party in Ghana, worthy of emphasis as Ghana was the first African country to gain its independence post–World War II in what was thus a watershed event. As can be seen, several of these parties were initially members of the anti-colonial African Democratic Rally

(RDA), which existed in many French colonies in postwar Africa. Alternatively, Benin would be a good illustration of a nationalist one-party regime with little legitimacy and weak roots, as its PRPB was formed well after independence, had only one leader, and dissolved at the end of its one-party rule. Eventually, and often just after the collapse of the Soviet Union, these nationalist one-party regimes would choose to permit, or be forced by domestic and international pressure to permit, alternative political parties. The regimes then became either democratic or electoral authoritarian depending on whether or not the multi-party elections were free and fair.

Finally, countries can certainly move between or among these differing types of authoritarianism. Egypt is perhaps the most thorough illustration of this: It was traditional authoritarian from its independence in 1922 until 1956, then military authoritarian until 1962, then nationalist one-party authoritarian until 1976, then electoral authoritarian until 2011, then military authoritarian again for a little over a year. After a failed **democratic transition**, since 2014 Egypt has been electoral authoritarian again under Abdel Fattah el-Sisi.

Chapter 8 Appendix Table **Autocracies and Ruling Autocrats in the World Today (as of the end of 2021)**

Country	Type of Autocracy	Key Position of Power	Regular National Election for This Position?	Current Occupant	In This Position since (year) (not necessarily autocratic since the start)
SEMI-OPEN AUTOCRACIES					
Albania	Electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Edi Rama**	2013
Algeria	Electoral authoritarian (with military tutelage)	President	Yes, direct elections	Abdelmadjid Tebboune	2019
Angola	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	João Lourenço	2017
Bangladesh	Electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Sheikh Hasina**	2009
Benin	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Patrice Talon	2016
Bosnia-Herzegovina	Electoral authoritarian	Chairman of the Council of Ministers	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Denis Zvizdič	2015
Central African Republic	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Faustin-Archange Touadéra	2016
Comoros	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Azali Assoumani**	2016
Congo, DR	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Félix Tshisekedi	2019
El Salvador	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Nayib Bukele**	2019
Fiji	Electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Frank Bainimarama	2007
Gabon	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Ali Bongo Ondimba	2009
Georgia	Electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Giorgi Gakharia	2019
Guatemala	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Alejandro Giammattei	2020
Guinea-Bissau	Electoral authoritarian (with military tutelage)	President	Yes, direct elections	Umaro Sissoco Embaló	2020

(*Continued*)

Chapter 8 Appendix Table (Continued)

Country	Type of Autocracy	Key Position of Power	Regular National Election for This Position?	Current Occupant	In This Position since (year) (not necessarily autocratic since the start)
Haiti	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Jovenel Moïse	2017
Honduras	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Juan Orlando Hernández	2014
Hungary	Electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Viktor Orbán**	2010
Iran	Theocratic authoritarian	Faqih (Supreme Leader)	No (indirect elections but for a life term)	Ali Khamenei	1989
Iraq	Electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Mustafa Al-Kadhimi	2020
Ivory Coast	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Alassane Ouattara	2011
Jordan	Traditional authoritarian	King	No	Abdullah II	1999
Kenya	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Uhuru Kenyatta	2013
Kuwait	Traditional authoritarian	Emir	No	Nawaf Al-Ahmad Al-Jaber Al-Sabah	2020
Kyrgyzstan	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Sadyr Japarov	2021
Madagascar	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Andry Rajoelina	2019
Malaysia	Electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Muhyiddin Yassin	2020
Mauritania	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Mohamed Ould Ghazouani	2019
Monaco	Traditional authoritarian	Sovereign Prince	No	Albert II	2005
Morocco	Traditional authoritarian	King	No	Mohammed VI	1999
Mozambique	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Filipe Nyusi	2015
Niger	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Mahamadou Issoufou**	2011
Pakistan	Electoral authoritarian (with military tutelage and military election bias)	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Imran Khan	2018

Country	Type of Autocracy	Key Position of Power	Regular National Election for This Position?	Current Occupant	In This Position since (year) (not necessarily autocratic since the start)
Papua New Guinea	Electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	James Marape	2019
Philippines	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Rodrigo Duterte**	2016
Russia	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Vladimir Putin	2012 (effectively 2000)^
Senegal	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Macky Sall**	2012
Serbia	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Aleksandar Vučić	2017
Sierra Leone	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Julius Maada Bio	2018
Singapore	Electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Lee Hsien Loong	2004
Tanzania	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Samia Suluhu Hassan	2021
Thailand	Military-electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Prayut Chan-o-cha***	2014
Togo	Electoral authoritarian (with military tutelage)	President	Yes, direct elections	Faure Essozimna Gnassingbé	2005
Tonga	Traditional authoritarian (partly)	Prime Minister	Yes,* indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Pohiva Tu'i'onetoa	2019
Tunisia	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Kais Saied**	2019
Turkey	Electoral authoritarian	President (since 2018)	Yes, direct elections	Recep Tayyip Erdoğan**	2014 (prime minister from 2003)
Uganda	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Yoweri Museveni	1986
Zimbabwe	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Emmerson Dambudzo Mnangagwa	2017

* But not for all deputies

** First came to power democratically

*** Ex-head of the military junta

^ Putin was prime minister from 2008 to 2012.

Chapter 8 Appendix Table (Continued)

Country	Type of Autocracy	Key Position of Power	Regular National Election for This Position?	Current Occupant	In This Position Since (year) (not necessarily autocratic since the start)
CLOSED AUTOCRACIES					
Afghanistan	Theocratic authoritarian	Head of the Islamic Empire	No	Hibatullah Akhundzada	2021
Azerbaijan	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Ilham Aliyev	2003
Bahrain	Traditional authoritarian	King	No	Hamad bin Isa Al Khalifa	2002
Belarus	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Alexander Lukashenko*	1994
Brunei	Traditional authoritarian	Sultan (and prime minister)	No	Hassanal Bolkiah	1967
Burundi	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Évariste Ndayishimiye	2020
Cambodia	Electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Hun Sen	1985
Cameroon	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Paul Biya	1982
Chad	Military authoritarian	Chairman of the Transitional Military Council	No	Mahamat Déby	2021
China	Totalitarian	General Secretary of the Communist Party	No	Xi Jinping	2012
Congo, R	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Denis Sassou Nguesso	1997
Cuba	Totalitarian	First Secretary of the Communist Party	No	Raúl Castro	2011
Djibouti	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Ismaïl Omar Guelleh	1999
Egypt	Electoral authoritarian (with military tutelage)	President	Yes, direct elections	Abdel Fattah el-Sisi	2014

Country	Type of Autocracy	Key Position of Power	Regular National Election for This Position?	Current Occupant	In This Position Since (year) (not necessarily autocratic since the start)
Equatorial Guinea	Sultanism	President	Yes, direct elections	Teodoro Obiang Nguema Mbasogo	1979
Eritrea	Totalitarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Isaias Afwerki	1993
Eswatini	Traditional authoritarian	King	No	Mswati III	1986
Ethiopia	Electoral authoritarian	Prime Minister	Yes, indirect elections (those for the parliament)	Abiy Ahmed	2021
Guinea	Military authoritarian	Chairman of the National Committee of Reconciliation and Development	No	Mamady Doumbouya	2021
Kazakhstan	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Kassym-Jomart Tokayev	2019
Korea, North	Sultanism with totalitarian elements	Chairman of the Workers' Party	No	Kim Jong-un	2012
Laos	Totalitarian	General Secretary of the People's Revolutionary Party	No	Bounnhang Vorachith	2016
Mali	Electoral authoritarian	President of the Transition	No	Assimi Goïta	2021
Myanmar	Military authoritarian	Chairman of the State Administration Council (and acting Prime Minister)	No	Min Aung Hlaing	2021
Nicaragua	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Daniel Ortega*	2007
Oman	Traditional authoritarian	Sultan (and Prime Minister)	No	Haitham bin Tariq	2020
Qatar	Traditional authoritarian	Emir	No	Tamim bin Hamad Al Thani	2013
Rwanda	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Paul Kagame	2000

(*Continued*)

Chapter 8 Appendix Table (Continued)

Country	Type of Autocracy	Key Position of Power	Regular National Election for This Position?	Current Occupant	In This Position Since (year) (not necessarily autocratic since the start)
Saudi Arabia	Traditional authoritarian	King (and Prime Minister)	No	Salman bin Abdulaziz Al Saud	2015
South Sudan	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Salva Kiir Mayardit	2011
Sudan	Military authoritarian	Chairman of the Transitional Sovereignty Council	No	Abdel Fattah al-Burhan	2021
Syria	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Bashar al-Assad	2000
Tajikistan	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Emomali Rahmon	1994
Turkmenistan	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Gurbanguly Berdimuhamedow	2007
United Arab Emirates	Traditional authoritarian	Emir of Abu Dhabi and President of the Supreme Council of Rulers	No	Khalifa bin Zayed Al Nahyan	2004
Uzbekistan	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Shavkat Mirziyoyev	2016
Venezuela	Electoral authoritarian	President	Yes, direct elections	Nicolás Maduro	2013
Vietnam	Totalitarian	General Secretary of the Communist Party	No	Nguyen Phú Trong	2011

* First came to power democratically

Note: Libya and Yemen are excluded as collapsed states; Somalia is excluded as a transitional state.

NOTES

1 This ideology is central to the overall legitimacy of the totalitarian regime. Consequently, clear violations of it – that is, advocating distinctly alternative ideologies – are grounds for punishment.
2 Linz, *Totalitarian and Authoritarian Regimes*, 70.
3 Dallin and Breslauer, *Political Terror in Communist Systems*, 1.
4 Linz, *Totalitarian and Authoritarian Regimes*, 24–6 and 100ff.
5 Dallin and Breslauer, *Political Terror*, 84–5.
6 Linz, *Totalitarian and Authoritarian Regimes*, 105, 108.
7 Payne, *A History of Fascism, 1914–1945*, 486, 490. More generally, see his Chapter 14, "Fascism and Modernization."
8 Almond, "Comparative Political Systems," see pages 403–4 for the quotation.
9 Qiang, "President Xi's Surveillance State."
10 Qiang, "President Xi's Surveillance State," 64; the term "digital totalitarianism" comes from *The Economist*, "Big Data, Meet Big Brother."
11 Linz, *Totalitarian and Authoritarian Regimes*, 241.
12 Linz, *Totalitarian and Authoritarian Regimes*, 244. Finally, Linz notes, "[s]ituations in which the strength of prototalitarian forces is reversed might be labelled 'arrested totalitarianism.'" Romania in 1941 is an example.
13 Linz, *Totalitarian and Authoritarian Regimes*, 94.
14 Linz and Stepan, *Problems of Democratic Transition and Consolidation*, 256.
15 Linz and Stepan, *Problems of Democratic Transition and Consolidation*, 256–8.
16 Crawford, *East Central European Politics Today*, 51.
17 See, for example, Thompson, "Totalitarian and Post-Totalitarian Regimes in Transitions and Non-Transitions from Communism," 86–90.
18 Chehabi and Linz, "A Theory of Sultanism," 7.
19 Chehabi and Linz, "A Theory of Sultanism," 9.
20 Chehabi and Linz, "A Theory of Sultanism," 13–16.
21 Chehabi and Linz, "A Theory of Sultanism," 3–24.
22 McEachern, *North Korea*; Fifield, *The Great Successor*.
23 Linz, "An Authoritarian Regime," as cited in Linz, *Totalitarian and Authoritarian Regimes*, 159.
24 Gerring et al. "Why Monarchy?"
25 Given this lack of responsible government, it is unclear why Freedom House considers Monaco to be an electoral democracy. It is not treated as such in this analysis (see Table 4.3).
26 These 12 countries were Argentina, Bolivia, Brazil, Chile, Ecuador, El Salvador, Guatemala, Honduras, Panama, Paraguay, Peru, and Uruguay.
27 Buchta, *Who Rules Iran?* 23.
28 Buchta, *Who Rules Iran?* 52–3.
29 Interestingly, none of the other Grand Ayatollahs actually support the principle of *velayat-e faqih* or "rule by the jurisprudent." See Buchta, *Who Rules Iran?* 54 (Diagram 10).
30 See, in particular, Schedler, *Electoral Authoritarianism*.
31 On the phenomenon in Belarus, see Wilson, *Belarus*, 255–8.
32 Levitsky and Way, *Competitive Authoritarianism*, 6–7.
33 Morgenbesser, "Cambodia's Transition to Hegemonic Authoritarianism."
34 Levitsky and Way, "The New Competitive Authoritarianism."

35 Such credibility arises from the ruling party being autonomous, physically organized, and internally competitive, with wide distributive commitments rather than favouring certain groups of voters, ethnic or otherwise. Morse, *How Autocrats Compete*, 32.
36 Levitsky and Way, *Competitive Authoritarianism*; Carothers, "The Surprising Instability of Electoral Authoritarianism."
37 Bunce and Wolchik, *Defeating Authoritarian Leaders in Postcommunist Countries*, 240–3.
38 Versteeg et al., "The Law and Politics of Presidential Term Limit Evasion."
39 On this history, see Seow, *The Media Enthralled*.
40 Mauzy, "Electoral Innovation and One-Party Dominance in Singapore," 243.
41 Singapore is thus different from the democracy of Mauritius, where several "best losers" can also be appointed, in this case to improve ethnic balance; however, in Mauritius, these appointed "best losers" become regular MPs.
42 Peterson, *Africa's Totalitarian Temptation*, Chapter 3.
43 This point is emphasized for autocratic ruling parties by Meng, "Ruling Parties in Authoritarian Regimes."

CHAPTER NINE

Democratic Transitions, Consolidations, and Breakdowns

In This Chapter You Will Learn

- how democratic transition and democratic breakdown are opposite phenomena;
- what a wave of democratization is;
- where and why such waves have occurred;
- how and why there is some scholarly debate as to when the waves of democratization have actually occurred;
- what the four different processes of democratization are;
- which ones of these are superior and why;
- what the three components of democratic consolidation are;
- what three main challenges must be met for democratic consolidation;
- how, why, and when democracies break down;
- how, in very exceptional circumstances, a brief democratic breakdown may be followed by democratic re-equilibration; and
- which countries have generally oscillated back and forth between electoral democracy and autocracy.

DEMOCRATIZATION AND RELATED CONCEPTS

Simplifying somewhat the four categories outlined in Table 4.3, we can label all regimes either autocratic or democratic. When regime types are viewed in this dichotomous sense,

democratization is the process of changing from an **autocracy** to a **democracy** or, more precisely with regard to our four categories, changing from an autocracy to at least an **electoral democracy**. The key step is holding free and fair elections to select the government of an individual country, as long as this government actually governs and is not just a front for a tutelary military or monarch wielding the actual power behind the scenes. If the political changes in an autocracy do not culminate in having free and fair elections for the key positions of elected power, then one should not speak of democratization. (Specifically, members of the national legislature or at least its lower house, if the system is bicameral, should be elected democratically and, in certain systems, the president should be elected as well.) Instead, if a country makes varying reforms that result in electing some lesser offices, increasing press freedoms, releasing political prisoners, or generally enlarging the scope of public debate, then one can refer to the political *liberalization* of an autocracy.[1] Such liberalization and increased openness could well involve the change from a closed autocracy to a semi-open one. (Remember that we use the term *semi*-open autocracy to distinguish its civil liberties from the full range of freedoms and their guarantees in a **liberal democracy**.) However, further steps – which may or may not happen – are needed to produce democratization. Finally, the change from an electoral to a liberal democracy can be called the *deepening* of democracy.[2]

In this chapter, we are concerned mainly with democratization as opposed to mere liberalization. An alternative term for the process of democratization – and the one we use most – is **democratic transition**. The opposite of a democratic transition, that is, the change from a democracy to an autocracy, is known as a **democratic breakdown**. A democratic breakdown occurs in the context of a lack of **democratic consolidation**, that is, a deficiency of broad support for the democratic regime. (This last concept is multi-faceted and will be outlined later in the chapter.) As we shall see, democratic transitions and democratic breakdowns occur in individual countries at identifiable times. Interestingly, though, countries, especially neighbouring countries, often have transitions or breakdowns fairly close in time to each other. This observation has led to the notion that there have been "waves" of democratization, which we shall analyse first before getting to the specifics of democratic transition, consolidation, breakdown, and related matters.

WAVES OF DEMOCRATIZATION

As originally conceived by Samuel Huntington (writing at the end of the Cold War),

> [a] **wave of democratization** is a group of transitions from nondemocratic [autocratic] to democratic regimes that occur within a specified period of time and that significantly outnumber transitions in the opposite direction during that period of time. A wave also usually involves liberalization or partial democratization in political systems that do not

> become fully democratic. Three waves of democratization have occurred in the modern world … and during each wave some regime transitions occurred in a nondemocratic direction. In addition, not all transitions to democracy occurred during democratic waves.[3]

Thus, a wave of democratization is a clear pattern leading to an overall increase in the number of democracies, but it is also a pattern with some exceptions.

The first long wave of democratization that Huntington identified began in 1828 (with the US presidential election of that year) and lasted until 1926. Its roots were in the democratic ideals of the American and French revolutions of the late 1700s, and it occurred initially in Western and Northern Europe and the British settler countries of the United States, New Zealand, Canada, and Australia. (Going back to Chapter 5, these were all countries at relatively high latitudes and thus with less parasite stress.)[4] All these societies were experiencing social and economic development involving industrialization, urbanization, the formation of middle and working classes, growing national income, and also eventually somewhat of a decrease in economic inequality. Their intellectuals and many political leaders also had a strong belief in classical liberal thought. Moreover, most of these countries were either overwhelmingly or largely Protestant in religion. After World War I, this wave spread into Central and Eastern Europe due to the breakup of the empires there.

According to Huntington, the second wave of democratization lasted from 1943 to 1962 and was broadly based geographically. Two factors were central in this second wave. The first factor was the victory of the Allied powers in World War II, their direct imposition of democracy on the defeated Axis powers, and their support, or more specifically, US support (especially in the late 1940s) for democracy elsewhere, particularly in Latin America and the Mediterranean. The second factor was the decolonization occurring in Africa and Asia, which produced a huge number of new states (see Chapter 1), many of which were at least initially democratic.

The third wave of democratization described by Huntington began in 1974 with the collapse of autocracy in Portugal (although Portugal did not become democratic until an election the following year) and spread out from Southern Europe to Latin America, Asia, and then ex-communist Europe. This third wave was something ongoing in his analysis. In the 1990s (subsequent to Huntington's book), this wave spread into Africa. Huntington argued that the third wave was multi-causal, involving global economic growth in the 1960s, the economic failures of various autocracies, a new pro-democratic attitude within the Catholic Church, renewed support for democracy by the United States and the European Community, and Gorbachev's abandonment of Soviet control over Central and Eastern Europe – all reinforced in a "snowballing" way by modern communications that let people quickly know what was happening elsewhere in the world.[5] This notion of "the third wave of democratization" has become a frequent point of context in the social science literature, so students need to be familiar with it.

Huntington also argued that there have been two reverse waves of democratization, a **reverse wave** being a significant group of transitions in a non-democratic (autocratic)

direction. He stated that the first reverse wave lasted from 1922 to 1942, beginning with Mussolini's March on Rome, although three more years would pass before Italian democracy was definitely over. The reverse wave then spread throughout Southern and Eastern Europe, Latin America, and on to Japan. The turmoil of the post–World War I environment, the rise of both totalitarian and militaristic ideologies, and finally the Great Depression were central factors behind this non-democratic wave. Of course, not all countries experienced breakdowns of democracy during this period; the breakdowns occurred mainly in places where democracy was newer and, essentially, weaker. Yet even in the countries where democracy survived, a rise in antidemocratic movements generally occurred during this period. For Huntington, a second reverse wave of democratization took place from 1958 to 1975, most dramatically in Latin America but also in the Mediterranean, Asia, and Africa. This reverse wave in Africa involved the failure of many new democracies to get off the ground in the first place. During this period, the most common pattern of overthrowing democracy was a military coup and subsequent military rule (the patterns were more varied during the first reverse wave). Fear of communism, especially after Fidel Castro's successful revolution in Cuba and his subsequent shift to a socialist economy, was often a central factor for autocrats and their supporters in the second reverse wave, regardless of how "serious" the communist threat really was. Certainly, as a consequence, the United States was relatively tolerant toward the new autocracies during this period, especially if and when they pledged to be pro-Western.[6]

METHODOLOGICAL CRITIQUES AND REVISIONS OF HUNTINGTON'S MEASUREMENT OF WAVES

Huntington's analysis and classifications are commonly used, and his concept of democratic "waves" was certainly groundbreaking. That said, various criticisms can be made of his methodology. Accepting some but not all of these criticisms, we shall develop our own time periods of global regime change.

The first of these criticisms concerns Huntington's criteria for democracy: (1) the suffrage being held by at least 50 per cent of adult males (at least for the nineteenth century) and (2) **responsible government**.[7] Both Doorenspleet and Paxton criticize Huntington for establishing the first criterion, which allows a country to be called democratic even though it excludes women from voting; for her part, Doorenspleet argues for a suffrage criterion of at least 80 per cent of the adult population.[8] On the other hand Rueschemeyer, Stephens, and Stephens use a suffrage criterion of at least 60 per cent of adult males – quite close to Huntington's – or of all literate adult males because either of these is sufficient to establish multi-class suffrage rights, which is their focus.[9]

This issue could be solved by using a continuous measure of democracy: Obviously, a system with both genders voting is more democratic than one with only partial male suffrage;

likewise, a system with universal suffrage is more democratic than one with only 80 per cent or so of adults having the right to vote – for the latter, think of the United States prior to the Voting Rights Act of 1965. Furthermore, as noted in Chapter 4 (but not mentioned by any of the authors cited previously), a system with a voting age of 18 is more democratic than one with a voting age of 23 or 25. What we are talking about here is the establishment of a basic level of electoral democracy, and the notion and dating of democratic transitions are much more manageable when democracy versus autocracy is treated as a dichotomy. The relevant question is this: At what level of suffrage does the political system function in response to the needs and potential votes of more than just the elites? We shall use a suffrage criterion of more than 20 per cent of the 18-and-above population, even if the legal voting age is well above this; any **state** with more restricted suffrage, even if it has competitive elections and responsible government, is a **competitive oligarchy**. (Before 1994, South Africa was such an oligarchy because suffrage was racially restricted.) Our cut-off is not the universal suffrage of an unqualified electoral democracy, but, certainly, it does indicate that suffrage has become broad enough so as to make politics more than an elite game. A government that meets this cut-off consequently will be called a **moderately inclusive electoral democracy** or **MIED**. Table 9.1 presents a reference list of the years in which countries have become MIEDs or in which democracy has broken down.[10] Note that every breakdown of democracy listed involved the ending of responsible government and never the reducing of suffrage rights while responsible government was maintained. The table also indicates with an asterisk where the democracy did not last even one full parliamentary or presidential term before it was ended by the monarch, the military, or indeed the incumbent (such as Bulgaria in 1920). In the first breakdown scenario, where the monarch dismisses the government after a brief period in office, one can conclude that responsible government was never actually established as a convention or principle, even a contested one.[11]

A second problem with Huntington's calculations is that he includes as countries experiencing a transition away from democracy all those European countries conquered by Nazi Germany, thus amplifying the significance and extent of his first reverse wave. As Doorenspleet points out, these conquered countries experienced the interruption rather than the breakdown of democracy.[12] Consequently, we treat such cases as incidences of occupation rather than regime change. A third problem, also noted by Doorenspleet, is that the vast increase in the number of countries in the world means a very different denominator if one is measuring the *percentage* of democracies or of autocracies.[13] Consequently, we avoid percentages and focus on the total number of changes, but we also weight these by the number of countries. A fourth and presumably obvious problem with Huntington's categories is some temporal overlap, especially between the first wave of democratization and the first reverse wave. Obviously, both a wave of democratization and its reverse cannot occur at the same time, so we determine whether transitions or breakdowns are more numerous in any given year and for all years. Fifth and relatedly, it may not actually be the case that a wave is occurring at all in a given period. Doorenspleet uses the term "trendless fluctuation" to describe a pattern showing tiny waves

Table 9.1 Transitions to and Breakdowns of Democratic Regimes (MIEDs)

Country	Transition	Breakdown	Notes
Albania	1992	1996	
	1997	2001	
	2005	2021	
Andorra	1993		
Antigua and Barbuda	2004		
Argentina	1916	1930	
	1946	1951	
	1958	1962*	
	1973	1976*	
	1983		
Armenia	2019		
Australia	1901		
Austria	1919	1934	
	1945		
Bahamas	1973		
Bangladesh	1980	1982*	
	1991	2007	
	2009	2014	
Barbados	1966		
Belgium	1919		Occupation 1940–5
Belize	1981		
Benin	1991	2019	
Bhutan	2013		
Bolivia^	1982	2014	
	2021		
Botswana	1966		
Brazil	1946	1964	Re-equilibration 1954–5
	1985		
Bulgaria	1919	1920*	
	1931	1934*	
	1990		
Burkina Faso	2015		
Burundi	2005	2010	
Canada	1867		
Cape Verde	1991		
Chile	1952	1973	
	1990		
Colombia	1922	1949	
	1974	2006	
	2014		
Comoros	2006	2018	

* Did not last a full parliamentary or presidential term.

^ In Bolivia, an earlier transition occurred in 1952 but under oligarchic suffrage; this competitive oligarchy broke down in 1956.

Country	Transition	Breakdown	Notes
Congo, R	1992	1996	
Costa Rica	1928		Re-equilibration 1948
Croatia	2000		
Cuba	1944	1952	
Cyprus	1960	1964	
Cyprus (Greek)	1974		
Czechoslovakia	1919		Conquest 1938–9
	1946	1948*	
Czechoslovakia/	1990		Dissolution in 1992
Czech Republic	1992		
Denmark	1915		Occupation 1940–5
Dominica	1978		
Dominican Republic	1962	1963*	
	1978	1990	
	1996		
East Timor	2003		
Ecuador	1948	1961	
	1968	1972	
	1978	2013	
	2021		
El Salvador	1984	2021	
Estonia	1920	1934	
	1992		
Fiji	1970	1987	
	1999	2000*	
Finland	1919		Re-equilibration 1930–2
France	1848	1851*	
	1875		Occupation 1940–5
Gambia	1965	1982	
	1987	1994	
	2017		
Georgia	1992	1999	
	2004	2008	
	2012	2020	
Germany/	1919	1933	
West Germany	1949		
Ghana	1957	1960	
	1969	1972*	
	1979	1981*	
	2001		
Greece	1875	1909	
	1910	1915	
	1927	1935	
	1950	1967	
	1974		

* Did not last a full parliamentary or presidential term.

(*Continued*)

Table 9.1 (Continued)

Country	Transition	Breakdown	Notes
Grenada	1984		
Guatemala	1945	1954	
	1966	1970	
	1985	2019	Failed autogolpe attempt in 1993
Guinea-Bissau	1994	2003	
	2005	2010	
	2014	2019	
Guyana	1966	1968	
	1992		Failed autogolpe attempt in 2020
Haiti	1991	1991*	
	2006	2010	
Honduras	1982	2009	
Hungary	1990	2018	
Iceland	1918		
India	1952	1975	
	1977		
Indonesia	1950	1957	
	1999		
Iraq	2010	2018	
Ireland	1922		
Israel	1948		
Italy	1919	1924	
	1948		
Ivory Coast	2011	2018	
Jamaica	1962	1976	
	1980	1983*	
	1989		
Japan	1928	1932	
	1947		
Jordan	1956	1957*	
Kenya	2002	2007	
Kiribati	1979		
Korea, South	1960	1961*	
	1987		
Kosovo	2014		
Kyrgyzstan	2010	2017	
Latvia	1922	1934	
	1993		
Lebanon	1943	1972	
	2005	2014	
	2018		
Lesotho	1966	1970	
	1993	1998	Failed monarchical–military coup in 1994
	2002		
Liberia	2006		
Liechtenstein	1921		

* Did not last a full parliamentary or presidential term.

Country	Transition	Breakdown	Notes
Lithuania	1922	1926	
	1992		
Luxembourg	1919		Occupation 1940–5
Macedonia	1991	1994	
	1998	2008	
	2011	2014*	
	2017		
Madagascar	1993	2006	Failed autogolpe attempt in 2001–2
Malawi	1994	1999	
	2014		Failed autogolpe attempt in 2019
Malaysia	1957	1969	
	2018	2020*^^	[See note below]
Maldives	2008	2012	
	2019		
Mali	1992	2012	
	2013	2020	
Malta	1964	1981	
	1987		
Marshall Islands	1986		
Mauritania	2007	2008*	
Mauritius	1968		
Mexico	2000		
Micronesia	1986		
Moldova	1994	2005	
	2009		
Mongolia	1990		
Montenegro	2006	2013	
	2020		
Mozambique	1994	2004	
Myanmar	1960	1962*	(then Burma)
Namibia	1990		
Nauru	1968		
Nepal	1959	1960*	
	1991	2002	
	2014		
Netherlands	1913		Occupation 1940–5
Newfoundland	1907		Sovereignty returned to the United Kingdom in 1934
New Zealand	1907		
Nicaragua	1990	2011	
Niger	1993	1996*	
	1999	2009	
	2011	2016	
Nigeria	1960	1966	
	1979	1983	
	1999	2003	
	2011		

* Did not last a full parliamentary or presidential term.

^^ In Malaysia, the opposition came to power in 2018 despite an unfair election, albeit with much less of a victory than it would have had otherwise.

(*Continued*)

Table 9.1 (Continued)

Country	Transition	Breakdown	Notes
Norway	1905		Occupation 1940–5
Pakistan	1970	1977	
	1988	1999	
	2008	2018	
Palau	1994		
Panama	1960	1968	
	1989		
Papua New Guinea	1975	2002	
	2007	2017	
Paraguay	1993		Failed coup attempt in 1996
Peru	1956	1962	
	1963	1968	
	1979	1992	
	2001		
Philippines	1946	1972	
	1986	2004	
	2010	2019	
Poland	1922	1926	
	1990		
Portugal	1975		
Romania	1919	1920*	
	1928	1930*	
	1996		
Russia	1993	2000	
Saint Kitts and Nevis	1983		
Saint Lucia	1979		
Saint Vincent and the Grenadines	1979		
Samoa	2021		
San Marino	1906	1923	
	1945		
São Tomé and Príncipe	1991		Failed coup attempts in 1995 and 2003
Senegal	2000	2007	
	2012	2019	
Serbia	1880	1883*	
Serbia/Yugoslavia ~	1903	1923	~ Properly the Kingdom of Serbs, Croats, and Slovenes
Serbia	2000	2017	
Seychelles	1976	1977*	
	2020		
Sierra Leone	1996	1997*	
	1998	2019	
Slovakia	1992		
Slovenia	1991		
Solomon Islands	1978	2006	
	2014		
Somalia	1960	1969	
South Africa	1994		
Spain	1931	1936	
	1977		

* Did not last a full parliamentary or presidential term.

Country	Transition	Breakdown	Notes
Sri Lanka	1947	1982	
	1994	2000	
	2001	2003*	
	2015		
Sudan	1968	1969*	
	1986	1989*	
Suriname	1975	1980	
	1988	1990*	
	1991		
Sweden	1921		
Switzerland	1848		
Syria	1947	1949*	
	1954	1956*	
Taiwan	1987		
Thailand	1946	1947*	
	1992	2006	
	2011	2014*	
Trinidad and Tobago	1962		
Tunisia	2011	2021	
Turkey	1950	1957	
	1961	1971	Military displacement of prime minister
	1974	1980	
	1983	1997	Military displacement of prime minister
	1999	2015	
Tuvalu	1978		
Ukraine	1991	1999	
	2005	2012	
	2014		
United Kingdom	1885		
United States	1829		
Uruguay	1919	1973	Re-equilibration 1933–1942
	1984		
Vanuatu	1980		
Venezuela	1948	1948*	
	1959	2006	Failed coup attempts in 1992 (twice) and 2002
Zambia	1964	1968	
	1991	1996	
	2011	2016	
	2021		

* Did not last a full parliamentary or presidential term.

of both democratizations and democratic breakdowns that cancel each other out.[14] Finally, although a wave reflects an overall pattern that may be in evidence for, say, many decades, this pattern may be more intense for a shorter period of time; consequently, when appropriate, we distinguish between phases of the "normal" and concentrated intensity of a wave.

If we use the data from Table 9.1 and apply the aforementioned qualifications, what historical patterns do we find? As shown in Table 9.2, there is indeed a long first wave of

Table 9.2 Waves of Democratization (year-end totals)

	Number of Transitions	Number of Breakdowns	Difference	Total N	Difference Weighted by Total States at the End of the Period (absolute values, in percentages)
First Wave, 1829–1922	37	6	+ 31	65	48%
of which:					
moderate phase, 1829–1918	*19*	*4*	*+ 15*	*61*	*25%*
intense phase, 1919–22	*18*	*2*	*+ 16*	*65*	*25%*
First Reverse Wave, 1923–36	6	15	– 9	66	14%
Stability, 1937–42	0	0	0		
Second Wave, 1943–66	50	23	+ 27	130	21%
of which:					
moderate phase, 1943–57	*28*	*12*	*+ 16*	*88*	*18%*
intense phase, 1958–60	*9*	*2*	*+ 7*	*106*	*7%*
mild phase, 1961–6	*13*	*9*	*+ 4*	*130*	*3%*
Second Reverse Wave, 1967–73	9	17	– 8	144	6%
Third Wave, 1974–2015	152	74	+ 78	195	40%
of which:					
moderate phase, 1974–89	*48*	*17*	*+ 31*	*167*	*19%*
intense phase, 1990–4	*43*	*6*	*+ 37*	*191*	*19%*
mild phase, 1995–2015	*61*	*51*	*+ 10*	*195*	*5%*
Third Reverse Wave, 2016– ?	13	22	– 9	195	5%

democratization – in the sense of countries becoming MIEDs – from 1829 (the United States) to 1922 (various countries). This wave can be divided into a long moderate phase covering most of this period, and then at the end a particularly intense phase right after World War I, reflecting both the creation of new states as a consequence of the breakup of empires due to the war and the war-induced pressures for democratization in existing states. Then there is a first reverse wave from 1923 (San Marino and Yugoslavia) through 1936 (Spain). From 1937 to 1942 "nothing happens" – even though World War II sees the occupation of various democracies by Nazi Germany.

Regardless of the war, no country makes a transition to democracy or suffered an internal breakdown of democracy during these years. A second wave of democratization occurs from 1943 (Lebanon) through 1966 (various countries). This wave begins with a moderate phase, has a (relatively) intense phase from 1958 to 1960, and then a mild phase from 1961 to 1966. Only then is there a brief, mild second global reverse wave from 1967 (Greece) through 1973

(Chile and Uruguay). Then, as Huntington argues, a third wave of democratization begins in 1974 (various countries). This third wave starts with a moderate phase and then has a particularly intense phase from 1990 through 1994, when it reaches Central and Eastern Europe (after the Berlin Wall comes down) and Africa. After 1994, the third wave goes into a mild phase through 2015 (various countries), which includes a large number of breakdowns. Starting in 2016 (Niger and, for a time, Zambia) the world does seem to be in a third reverse wave, though 2021 has seen as many transitions as breakdowns.[15]

What has facilitated this current reverse wave, or at least recent democratic breakdowns? One factor is political polarization. In Chapter 5 we noted that having a divided society with violent conflict makes democracy unlikely. However, a high level of violent conflict may not even be necessary. Key recent breakdowns have occurred in polarized countries that are ruled by "new elites" (not traditionally ruling) who feel discriminated against (even now when in power) by an ideological/group enemy, who see politics as zero-sum and who do not want to give up power – that is, control over the state and its resources. Such democratic breakdowns have occurred in recent years in Bolivia under Evo Morales and the MAS (though since reversed), in Turkey under Recep Tayyip Erdoğan and the AKP, in Serbia under Aleksandar Vučić and the SNS, and in Hungary under Viktor Orbán and Fidesz.[16]

Overall, of the three waves of democratization, the second wave is both the shortest (in duration) and the weakest (in terms of the share of countries undergoing democratization). The second wave is also the least "ongoing," in the sense of the number of countries that underwent democratization in each wave and remain so today. This is shown in Table 9.3 for countries that democratized through the end of the third wave (through 2015). There are only four ongoing democracies that democratized in the second wave, all at independence. That is only one more than the number of ongoing democracies that began in the second reverse wave (also all at independence).

THE PROCESSES OF DEMOCRATIC TRANSITION IN SOVEREIGN STATES

A transition to democracy in an already sovereign state can involve one of four processes,[17] as is shown in Table 9.4, which gives various illustrative postwar examples as opposed to a complete list.[18] First, the process of democratization can be *dictated* by those in power, as it was, for example, by the Brazilian military or the Hungarian communists. This transition is a top-down process. Second, formal *negotiations* between the regime and the leaders of the pro-democratic opposition can take place, as happened between the Polish communists and the Solidarity movement as well as between the whites-only government of South

Table 9.3 Ongoing Democracies by Start Wave of Democratization

First Wave	First Reverse Wave	Second Wave	Second Reverse Wave	Third Wave (through 2015)
Australia*	Costa Rica	Barbados*	Bahamas*	Andorra*
Belgium		Botswana*	Mauritius*	Antigua and Barbuda
Canada*		Israel*	Nauru*	Belize*
Denmark		Trinidad and Tobago*		Bhutan
Finland*				Cape Verde
Iceland*				Dominica*
Ireland*				East Timor*
Liechtenstein				Kiribati*
Luxembourg				Liberia
Netherlands				Marshall Islands*
New Zealand*				Mexico
Norway				Micronesia*
Sweden				Mongolia
Switzerland				Namibia*
United Kingdom				Palau*
United States				Paraguay
				Portugal
				Saint Kitts and Nevis*
				Saint Lucia*
				Saint Vincent and the Grenadines
				São Tomé and Príncipe
				Slovenia*
				South Africa
				Taiwan
				Tuvalu*
				Vanuatu*

* Democratization at independence or the following year.

Africa and the African National Congress.[19] Third, the autocratic regime can collapse, in which case the leaders *abdicate* power and simply walk away. Such a regime collapse can occur because of the military defeat of a military regime, which happened to Greece in Cyprus and to Argentina in the Falkland Islands. Alternatively, autocracies have collapsed because of massive public demonstrations, sometimes combined with the withdrawal of external support (such as the communist regimes of Czechoslovakia and East Germany) or following from a regional "spillover" (such as Romania). All of these are essentially if not totally internal processes. Fourth and finally, after military defeat and foreign occupation, the occupying powers may choose to *impose* democracy on the occupied country, as was done in Germany and Japan after World War II.[20] Overall, in terms of the internal processes, the *dictated* process occurs when the ruling autocrats are stronger than any opposition, the *negotiated* process occurs when the ruling autocrats and those in opposition are roughly

equal in power (at least to the extent that neither can impose their wishes), and the *abdicated* process occurs when the ruling autocrats (often quite quickly) become weaker than the political opposition.

Of these four processes, the negotiated and dictated ones (in that order) are seen to be "superior" in the sense of being more likely to produce a durable democracy. This durability results from elements of the old regime helping to produce the new democratic regime, thus lending it "forward legitimacy," especially among the supporters of the old regime who, presumably, were not in favour of such a change. The negotiated scenario adds to this "forward legitimacy" a separate legitimacy among the supporters of the political opposition, whose leaders have agreed to the specifics of the regime change. In contrast, when an autocratic regime abdicates or is conquered, key figures of the old regime work against democratization, and its supporters remain to not only oppose the new democratic regime but to actively try to undermine it – and they may well be strong enough to be effective. For example, politics in Weimar Germany followed this pattern after the country's military defeat in World War I.[21] In the imposed democracy scenario, a major and long-term military occupation is likely necessary to root out and marginalize the key figures and activists of the old regime as happened, for example, during the "denazification" of Germany after 1945.

Yet for either a dictated or negotiated process to occur, the ruling autocrats have to be less than fully autocratic; that is, they have to be willing to open up the political process. As noted, initially this loosening of autocratic control may involve a desire for liberalization but not full democratization, with the former change then snowballing into the latter. In any case, the leadership of the ruling autocracy has to be in the hands of a reformer rather than a hard-line "standpatter" – a King Juan Carlos and not a Generalísimo Franco, a Gorbachev and not a Brezhnev. Indeed, a country may go through more than one reform leader during the process of democratization or even liberalization, and the reformist course can be interrupted by a "standpatter."[22] Moreover, in either a dictated or a negotiated process, the leader willing to reform has to have the foresight to want to change things before change is forced on the leadership; although it may seem obvious that it is better to be in control of the process of change, if only to be able to negotiate from a position of relative strength, if the ruling autocracy is fairly powerful still, then there is usually a great temptation to do nothing in the way of reforms. Equally, for a negotiated transition to occur, an *organized* political opposition with recognized leaders must exist: Massive spontaneous protests are not enough. Additionally, the reality is that, under full totalitarianism or sultanism, an organized political opposition, by definition, does not and cannot exist. Thus, as Table 9.4 indicates, when these regime types do make a transition to democracy, they follow less favourable processes (see again Chapter 8, especially Table 8.1, for an outline of the characteristics of full totalitarianism and sultanism).

Table 9.4 Processes of Transition to Democracy

	NON-DEMOCRATIC REGIME TYPE					
PROCESS	Racial Oligarchy	Electoral Authoritarian	Military Authoritarian	Theocratic Authoritarian	Incomplete Totalitarian or Post-Totalitarian	Full Totalitarian	Sultanistic
DICTATED		Mexico Taiwan	Brazil Chile (Spain) Turkey		Bulgaria Hungary		
NEGOTIATED	South Africa	South Korea Uruguay			Mongolia Poland		
ABDICATED		Tunisia	Argentina Greece Portugal			Czechoslovakia East Germany	Philippines (under Marcos) Romania (under Ceauşescu)
IMPOSED BY OUTSIDE POWERS		Grenada	Japan Panama			Nazi Germany	Iraq

Note: European traditional authoritarian regimes tended to become competitive oligarchies.

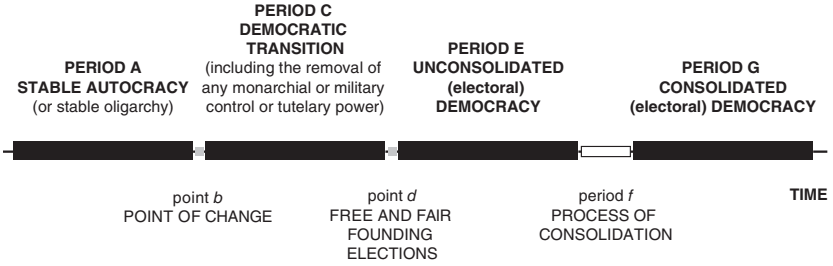
Source: Adapted from information in Table 3.1 of Samuel P. Huntington, *The Third Wave: Democratization in the Late Twentieth Century* (Norman, OK: University of Oklahoma Press, 1991), 113.

DEMOCRATIC TRANSITIONS AND CONSOLIDATION

The transition to democracy needs to be kept separate from what follows it, which is ideally the consolidation of democracy. Gunther, Puhle, and Diamandouros are clear and useful in this regard:

> Transition and consolidation are conceptually distinct aspects of … [democratic development], although in practice they may temporally overlap or sometimes even coincide. Transition begins with the breakdown of the former … [autocratic] regime and ends with the establishment of a relatively stable configuration of political institutions within a democratic regime. Consolidation … refers to the achievement of substantial attitudinal support for and behavioral compliance with the new democratic institutions and the rules of the game which they establish. In most cases, the consolidation of democracy requires more time than the transition process … consolidation is much more complex and it involves a much larger number of actors in a wider array of political arenas. The outcomes of these processes are also distinct: transition results in the creation of a new regime; consolidation results in the stability and persistence of that regime, even in the face of severe challenges.[23]

Figure 9.1 Stages of Democratic Transition and Consolidation



Consequently, no democratic consolidation is possible without a democratic transition; however, a democratic transition will not necessarily be followed by democratic consolidation.

We can see a "successful" pattern of democratic transition and consolidation in Figure 9.1. The sequence goes as follows. At some instant, there is an autocracy or perhaps an oligarchy (as in South Africa); this is period A. This regime could hold elections (certainly the case in a competitive oligarchy), but these elections do not produce responsible government and/or they might not involve an even moderately inclusive franchise. Pressures build up for regime change, perhaps from within, perhaps because of international opinion. A reformist leader or leadership decides to open up the system; this decision, which might involve agreeing to negotiate with pro-democracy leaders, is point *b*. Alternatively, the autocracy collapses or is conquered, and the new authorities seek to make the system more open and democratic; this is another version of point *b*. A transition begins. However, for this to be a transition *to democracy*, indicated as period C, various events must occur. First, as we have noted, there has to be agreement – especially by the ruling autocrats if they have not abdicated or been conquered – that democracy is the actual goal rather than just some limited liberalization. The mechanics of the new democratic regime – that is, its main institutional features (e.g., whether it is a parliamentary or presidential democracy) – have to be agreed to. This agreement can involve deciding on a new constitution. Any direct control or tutelary power by a monarch or national military or regional warlords must be given up. Such a requirement may not be "obvious" if this power was exercised behind the scenes in the outgoing autocracy, but this step is necessary nevertheless. The central element in a transition for oligarchies and possibly a required step for some autocracies is the extension of the franchise to make it sufficiently broad; in the contemporary context, the presumption is universal adult suffrage. Finally, a date is set for the founding election(s) of the new democracy; these elections are point *d*. (If, prior to these elections, the country held separate elections for a constitutional assembly to produce a new constitution, those elections remain part of the transition stage.)

Still, things can go "wrong" at the transition stage. In particular, transitions or liberalizations that might become transitions to democracy could fail before getting to the founding elections if the ruling autocrats or other key players within the regime "change their minds" and restore autocracy, for example, by replacing the reformist leader with a hardliner. Examples of such reactions include hardliner Dimitrios Ioannidis's coup in Greece in 1973 (although Greece had a successful democratic transition the following year) and the military assumption of direct rule that ended the pro-democracy uprising in then-Burma in 1988. The crackdown in China in 1989, including the crushing of the student demonstrations in Tiananmen Square, should also be seen in this light.[24] Yet, even if elections are not only agreed to but also held, responsible government is not produced if the military or the monarch remains in effective control. The latter was the situation in Bhutan from its 2008 election until that of 2013, which *did* usher in a new democracy. In summary, a country can be considered at least an electoral democracy after all the necessary events of the transition (period C) occur and once the founding elections (point *d*) are free and fair with everyone accepting the results and the new government taking office. Getting to and then past point *d* is certainly reason to cheer, but it is not reason to be complacent. What guarantee do we have that the country concerned will still be a democracy in five or ten years, or even the next year?

Such a question returns us to the concept of democratic consolidation. Democratic consolidation involves three components.[25] The first is *law abidingness*; a democratic regime is consolidated when political leaders and other elites, as well as most of the population, obey the laws and the constitution, compete peacefully for power through the specified procedures and institutions, and avoid political violence. The second is *partisan behaviour*; a democratic regime is consolidated when political elites respect each other's right to compete, are tolerant of opposing views, hand over power unconditionally when defeated in elections, recognize as legitimate duly elected governments of other parties, do not sympathize with or apologize for any extremists on their side of the political spectrum, and do not attempt to use the military or foreign agents for partisan advantage. In this sense, we can speak of political parties in opposition being a *loyal opposition* once democracy is consolidated, as opposed to a disloyal or semi-loyal one.[26] Third and finally, in terms of *political attitudes* or *beliefs*, a democratic regime is consolidated when the leaders of all significant political parties, most other elites and opinion makers, and an overwhelming majority of the people consistently believe that democracy is the best form of government both theoretically and specifically for their country. Diamond argues that the threshold of "overwhelming public support" for democracy is having at least 70 to 75 per cent of the people holding such pro-democratic beliefs and conversely no more than 15 per cent of the people definitively preferring some form of non-democratic government. (The remainder of the population would not have any clear or strong opinion one way or another, presumably.) Consequently, no antidemocratic movement or party, existing or hypothetical, would have a significant mass following.[27]

These three components of democratic consolidation reinforce each other; however, they do not necessarily develop in perfectly parallel patterns. For example, the elites of a country might be strongly committed to democracy, but the masses could be rather indifferent; one suspects that this was the case in early post-independence India. On the other hand, certain political leaders may trail their population in terms of commitment to democracy, which happened, for example, in Argentina in the 1990s. There, President Carlos Menem used undemocratic means (especially stacking the judiciary) to expand and maintain his power and interests as well as those of his cronies when mass support for democracy was at the 70 per cent and above level.[28] Thus, in Figure 9.1, we refer to a multi-faceted *process* of consolidation (*f*), at the end of which one has a consolidated democracy (period G). In contrast to point *b* and point *d*, "period *f*" has no specific point in time, as it is more of a conceptual outcome than a precise one. In other words, we can certainly identify consolidated democracies, but we cannot easily refer to a specific date at which they become fully consolidated.[29] According to scholarly analysis and, if available, survey data, most democracies that have been around continuously since before the "third wave" (that is, before 1974; see Table 9.2), as well as the newer democracies of Southern Europe and several in Central and Eastern Europe, are generally considered to be consolidated. In contrast, most of the other "third wave" democracies, especially those in Africa, are considered to be unconsolidated, especially at the mass level.[30]

Following Diamond, we can note that the main challenges of democratic consolidation are threefold.[31] The first of these tasks is the need to "deepen" and thus improve democracy so that it becomes more comprehensive, accountable, and fair. In the typology of our analysis, this deepening involves going from an electoral democracy to a liberal one. Indeed, very few long-standing electoral but not liberal democracies are considered consolidated, including Japan and the idiosyncratic case of Liechtenstein. Democratic "deepening" and improvement are central for democratic consolidation inasmuch as the latter involves both the elites acting democratically and the mass public strongly supporting democracy. Consequently, as Diamond notes,

> [t]he less respectful of political rights, civil liberties, and constitutional constraints on state power are the behaviors of key political actors, the weaker is the procedural consensus underpinning democracy. Consolidation is, by definition, obstructed. Furthermore, the more shallow, exclusive, unaccountable, and abusive of individual and groups rights is the electoral regime, the more difficult it is for that regime to become legitimated at the mass level (or to retain such legitimacy) [because its citizens, with reason, tend to have a low opinion of democracy as they experience and see it], and thus the lower are the perceived costs for the elected president or the military to overthrow the system. [32]

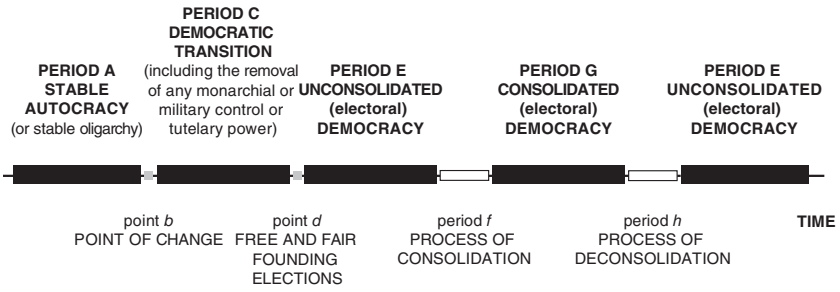
Illustrations of this logic have occurred, for example, in both Pakistan and Bangladesh, where, after their respective 1999 and 2007 military coups, the army disparaged its country's previous

electoral democracy as something so flawed that it was not "real democracy" and thus not worth returning to (although both countries have since done so). For example, at a news conference in April 2007, the Bangladesh army chief, Lieutenant General Moeen U Ahmed, said, "We do not want to go back to an elective democracy where corruption becomes all pervasive, governance suffers in terms of insecurity and violation of rights, and where political criminalisation threatens the very survival and integrity of the state."[33]

A second task of democratic consolidation is to achieve successful regime performance in terms of public policy outcomes, thus producing a "virtuous circle." Policy effectiveness not only produces legitimacy but is easier to achieve when there is legitimacy and consolidation: Regimes with higher levels of legitimacy can solve problems more easily than those with lower levels because, in the former case, politicians are more likely to cooperate and the public is more likely to be patient while necessary reforms are undertaken. The final task of democratic consolidation is **political institutionalization**, so political institutions (including, as was discussed in Chapter 7, political parties) can function with greater coherence, effectiveness, adaptability, and autonomy. This task is, in a sense, antecedent to the other two. Political institutionalization, especially of the judiciary and the legislature, means better "checks and balances" on the executive so that power is not abused. Political institutionalization also facilitates the ability of the regime to aggregate the desires of the citizenry and to produce effective responses to these, as well as solving crises and adapting to global or local change.

Of course, all of these facets of consolidation can be reversed. That is, a democratic regime that is consolidated (and perhaps has been for decades) could experience an outburst of political violence, as Uruguay did in the 1960s. Its political incumbents could make elections less competitive although still democratic. Such a regime could weaken its commitment to civil liberties or to civilian control over the military, perhaps because of regional insurgencies, as happened in Colombia, India, and Sri Lanka. It could slide into economic stagnation for decades, as in postwar Uruguay, or become less adept at solving problems. It could simply become more corrupt, as happened in Venezuela in the 1980s. Finally, such a regime could see political de-institutionalization if, for example, judicial independence is eroded, as it was in Argentina under Menem, or the established political parties become less responsive to voters, which happened in Venezuela and also in Italy in the 1980s. These negative developments, especially if there are more than one of them, will produce **democratic deconsolidation**, as is illustrated in Figure 9.2. Democratic deconsolidation happens when a consolidated democracy (period G) experiences a process (not a point) of deconsolidation (h) and thus reverts to an unconsolidated stage (period E). Of course, differences could exist between the unconsolidated period after democratic deconsolidation and the earlier unconsolidated period, especially concerning which crucial categories remain to be consolidated, but we shall still use the term "period E" for both.

Figure 9.2 Stages of Democratic Transition, Consolidation, and Deconsolidation



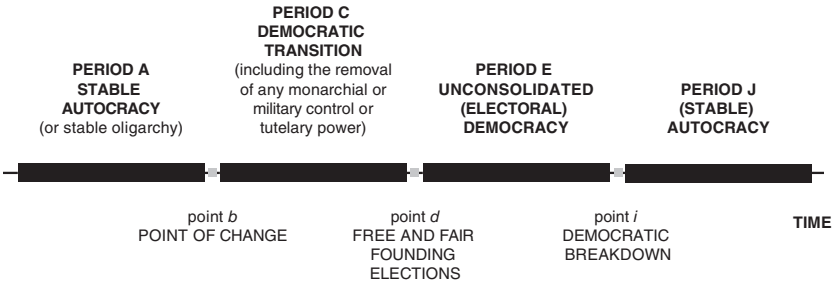
THE HOWS AND WHYS OF DEMOCRATIC BREAKDOWN

Is it important that a given democracy is consolidated rather than unconsolidated (or deconsolidated)? The answer is a definite yes, and, as for why, one only has to think of Weimar Germany historically or Pakistan, Sri Lanka, and Turkey in the postwar era. Democracies that are unconsolidated and that are faced with serious crises will tend to break down and be replaced by autocracies, perhaps for a couple of years, perhaps for a couple of decades or more. Figure 9.3 outlines the sequence under which, instead of consolidating, a democracy suffers a breakdown (at point *i*) and the country reverts to an autocracy lasting for period J. Note that, in any given country, the autocracy of period J may be different than the one that existed in period A (e.g., the initial one could be a traditional **authoritarian regime** and the later one a military regime), hence the different label.

How have democratic breakdowns occurred? There have been various ways, but specifically four, the first two of which have been the most common:

- A military coup d'état overthrows a democratically elected government and establishes a military authoritarian regime, as defined in Chapter 8. Also included here is military displacement, when in a **parliamentary system** the military forces out a government/prime minister preferred by the parliament to be replaced by another civilian one preferred by the military, as in Turkey 1971 and Turkey 1997 – what in the latter case was called a "soft coup."
- A "self-coup" (*autogolpe* in Spanish) occurs. In other words, the democratically elected leader suspends or violates the constitution (or replaces it undemocratically) and proceeds to rule indefinitely as an autocrat. Self-coups happened, for example, in parts of Eastern Europe in the 1920s and 1930s, and with Alberto Fujimori in Peru in 1992. An alternate version of this scenario has a democratically elected leader ceasing

Figure 9.3 Stages of Democratic Transition, Crisis, and Breakdown



to behave democratically and rigging his re-election or that of his party to usher in **electoral authoritarianism**. For example, such "electoral self-coups" were carried out by President Juan Perón of Argentina in his presidential re-election of 1951, President Leonid Kuchma of Ukraine in his presidential re-election of 1999, and President Daniel Ortega of Nicaragua in both his presidential re-election of 2011 and the simultaneous National Assembly election. As the examples suggest and as has been shown, these endogenous breakdowns are more likely in **presidential systems** than in parliamentary ones.[34]

- A "royal coup" occurs. A monarch who had not been directly running the country, in that the state was run by a prime minister and a cabinet responsible to the legislature, decides to assume all power (see Chapter 8 for the varying power of monarchs in authoritarian regimes). A "royal coup" occurred in Yugoslavia in 1929 and in Nepal in 1960 and later again in 2002.
- An antidemocratic mass party "wins" an election (in the sense of coming first) and is then handed power. The Nazi Party came to power in this way in Germany in 1933, as did the communists in Czechoslovakia in 1948. If we accept that electoral fraud often is a feature of democratic breakdown, we can place here the actions of the Popular Front in Spain, which, in 1936, "improved" its winning election results to consolidate power. One could argue that the largest party or alliance in parliament should have the right to govern or at least to be part of the government, but what if its intent is to end democracy? In Algeria in 1992, the military intervened to prevent such an outcome. Of course, Algeria is still under military tutelage today.

One *absence* from the previous list is important to note – revolution. No democracy has ever been overthrown by revolution. And the corollary here is this: All successful revolutions have been against some form of autocracy. Nor have any democracies ended because of civil

war. In reality, either a civil war has been won by the democratic side (e.g., the US North continued to be an MIED during the US Civil War, including holding regular elections) or, more usually, neither side in a civil war has been democratic (e.g., Russia 1917 to 1922, Spain 1936 to 1939, or Angola 1975 to 2002). Note also that we are not considering as democratic breakdowns the conquest of democracies by hostile foreign powers, such as the conquest of Western European democracies by Nazi Germany.

A specific event can be seen as being the "trigger" that leads to a breakdown. However, *why* breakdowns occur is more important – the larger context in which they happen. Five broad factors can be noted: (1) external "shocks" like the Great Depression; (2) more generally, a high "load" on the system – in other words, many difficult problems to solve; (3) political polarization and wide social and political divisions, including the strength of radical leftists, which frightens conservatives into supporting or even calling for a military coup, and "excessive nationalism" on the part of the political right; (4) negative external pressures, or at least the lack of positive external support for democracy; and, in the more contemporary period, (5) economic mismanagement and corruption. Each of these factors feeds into the key contextual point here, which is the *loss of legitimacy* (or its absence in the first place) of the democratic system. Definitionally, as Linz notes:

> At the very least, legitimacy is the belief that in spite of shortcomings and failures, the existing political institutions are better than any others that might be established, and that they therefore can demand obedience. Ultimately it means that when the rulers who hold power constitutionally demand obedience, and another group questions that demand in the name of alternative [non-democratic] political arrangements, citizens will voluntarily opt for compliance with the demands of those in authority … Ultimately, democratic legitimacy is based on the belief that for that particular country at that particular historical juncture, no other type of regime could assure a more successful pursuit of collective goals.[35]

Democratic legitimacy is thus a relative concept – democracy must be considered more legitimate than other regime types – and one based very much on outputs or "ends."

Consequently, democratic legitimacy itself is produced, maintained, and ideally increased but potentially decreased (even to the point of "deconsolidation") by the *system performance* of the democratic regime. We can define system performance more precisely as not only a regime's general ability to achieve broadly desired goals, such as economic and social development, but also its ability to find and implement acceptable solutions for any problems that might arise. Following Linz, we distinguish between the efficacy and the effectiveness of a regime; the first refers to the regime's ability to produce solutions and the second to how well it can implement them.[36] Ultimately, if the democratic system is seen as dysfunctional *and* if key elites (presumably with a certain level of public support or at least indifference) consider some type of autocracy more likely to deliver the desired "ends," then a successful breakdown may

well occur. Of course, an actor or a group could try to seize power for its own sake without any intention of improving the public interest, but such an actor or group invariably claims to be acting in the national interest even if this claim is a lie. The issue, again, is whether the level of dissatisfaction with the democratic regime is sufficient for the lie to be widely believed. If not and if a reasonably high level of democratic **political culture** exists in the country, then this seizure of power will ultimately fail.

Not all governments are equally competent, of course, but successful democracies generally have competent (or at least not totally incompetent) governments most of the time. All other things being equal, democratic legitimacy will increase over time in a generally successful democracy as more and more people see the positive outputs of the democratic regime. This progression usually continues until legitimacy reaches a high level (which is, as noted, 70 to 75 per cent or more of the population viewing democracy as the best form of government for the country). Such an increase will not necessarily be linear; there could be a "two steps forward, one step back" pattern. However, new democracies face two particular challenges with regard to democratic legitimacy. The first is that they may well lack a "reserve" of legitimacy. In older democracies, democratic legitimacy is broadly based and more or less taken for granted, so a badly performing regime can "coast" for a while if need be. In contrast, a new democratic regime tends to be under greater pressure to prove itself continually because the democratic regime in itself may not have any broad support in the population. Of course, this "pressure" will vary depending on the performance of the previous autocratic regime; if that regime was incompetent or corrupt, the bar will not be very high for the new democratic regime, inasmuch as legitimacy is a relative concept. Second and related is the issue of distinguishing the regime as a political system from the government of the day. In older democracies, an incompetent or corrupt government is likely to lead to that particular government being unpopular but not to any delegitimation or deconsolidation of democracy per se. Why? People can remember previous competent governments and assume (or hope) that future ones will be better than the current one. In other words, people may wait impatiently for the next election, so they can throw out an incompetent and unpopular government, but they do not wish to throw out democracy – at least, not after just one bad government. In contrast, however, people may find it hard to distinguish the government of the day in a new democracy, especially if it is the first such democratic one, from the democratic political system in which it operates because there is no previous competent democratic government (perhaps of another party) to serve as a reference point. Dissatisfaction with the government of the day, then, can easily become dissatisfaction with democracy as a **political regime**.

THE DURATION OF DEMOCRACIES THAT BREAK DOWN

A democracy may last indefinitely. Many Western first wave democracies – qualifying these as MIEDs in terms of suffrage – have lasted well over a century to date (cf. Table 9.3). On the

other hand, some democracies have lasted only a matter of months. Haiti made a transition to democracy in February of 1991 with the coming to power of newly elected President Jean-Bertrand Aristide. His party also won a plurality of seats in the Chamber of Deputies. A few months later, in September of 1991, Aristide was overthrown in a military coup. Perhaps the shortest period of democracy occurred in Romania right after World War I. A basically free and fair election was held in November 1919, and the leader of the largest party became prime minister in a coalition government at the start of December. However, his radical policies on land reform led to his dismissal in March 1920 by King Ferdinand I. After this royal *putsch*, the king appointed a more "acceptable" prime minister who then rigged an election in May 1920.[37]

Overall, then, in a new democracy a democratic breakdown can occur rapidly, sometime later on, or never at all. However, scholars note that breakdowns come quite quickly on average and that "democratic regimes are particularly vulnerable in their early years."[38] Conversely, the longer a democracy exists, the more likely it is to last indefinitely. So, at a certain point, breakdown is less likely and, perhaps, very unlikely if the democracy has consolidated. Looking at the 155 cases of democratization that at some point broke down (see Table 9.1), we can calculate that the median duration of these democracies is seven years – so democratic breakdown is often quick. Conversely, the extreme cases of a long time until a democratic breakdown are Uruguay after 54 years of democracy (including a decade-long period of re-equilibration) and Venezuela after 47 years of democracy. As noted, in each case it can be argued that the country underwent deconsolidation in the years preceding the breakdown. If we rank the 155 cases of non-lasting democracy from longest to shortest duration before breakdown, the tenth percentile (separating out the countries for which breakdown took the longest) comes in between the fifteenth and the sixteenth country, or at 27 years. Consequently, to use a rounder number, if a democracy can last 25 or so years, it is probably consolidated,[39] and it is unlikely to break down without worsening circumstances that both damage democracy and lead to deconsolidation. In other words, the odds are good (but not perfect) that, after 25 or so years of democracy, a country's political system will continue to be democratic indefinitely.

DEMOCRATIC RE-EQUILIBRATION

Finally, in terms of possible stages, in exceptional circumstances a political crisis in an unconsolidated democracy may not lead to a political breakdown but rather to what Linz has called a re-equilibration of democracy. He defines **democratic re-equilibration** as follows:

> Re-equilibration of a democracy is a political process that, after a crisis that has seriously threatened the continuity and stability of the basic democratic political mechanisms, results in their continued existence at the same or higher levels of democratic legitimacy, efficacy, and effectiveness. It assumes a severe jolting of these institutions, a loss of either

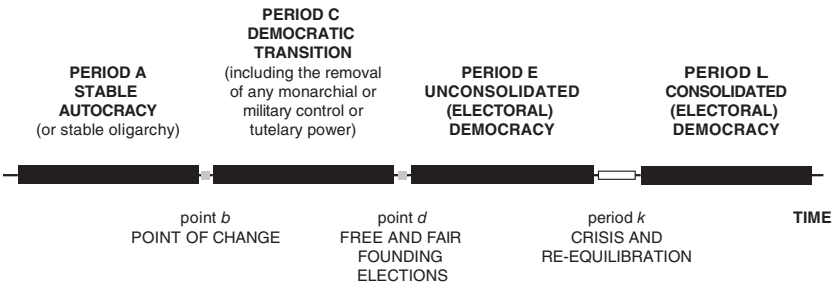
> effectiveness or efficacy, and probably legitimacy, that produces a temporary breakdown of the authority of the regime … Breakdown followed by reequilibration of democracy can be effected by anti- or aconstitutional means, by the interference in the normal democratic processes of a political actor (like a charismatic leader) whose initial legitimation is ademocratic, or by the use of force, as in a military putsch … The new regime might be established illegally, but it must be legitimated by the democratic process afterward, and above all, it must operate thereafter according to the democratic rules.[40]

Assuming that the new or modified regime does have higher levels of legitimacy, we can suggest that re-equilibration will produce consolidation, as shown in Figure 9.4. The issue here is whether re-equilibration occurs at a specific point or is an ongoing process. It does seem to be the latter, although key events are part of the process. This process (*k*) leads to a consolidated democracy, period L, where there was not one before, but it does so in a very different way than under process *f* of Figure 9.1.

The classic example of democratic re-equilibration is France in 1958, when its regime changed from the Fourth to the Fifth Republic. The Fourth Republic was an unconsolidated democracy with little love for its political institutions, extreme political polarization, highly unstable governments, and by the mid-to-late 1950s an unsolvable crisis created by the Algerian War. With divisions over Algeria threatening to produce a military coup and possibly a civil war, Charles de Gaulle, the war hero who had resigned his position as leader of the French Provisional Government in 1946, offered to come back to "save France" – on his own terms, of course. The traditional political leaders acquiesced and made de Gaulle what amounted to a temporary dictator for several months. During this time, he produced a new constitution with a powerful president, although this constitution did not, technically, create a presidential system (see Chapter 6). He then proceeded to submit this constitution successfully to a national referendum and get himself elected as the first president of the new Fifth Republic. We thus see an after-the-fact confirmation and legitimation of de Gaulle's "seizure of power." His charisma, prestige, and legitimacy, which extended beyond that recognized by his direct supporters, were crucial in this process, just as they and his World War II military leadership were key in bringing the French Army back under control. It took a few years for de Gaulle to "solve" the Algerian crisis (ultimately by granting Algeria its independence), but overall the Fifth Republic, with de Gaulle at its head for the first decade, proved to be more efficacious at solving problems than the Fourth Republic ever was (except in economic matters, where the Fourth Republic had been successful).

Besides France in 1958, Finland in 1930–2 (with Pehr Evind Svinhufvud playing the "de Gaulle" role), Costa Rica in 1948–9, and to some extent Uruguay in 1933–42 can be seen as cases of re-equilibration. Overall, though, there have been few such cases, as re-equilibration requires (1) political leadership that has been hitherto untainted by the major crisis and the

Figure 9.4 Stages of Democratic Transition, Crisis, and Re-equilibration



resulting loss of legitimacy of the regime, (2) the ability of this leadership to be acceptable to both supporters and opponents of the old regime, and (3) a willingness on the part of the leadership of the old regime to transfer power to what is formally an anti-regime actor who has no constitutional claim to this power but who can be assumed to be the only saviour of democracy.[41] Needless to say, very few unconsolidated democracies have both a de Gaulle of their own waiting around in the wings and traditional parties that are willing to grant this "saviour" power when push comes to shove. Consequently, re-equilibration should not be seen as a likely option. The reality is that the vast majority of unconsolidated democracies must slowly consolidate, by the various means noted above, if they are to be truly durable.

OSCILLATING STATES

Indeed, for many unconsolidated democracies the reality is even starker. Not only might they have a democratic breakdown in the near future, they have had one – or more – in recent decades. Indeed, many countries have gone back and forth between democratic and autocratic regimes. Samuel Huntington identified this cyclical pattern as one in which neither democracy nor autocracy can institutionalize effectively.[42] Let's call countries with this pattern "oscillating states." This oscillating pattern is not new. In the period after World War II it was common in certain Latin American countries – most strikingly Argentina. However, Argentina has been able to remain democratic since 1983, though it has faced challenges to its democracy. Yet various other countries are certainly (still) in a back-and-forth cyclical pattern between autocracy and democracy.

Looking at the period since 1974 (the start of the third wave of democratization), we find 20 countries that have not just oscillated but have *highly oscillated*, defined as having at least two transitions and at least two democratic breakdowns – with some having had more. These

Table 9.5 Highly Oscillating States since 1974

			Frequencies since 1974		
	Regime in 1973	Regime as of the end of 2021	Democratic Transitions	Democratic Breakdowns	Total Regime Changes
Macedonia	Autocracy	Democracy	4	3	7
Albania	Autocracy	Autocracy	3	3	6
Bangladesh	Autocracy	Autocracy	3	3	6
Georgia	Autocracy	Autocracy	3	3	6
Niger	Autocracy	Autocracy	3	3	6
Sri Lanka	Democracy	Democracy	3	3	6
Thailand	Autocracy	Autocracy	3	3	6
Turkey	Autocracy	Autocracy	3	3	6
Guinea-Bissau	Autocracy	Democracy	3	2	5
Nigeria	Autocracy	Democracy	3	2	5
Pakistan	Democracy	Autocracy	2	3	5
Suriname	Autocracy	Democracy	3	2	5
Ukraine	Autocracy	Democracy	3	2	5
Zambia	Autocracy	Democracy	3	2	5
Haiti	Autocracy	Autocracy	2	2	4
Jamaica	Democracy	Democracy	2	2	4
Mali	Autocracy	Autocracy	2	2	4
Papua New Guinea	Autocracy	Autocracy	2	2	4
Philippines	Autocracy	Autocracy	2	2	4
Senegal	Autocracy	Autocracy	2	2	4

20 countries are given in Table 9.5, which uses 1973 – the year before the start of the third wave – as the initial base point. As shown in the table, these countries are concentrated in post-communist Europe, sub-Saharan Africa, and South and South East Asia, but not in Latin America as would have been the case a generation ago. Quite likely, some of the oscillating states that are now autocratic will return to democracy, at least for a time. As for those that are democratic, they will need to break out of their cycle to remain so continuously.

NOTES

1 Huntington, *The Third Wave*, 9.
2 For example, see Diamond, *Developing Democracy*, 74.
3 Huntington, *The Third Wave*, 15. Bold added to stress key concept.
4 Thornhill and Fincher, *The Parasite-Stress Theory of Values and Sociality*, 294–6.
5 Huntington, *The Third Wave*, 16–46 passim.
6 Huntington, *The Third Wave*, 16–21.

7 Huntington, *The Third Wave*, 16.
8 Doorenspleet, "Reassessing the Three Waves of Democratization," suffrage criterion on 391; Paxton, "Women's Suffrage in the Measurement of Democracy."
9 Rueschemeyer, Stephens, and Stephens, *Capitalist Development and Democracy*, suffrage and other minimum criteria of democracy on 303.
10 The dates given are either (1) the date of independence of a colony on which a government elected in a free and fair election with at least moderately inclusive suffrage became a responsible government; or (2) for already sovereign states, the year a government that was elected based on the first free and fair election (or even a flawed one that the opposition nevertheless won) with moderately inclusive suffrage came into office, not the election year per se – thus 1829 not 1828 for the United States and 1990 not 1989 for Chile's re-democratization – and not the year when the suffrage law was changed – thus 1928 not 1925 for Japan. On this last point, see Doorenspleet, "Reassessing the Three Waves," 391, fn 26.
11 Przeworski, Asadurian, and Bohlken, "The Origins of Parliamentary Responsibility."
12 Doorenspleet, "Reassessing the Three Waves," 394–5.
13 Doorenspleet, "Reassessing the Three Waves," 395.
14 Doorenspleet, "Reassessing the Three Waves," 386, 398–9.
15 The year 2016 also saw no transitions, marking it is a clear start to a third reverse wave.
16 On such polarization, see Lancaster, "Ideology and Hegemonic Party Rule in South Africa, Hungary, and Turkey"; and McCoy, Rahman, and Somer, "Polarization and the Global Crisis of Democracy."
17 Note that we use the phrase "an already sovereign state" to make a distinction between these states and former colonies that become democracies upon independence; former colonies do not always fit into the four methods of transitioning to democracy described here.
18 An electoral authoritarian regime losing an unfair election and giving up power (as noted in the previous chapter) is not so much a process as an event, so it is separate from this analysis.
19 This second process could also involve a political pact or settlement among various party leaders who are equally democratic but sharply divided on partisan, ideological, and sociological grounds, such as with the Dutch "Pacification Settlement" of 1913–17 or the Punto Fijo Pact in Venezuela and the related "Declaration of Principles" and "Minimal Program for Government" of 1958. Because of these pacts, this second process is sometimes called a "pacted transition."
20 Huntington, *The Third Wave*, 113. Note that we are using what are hopefully clearer terms for the different processes and that some changes have been made to Huntington's classifications.
21 In terms of the schema in Table 9.4, Germany in 1918 should be placed with Argentina, Greece, and Portugal as a case of *military abdication.* Although pre-1914 Imperial Germany was certainly an example of traditional authoritarianism, this regime was changed by the World War. As Smith remarks, "[a]s the 1914–18 war progressed, the country slithered towards military dictatorship. Nominally responsible to the Emperor, the German High Command became increasingly contemptuous of any restrictions on its power." Once they realized that the war was lost, the High Command found it expedient to hand power over to a civilian government, which would reach an armistice and thus take the blame. See Smith, *Democracy in Western Germany*, 16.
22 Huntington, *The Third Wave*, 130–3.
23 Gunther, Puhle, and Diamandouros, "Introduction," 3.
24 Huntington, *The Third Wave*, 135.
25 Linz and Stepan, *Problems of Democratic Transition and Consolidation*, 6; Diamond, *Developing Democracy*, 69. Their various categories have been modified somewhat here.

26 On this component, see also Linz, *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes*, 16, 27–37.
27 Diamond, *Developing Democracy*, 68–9.
28 Diamond, *Developing Democracy*, 70.
29 One may be tempted here to use a specific crisis point that was successfully overcome, such as the failed coup in Spain in 1981; however, such a democratic success is more a demonstration of being on the road to democratic consolidation. Indeed, Spanish democracy was probably not fully consolidated until the change in government from the centre to the socialists after the election of 1982.
30 For an alternative definition of consolidation with respect to post-communist Europe that focuses solely on elites (including the bureaucracy) but has no "requirements" in terms of mass attitudes, see Hanson, "Defining Democratic Consolidation," 141–2.
31 Diamond, *Developing Democracy*, 73ff.
32 Diamond, *Developing Democracy*, 74–5.
33 *BBC News*, "B'desh Democracy Fails, Army Says."
34 Maeda, "Two Modes of Democratic Breakdown."
35 Linz, *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes*, 16–17, 18.
36 Linz, *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes*, 18–23.
37 Cornell, Møller, and Skaaning, "The Real Lessons of the Interwar Years," 24.
38 Kapstein and Converse, *The Fate of Young Democracies*, 41.
39 Writing in the 1990s, Kitschelt put the breakdown point at 20 years: "As a rule of thumb, after 20 years of democracy anti-system parties have tacitly accepted the democratic rules and will not stage a revolt." Kitschelt, "Formation of Party Cleavages in Post-Communist Democracies," 460.
40 Linz, *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes*, 87.
41 Linz, *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes*, 87–8.
42 Huntington, "Will More Countries Become Democratic?" 210.

CHAPTER TEN

The Historical Evolution of Democracy

In This Chapter You Will Learn

- the key thresholds of representative democracy, and the eras in which each of these most commonly were met;
- the key steps in the political evolution of the Netherlands, the United Kingdom, the United States, Japan, China, and India with respect to these thresholds, as well as other unique features of the United States; and
- how the relationship between competition and participation has evolved in terms of the overall regime patterns at various world periods.

THRESHOLDS OF REPRESENTATIVE DEMOCRACY

There have been six, at times overlapping, goals of making democracies more complete or full (separate from liberal). We shall call these the six thresholds of representative democracy, though some thresholds are more tentative than others. By representative democracy we mean that the views of the adult population are reflected directly and in a representative manner in the legislature. Again, this overlaps with but is not quite the same as either **liberal democracy** (Chapter 4) or the ideal sequencing of democracy (Chapter 2).

First there is the threshold of having the key institution (parliament or presidency) directly elected by the voters as a whole and only them. Direct election exclusively by the population would replace medieval chambers and/or indirect election via **electoral colleges**. In Europe historically, parliaments were often composed of chambers or curiae in which the broad

public was but one "estate" or constituent voting group if it was even represented at all. In pre-revolutionary France there were three chambers respectively of the nobility, the clergy, and the commoners, each with equal weight. In Sweden there were four chambers (nobility, clergy, burghers, and free farmers), and these lasted until 1866. In Austria there were ultimately five curiae, and these lasted until 1907. However, in most European countries such chamber-based parliaments never existed or were eliminated by the mid-nineteenth century. Under such a chamber system the voting weights of the various groups were heavily skewed in favour of traditional elements of society.

Alternatively or additionally, in certain systems electors would filter the opinion of the voters. The United States was the classic case of a **presidential system** in which an electoral college was preferred to direct election of a president – something which, to be fair, did not exist anywhere in the world in the late 1700s – but its electoral college is a clear anachronism today. Paraguay also had an electoral college for its presidential elections until 1940, as did Argentina until 1994. In terms of **parliamentary systems**, in Sweden when its chambers were abolished the subsequent elections used either direct elections or indirect elections with electors, depending on the constituency. Direct elections were not held in every urban constituency until 1881 and were not held in every rural constituency until 1911.[1] Overall, indirect elections served to restrict representation by class, as electors were collectively of higher social status than the voters who chose them.[2] Thus when in the late nineteenth century Peru and Brazil each switched from indirect to direct legislative elections, they brought in a literacy requirement to vote.[3]

The second threshold was achieving **responsible government** (as defined in Chapter 4), in particular in countries with monarchies, so that the (directly elected) parliament was what chose the government. Such responsible government came as early as the 1830s in (newly created) Belgium and the United Kingdom, but later if not indeed after World War I in many European countries.[4] In most cases the monarchs initially resisted this change, and there was a back-and-forth struggle between the monarch and the parliament. Monarchs here could also rely on the support of aristocrats who themselves had disproportionate political influence.

The third threshold was universal suffrage, normally first for men and then later for women. For men this was most commonly achieved in the first two decades of the twentieth century, and as noted in Chapter 4 this was also the relevant time period for women in Protestant or Protestant-dominated countries. Achieving this threshold often involved removing previous restrictions based on literacy, wealth, and so on. Literacy restrictions in Latin America were generally not removed until well after World War II.

These first three thresholds have been achieved in almost all current democracies. The fourth and fifth thresholds were more regional and certainly not accepted universally in terms of their arguments. The fourth threshold, then, was the achievement of proportional representation. This **electoral system** arose in Europe at the end of the nineteenth century, and its high water mark of adoption was in the 1910s and especially in 1919. At the time, it was generally

seen as a more democratic system, especially in parliamentary systems with "an increasingly large proportion of the population" now voting and political parties representing the interests of particular sections of the population, where consequently "[w]ith these developments it became a matter of increasing concern that the elected members of parliament and the parties they supported should fairly represent the various interests and opinions of the electorate."[5] That said, the traditionally governing parties may not have wanted to make such a change.[6] However, as Blais et al. point out, their willingness to oppose such a change was greater under a single-member plurality system, as in Canada, the United Kingdom, and the United States, than in a majority system, which was already multi-party and coalitional.[7] The only European countries that went directly from single-member plurality to party list proportional representation were Sweden and Denmark.[8] For its part, proportional representation has become the norm in Latin America (cf. Chapter 7), but it was adopted in the 1910s only in Argentina and Uruguay and later (often decades later) everywhere else in the region, even though the previous system was normally majoritarian. The change related more to if and when the dominant party felt it would become marginalized,[9] and less about **democratization**, especially given the lack of universal suffrage.

For those countries that did not adopt proportional representation, or more specifically proportional representation with national compensation seats, the issue of **malapportionment** (unequally sized districts) became a growing concern. Obviously, representation is less equal if differing voters have different weights to their votes because the number of seats in their respective constituencies is not proportional to their populations. In a single-member system where all constituencies have one member, this differentiation should be obvious. Consequently, one can argue that a "partial threshold" occurred when, controlling for the number of seats, equal-sized constituencies became a central criterion to be implemented ideally by non-partisan boundary commissions. This change occurred in 1944 in the United Kingdom but not until the 1960s in Canada and the United States – the key time period for this "partial threshold."

Often parallel chronologically to the adoption of proportional representation, the fifth threshold was the adoption of compulsory voting (more accurately, this is compulsory turnout, as one can still cast a blank or spoiled ballot). This began in certain Swiss cantons, and the first **state** to adopt it was Liechtenstein in 1878. However, the key period of adoption was from the 1890s to the 1930s starting with Belgium in 1893, as shown in Table 10.1. Again, this occurrence was largely a regional phenomenon in Europe and later Latin America. In Birch's analysis, compulsory voting tended to be adopted by established states with existing election laws and not new states – and those two regions were where the established states were found.[10] The adoption of compulsory voting partly related to the previous threshold of universal suffrage: In such a context, voting was seen as not a right but a duty. More crucially, though, compulsory voting was seen as central to democratic legitimacy: "mandatory electoral participation would guarantee the legitimacy of elections by ensuring that their results reflected the popular

Table 10.1 Compulsory Voting by Region

Country	Year Adopted	Introduction of PR?	If Abolished, Year	Notes
EUROPE				
Austria*	1929	Not applicable	1982	
Belgium	1893	Later		
Bulgaria	1919	Earlier	1938	
	2016	Earlier		No sanctions
Cyprus	1960	Later	2017	
Czechoslovakia	1920	At the same time	1948	
Greece	1926	At the same time		Sanctions not enforced from 2000
Hungary	1920	At the same time	1947	Under restricted suffrage
Italy	1945	Earlier	1993	
Liechtenstein	1878	Later	2004	
Luxembourg	1919	At the same time		
Netherlands	1917	At the same time	1967	
Spain	1907	Later	1936	
Turkey	1982	Earlier		
LATIN AMERICA				
Argentina	1912	At the same time		Sanctions not enforced
Bolivia	1924	Later		
Brazil	1932	At the same time		
Chile	1925	At the same time	2012	
Costa Rica	1936	Earlier		No sanctions
Cuba	1940	At the same time	1959	
Dominican Republic	1966	Earlier		No sanctions
Ecuador	1929	Later		Men only until 1968
El Salvador	1950	At the same time		No sanctions
Guatemala	1894	Earlier	1990	Men only until 1981
Honduras	1894	Later		No sanctions from 2004
Mexico	1917	Never		No sanctions
Nicaragua	1893	Later	1979	
Panama	1928	Later		No sanctions
Paraguay	1967	Earlier		Sanctions not enforced
Peru	1931	At the same time		Men only until 1955
Uruguay	1924	Earlier		
Venezuela	1958	Earlier	1993	
ASIA and OCEANIA				
Australia	1924	Never		
Fiji	1990	Later	2006	
Laos	1989	Never		
Nauru	1965	Never		
Singapore	1958	Never		
Thailand	1997	Never		Sanctions not enforced
MIDDLE EAST				
Egypt	1956	Never		Sanctions not enforced
Lebanon	1952	Never	1957	Men only; sanctions not enforced

* For presidential elections only.

Note: Not all countries were/are democracies.

will"[11] – an argument which, of course, is more convincing when combined with proportional representation. Of all the thresholds noted here, compulsory voting is the one threshold that in some cases has been seen as no longer necessary or perhaps counterproductive where it existed, and thus has been reversed (see Table 10.1).

Finally, the sixth threshold was the decision to lower the voting age ultimately to 18. In democracies this change mostly occurred in the 1970s. In fact, this level was established a century earlier in a few Latin American countries; that is, in the mid- to late nineteenth century (Colombia was the first in 1853).[12] Of course, that threshold was only for men and was combined with literacy and other requirements. Consequently, the first country to have a voting age of 18 for both men and women was Soviet Russia in 1918. And in some other places (e.g., Israel) this change to 18 years happened shortly after World War II. As such, this threshold was not met first in the established Western democracies, but they would meet it during the 1970s. In conjunction with the third threshold, one can also note that, historically, sometimes when voting rights were expanded to new groups the minimum age was raised to "compensate" for this expansion. This was common when universal male suffrage was introduced in the Nordic countries. And in Italy in 1912, when male suffrage was made universal, the voting age remained at 21 for literate men but was then set at 30 for illiterate men.[13]

POLITICAL THRESHOLDS IN LEADING ECONOMIES

Let's look at how these factors evolved in each of the Netherlands, the United Kingdom, the United States, Japan, and then China and India. These first three cases are chosen because, in chronological order, they have been the leading (most productive) economies since the late 1500s[14] and thus were not "constrained" by their level of socioeconomic development.[15] For its part, Japan became the most developed (wealthiest) Asian economy (outside of the Middle East) as of the late 1880s.[16] China and India are obviously the current rising economic powers.

In the case of the Netherlands, independence from Spain in 1581 produced the decentralized United Provinces, wherein political conflict was initially between the monarchy and the urban bourgeoisie. After the Napoleonic Wars, in 1815, the country became more centralized as the Kingdom of the Netherlands with a constitution, and parliament became bicameral. Critically, in 1848 the lower house (officially the "second chamber") became directly elected, and responsible government was granted in a constitutional revision, though conflict between the monarch and parliament would continue for a couple of decades. Mass suffrage of the *demos*, however, was opposed by the elites and was viewed not just negatively but as the populist (to use the contemporary concept) opposite to representative government.[17]

Various Dutch political parties were formed, but given the restricted suffrage the Liberals were the dominant political force. Pressure for universal (male) suffrage came from not just the Socialists but also the religious parties, especially the Catholics. The Liberals were

wary of granting universal suffrage as that would make them a small minority squeezed by the two-round majoritarian electoral system. All the religious parties also pushed for state-funded religious schools. In 1913 a major effort was made to resolve these issues, and a grand bargain would be achieved in the Pacification settlement of 1917. This settlement occurred during the context of World War I, in which the Netherlands was neutral but was certainly being pressured by the surrounding powers. The Pacification of 1917 thus established full state funding for denominational schools and made several political changes: Universal male suffrage was granted, provision was made for female suffrage (which was granted in 1919), voting or more specifically attendance at the polls was made compulsory, the electoral system was changed to proportional representation, and the wealth qualifications that had existed to serve in the upper house were removed.[18] (As noted above, compulsory voting would be abolished in 1967.) And as the proportional representation electoral system used the entire country as a single district, malapportionment would never be possible in the slightest way.

Thus one can see that most thresholds of representative democracy arose at two key junctures in the Netherlands, in 1848 and 1917. The one exception, a low voting age, came in many stages. In 1917 the voting age was still 25 years, then lowered to 23 years in 1946, 21 years in 1965, and finally 18 years in 1972. For its part, compulsory voting in the Netherlands was always controversial, with various attempts to abolish it, but this did not occur until the party system started to fragment in the late 1960s, with the assumption of the traditional parties that removing compulsory voting would lead to dissatisfied voters staying at home rather than voting for protest parties.

In contrast to the Netherlands, in the United Kingdom the thresholds of representative democracy did not arise so precisely; instead there was more of an evolution or the lack of achieving certain thresholds. Elections had always been direct in England and later Britain; there was never any representation by medieval chambers (there had been in Scotland). However, for centuries what was being represented was *territory* (counties and boroughs). Some boroughs were "rotten" or pocket boroughs, with only a few voters, and these voters were controlled by a local landlord. Thus the key change here was the First Reform Act, or formally the Representation of the People Act 1832. As its name suggests, henceforth it would be *people* who would be represented. All subsequent acts in the United Kingdom affecting elections have had the same name of Representation of the People with the specific year. Responsible government was established at roughly the same time, in that King William IV (1830–7) was the last monarch to dismiss a prime minister and appoint another contrary to the will of parliament, but the first prime minister (Melbourne) returned five months later after an election confirmed the majority for his Whigs. However, the subsequent change in royal behaviour reflected a convention, not a specific constitutional change as in the Netherlands (and the United Kingdom still has no single written constitution).

Yet in the mid-nineteenth century, as Carstairs stressed, "the votes themselves could scarcely be regarded as a true expression of the opinions of the electorate."[19] This was due

to the combination of large and growing malapportionment working against the ever more urban country, and bribery and intimidation of voters (who generally voted openly). In 1872 the secret ballot was introduced, and in 1883 the Corrupt and Illegal Practices Prevention Act was passed. Then in 1885 a major redistribution of seats occurred. Consequently, as Carstairs emphasized,

> [i]n many respects, the legislation of 1883 to 1885 marked a turning-point in the electoral history of the United Kingdom. After this, representation was placed on a much fairer basis, and the outcome of elections was much more a reflection of the will of the electorate, and much less the result of influence and manipulation by the powerful few. The boroughs and the southern counties were no longer grossly over-represented; the urban and industrial areas were no longer grossly under-represented; corruption in elections was at last brought under control; and the influence of landed magnates on the election of members was greatly reduced.[20]

For its part, universal suffrage in the United Kingdom was very much a multi-step process, with male suffrage extended in four separate reforms (1832, 1867, 1884, and 1918). Quite uniquely, female suffrage came in two reforms (1918 and 1928) so as to ensure that males were not a minority of voters in 1918. Plural voting for university graduates was not removed until 1948. Only in lowering the voting age to 18 in 1969 was the United Kingdom fairly typical. As for proportional representation and compulsory voting, these changes were certainly debated in the 1920s and 1930s when such changes were in vogue, but they did not happen, as the Liberals who had begun to support the single transferable vote were too weak in parliament.[21] There was a referendum in 2011 on introducing the alternative vote (the referendum being part of the coalition agreement between the Conservatives and the Liberal Democrats), but this change was voted down. In recent decades there has been some interest in compulsory voting in the context of turnout decline.

As for the United States, it achieved responsible government right from 1789 and its constitution. Direct elections have been another matter entirely. Suspicion of mass democracy, but also the desire of southern slave states to maximize their power, led to the president being elected indirectly via an electoral college – in which slaves counted toward southern populations (as three-fifths of a person) and with electors chosen by state legislatures. By 1832 all but one state (South Carolina) would switch to popular elections for these electors.[22] Even after the abolition of slavery, resistance to eliminating the electoral college continued in the south where, as noted below, the right to vote was limited.[23] Moreover, most states allocate their electors winner-take-all to the plurality candidate.[24] The consequence of such an electoral college of course is that only in the United States can one become president while losing the popular vote (as noted in Chapter 6). Likewise, the powerful US Senate was also initially chosen by state legislatures. Direct election of senators was first proposed in 1826, but this

would not become a major issue until the Progressive Era starting in the 1890s. During this time an increasing number of states switched to direct election (via state referenda), and in 1913 the Seventeenth Amendment to the Constitution made all senators elected by the people of their states. It was also during this reform period that female suffrage was granted, in 1920. However, universal suffrage came very late to the United States, not until the Voting Rights Act of 1965. Certainly, both citizenship and suffrage were extended to Black Americans after the Civil War. However, their ability to vote in the south was greatly impeded by violence and electoral fraud up through the 1880s. Though violence and fraud continued, more durable and legal were the various Jim Crow laws starting around 1890 to all but eliminate voting by Black Americans and collaterally poor whites: poll taxes, literacy tests, and other such restrictions. Political competition was also severely restricted by extreme malapportionment in state legislatures and the whites-only primary. Consequently, from the 1890s through the postwar period, the south was an autocratic enclave within the US federal system.[25] Overall, then, it is fair to conclude that the United States was less democratic in, say, 1910 than in 1870.

The United States lowered its voting age to 18 in 1971. One can also note that this final reform period of the 1960s and early 1970s was the last time electoral college abolishment was seriously debated, with such a measure passing the House of Representatives in 1968. In terms of the remaining thresholds, the United States has never shown much interest in either proportional representation or compulsory voting (although there was compulsory voting in some pre-independence colonies).

Finally, one should emphasize that the United States stands out from other longstanding democracies in two additional ways. First, it lacks any central election administration, with each state running federal elections leading to interstate variations in laws, ballots, and so on.[26] Second, it leaves the drawing of district boundaries for the lower house in the hands of each state. In most cases this means that the state legislature does this and in a very partisan way involving clear **gerrymandering** of these boundaries.[27] These are decentralized election practices that one would find in a **confederation**, not a modern federation.

Japan's thresholds, when achieved, came later than in Western nations but usually early for Asia. The Meiji Restoration of 1868 would lead to much social and political reform, including Japan's first constitution in 1889. That provided for Asia's first directly elected assembly, with the first elections being held in 1890. Responsible government in Japan would occur for the first time in 1918–22 and then again starting in 1924 (as in the United Kingdom by practice, not by any constitutional change), but this was not complete responsible government as in a liberal democracy as the emperor still had some say in policy and the armed forces were never under civilian control.[28] Indeed, this first democratic period would end in 1932 with the assassination of the prime minister by extremist elements in the military and the subsequent appointment of military figures as prime ministers (though competitive elections would still be held in 1936 and 1937). Responsible government would be restored after World War II, under US occupation. In Japan's first election of 1890 suffrage was limited, applying only to

males 25 and older who paid a certain tax level and met a residency requirement. The tax level was lowered in 1900 and again in 1919, but still suffrage was highly restricted in terms of our categories. Then in 1925 there was a jump to universal male suffrage. Female suffrage would not come until 1946.

Japan has never had a fully proportional electoral system. Initially elections were fought in single and some dual- and multi-member districts. Fears that a single (radical) party could someday win an outright majority led in 1900 to the adoption of the rare single-non-transferable-vote (SNTV) electoral system, a multi-member system in which voters only had one vote and the top x candidates each won a seat.[29] For the next couple of decades the **district magnitude** was large (prefecture-wide), and then in the early 1920s this was quite small. Finally, in 1925, at the time of introducing universal male suffrage, the district magnitude was fixed in the range of three to five, and the system became known in Japan as the "medium-size-election-district system." Again, this occurred shortly after the time when proportional representation became the norm in continental Europe. Compulsory voting was never seriously considered in Japan.[30]

The Liberal Democratic Party (LDP), the dominant political party of postwar Japan, would win multiple seats under the SNTV system, but smaller parties also could each win a seat with a sixth or so of the vote. Of course, unlike the smaller parties, the LDP ran multiple candidates in each district who had to fight each other for the one vote of each party supporter. This competition was seen as contributing to corruption and party factionalism, so after the LDP was finally defeated in 1993 a parallel system of both single-member plurality (SMP) and party list proportional representation seats was adopted in 1994. However, the traditional malapportionment in Japan basically remained as respect for local government boundaries continued to be a central criterion for redistricting parliamentary seats.[31] Finally, although the voting age in Japan was lowered from 25 to 20 in 1945, it was not lowered to 18 until recently – with 18 coming into effect in 2016 for elections and in 2018 for constitutional referenda.

China has not met, or at least maintained, most of these thresholds. The Xinhai Revolution of 1911 led to the establishment in 1912 of the Republic of China, thus ending two millennia of imperial rule. However, the revolution was more about achieving responsible government and accountability than competition per se. Indeed, the elections held in the republic, and the nature of campaigning for them (including bribery), led to frequent criticisms of having election campaigning at all.[32] In any case, the first elections in the republic, from 1912 to 1920, were all indirect ones for the House of Representatives, with voters picking electors who would pick the delegates. The Senate was chosen by the provincial assemblies (first elected in 1909), and both chambers together chose the president. Suffrage was minimal, with only wealthy, literate males voting. It was not until the 1948 legislative election, at which point the Nationalists still controlled much of China, that direct elections were finally held. The 1947 constitution granted universal suffrage for both men and women. That said, the government and half the legislators would flee to Taiwan in 1949.

Under the People's Republic there have never been any direct national elections in China. Elections are hierarchical and largely indirect, with bodies being chosen by the level below – so, for example, the National People's Congress is mostly elected by the provincial assemblies, but about a tenth are chosen by the armed forces. The lowest level of this hierarchy are the local People's Congresses, and in 1979 Deng Xiaoping effected an important change by making these local congresses directly elected.

In contrast to China, India has had regular direct national elections with universal suffrage starting with the 1951–2 general election. A key role has always been played by the independent Election Commission of India, established in 1950.[33] Likewise in 1950, universal suffrage was granted to both men and women. The voting age was lowered to 18 in 1988. Following from its experience under British rule, combined with the concern for an electoral system that would be understandable by illiterate voters, India adopted plurality voting – initially with mostly single-member but also some 90 multi-member districts, and after the 1950s only single-member districts.[34] There has been no serious political attempt to change the electoral system to proportional representation (only the communists support this change, and the many regional parties obviously oppose it), although in 2015 the Law Commission of India did propose adding a national tier of proportional seats to the current SMP ones.[35] Malapportionment is a particular and growing problem in India, not least because no redistribution of seats between states has occurred since 1972 as such redistribution has been twice suspended by constitutional amendment. Differing fertility rates across the states is certainly a causal factor here, as reapportionment was seen as punishing those states who did better in lowering their fertility rates and thus populations. (Redistribution of seats within each state does occur.)[36] Finally, there has not been serious consideration of compulsory voting in India; indeed, initially at independence this was argued to be inappropriate and problematic given India's high level of illiteracy.

THE EVOLUTION OF PARTICIPATION AND COMPETITION

In the previous chapter we measured transitions to democracy and thus waves in terms of achieving "moderately inclusive" **electoral democracy** so as to have a fixed, dichotomous measure across time. In this chapter we shall measure separately the evolution of suffrage (as noted in Chapter 4), but along a scale. This evolution will be contrasted primarily with the evolution of competition – these being the two standard dimensions of historical analysis of democracy[37] – and will be measured at various historical time periods, reflecting both long-term evolutions and geopolitical shifts. Responsible government will be a contextual variable.

Suffrage will specifically involve five categories in terms of the 18-and-above population with the right to vote: oligarchic (5 per cent or less); highly restricted (more than 5 per cent but no more than 20 per cent); moderately to mostly inclusive (more than 20 per cent but

less than 85 per cent); highly inclusive (at least 85 per cent but no more than 95 per cent); and fully or nearly fully inclusive (more than 95 per cent up to 100 per cent). Given demographics, to be in the top category of fully or nearly fully inclusive the voting age needs to be less than 20.[38] The highly inclusive category will thus have a voting age of 20 or more and/or some restrictions. The broad moderately to mostly inclusive category may not have female suffrage (this will be indicated) and/or will have denial of suffrage to certain ethnic minorities, restrictions based on literacy, or a very high voting age (24 and up). Highly restricted and oligarchic suffrage will usually exclude women, major ethnic groups, and/or most social classes. All of these classifications assume an equal vote, but where that was not the case due to chambers of plural voting, the classification will be adjusted to reflect the smallest share of the voting population that casts 50 per cent plus one of the votes. Finally, if national elections are simply not held – or had not been held for 20 years or more – then participation is effectively non-existent and the country is classified as such and placed in the lowest category of participation. As for competition, the four categories of competition consistent with closed autocracy, semi-open autocracy, electoral democracy, and liberal democracy are used (cf. Chapter 4).

As noted in the previous chapter, the first **wave of democratization** has its roots in the American and French revolutions. In 1792 France became a **republic**, joining San Marino, Switzerland, and the United States, though Switzerland was then a loose confederation. San Marino had no elections. Democracy in the sense of responsible government thus existed just in France (though this would last only very briefly there) and the United States, and indirectly in Switzerland. Monarchies were the norm in the world then, and no monarchy at this time had responsible government. Of the monarchies, Great Britain and Ireland also had national elections. None of the elections in France, the United States, or Great Britain and Ireland used a secret ballot. Suffrage was moderately inclusive in France, highly restricted in the United States, and oligarchic in Great Britain and Ireland. Competition was electorally democratic in the United States and much of France (but only semi-open in Paris),[39] and semi-open in Great Britain and Ireland (and the Dutch United Provinces).

In the United States, proto-parties of Federalists and Democratic-Republicans were being formed. There was still no effective competition for president in 1792 (George Washington was the only candidate again), but there was for vice-president. In any case, in nine of the fifteen states the state legislators chose the electoral college electors (and thus the election was doubly indirect). By 1796 the presidential election was contested and based on parties. That said, the 1800 election would see the incumbent Federalist President John Adams defeated by Thomas Jefferson of the Democratic-Republican Party. The resulting alternation of power in 1801 was the first such process anywhere due to an election, and both the election and the alternation of power were certainly quite divisive.[40] As for revolutionary France, the election to the National Convention (which had both executive and legislative powers) was indirect, and there were factions rather than political parties.

The French Revolution gave way to the era of Napoleon Bonaparte, and the Napoleonic Wars of 1803 to 1815 were a critical historical juncture that would redraw not just the map of Europe but ultimately that of the Americas, as the Spanish Empire would eventually lose most of its territories there. By the late 1830s the Central American Republic would fail, to be replaced by separate republics. Consequently, at the start of 1840 there were 40 sovereign states, leaving aside the smaller Italian and Germanic ones – that is, counting only the core states of the future Italy (Piedmont-Sardinia) and Germany (Prussia). As Table 10.2 shows, at the start of 1840 these 40 sovereign states were overwhelming autocratic. However, electoral democracy in a technical sense with limited suffrage did exist in the United Kingdom and the United States (so both are *italicized* in Table 10.2), albeit without a secret ballot and with practices of vote buying (election bribery not being illegal in the United Kingdom until 1854 and not effectively prevented until 1883). Newfoundland (as a colony), Norway, and Sweden also had democratically competitive elections but no responsible government yet.

In 1848 uprisings against absolute monarchy occurred across Europe. Though quick to spread,[41] these were generally unsuccessful in their full democratic goals, although responsible government was achieved in the Netherlands and nationally in Switzerland, and universal male suffrage was achieved in France and Switzerland. Direct elections replacing medieval chambers would also arise in Denmark and Piedmont (Italy). France would have a **democratic transition**, but this would end in 1851 with the *autogolpe* of Napoleon III.

In the 1860s and 1870s, Italy and Germany would unify and other countries would gain their independence. Overall, the first long wave of democratization would continue. Table 10.3 shows the 58 sovereign states as of the start of 1914, what would turn out to be the eve of World War I – and near the end of the long moderate phase of the first wave of democratization. At that point three countries – Australia, New Zealand, and Norway – stood out as the only countries with highly inclusive suffrage,[42] as they were the only three countries with female suffrage.[43] These three countries also had political competition consistent with a liberal democracy, and overall they were clearly mass democracies. Just as liberally competitive and also with responsible government, but less participatory, were Belgium, Canada, Denmark, France, the Netherlands, Switzerland, the United Kingdom, and the United States. Most of these regimes could have been called male democracies, although suffrage was also restricted by race in Canada and the United States, and there was plural voting in Belgium. These countries show the geographic origins of the first wave of democratization in Western Europe and its offshoots – all "cool water condition" countries. Moderate levels of suffrage also existed in most of the rest of Europe and much of Latin America, whereas suffrage was still oligarchic in Asia.

In several European countries suffrage levels and even competitiveness were comparable to that of the early democratizing states, but responsible government was still lacking. Germany was the classic case here, and as noted Austria also was such as of 1907. In Russia, though, the elections up through 1912 still involved curiae (chambers), and then an electoral college, so the

Table 10.2 Participation and Competition at the Start of 1840

		LEVEL OF PARTICIPATION				
		Non-Existent/ Oligarchic	Highly Restricted	Moderately to Mostly Inclusive	Highly Inclusive	Fully or Nearly Fully Inclusive
LEVEL OF COMPETITION (CONSISTENT WITH)	Liberal Democracy (*with responsible government*)					
	Electoral Democracy (*with responsible government*)		Norway *United Kingdom*	(Newfoundland*) Switzerland** *United States*		
	Semi-open Autocracy	Chile France Mexico Spain				
	Closed Autocracy (including monarchies with estate systems)	Argentina Austria Belgium Bolivia Brazil China Costa Rica Denmark Ecuador El Salvador Ethiopia Greece Guatemala Haiti Honduras Iran Japan Liechtenstein Nepal Nicaragua Peru Piedmont-Sardinia Portugal Prussia Russia San Marino Thailand Turkey Uruguay Venezuela	Colombia Netherlands Paraguay Sweden			

* As a colony.

** A confederacy without a central government directly responsible to the population, though the constituent governments were responsible to their respective populations.

suffrage was skewed and the elections were indirect. Indeed, the 1907 changes in Russia made the system even less representative by increasing the importance of the nobility curia mainly at the expense of the peasant curia.

World War I would lead to the breakup of the Austro-Hungarian, German, and Russian Empires, leading to various new states in Europe. Many of these new states began as democracies, and as noted in the previous chapter the first wave of democratization had an intense phase until 1922, but democracy would not last, with breakdowns occurring quickly in some countries and during the conjecture of the Great Depression in others. Consequently, by 1936 with the breakdown of democracy in Spain the first **reverse wave** bottomed out, with no further regime changes until 1944. Table 10.4 shows the 69 sovereign states at the end of 1936 (which included the three Baltic states).[44] At this time the Soviet Union and Uruguay are now in the highest category of suffrage, as suffrage was universal and the voting age was 18 in both countries. The number of countries with highly inclusive suffrage – all including female suffrage – is much higher than in 1914. Indeed, female suffrage also existed in several countries with moderately to mostly inclusive suffrage but suffrage was restricted due to a very high voting age (25 in Denmark, 24 in Finland), the voting age and ethnicity restrictions (Canada and the United States), literacy requirements (Brazil, Ecuador, and Portugal), as well as in highly restricted South Africa (suffrage only for European and Asian women).

What, though, of competition and responsible government? Whereas in 1914 there were 15 countries with competitive elections and responsible government (*italicized* in Table 10.3) out of 58 sovereign countries, in 1936 this number was 22 countries (*italicized* in Table 10.4) out of 69 – in fact, a larger share (going from roughly 26 per cent to 32 per cent). Thus one should note that although the reverse wave of 1923 to 1936 produced clearly fewer democracies than at the end of the first wave of democratization in 1922, there was still a greater share of democracies (in terms of competition and responsible government) than on the eve of World War I. This was due to smaller European countries that either introduced responsible government during or after World War I (neutral Sweden in 1917, Luxembourg in 1919, Liechtenstein in 1921) or became independent during or after World War I and remained democratic (Czechoslovakia, Finland, Iceland, Ireland), as well as the smaller Latin American cases of Costa Rica and Uruguay. World War I, but also the fear of communist revolution as in Russia, were central conjunctures here. Moreover, to repeat, the countries where democracy broke down in the reverse wave were almost all post–World War I democracies: Only San Marino was democratic in 1914, and it was of course surrounded by Fascist Italy.

After World War II, as noted in Chapter 1, there was the key expansion in the number of sovereign states. The initial postwar democratic push by the victorious allies (feeding into the second wave of democratization) would give way during the Cold War to democratic reversals, especially in Latin America. The last of these "anticommunist" breakdowns would be in Chile and Uruguay in 1973. Thereafter the third wave of democratization would begin. Table 10.5 thus notes the situation as of the start of 1974 for the then-149 sovereign states. By this point in

Table 10.3 Participation and Competition at the Start of 1914

		LEVEL OF PARTICIPATION				
		Non-Existent/ Oligarchic	Highly Restricted	Moderately to Mostly Inclusive	Highly Inclusive	Fully or Nearly Fully Inclusive
LEVEL OF COMPETITION (CONSISTENT WITH)	Liberal Democracy (*with responsible government*)		Sweden	*Belgium* *Canada* *Denmark* *France* Luxembourg Monaco *Netherlands* *Switzerland* *United Kingdom* *United States*	*Australia* *New Zealand* *Norway*	
	Electoral Democracy (*with responsible government*)	Japan	Hungary Russia *South Africa*	Austria *Chile* Germany Liechtenstein *Newfoundland* *San Marino* Serbia		
	Semi-open Autocracy	Liberia	Peru	Argentina Bulgaria Colombia Costa Rica Greece Italy Portugal Romania Spain Uruguay		
	Closed Autocracy	Albania China Ethiopia Guatemala Nepal Thailand	Bolivia Brazil Ecuador Iran Turkey	Cuba Dominican Republic El Salvador Haiti Honduras Mexico Nicaragua Panama Paraguay Venezuela		

Table 10.4 Participation and Competition at the End of 1936

		LEVEL OF PARTICIPATION				
		Non-Existent/ Oligarchic	Highly Restricted	Moderately to Mostly Inclusive	Highly Inclusive	Fully or Nearly Fully Inclusive
LEVEL OF COMPETITION (CONSISTENT WITH)	Liberal Democracy (*with responsible government*)			*Belgium* *Canada* *Denmark* *France* *Liechtenstein* Monaco *Switzerland* *United States*	*Australia* *Czechoslovakia* *Iceland* *Ireland* *Luxembourg* *Netherlands* *New Zealand* *Norway* *Sweden* *United Kingdom*	
	Electoral Democracy (*with responsible government*)		*South Africa*	*Chile* Colombia *Costa Rica* *Finland* Japan		*Uruguay*
	Semi-open Autocracy	Liberia		Argentina Ecuador Panama Peru	Cuba Hungary Spain Thailand	
	Closed Autocracy	China Ethiopia Nepal Saudi Arabia	Bolivia Guatemala Iraq	Afghanistan Albania Brazil Bulgaria Dominican Republic Egypt El Salvador Greece Haiti Honduras Iran Italy Mexico Nicaragua Paraguay Portugal Romania San Marino Venezuela Yugoslavia	Austria Estonia Germany Latvia Lithuania Mongolia Poland Turkey	Soviet Union

Table 10.5 Participation and Competition at the Start of 1974

		LEVEL OF PARTICIPATION				
		Non-Existent/ Oligarchic	Highly Restricted	Moderately to Mostly Inclusive	Highly Inclusive	Fully or Nearly Fully Inclusive
LEVEL OF COMPETITION (CONSISTENT WITH)	Liberal Democracy (*with responsible government*)			*Liechtenstein*	*Bahamas* *Belgium* *Botswana* *Costa Rica* *Denmark* *France* *Iceland* *Italy* *Japan* *Luxembourg* *Mauritius* *Nauru* *Netherlands* *New Zealand* *Norway* *San Marino* *Switzerland*	*Australia* *Austria* *Barbados* *Canada* *Finland* *Germany, West* *Ireland* *Israel* Monaco *Sweden* *United Kingdom* *United States*
	Electoral Democracy (*with responsible government*)		*South Africa*		*Fiji* *Gambia* *Grenada* *India* *Jamaica* *Lebanon* *Malta* *Pakistan* *Trinidad and Tobago*	*Cyprus* *Sri Lanka* *Venezuela*
	Semi-open Autocracy		Samoa	Peru	Bangladesh Burkina Faso Cambodia Colombia Korea, South Liberia Madagascar Malaysia Nicaragua Panama Singapore Thailand Tonga Turkey	Dominican Republic El Salvador Guatemala Guyana Honduras Mexico Paraguay Vietnam, South
	Closed Autocracy	Brunei China	Kuwait	Bahrain Bhutan	Afghanistan Algeria	Albania Argentina

(*Continued*)

Table 10.5 (Continued)

		LEVEL OF PARTICIPATION				
		Non-Existent/ Oligarchic	Highly Restricted	Moderately to Mostly Inclusive	Highly Inclusive	Fully or Nearly Fully Inclusive
LEVEL OF COMPETITION (CONSISTENT WITH)	Closed Autocracy	Oman Qatar Saudi Arabia United Arab Emirates		Brazil Central African Republic Ecuador Guinea-Bissau Iraq Jordan Laos Nigeria Portugal Yemen, North	Benin Burundi Cameroon Congo, R Cuba Ethiopia Gabon Ghana Greece Guinea Indonesia Iran Ivory Coast Kenya Korea, North Lesotho Libya Malawi Maldives Mali Mauritania Morocco Nepal Niger Senegal Sierra Leone Somalia Spain Taiwan Tanzania Togo Tunisia	Bolivia Bulgaria Burma Chad Chile Congo, DR Czechoslovakia Egypt Equatorial Guinea Germany, East Haiti Hungary Mongolia Philippines Poland Romania Rwanda Soviet Union Sudan Swaziland Syria Uganda Uruguay Vietnam, North Yemen, South Yugoslavia Zambia

time suffrage is highly inclusive or fully or nearly fully inclusive in the vast majority of countries. The difference between these two groups essentially was that the countries in the latter had lowered their voting age to 18 or 19. Of the countries with national elections, however, several still did not have female suffrage – Bahrain, the Central African Republic, Guinea-Bissau, Jordan, Kuwait, Liechtenstein, Nigeria (in the north), and Samoa. A few other countries still denied suffrage to those who were illiterate. Overall, although by this point in time there were

Table 10.6 Participation and Competition at the End of 1994

		LEVEL OF PARTICIPATION					
		Non-Existent/ Oligarchic	Highly Restricted	Moderately to Mostly Inclusive	Highly Inclusive	Fully or Nearly Fully Inclusive	
LEVEL OF COMPETITION (CONSISTENT WITH)	Liberal Democracy (*with responsible government*)			*Estonia* *Latvia*	*Liechtenstein* *Japan* *Nauru*	*Andorra* *Australia* *Austria* *Bahamas* *Barbados* *Belgium* *Belize* *Canada* *Chile* *Costa Rica* *Cyprus* *Czech Republic* *Denmark* *Dominica* *Finland* *France* *Germany* *Greece* *Hungary* *Iceland* *Ireland* *Italy* *Kiribati* *Lithuania* *Luxembourg* *Malta* *Marshall Islands*	*Mauritius* *Micronesia* Monaco *Nauru* *Netherlands* *New Zealand* *Norway* *Palau* *Poland* *Portugal* *Saint Kitts and Nevis* *Saint Lucia* *Saint Vincent and the Grenadines* *San Marino* *Slovakia* *Slovenia* *South Africa* *Spain* *Sweden* *Switzerland* *Trinidad and Tobago* *Tuvalu* *United Kingdom* *United States* *Uruguay* *Vanuatu*
	Electoral Democracy (*with responsible government*)				*Bangladesh* *Benin* *Botswana* *Cape Verde* *Colombia* *Grenada* *Korea, South* *Lesotho*	*Albania* *Argentina* *Belarus* *Bolivia* Bosnia-Herzegovina *Brazil* *Dominican Republic* *Ecuador*	*Macedonia* *Moldova* *Mongolia* *Mozambique* *Namibia* *Nicaragua* *Papua New Guinea* *Paraguay*

(*Continued*)

Table 10.6 (Continued)

	LEVEL OF PARTICIPATION					
	Non-Existent/ Oligarchic	Highly Restricted	Moderately to Mostly Inclusive	Highly Inclusive	Fully or Nearly Fully Inclusive	
				Madagascar	*El Salvador*	*Peru*
				Mali	*Georgia*	*Philippines*
				Morocco	*Guatemala*	*Russia*
				Niger	*Guinea-Bissau*	*São Tomé and Príncipe*
				Pakistan	*Guyana*	*Sri Lanka*
				Solomon Islands	*Honduras*	*Suriname*
				Taiwan	*India*	*Turkey*
				Thailand	Iran	*Ukraine*
				Yemen	*Israel*	*Venezuela*
					Jamaica	*Zambia*
Semi-open Autocracy				Antigua and Barbada	Armenia	
				Burkina Faso	Azerbaijan	
				Cambodia	Comoros	
				Cameroon	Djibouti	
				Croatia	Equatorial Guinea	
				Ethiopia	Haiti	
				Fiji	Kazakhstan	
				Gambia	Kenya	
				Ghana	Kyrgyzstan	
				Jordan	Liberia	
				Lebanon	Mexico	
				Malaysia	Nigeria	
				Samoa	Romania	
				Senegal	Seychelles	
				Singapore	Tanzania	
				Tonga	Togo	
Closed Autocracy	Brunei	Kuwait	Bahrain*	Afghanistan	Burma	
	China		Bhutan	Algeria	Chad	
	Libya			Angola	Congo, DR	
	Oman			Burundi	Congo, R	
	Qatar*			Central African Republic	Cuba	
	Saudi Arabia*				Egypt	
	United Arab Emirates*			Gabon	Eritrea	
				Guinea	Iraq	

	LEVEL OF PARTICIPATION				
	Non-Existent/ Oligarchic	Highly Restricted	Moderately to Mostly Inclusive	Highly Inclusive	Fully or Nearly Fully Inclusive
				Ivory Coast	Korea, North
				Laos	Rwanda
				Malawi	Serbia
				Maldives	Sudan
				Mauritania	Swaziland
				Nepal	Tajikistan
				Sierra Leone	Turkmenistan
				Somalia	Uganda
				Syria	Uzbekistan
				Tunisia	Vietnam
					Zimbabwe

* Still no female suffrage.

a couple dozen unqualified liberal democracies, there were still well more than twice as many autocracies and oligarchies (108) than democracies (41) in the world. Indeed, there were considerably more closed autocracies than democracies in the world. Closed autocracies were the norm in Africa and the Middle East. Latin American countries were more likely to be semi-open autocracies than closed autocracies, though.

As noted in the previous chapter, the really intense phase of the third wave would begin in 1990, as a consequence of the ending of communism in Eastern Europe. This would also facilitate democratization in Africa in some of what had been nationalistic one-party regimes, as well as the racial oligarchy of South Africa (as previously whites had feared that Black majority rule would also be communist rule). Consequently, the final historical snapshot here is Table 10.6 for the 191 sovereign states as of the end of 1994, at the end of this intense phase of democratization. By this point suffrage was almost everywhere at least highly inclusive, though still not for women in four countries in the Middle East, nor for most of the ethnic Russians left in newly independent Estonia and Latvia. Of the then-sovereign states, no less than 108 were electoral democracies with responsible government. Moreover, that group included several large (by population) countries that would not remain democratic – Bangladesh, Pakistan, Russia, Thailand, and Turkey. Conversely, the autocracies included several countries in Asia and the Middle East that still did not have national elections at all – Bhutan, Brunei, Libya, Qatar, Saudi Arabia, and the United Arab Emirates. In China, elections remained indirect – as they are still today.

NOTES

1 The United Arab Emirates has an electoral college, but this reflects limited suffrage (though this has increased steadily since its first election in 2006, and now about one-half of adult citizens are

members) rather than indirect elections. Elections are also only for one-half the seats in the Federal National Council; the other half are appointed.

2 Przeworski, *Why Bother with Elections?* 38.

3 Drake, *Between Tyranny and Anarchy*, 146–7.

4 Przeworski, Asadurian, and Bohlken, "The Origins of Parliamentary Responsibility," 101–37.

5 Carstairs, *A Short History of Electoral Systems in Western Europe*, 9, as cited in Blais, Dobrzynska, and Indridason, "To Adopt or Not to Adopt Proportional Representation," 182.

6 Indeed, Amel Ahmed argues that the shift to proportional representation only occurred when it was necessary to prevent an ideologically radical workers' party winning a manufactured majority under plurality voting, and was resisted where it would strengthen such a party more than would single-member plurality (that is, changing to single-member plurality from multi-member plurality). Ahmed, *Democracy and the Politics of Electoral System Choice*, 22–9, 15–19.

7 Blais et al., "To Adopt or Not to Adopt Proportional Representation."

8 Blais et al., "To Adopt or Not to Adopt Proportional Representation," 183.

9 Wills-Otero, "Electoral Systems in Latin America."

10 Birch, *Full Participation*, 27, 38.

11 Birch, *Full Participation*, 29, citing Pilet, "Comprendre les positions sur le vote obligatoire en Belgique," 5.

12 Drake, *Between Tyranny and Anarchy*, 44.

13 Beckman, "Democratization and Inclusion," 168. (Today the voting age is still 25 for the Italian Senate, which as noted in Chapter 6 is strongly bicameral).

14 Maddison, *Dynamic Forces in Capitalist Development*, Chapter 2.

15 The Netherlands led until the Napoleonic Wars, and then the British led until around 1890. Maddison, *Dynamic Forces in Capitalist Development*, 30.

16 Maddison Project Database, version 2018, http://www.ggdc.net/maddison/maddison-project/home.htm; Bolt, Inklaar, de Jong, and van Zanden, "Rebasing 'Maddison.'"

17 te Velde, "The Emergence of the Netherlands as a 'Democratic' Country," 165.

18 Gladdish, *Governing from the Centre*, 25.

19 Carstairs, *A Short History of Electoral Systems in Western Europe*, 190.

20 Carstairs, *A Short History of Electoral Systems in Western Europe*, 189–90.

21 Hart, *Proportional Representation*; Birch, *Full Participation*.

22 South Carolina would not have a popular vote for president until after the Civil War. Moreover, in 1876 there was no popular vote in the new state of Colorado, and its three electoral votes (cast by the state legislature) were decisive in Hayes' 185 to 184 electoral college victory. See Holt, *By One Vote*, 32.

23 Keyssar, *Why Do We Still Have the Electoral College?*

24 In contrast, in Argentina the electors were allocated proportionally in each state.

25 Gibson, *Boundary Control*.

26 Blais, "Evaluating U.S. Electoral Institutions in Comparative Perspective," 17–18.

27 Handley, "Electoral Systems and Redistricting," 516.

28 Takenaka, *Failed Democratization in Prewar Japan*.

29 Woodall, "The Politics of Reform in Japan's Lower House Electoral System," 26.

30 Curtis, *The Logic of Japanese Politics*, 140.

31 Moriwaki, "The Politics of Redistricting in Japan."

32 Hill, *Voting as a Rite*.

33 Singh and Roy, *Election Commission of India*.
34 Diwakar, "The Workings of the Single Member Plurality Electoral System in India," 143.
35 Diwakar, "The Workings of the Single Member Plurality Electoral System in India," 157, 159.
36 Vaishnav and Hintson, "India's Emerging Crisis of Representation."
37 Coppedge, Alvarez, and Maldonado, "Two Persistent Dimensions of Democracy." These dimensions go back to Dahl, *Polyarchy*.
38 The voting age now in 2021 is still 20 or more in several countries: 20 in Bahrain, Cameroon, Nauru, and Taiwan; 21 in Kuwait, Oman, Samoa, Singapore, and Tonga; and 25 in the United Arab Emirates.
39 On elections in France in this period see Crook, *Elections in the French Revolution*; and Edelstein, *The French Revolution and the Birth of Electoral Democracy*.
40 Przeworski, "Acquiring the Habit of Changing Governments through Elections," 110.
41 Weyland, *Making Waves*.
42 Suffrage in Australia was restricted by race, though.
43 Finland also had female suffrage within the Russian Empire.
44 Newfoundland is treated as giving back its sovereignty to the United Kingdom in 1934.

This page intentionally left blank

Glossary

Authoritarian Regime In effect, this is a residual category of **autocracy** defined largely in a negative way: An authoritarian regime is an autocratic regime that lacks the ideology and mass mobilization found in a **totalitarian regime** and that also lacks the broad arbitrariness of a **sultanistic regime**.

Autocracy Literally, absolute rule by one individual, the autocrat, but more generally, rule by an individual or group that is effectively unaccountable to the population. Autocracy is thus the opposite of **democracy**.

Bureaucracy In the Weberian sense, a system of government administration based on a rational hierarchy of authority and employing full-time civil servants who are hired and promoted based on training and experience and by formal contracts. These bureaucrats have defined rights and duties and fixed salaries, and they are expected to serve the public neutrally and without using their positions for direct personal gain.

Civilian Supremacy The ability of a civilian government to conduct general policy without interference from the military; to define the goals, size, resources, and general organization of the military; to formulate and conduct defence policy knowledgeably; and to monitor effectively the implementation of said defence policy. This category of civil–military relations is the most democratic because civilians have the most control over the military.

Clientelism An informal power relationship between unequals in which a higher status "patron" provides benefits to a client or clients. These clients in turn reciprocate by providing the patron with support, including voting for the patron or for a third party of the patron's wishes.

Collapsed State A **state** in which the state authority has totally disintegrated to be replaced by anarchy, multi-actor civil war, or fragmentation into various autonomous regional areas.

Competitive Oligarchy A **political regime** with responsible government and competitive elections but with 20 per cent or less of the 18-and-above population eligible to vote.

Confederation A group of sovereign entities forming a common government for specific and limited purposes. **Sovereignty** remains with the constituent governments, which make all key decisions. The common government requires unanimity among the constituent governments, does not directly act upon the population, and leaves matters of implementation to the constituent governments.

Consociational Democracy A political system found in certain heterogeneous democracies that is based on power-sharing – especially in terms of broad coalition cabinets that include most if not all of the key groups – as opposed to pure majoritarianism.

Correlation The measure or extent of a statistical relationship between two variables. The value here is indicated by the Pearson correlation coefficient, or Pearson's r ($r =$), which ranges from –1 (perfect negative correlation) to 1 (perfect positive correlation).

Critical Mass A sufficiently large minority group. Critical mass theory suggests that there will be a qualitative change in the nature of collective group behaviour and within-group interactions only when the minority group reaches such a critical mass, perceived to be around 30 per cent of the whole.

De Facto State A **state** with effective internal control, control over its borders, and domestic legitimacy but lacking international recognition.

De Jure State A **state** that is recognized as a state by the international community but is so weak or illegitimate that it cannot actually control most of its own people or its borders.

Democracy A **political regime** that involves, at a minimum, the competition of political elites for public support and the accountability of elected politicians to the voters. Within these broad parameters, there are key differences between **liberal democracy** and **electoral democracy**.

Democratic Breakdown The collapse of a **democracy**. More formally, this means the change from a democracy to an **autocracy**; thus, it is the opposite of a **democratic transition**.

Democratic Consolidation Broad support for a democratic regime, involving law abidingness, partisan behaviour consistent with **democracy**, and broadly held democratic values and beliefs.

Democratic Deconsolidation The loss of support for both a democratic regime and the general legitimacy of **democracy**, involving increased lawlessness, undemocratic partisan behaviour, and an increase in antidemocratic values and beliefs.

Democratic Re-equilibration A political process that, after a crisis involving the paralysis and delegitimation of national democratic institutions and a temporary breakdown of the authority of the regime, results in their continued existence or speedy re-creation at the same or higher levels of democratic legitimacy, efficacy, and effectiveness. A central role here is normally played by a charismatic national leader, who may come to power through undemocratic means but thereafter governs democratically.

Democratic Transition/Democratization The process of changing from an **autocracy** to a **democracy** or, more precisely, changing from an autocracy to at least an **electoral democracy**. The key step here is the holding of free and fair elections to select the government, under the qualification that **responsible government** also exists in the **state** – in other words, that elected national politicians are the ones in control of a sovereign state.

Dissolution The breakup of a sovereign state into its component parts, each of which becomes a new sovereign state, with the previously existing **state** ceasing to exist.

District Magnitude The number of seats to be filled in (or members to be elected from) an electoral district or constituency. For example, for the Canadian House of Commons, the district magnitude has been one everywhere for some decades now.

Dummy Variable A variable used for the categorical presence (value = 1) or absence (value = 0) of a factor in a regression analysis.

Earned Majority An election outcome in which a party wins a majority of seats based on its winning a majority of the popular vote (even if its vote percentage is still less than its seat percentage). This outcome is contrasted with a **manufactured majority**.

Effective State A **state** that controls its national territory and borders and that has sufficient tax-raising capacity, bureaucratic autonomy and competence, domestic penetration, and broad legitimacy to ensure that national laws and policies are actually in effect throughout the country.

Electoral Authoritarianism Authoritarianism based on a ruling party or president that does not allow free and fair elections but that derives authority from election victories (indeed claiming that these are free and fair). Elections are held regularly, and some opposition parties or candidates are allowed on the ballot so as to maintain a pretense of competition. If this regime is based on a president, sometimes referenda (again, not free and fair) are used to extend the president's term or at least the term limits.

Electoral College A group of people chosen by elections or by virtue of their office whose task is to select a president. This group performs no other subsequent function, so it is unlike the legislature that, in various parliamentary systems, selects the president – in other words, the country's head of state.

Electoral Democracy A **political regime** that contains the following three elements (sufficiently although perhaps not perfectly) – **responsible government**, free and fair political competition, and full and equal rights of political participation – but that is deficient in terms of civil liberties or a legally based, limited, but well-functioning state.

Electoral System The process used for voting (e.g., the ballot structure) and then for translating votes into seats in the context of an election, thereby determining the partisan composition of the legislature but not specifically the government.

Factor Analysis A statistical technique that reduces a larger number of potentially related variables into a smaller number of factors, even just one, with a common score for the set of variables. Principle component analysis is the most common method of factor analysis.

Federalism A political system with a central government and constitutionally entrenched regional governments with similarly entrenched powers, as well as some role in national politics. Domestic **sovereignty** is thus shared between the two levels, but only the central government exercises international sovereignty.

Flawed State A **state** lacking some combination of tax-raising capacity, bureaucratic autonomy and competence, domestic penetration, and broad legitimacy, thus rendering it less effective and usually unable to produce successful national policies.

Formateur A politician designated to try to form a government and thus, if operating within a parliamentary system, given the opportunity to become prime minister if successful.

Gerrymandering The deliberate drawing of constituency borders to favour one party in terms of maximizing its total overall seats.

Human Development Index (HDI) A measure of the United Nations that combines three factors: (1) life expectancy, (2) years of schooling, and (3) per capita income, which is corrected for variations in purchasing power and is adjusted by being logged. These combined factors lead to a standardized score in which a higher value indicates a higher level of development.

Hung Parliament A parliament in which no one party has a majority of the seats. A hung parliament is parallel to a "hung jury" because of both its lack of decisiveness and the inconclusiveness that results. Often this situation is called a minority government, but a minority government is only one possible outcome of a hung parliament – even if it is the "normal" one in Canada. Alternatively, for example, two or more parties can get together in a hung parliament to form a majority coalition government.

Index of Disproportionality As used in this analysis, a mathematical index that sums the absolute value of each party's vote share (percentage) to seat share difference and then divides this total by two to get a value between 0 and 100. The higher the number, the greater the disproportionality.

Informateur In a multi-party democratic monarchy, a person who, after consulting with the various political parties, advises the head of state on who has the best chance of forming a government and thus being designated **formateur**. The informateur is normally a senior politician, perhaps retired, who can provide an objective assessment of the political situation.

Liberal Democracy A **political regime** that combines the following five elements: **responsible government**, free and fair political competition, full and equal rights of political participation, civil liberties, and a legally based, limited, but well-functioning state.

Malapportionment Having, or indeed creating, constituencies with significant differences in population/number of voters per seat, which thus favours parties stronger in less populated areas.

Manufactured Majority An election outcome in which a party wins a majority of seats despite winning a minority of the popular vote, the majority of seats thus being "manufactured" by the **electoral system**. This outcome is contrasted with an **earned majority**. The manufactured majority may even be won by the party second in popular votes; this reversal of vote and seat finish is called a "spurious majority."

Military Authoritarianism Authoritarianism based on an autonomous military running the country either outright or indirectly.

Moderately Inclusive Electoral Democracy (MIED) A **political regime** with **responsible government**, competitive elections, and more than 20 per cent of the 18-and-above population eligible to vote – but without the universal suffrage of an unqualified **electoral democracy**.

Multiple Regression A statistical process to estimate the relationship between a dependent variable and independent variables. The outcome here is given by r^2, which indicates how much of the variation in the dependent variable is explained by the independent variables. Adjusted r^2 adjusts for the (increasing) number of independent variables. (Where there is only one independent variable this would be a bivariate regression.)

Nationalist One-Party Authoritarianism Authoritarianism common in Cold War Africa in which the ruling power is the only legal party, though this party may not be that well institutionalized.

Parliamentary System A political system with a dual executive and with the head of government (and the government generally) accountable to the legislature, not least because of the possibility of a motion of non-confidence.

Party System A durable relationship among the various political parties in a territory in terms of their total number (fragmentation), relative size, competitiveness, polarization, and/or institutionalization.

Pearson Chi-Square A statistical test to determine whether or not there is a relationship between variables that are categorical, that is, each having a limited number of fixed categories. The combinations of the variables are shown in a two-dimensional table.

Political Culture The attitudes, values, and beliefs that individuals have with respect to their **political regime** or system and the ways it allocates power and resolves political conflicts.

Political Development The achievement, where this does not exist, of national autonomy, political order, **political institutionalization**, and possibly also **democracy**.

Political Institutionalization The process by which political organizations (e.g., executives, legislatures, and judiciaries, but also political parties) and political procedures become complex (with formal internal structures and hierarchies), adaptable, coherent, stable, and autonomous from other institutions.

Political Regime The method or system of government, including both formal and informal structures of the **state**, governmental roles and processes, and the method of selection of these. A political regime is broader than the government of the day.

Power Resources A term developed by Tatu Vanhanen referring to the economic, intellectual, and organizational resources that an individual or group can bring to bear in the struggle for political power. The deconcentration (wide diffusion) of these resources facilitates **democracy**; the concentration of these resources works against democracy.

Presidential System A political system with a single executive, chosen by the voters (perhaps indirectly via an **electoral college**) and not accountable to the legislature.

Rechtsstaat A "state subject to law." The law thus protects the citizens against the power of the state, specifically the abuse (i.e., arbitrary use) of this power by the police or other state actors.

Republic In the modern sense, the opposite of monarchy; that is, a regime in which the head of state is not a hereditary monarch.

Responsible Government Not only a government that is responsible to the people in the sense of accountability "downwards" (at least by way of elections), but also a government that is *only* responsible to the people and not to a monarch or military that may be "pulling the strings," either openly or secretly.

Reverse Wave (of Democratization) Within a specified period of time, a significant number of transitions in an autocratic (non-democratic) direction that outnumber **democratic transitions** during that period of time. One could call this a "wave of autocratization" if that were a word.

Secession The creation of a new **state** on territory that had been part of an existing **state**, which continues to exist within its remaining territory.

Significance Level The probability of rejecting the null hypothesis (that there is no real-world relationship) when it is in fact true. The lower the significance level (which ranges from 1 down to 0), the lower the probability of this incorrect conclusion, and thus the more certain it is that a relationship exists. A significance level of 0.05 or less is normally needed to indicate a statistical relationship.

Sovereignty The sense of a **state** being the highest authority in a territory and exercising this authority with respect to its domestic population, its borders, and its interactions with other states. Sovereignty also has the connotation of its possessors enjoying a monopoly on the legitimate use of force within a territory.

Standardized Variable A variable that is transformed (rescaled) from its actual values to have a mean of zero and a standard deviation of one. This is done to standardize the variance across different variables that will be combined into a standardized value and prior to using the new variable in further statistical analysis (if intended).

State A political entity defined in two different ways: (1) a sovereign power effectively ruling over the population within a fixed territory; and (2) the organizationally differentiated political, bureaucratic, legal, and usually military system of a country. The first usage is "a state"; the second is "the state."

Strong Bicameralism Having two legislative chambers in which the upper house truly matters because (1) both houses are equal or relatively equal in terms of legislative powers, (2) the upper house has the legitimacy to use its powers, and (3) the upper house is composed or elected in a different way from the lower house.

Sultanistic Regime An autocratic regime that is built around an individual and their family, which, to a greater or lesser extent, plunder the country; that glorifies this leader; that exercises control by fear, terror, and spreading paranoia; and that lacks any effective legitimacy. An alternative term here is "personalistic regime."

***t*-Test** A statistical test to determine whether or not there is a significant difference between the means of two groups. Two-tailed (as opposed to one-tailed) here means no assumption of which mean should be the larger or smaller mean, thus being a higher bar for statistical significance.

Temperate-Zone Established Autocentric-Development State A state that (1) has a high latitude of its centre of population; (2) has a high cool water index value; (3) achieved early independence (before 1930); and (4) was able to begin successful autocentric development in the nineteenth century.

Theocratic Authoritarianism Authoritarianism in which the ruling power is a religious leader or elite.

Totalitarian Regime An autocratic regime having (1) a ruling party, (2) an official and genuine ideology, and (3) an active mobilization of the population into supporting the regime, including membership in various regime-sponsored organizations.

Traditional Authoritarianism Authoritarianism in which the ruling power is a monarch.

Typology An organized system of types that is both (1) comprehensive (or collectively exhaustive) in that every case can be classified into a type and (2) mutually exclusive in that each type differs from the other types so that a case can only be classified into one type.

Vote of Investiture A formal vote by the parliament on a would-be prime minister and, sometimes, a proposed cabinet – a vote that must be won for those proposed to take office or remain in office after an election. Such a procedure makes the system one of positive parliamentarianism because actual parliamentary endorsement of the government is required; negative parliamentarianism requires no such formal vote.

Wave of Democratization Within a specified period of time, a significant number of transitions from autocratic to democratic regimes that outnumber transitions in the opposite direction (**democratic breakdowns**) during that period of time. A wave of democratization also usually involves political liberalization in some autocratic political systems that nevertheless remain autocratic.

Weak State A state lacking control over some or even much of its national territory or borders, having parts of the country clearly outside of effective state control, and experiencing frequent predatory behaviour by state elites, thus rendering the state unable to impose national policies throughout the country and produce effective national development.

Westminster Model Based on the British political system, the concentration of power in a democratic parliamentary regime so that a single-party executive (prime minister and cabinet), as opposed to a coalition, governs with broad freedom and no or minimal checks and balances between elections.

Recommended Sources for Further Research

Web References

The United Nations' annual *Human Development Report* is available online: https://hdr.undp.org/en/global-reports

New York–based Freedom House's annual *Freedom in the World* is the most-cited international survey of political rights and civil liberties: http://www.freedomhouse.org/reports

It also publishes a separate, more detailed yearly analysis of post-communist countries called *Nations in Transit* and annual surveys on *Freedom and the Media* and *Freedom on the Net*.

The Electoral Integrity Project, founded in 2012, assesses electoral integrity around the world and provides Perceptions of Electoral Integrity data sets: https://www.electoralintegrityproject.com

The Organization for Security and Co-operation in Europe has an Office for Democratic Institutions and Human Rights (OSCE/ODIHR) that provides documents on international standards of elections as well as field reports on elections observed by the ODIHR in Europe, Central Asia, and the United States: http://www.osce.org/odihr

The Stockholm-based International IDEA (International Institute for Democracy and Electoral Assistance) is an intergovernmental organization working to strengthen and safeguard democracy and democratic institutions. It contains both databases (e.g., on direct democracy and voter turnout) and tools (e.g., scoring electoral systems based on set priorities): https://www.idea.int. Its constitution-building program has a ConstitutionNet website, which provides a wide range of information on constitutional changes and discussions in all countries: http://www.constitutionnet.org

The Berlin-based Transparency International annually publishes its *Corruption Perceptions Index*, as well as a *Global Corruption Report*: https://www.transparency.org/research

The Bertelsmann Transformation Index (BTI) assesses political and economic transformations (toward liberal democracy and capitalism) in developing and post-communist countries and sustainable governance in OECD and EU countries: https://bti-project.org (website and index available in German and English)

The World Bank measures six dimensions of good governance for the countries of the world: see the website *Worldwide Governance Indicators*, http://info.worldbank.org/governance/wgi

Chronological lists of national and subnational leaders can be found at the *Rulers* website edited by B. Schemmel: http://www.rulers.org

For election results, the traditional reference site *Elections around the World*, edited by Wilfried Derksen of the Netherlands, has been assumed by *Wikipedia*; see their "Elections by Country" page: http://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/Elections_by_country

A comprehensive site of international electoral information and election statistics is available from Australia, namely, *Psephos: Adam Carr's Election Archive*: http://psephos.adam-carr.net

The Geneva-based Inter-Parliamentary Union also provides the most recent national election results for almost every country and with (usually) a couple of paragraphs of commentary: see the PARLINE database on national parliaments at https://data.ipu.org

For elections in Europe, including those in major subnational territories, the *Parties and Elections in Europe* website is quite thorough and gives the ideology, transnational affiliation, and founding dates for all parties winning seats, as well as an archive of historical election results for each country: http://www.parties-and-elections.eu

Finally, the International Foundation for Election Systems in Washington, DC, in conjunction with the Consortium for Elections and Political Process Strengthening (CEPPS), has a very thorough global *Election Guide* for background information: http://www.electionguide.org

Academic Journals

The *Journal of Democracy* publishes short, highly informative articles that are up to date as these things go (http://www.journalofdemocracy.org).

Electoral Studies includes detailed analyses of elections in most major and many other countries, but certainly not in all countries (https://www.journals.elsevier.com/electoral-studies).

Chronological References

By far, the most thorough chronology is the ongoing monthly *Keesing's Record of World Events*, which has been published since 1931 (http://www.keesings.com).

Also useful is the six-volume, regionally based *Political Chronologies of the World*, published in 2001 by Europa Publications. Europa also publishes the comprehensive *Europa World Year Book* (previously the *Europa Year Book*), which goes back to 1959.

Bibliography

Agüero, Felipe. *Soldiers, Civilians, and Democracy: Post-Franco Spain in Comparative Perspective*. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995.

Ahmed, Amel. *Democracy and the Politics of Electoral System Choice: Engineering Electoral Dominance*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 2013.

Alagappa, Muthiah. "Asian Civil–Military Relations: Key Developments, Explanations, and Trajectories." In *Coercion and Governance: The Declining Political Role of the Military in Asia*, edited by Muthiah Alagappa, 433–98. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 2001.

Alagappa, Muthiah. "Investigating and Explaining Change: An Analytical Framework." In *Coercion and Governance: The Declining Political Role of the Military in Asia*, edited by Muthiah Alagappa, 29–66. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 2001.

Almond, Gabriel A. "Comparative Political Systems." *Journal of Politics* 18, no. 3 (August 1956): 391–409. https://doi.org/10.2307/2127255.

Ambrosio, Thomas. *Authoritarian Backlash: Russian Resistance to Democratization in the Former Soviet Union*. Farnham, Surrey, UK: Ashgate, 2009.

Ambrosio, Thomas. "Constructing a Framework of Authoritarian Diffusion: Concepts, Dynamics, and Future Research." *International Studies Perspectives* 11, no. 4 (November 2010): 375–92. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1528-3585.2010.00411.x.

Anckar, Dag. "Democracy as a Westminster Heritage." *Taiwan Journal of Democracy* 7, no. 1 (July 2011): 47–71.

Anckar, Dag. "Democratic Standard and Performance in Twelve Pacific Microstates." *Pacific Affairs* 75, no. 2 (Summer 2002): 207–25. https://doi.org/10.2307/4127183.

Anckar, Dag, and Carsten Anckar. "Democracies without Parties." *Comparative Political Studies* 33, no. 2 (March 2000): 225–47. https://doi.org/10.1177/0010414000033002003.

Asian Development Bank. "The Rise of Asia's Middle Class." Special chapter in *Key Indicators for Asia and the Pacific 2010*, 41st ed., 3–60. Manila: Asian Development Bank, August 2010.

Bale, Tim, and Torbjörn Bergman. "Captives No Longer, but Servants Still? Contract Parliamentarism and the New Minority Governance in Sweden and New Zealand." *Government and Opposition* 41, no. 3 (Summer 2006): 422–49. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1477-7053.2006.00186.x.

Baumgartner, Jody C., and Rhonda Evans Case. "Constitutional Design of the Executive: Vice Presidencies in Comparative Perspective." *Congress and the Presidency* 36, no. 2 (2009): 148–63. https://doi.org/10.1080/07343460902948105.

BBC News. "B'desh Democracy Fails, Army Says." April, 4, 2007. http://news.bbc.co.uk/2/hi/south_asia/6517887.stm.

Becher, Michael. "Dissolution Power, Confidence Votes, and Policymaking in Parliamentary Democracies." *Journal of Theoretical Politics* 31, no. 2 (April 2019): 183–208. https://doi.org/10.1177/0951629819833182.

Beckman, Ludvig. "Democratization and Inclusion." In *Routledge Handbook of Democratization*, edited by Jeffrey Haynes, Chapter 10. Abingdon, UK: Routledge, 2012.

Bergman, Marcelo. *Tax Evasion and the Rule of Law in Latin America: The Political Culture of Cheating and Compliance in Argentina and Chile*. University Park, PA: Pennsylvania State University Press, 2009.

Bergman, Torbjörn. "Constitutional Design and Government Formation: The Expected Consequences of Negative Parliamentarianism." *Scandinavian Political Studies* 16, no. 4 (December 1993): 285–304. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1467–9477.1993.tb00042.x.

Bergman, Torbjörn. "Formation Rules and Minority Governments." *European Journal of Political Research* 23, no. 1 (January 1993): 55–66. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1475–6765.1993.tb00348.x.

Berman, Sheri. *Democracy and Dictatorship in Europe: From the Ancien Régime to the Present Day*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2019.

Bertelsmann Stiftung. Bertelsmann Transformation Index (various years, accessed December 2020). https://www.bti-project.org/en/home.html?&cb=00000.

Binder, Leonard, James S. Coleman, Joseph LaPalombara, Lucian W. Pye, Sidney Verba, and Myron Weiner. *Crises and Sequences in Political Development*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1971.

Birch, Sarah. *Electoral Malpractice*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2011.

Birch, Sarah. *Full Participation: A Comparative Study of Compulsory Voting*. Tokyo: United Nations University Press, 2009.

Blais, André. "Evaluating U.S. Electoral Institutions in Comparative Perspective." In *Representation: Elections and Beyond*, edited by Jack H. Nagel and Rogers M. Smith, 15–25. Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2013.

Blais, André, Agnieszka Dobrzynska, and Indridi H. Indridason. "To Adopt or Not to Adopt Proportional Representation: The Politics of Institutional Choice." *British Journal of Political Science* 35, no. 1 (2005): 182–90. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0007123405000098.

Blais, André, Louis Massicotte, and Antoine Yoshinaka. "Deciding Who Has the Right to Vote: A Comparative Analysis of Election Laws." *Electoral Studies* 20, no. 1 (2001): 41–62. https://doi.org/10.1016/S0261-3794(99)00062-1.

Bogdanor, Vernon. "The Government Formation Process in the Constitutional Monarchies of North-West Europe." In *Comparative Government and Politics: Essays in Honour of S.E. Finer*, edited by Dennis Kavanagh and Gillian Peele, 49–72. London, UK: Heinemann, 1984.

Bolt, Jutta, Robert Inklaar, Herman de Jong, and Jan Luiten van Zanden. "Rebasing 'Maddison': New Income Comparisons and the Shape of Long-Run Economic Development." Maddison Project Working Paper 10.2018.

Boston, Jonathan, and David Bullock. "Multi-Party Governance: Managing the Unity-Distinctiveness Dilemma in Executive Coalitions." *Party Politics* 18, no. 3 (May 2012): 349–68. https://doi.org/10.1177/1354068810382937.

Brownlee, Jason, Tarek Masoud, and Andrew Reynolds. *The Arab Spring: Pathways of Repression and Reform*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press, 2015.

Buchta, Wilfried. *Who Rules Iran? The Structure of Power in the Islamic Republic*. Washington, DC: Washington Institute for Near East Policy and the Konrad Adenauer Stiftung, 2000.

Bunce, Valerie J., and Sharon L. Wolchik. *Defeating Authoritarian Leaders in Postcommunist Countries*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 2011.

Butler, David, and Austin Ranney. *Referendums around the World: The Growing Use of Direct Democracy*. Washington, DC: American Enterprise Institute, 1994.

Carothers, Christopher. "The Surprising Instability of Electoral Authoritarianism." *Journal of Democracy* 29, no. 4 (October 2018): 129–35.

Carstairs, Andrew McLaren. *A Short History of Electoral Systems in Western Europe*. London, UK: George Allen & Unwin, 1980.

Castagnola, Andrea. *Manipulating Courts in New Democracies: Forcing Judges off the Bench in Argentina*. London, UK: Routledge, 2018.

Centeno, Miguel Angel. "Blood and Debt: War and Taxation in Nineteenth-Century Latin America." *American Journal of Sociology* 102, no. 6 (May 1997): 1565–605. https://doi.org/10.1086/231127.

Chaney, Eric. "Democratic Change in the Arab World, Past and Present." Brookings Papers on Economic Activity (Spring 2012): 363–400.

Chasquetti, Daniel. *Democracia, presidencialismo y partidos políticos en América Latina: Evaluando la "difícil combinación."* Montevideo: Ediciones CAUCE, 2008.

Chehabi, H.E. "Small Island States." In *The Encyclopedia of Democracy*, edited by Seymour Martin Lipset, 1134–7. Washington, DC: Congressional Quarterly, 1995.

Chehabi, H.E., and Juan J. Linz. "A Theory of Sultanism 1: A Type of Nondemocratic Rule." In *Sultanistic Regimes*, edited by H.E. Chehabi and Juan J. Linz, 3–25. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1998.

Cheibub, José Antonio, Jennifer Gandhi, and James Raymond Vreeland. "Democracy and Dictatorship Revisited." *Public Choice* 143, no. 1–2 (April 2010): 67–101.

Coggins, Bridget. "Friends in High Places: International Politics and the Emergence of States from Secessionism." *International Organization* 65, no. 3 (Summer 2011): 433–67. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0020818311000105.

Collier, David, Jody LaPorte, and Jason Seawright. "Putting Typologies to Work: Concept Formation, Measurement, and Analytic Rigor." *Political Research Quarterly* 65, no. 1 (March 2012): 217–32. https://doi.org/10.1177/1065912912437162.

Collier, David, and Steven Levitsky. "Democracy with Adjectives: Conceptual Innovation in Comparative Research." *World Politics* 49, no. 3 (April 1997): 430–51. https://doi.org/10.1353/wp.1997.0009.

Collier, Paul. *The Bottom Billion: Why the Poorest Countries Are Failing and What Can Be Done about It*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Collier, Ruth, and David Collier. *Shaping the Political Arena: Critical Junctures, the Labor Movement, and Regime Dynamics in Latin America*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1991.

Coppedge, Michael, Angel Alvarez, and Claudia Maldonado. "Two Persistent Dimensions of Democracy: Contestation and Inclusiveness." *Journal of Politics* 70, no. 3 (July 2008): 632–47. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0022381608080663.

Corbett, Jack, and Wouter Veenendaal. *Democracy in Small States: Persisting Against All Odds*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press, 2018.

Cornell, Agnes, Jørgen Møller, and Svend-Erik Skaaning. "The Real Lessons of the Interwar Years." *Journal of Democracy* 28, no. 3 (July 2017): 14–28. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.2017.0040.

Cox, Gary W. *Making Votes Count: Strategic Coordination in the World's Electoral Systems*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 1997.

Crawford, Keith. *East Central European Politics Today*. Manchester, UK: Manchester University Press, 1996.

Crisis States Research Centre. "Crisis, Fragile and Failed States: Definitions Used by the CSRC." 2006. http://www2.lse.ac.uk/internationalDevelopment/research/crisisStates/download/drc/FailedState.pdf.

Crook, Malcolm. *Elections in the French Revolution: An Apprenticeship in Democracy, 1789–1799*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 1996.

Curtis, Gerald L. *The Logic of Japanese Politics: Leaders, Institutions, and the Limits of Change*. New York, NY: Columbia University Press, 1999.

Dahl, Robert A. *Democracy and Its Critics*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1989.

Dahl, Robert A. *Polyarchy: Participation and Opposition*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1971.

Dallin, Alexander, and George W. Breslauer. *Political Terror in Communist Systems*. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1970.

Davidson, Jamie S. *Indonesia: Twenty Years of Democracy*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 2018.

Diamond, Larry. *Developing Democracy: Toward Consolidation*. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1999.

Diamond, Larry. "Economic Development and Democracy Reconsidered." *American Behavioral Scientist* 35, no. 4–5 (March/June 1992): 457–60.

Diamond, Larry. "Thinking about Hybrid Regimes." *Journal of Democracy* 13, no. 2 (April 2002): 25–31.

Diamond, Larry, Jonathan Hartlyn, and Juan J. Linz. "Introduction: Politics, Society, and Democracy in Latin America." In *Democracy in Developing Countries.* Vol. 4, *Latin America*, 2nd ed., edited by Larry Diamond, Jonathan Hartlyn, Juan J. Linz, and Seymour Martin Lipset, 1–70. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner, 1999.

Diamond, Larry, Juan J. Linz, and Seymour Martin Lipset. "Introduction: What Makes for Democracy?" In *Politics in Developing Countries: Comparing Experiences with Democracy*, 2nd ed., edited by Larry Diamond, Juan J. Linz, and Seymour Martin Lipset, 1–66. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner, 1995.

Diwakar, Rekha. "The Workings of the Single Member Plurality Electoral System in India and the Need for Reform." *Asian Journal of Comparative Politics* 4, no. 2 (June 2019): 141–61. https://doi.org/10.1177/2057891118769166.

Dix, Robert H. "History and Democracy Revisited." *Comparative Politics* 27, no. 1 (October 1994): 91–105. https://doi.org/10.2307/422219.

Doorenspleet, Renske. "Reassessing the Three Waves of Democratization." *World Politics* 52, no. 3 (April 2000): 384–406. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0043887100016580.

Drake, Paul W. *Between Tyranny and Anarchy: A History of Democracy in Latin America, 1800–2006*. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 2009.

Eckstein, Harry. *Division and Cohesion in Democracy: A Study of Norway*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1966.

The Economist. "Big Data, Meet Big Brother: China Invents the Digital Totalitarian State." December 17, 2016.
Edelstein, Melvin. *The French Revolution and the Birth of Electoral Democracy*. Farnham, UK: Ashgate, 2014.
Edwards III, George C. *Why the Electoral College Is Bad for America*, 3rd ed. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2004.
Elklit, Jørgen, and Palle Svensson. "What Makes Elections Free and Fair?" *Journal of Democracy* 8, no. 3 (July 1997): 32–46. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.1997.0041.
Evans, Peter. *Embedded Autonomy: States and Industrial Transformation*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1995.
Fabry, Mikulas. *Recognizing States: International Society and the Establishment of New States since 1776*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2010.
Farrell, David M. *Electoral Systems: A Comparative Introduction*. Basingstoke, UK: Palgrave, 2001.
Fasting, Mathilde, and Øystein Sørensen. *The Norwegian Exception? Norway's Liberal Democracy since 1814*. London, UK: Hurst, 2021.
Fearon, James D. "Ethnic and Cultural Diversity by Country." *Journal of Economic Growth* 8, no. 2 (2003): 195–222. https://doi.org/10.1023/A:1024419522867.
Felipe, Jesus. "Tracking the Middle-Income Trap: What Is It, Who Is in It, and Why? (Part 1)." ADB Economics Working Paper No. 306. Manila: Asian Development Bank, March 2012.
Felipe, Jesus. "Tracking the Middle-Income Trap: What Is It, Who Is in It, and Why? (Part 2)." ADB Economics Working Paper No. 307. Manila: Asian Development Bank, March 2012.
Fifield, Anna. *The Great Successor: The Divinely Perfect Destiny of Brilliant Comrade Kim Jong Un*. New York, NY: Public Affairs, 2019.
Figueiredo, Argelina Cheibub. "Government Coalitions in Brazilian Democracy." *Brazilian Political Science Review* 1, no. 2 (July 2007): 182–216.
Finer, Samuel E. *The Man on Horseback: The Role of the Military in Politics*, 2nd rev. ed. Boulder, CO: Westview Press, 1962.
Finnemore, Martha, and Kathryn Sikkink. "Taking Stock: The Constructivist Research Program in International Relations and Comparative Politics." *Annual Review of Political Science* 4 (2001): 391–416.
Fish, M. Steven. *Are Muslims Distinctive? A Look at the Evidence*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2011.
Fitch, J. Samuel. *The Armed Forces and Democracy in Latin America*. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1998.
Forrest, Joshua B. *Lineages of State Fragility: Rural Civil Society in Guinea-Bissau*. Athens, OH: Ohio University Press, 2003.
Fukuyama, Francis. *The Origins of Political Order: From Prehuman Times to the French Revolution*. New York, NY: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2011.
Gallagher, Michael. "By-elections to Dáil Éireann 1923–96: The Anomaly that Conforms." *Irish Political Studies* 11 (1996): 33–60.
Gallagher, Michael, Michael Laver, and Peter Mair. *Representative Government in Modern Europe*, 4th ed. New York, NY: McGraw-Hill, 2006.
Ganguly, Sumit, "Explaining India's Transition to Democracy." In *Transitions to Democracy*, edited by Lisa Anderson, 217–36. New York, NY: Columbia University Press, 1999.

Ganguly, Sumit. "Six Decades of Independence." *Journal of Democracy* 18, no. 2 (April 2007): 30–40. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.2007.0024.

Geddes, Barbara. *Politician's Dilemma: Building State Capacity in Latin America*. Berkeley, CA: University of California Press, 1994.

Gerring, John, Tore Wig, Wouter Veenendaal, Daniel Weitzel, Jan Teorell, and Kyosuke Kikuta. "Why Monarchy? The Rise and Decline of a Regime Type." *Comparative Political Studies* 34, no. 3–4 (2021): 585–622.

Gibson, Edward L. *Boundary Control: Subnational Authoritarianism in Federal Democracies*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 2012.

Gladdish, Ken. *Governing from the Centre: Politics and Policy-Making in the Netherlands*. London, UK: C. Hurst, 1991.

Glaeser, Edward L., Giacomo A. M. Ponzetto, and Andrei Shleifer. "Why Does Democracy Need Education?" *Journal of Economic Growth* 12, no. 2 (June 2007): 77–99. https://doi.org/10.1007/s10887-007-9015-1.

Goplerud, Max, and Petra Schleiter. "An Index of Assembly Dissolution Powers." *Comparative Political Studies* 49, no. 4 (March 2016): 427–56. https://doi.org/10.1177/0010414015612393.

Gunther, Richard, Hans-Jürgen Puhle, and P. Nikiforos Diamandouros. "Introduction." In *The Politics of Democratic Consolidation: Southern Europe in Comparative Perspective*, edited by Richard Gunther, Hans-Jürgen Puhle, and P. Nikiforos Diamandouros, 1–32. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1995.

Hadenius, Axel. *Democracy and Development*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 1992.

Halperin, Morton H., and Kristen Lomasney. "Guaranteeing Democracy: A Review of the Record." *Journal of Democracy* 9, no. 2 (April 1998): 134–47. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.1998.0026.

Handelman, Howard. *The Challenge of Third World Development*, 3rd ed. Upper Saddle River, NJ: Prentice Hall, 2003.

Handley, Lisa. "Electoral Systems and Redistricting." In *The Oxford Handbook of Electoral Systems*, edited by Erik S. Herron, Robert J. Pekkanen, and Matthew S. Shugart, 513–32. New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2018.

Hanson, Stephen E. "Defining Democratic Consolidation." In *Postcommunism and the Theory of Democracy*, edited by Richard D. Anderson Jr., M. Steven Fish, Stephen E. Hanson, and Philip G. Roeder, 126–51. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2001.

Harris, Dan, Mick Moore, and Hubert Schmitz. "Country Classifications for a Changing World." IDS Working Paper 326. Brighton, UK: Institute of Development Studies, University of Sussex, May 2009.

Hart, Jenifer. *Proportional Representation: Critics of the British Electoral System, 1820–1945*. Oxford, UK: Clarendon Press, 1992.

Herbst, Jeffrey. *States and Power in Africa: Comparative Lessons in Authority and Control*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2000.

Hill, Joshua. *Voting as a Rite: A History of Elections in Modern China*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2019.

Holsti, K.J. *Taming the Sovereigns: Institutional Change in International Politics*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 2004.

Holt, Michael F. *By One Vote: The Disputed Presidential Election of 1876*. Lawrence, KS: University Press of Kansas, 2008.

Hooghe, Marc. "The Political Crisis in Belgium (2007–2011): A Federal System without Federal Loyalty." *Representation: Journal of Representative Democracy* 48, no. 1 (April 2012): 131–8. https://doi.org/10.1080/00344893.2012.653250.

Howard, Michael. *War and the Nation State*. Oxford, UK: Clarendon Press, 1978.

Huber, Evelyne, Dietrich Rueschemeyer, and John D. Stephens. "The Paradoxes of Contemporary Democracy: Formal, Participatory, and Social Dimensions." *Comparative Politics* 29, no. 3 (April 1997): 323–42. https://doi.org/10.2307/422124.

Huntington, Samuel P. "The Goals of Development." In *Understanding Political Development*, edited by Myron Weiner and Samuel P. Huntington, 3–32. Glenview, IL: Scott, Foresman/Little, Brown, 1987.

Huntington, Samuel P. *Political Order in Changing Societies*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1968.

Huntington, Samuel P. *The Third Wave: Democratization in the Late Twentieth Century*. Norman, OK: University of Oklahoma Press, 1991.

Huntington, Samuel P. "Will More Countries Become Democratic?" *Political Science Quarterly* 99, no. 2 (Summer 1984): 193–218. https://doi.org/10.2307/2150402.

International Institute for Strategic Studies. "International Comparisons of Defence Expenditure and Military Personnel." In *The Military Balance* 120: 529–53. Washington, DC: International Institute for Strategic Studies, 2020. https://doi.org/10.1080/04597222.2020.1707977.

International Telecommunication Union. "Mobile-Cellular Subscriptions." https://www.itu.int/en/ITU-D/Statistics/Documents/statistics/2020/MobileCellularSubscriptions_2000-2019.xlsx.

International Telecommunication Union. "Percentage of Individuals Using the Internet." https://www.itu.int/en/ITU-D/Statistics/Documents/statistics/2020/PercentIndividualsUsingInternet.xlsx.

Isaksson, Guy-Erik. "From Election to Government: Principal Rules and Deviant Cases." *Government and Opposition* 40, no. 3 (Summer 2005): 329–57. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1477–7053.2005.00154.x.

Jackson, Robert H. *Quasi-States: Sovereignty, International Relations and the Third World*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 1990.

Jenne, Erin K., and Cas Mudde. "Hungary's Illiberal Turn: Can Outsiders Help?" *Journal of Democracy* 23, no. 3 (July 2012): 147–55. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.2012.0057.

Johnson, Chalmers. *MITI and the Japanese Miracle: The Growth of Industrial Policy, 1925–1975*. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1982.

Jones, Mark P. *Electoral Laws and the Survival of Presidential Democracies*. Notre Dame, IN: University of Notre Dame Press, 1995.

Kang, Shin-Goo. "The Influence of Presidential Heads of State on Government Formation in European Democracies: Empirical Evidence." *European Journal of Political Research* 48, no. 4 (June 2009): 543–72. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1475–6765.2009.00840.x.

Kapstein, Ethan B., and Nathan Converse. *The Fate of Young Democracies*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 2008.

Karatnycky, Adrian. "Muslim Countries and the Democracy Gap: The 2001 Freedom House Survey." *Journal of Democracy* 13, no. 1 (January 2002): 99–112. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.2002.0009.

Karl, Terry Lynn. "Electoralism." In *International Encyclopedia of Elections*, edited by Richard Rose. Washington, DC: CQ Press, 2000.

Karl, Terry Lynn. "The Hybrid Regimes of Central America." *Journal of Democracy* 6, no. 3 (July 1995): 72–86. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.1995.0049.

Katz, Richard S. *Democracy and Elections*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 1997.
Keyssar, Alexander. *Why Do We Still Have the Electoral College?* Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2020.
Kienle, Eberhard. "Popular Contestation, Regime Transformation and State Formation." In *The Arab Uprisings: Transforming and Challenging State Power*, edited by Eberhard Kienle and Nadine Sika, 131–57. London and New York: I.B. Tauris, 2015.
Kingston, Paul, and Ian S. Spears, eds. *States within States: Incipient Political Entities in the Post–Cold War Era*. New York, NY: Palgrave Macmillan, 2004.
Kitschelt, Herbert. "Formation of Party Cleavages in Post-Communist Democracies: Theoretical Propositions." *Party Politics* 1, no. 4 (October 1995): 447–72. https://doi.org/10.1177/1354068895001004002.
Kohn, Richard H. "How Democracies Control the Military." *Journal of Democracy* 8, no. 4 (October 1997): 140–53. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.1997.0060.
Krasner, Stephen D. "Abiding Sovereignty." *International Political Science Review* 22, no. 3 (July 2001): 229–51. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512101223002.
Kuenzi, Michelle, and Gina Lambright. "Party System Institutionalization in 30 African Countries." *Party Politics* 7, no. 4 (July 2001): 437–68. https://doi.org/10.1177/1354068801007004003.
Kuhonta, Erik Martinez. "Walking a Tightrope: Democracy versus Sovereignty in ASEAN's Illiberal Peace." *Pacific Review* 19, no. 3 (September 2006): 337–58. https://doi.org/10.1080/09512740600875119.
Kuru, Ahmet T. *Islam, Authoritarianism, and Underdevelopment: A Global and Historical Comparison*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 2019.
Lancaster, Caroline. "Ideology and Hegemonic Party Rule in South Africa, Hungary, and Turkey." *Politics, Religion & Ideology* 17, no. 4 (2016): 370–91. https://doi.org/10.1080/21567689.2016.1263197.
Lane, Philip R., and Gian Maria Milesi-Ferretti. "International Financial Integration in the Aftermath of the Global Financial Crisis," IMF Working Paper 17/115, 2017.
Levitsky, Steven, and Lucan A. Way. *Competitive Authoritarianism: Hybrid Regimes after the Cold War*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 2010.
Levitsky, Steven, and Lucan A. Way. "The New Competitive Authoritarianism." *Journal of Democracy* 31, no. 1 (January 2020): 51–65.
Lewis, M. Paul, ed. *Ethnologue: Languages of the World*, 16th ed. Dallas, TX: SIL International, 2009. http://www.ethnologue.com.
Liebenow, J. Gus. *African Politics: Crises and Challenges*. Bloomington, IN: Indiana University Press, 1986.
Lijphart, Arend. *Democracy in Plural Societies: A Comparative Exploration*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1977.
Lijphart, Arend. *Electoral Systems and Party Systems: A Study of Twenty-Seven Democracies, 1945–1990*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press, 1994.
Lijphart, Arend. *Patterns of Democracy: Government Forms and Performance in Thirty-Six Countries*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1999.
Lijphart, Arend. "The Puzzle of Indian Democracy: A Consociational Reinterpretation." *American Political Science Review* 90, no. 2 (1996): 258–68. https://doi.org/10.2307/2082883.
Lindblom, Charles E. *Politics and Markets: The World's Political-Economic Systems*. New York, NY: Basic Books, 1977.

Linder, Wolf. *Swiss Democracy: Possible Solutions to Conflict in Multicultural Societies*, 2nd ed. Basingstoke, UK: Macmillan, 1998.

Linz, Juan J. "An Authoritarian Regime: The Case of Spain." In *Mass Politics: Studies in Political Sociology*, edited by Erik Allard and Stein Rokkan, 251–83. New York, NY: Free Press, 1970.

Linz, Juan J. *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes: Crisis, Breakdown, and Reequilibration*. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1978.

Linz, Juan J. *Totalitarian and Authoritarian Regimes*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner, 2000.

Linz, Juan J., and Alfred Stepan. *Problems of Democratic Transition and Consolidation: Southern Europe, South America, and Post-Communist Europe*. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1996.

Linz, Juan J., and Alfred Stepan. "Toward Consolidated Democracies." *Journal of Democracy* 7, no. 2 (April 1996): 14–33. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.1996.0031.

Lipset, Seymour Martin. *Political Man: The Social Bases of Politics*, expanded ed. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1981.

Lipset, Seymour Martin. "The Social Requisites of Democracy Revisited: 1993 Presidential Address." *American Sociological Review* 59, no. 1 (February 1994): 1–22. https://doi.org/10.2307/2096130.

Lipset, Seymour Martin. "Some Social Requisites of Democracy: Economic Development and Political Legitimacy." *American Political Science Review* 53, no. 1 (March 1959): 69–105. https://doi.org/10.2307/1951731.

Loewen, Peter John, and Frédérick Bastien. "(In)Significant Elections? Federal By-elections in Canada." *Canadian Journal of Political Science* 43, no. 1 (March 2010): 87–105. https://doi.org/10.1017/S000842390999076X.

Loosemore, John, and Victor J. Hanby. "The Theoretical Limits of Maximum Distortion: Some Analytical Expressions for Electoral Systems." *British Journal of Political Science* 1, no. 4 (October 1971): 467–77. https://doi.org/10.1017/S000712340000925X.

López-Pintor, Rafael. *Electoral Management Bodies as Institutions of Governance*. New York, NY: Bureau for Development Policy, United Nations Development Programme, 2000.

Lührmann, Anna, Marcus Tannenberg, and Staffan I. Lindberg. "Regimes of the World (RoW): Opening New Avenues for the Comparative Study of Political Regimes." *Politics and Governance* 6, no. 1 (2018): 60–77.

Lynch, Allen C. *How Russia Is Not Ruled: Reflections on Russian Political Development*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 2005.

Maddison, Angus. *Dynamic Forces in Capitalist Development: A Long-Run Comparative View*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press, 1991.

Maddison, Angus. *The World Economy: A Millennial Perspective*. Paris, France: OECD, 2001.

Maeda, Ko. "Two Modes of Democratic Breakdown: A Competing Risks Analysis of Democratic Durability." *Journal of Politics* 72, no. 4 (October 2010): 1129–43. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0022381610000575.

Mainwaring, Scott, and Aníbal Pérez-Liñán. *Democracies and Dictatorships in Latin America: Emergence, Survival, and Fall*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 2014.

Mainwaring, Scott, and Timothy R. Scully, eds. *Building Democratic Institutions: Party Systems in Latin America* Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1995.

Mainwaring, Scott, and Timothy R. Scully. "Introduction: Party Systems in Latin America." In *Building Democratic Institutions: Party Systems in Latin America*, edited by Scott Mainwaring and Timothy R. Scully, 1–34. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1995.

Mann, Michael. "The Autonomous Power of the State: Its Origins, Mechanisms and Results." In *States in History*, edited by John A. Hall, 109–36. Oxford, UK: Basil Blackwell, 1986.

Marshall, Tim. *The Power of Geography: Ten Maps That Reveal the Future of Our World*. New York, NY: Scribner, 2021.

Martínez i Coma, Ferran, and Ignacio Lago. "Gerrymandering in Comparative Perspective." *Party Politics* 24, no. 2 (March 2018): 99–104. https://doi.org/10.1177/1354068816642806.

Mathieu, Edouard, Hannah Ritchie, Esteban Ortiz-Ospina, Max Roser, Joe Hasell, Cameron Appel, Charlie Giattino, and Lucas Rodés-Guirao. "A Global Database of COVID-19 Vaccinations." Natural Human Behaviour, 2021. https://ourworldindata.org/covid-vaccinations.

Mauzy, Diane K. "Electoral Innovation and One-Party Dominance in Singapore." In *How Asia Votes*, edited by John Fuh-Sheng Hsieh and David Newman, 234–54. New York, NY: Chatham House Publishers of Seven Bridges Press, 2002.

McAlister, Lyle N. "The Military." In *Continuity and Change in Latin America*, edited by John J. Johnson, 136–60. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1964.

McCoy, Jennifer, Tahmina Rahman, and Murat Somer. "Polarization and the Global Crisis of Democracy: Common Patterns, Dynamics, and Pernicious Consequences for Democratic Polities." *American Behavioral Scientist* 62, no. 1 (January 2018): 16–42. https://doi.org/10.1177/0002764218759576.

McEachern, Patrick. *North Korea: What Everyone Needs to Know*. New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2019.

McFaul, Michael, and Nikolai Petrov. "Elections." In *Between Dictatorship and Democracy: Russian Post-Communist Political Reform*, edited by Michael McFaul, Nikolai Petrov, and Andrei Ryabov, 23–55. Washington, DC: Carnegie Endowment, 2004.

Meng, Anne. "Ruling Parties in Authoritarian Regimes: Rethinking Institutional Strength." *British Journal of Political Science* 51, no. 2 (April 2021): 526–40. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0007123419000115.

Merquior, J. G. "Patterns of State-Building in Argentina and Brazil." In *States in History*, edited by John A. Hall, 264–88. Oxford, UK: Basil Blackwell, 1986.

Migdal, Joel S. *Strong Societies and Weak States: State-Society Relations and State Capabilities in the Third World*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1988.

Moore, Barrington. *Social Origins of Dictatorship and Democracy: Lord and Peasant in the Making of the Modern World*. Boston, MA: Beacon Press, 1966.

Morgenbesser, Lee. "Cambodia's Transition to Hegemonic Authoritarianism." *Journal of Democracy* 30, no. 1 (January 2019): 158–71.

Moriwaki, Toshimasha. "The Politics of Redistricting in Japan: A Contradiction between Equal Population and Respect for Local Government Boundaries." In *Redistricting in Comparative Perspective*, edited by Lisa Handley and Bernard Grofman, 107–12. New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2008.

Morlino, Leonardo. "Are There Hybrid Regimes? Or Are They Just an Optical Illusion?" *European Political Science Review* 1, no. 2 (July 2009): 273–96.

Morse, Yonatan L. *How Autocrats Compete: Parties, Patrons and Unfair Elections in Africa*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 2019.

Mufti, Mariam. "What Do We Know about Hybrid Regimes after Two Decades of Scholarship?" *Politics and Governance* 6, no. 2 (2018): 112–19.

Muller, Edward N. "Democracy, Economic Development, and Income Inequality," *American Sociological Review* 53, no. 11 (February 1988): 50–68.

Munck, Gerardo L. *Authoritarianism and Democratization: Soldiers and Workers in Argentina, 1976–1983*. University Park, PA: Pennsylvania State University Press, 1998.

Munck, Gerardo L. "The Past and Present of Comparative Politics." In *Passion, Craft and Method in Comparative Politics*, edited by Gerardo L. Munck and Richard Snyder, 32–59. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2007.

Nordlinger, Eric A. "Political Development: Time Sequences and Rates of Change." *World Politics* 20, no. 3 (April 1968): 494–520. https://doi.org/10.2307/2009779.

Nordlinger, Eric A. *Soldiers in Politics: Military Coups and Governments*. Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice-Hall, 1977.

North, Douglass C., John Joseph Wallis, and Barry R. Weingast. *Violence and Social Orders: A Conceptual Framework for Interpreting Recorded Human History*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 2009.

Oldenburg, Philip. *India, Pakistan, and Democracy: Solving the Puzzle of Divergent Paths*. New York, NY: Routledge, 2010.

O'Neill, Thomas P., with William Novak. *Man of the House: The Life and Political Memoirs of Speaker Tip O'Neill*. New York, NY: Random House, 1987.

OSCE Office for Democratic Institutions and Human Rights. "Mongolia Parliamentary Elections 24 June 2020 ODIHR Needs Assessment Mission Report 11–14 February 2020." Warsaw: OSCE ODIHR, April 22, 2020.

Ott, Dana. *Small Is Democratic: An Examination of State Size and Democratic Development*. New York, NY: Garland Publishing, 2000.

Ottaway, Marina. *Democracy Challenged: The Rise of Semi-Authoritarianism*. Washington, DC: Carnegie Endowment for International Peace, 2003.

Palasik, Mária. *Chess Game for Democracy: Hungary between East and West, 1944–1947*. Translated by Mario Fenyo. Montreal, QC, and Kingston, ON: McGill-Queen's University Press, 2011.

Paxton, Pamela. "Women's Suffrage in the Measurement of Democracy: Problems of Operationalization." *Studies in Comparative International Development* 35, no. 3 (Fall 2000): 92–111. https://doi.org/10.1007/BF02699767.

Payne, J. Mark, Daniel Zovatto G., Fernando Carrillo Flórez, and Andrés Allamand Zavala. *Democracies in Development: Politics and Reform in Latin America*. Washington, DC: Inter-American Development Bank, 2002.

Payne, Stanley G. *The Collapse of the Spanish Republic, 1933–1936: Origins of the Civil War*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2006.

Payne, Stanley G. *A History of Fascism, 1914–1945*. Madison, WI: University of Wisconsin Press, 1995.

Pempel, T.J., ed. *Uncommon Democracies? The One-Party Predominant Systems*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1990.

Pempel, T.J. "Introduction. Uncommon Democracies: The One-Party Dominant Regimes." In *Uncommon Democracies: The One-Party Dominant Regimes*, edited by T.J. Pempel, 1–32. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1990.

Pérez-Liñán, Aníbal. *Democracies and Dictatorships in Latin America: Emergence, Survival, and Fall*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 2014.

Peterson, Dave. *Africa's Totalitarian Temptation: The Evolution of Autocratic Regimes*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner, 2020.

Pilet, Jean-Benoit. "Comprendre les positions sur le vote obligatoire en Belgique: Entre conviction et stratégie." Paper presented at the international symposium on compulsory voting, Institut d'Etudes Politiques de Lille, Lille, October 20–21, 2005.

Pion-Berlin, David. "Defense Organization and Civil-Military Relations in Latin America." *Armed Forces and Society* 35, no. 3 (April 2009): 562–86. https://doi.org/10.1177/0095327X08322565.

Pritchett, Lant, and Michael Woolcock. "Solutions When the Solution Is the Problem: Arraying the Disarray in Development." *World Development* 32, no. 2 (February 2004): 191–212. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.worlddev.2003.08.009.

Przeworski, Adam. "Acquiring the Habit of Changing Governments through Elections." *Comparative Political Studies* 48, no. 1 (January 2015): 101–29. https://doi.org/10.1177/0010414014543614.

Przeworski, Adam. *Democracy and the Market: Political and Economic Reforms in Eastern Europe and Latin America*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 1991.

Przeworski, Adam. *Why Bother with Elections?* Cambridge, UK: Polity Press, 2018.

Przeworski, Adam, Michael E. Alverez, José Antonio Cheibub, and Fernando Limongi. *Democracy in Development: Political Institutions and Well-Being in the World, 1950–1990*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 2000.

Przeworski, Adam, Tamar Asadurian, and Anjali Thomas Bohlken, "The Origins of Parliamentary Responsibility." In *Comparative Constitutional Design*, edited by Tom Ginsburg, 101–37. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 2014.

Przeworski, Adam, and Fernando Limongi. "Modernization: Theories and Facts." *World Politics* 49, no. 2 (1997): 155–83. https://doi.org/10.1353/wp.1997.0004.

Qiang, Ziao. "President Xi's Surveillance State." *Journal of Democracy* 30, no. 1 (January 2010): 53–67.

Qvortrup, Matt. "Breaking Up Is Hard to Do: The Neil Sedaka Theory of Independence Referendums." *International Political Science Review* 41, no. 5 (November 2020): 638–51. https://doi.org/10.1177/0192512120903818.

Ravallion, Martin. "The Developing World's Bulging (but Vulnerable) Middle Class." *World Development* 38, no. 4 (April 2010): 445–54. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.worlddev.2009.11.007.

Rezvani, David A. "The Basis of Puerto Rico's Constitutional Status: Colony, Compact, or 'Federacy'?" *Political Science Quarterly* 122, no. 1 (Spring 2007): 115–40.

Rokkan, Stein. *Citizens, Elections, Parties: Approaches to the Comparative Study of the Processes of Development*. New York, NY: David McKay, 1970.

Rose, Richard, and Doh Chull Shin. "Democratization Backwards: The Problem of Third-Wave Democracies." *British Journal of Political Science* 31, no. 2 (April 2001): 331–54. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0007123401000138.

Ross, Michael L. *The Oil Curse: How Petroleum Wealth Shapes the Development of Nations*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2012.

Rotberg, Robert I. "The New Nature of Nation-State Failure." *Washington Quarterly* 25, no. 3 (Summer 2002): 85–96. https://doi.org/10.1162/01636600260046253.

Rowen, Henry S. "The Tide underneath the 'Third Wave.'" *Journal of Democracy* 6, no. 1 (January 1995): 52–64. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.1995.0018.

Rueschemeyer, Dietrich, Evelyne Huber Stephens, and John D. Stephens. *Capitalist Development and Democracy*. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press, 1992.

Rustow, Dankwart A. "Transitions to Democracy: Toward a Dynamic Model." *Comparative Politics* 2, no. 3 (April 1970): 337–63. https://doi.org/10.2307/421307.

Rustow, Dankwart A., and Robert E. Ward. *Political Modernization in Japan and Turkey*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1964.

Sartori, Giovanni. *Parties and Party Systems: A Framework for Analysis*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 1976.

Schedler, Andreas. "Elections without Democracy: The Menu of Manipulation." *Journal of Democracy* 13, no. 2 (April 2002): 36–50. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.2002.0031.

Schedler, Andreas, ed. *Electoral Authoritarianism: The Dynamics of Unfree Competition*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner, 2006.

Schleiter, Petra, and Thomas G. Fleming. "Parliamentary Prorogation in Comparative Context." *Political Quarterly* 91, no. 3 (July–September 2020): 641–8.

Schmitt, Carl. *Verfassungslehre*. Berlin: Duncker and Humblot, 1970. First published in 1928. Excerpts translated by Rune Slagstad, "Liberal Constitutionalism and Its Critics: Carl Schmitt and Max Weber." In *Constitutionalism and Democracy*, edited by Jon Elster and Rune Slagstad, 103–29. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press and Oslo: Norwegian University Press, 1988.

Schmitter, Philippe C., and Terry Lynn Karl. "What Democracy Is … and Is Not." *Journal of Democracy* 2, no. 3 (Summer 1991): 75–88. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.1991.0033.

Schneider, Friedrich. "Shadow Economies around the World: What Do We Really Know?" *European Journal of Political Economy* 21, no. 3 (September 2005): 598–642. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.ejpoleco.2004.10.002.

Schumpeter, Joseph A. *Capitalism, Socialism, and Democracy*, 3rd ed. New York, NY: Harper and Brothers, 1950.

Senghaas, Dieter. *The European Experience: A Historical Critique of Development Theory*, translated by K.H. Kimmig. Leamington Spa and Dover, NH: Berg Publishers, 1985.

Senghaas, Dieter. "Self-Reliance and Autocentric Development: Historical Experiences and Contemporary Challenges." *Bulletin of Peace Proposals* 12, no. 1 (1981): 44–51.

Seow, Francis T. *The Media Enthralled: Singapore Revisited*. Boulder, CO: Lynne Rienner, 1998.

Shugart, Matthew S., and Rein Taagepera. *Votes from Seats: Logical Models of Electoral Systems*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 2017.

Siaroff, Alan. "Comparative Presidencies: The Inadequacy of the Presidential, Semi-Presidential, and Parliamentary Distinction." *European Journal of Political Research* 42, no. 3 (May 2003): 287–312. https://doi.org/10.1111/1475-6765.00084.

Siaroff, Alan. "Spurious Majorities, Electoral Systems and Electoral System Change." *Commonwealth and Comparative Politics* 41, no. 2 (July 2003): 143–60. https://doi.org/10.1080/14662040412331310131.

Siaroff, Alan. "Two-and-a-Half-Party Systems and the Comparative Role of the 'Half.'" *Party Politics* 9, no. 3 (May 2003): 267–90. https://doi.org/10.1177/1354068803009003001.

Singh, Ujjwal Kumar, and Anupama Roy. *Election Commission of India: Institutionalising Democratic Uncertainties*. New Delhi: Oxford University Press, 2019.

Slagstad, Rune. "Liberal Constitutionalism and Its Critics: Carl Schmitt and Max Weber." In *Constitutionalism and Democracy*, edited by Jon Elster and Rune Slagstad, 103–29. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press and Oslo: Norwegian University Press, 1988.

Smith, Anthony D. "State-Making and Nation-Building." In *States in History*, edited by John A. Hall, 228–63. Oxford, UK: Basil Blackwell, 1986.

Smith, Gordon. *Democracy in Western Germany: Parties and Politics in the Federal Republic*, 3rd ed. New York, NY: Holmes and Meier, 1986.

Spence, Jonathan D. *The Search for Modern China*, 2nd ed. (New York, NY: W.W. Norton, 1999).

Spence, Michael. *The Next Convergence: The Future of Economic Growth in a Multispeed World*. New York, NY: Farrar, Straus and Giroux, 2011.

Spero, Joan Edelman. *The Politics of International Economic Relations*, 4th ed. New York, NY: St. Martin's Press, 1990.

Spruyt, Hendrik. *The Sovereign State and Its Competitors: An Analysis of Systems Change*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1994.

Stepan, Alfred. "Toward a New Comparative Politics of Federalism, (Multi) Nationalism, and Democracy: Beyond Rikerian Federalism." In *Arguing Comparative Politics*, 315–62. New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2001.

Stepan, Alfred, Juan J. Linz, and Yogendra Yadav. *Crafting State-Nations: India and Other Multinational Democracies*. Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2011.

Stepan, Alfred, with Graeme B. Robertson. "An 'Arab' More than a 'Muslim' Democracy Gap." *Journal of Democracy* 14, no. 3 (July 2003): 30–44.

Stewart, Ian. "Of Customs and Coalitions: The Formation of Canadian Federal Parliamentary Alliances." *Canadian Journal of Political Science* 13, no. 3 (September 1980): 451–79. https://doi.org/10.1017/S0008423900033539.

Stokke, Kristian. "Building the Tamil Eelam State: Emerging State Institutions and Forms of Governance in LTTE-Controlled Areas in Sri Lanka." *Third World Quarterly* 27, no. 6 (September 2006): 1021–40. https://doi.org/10.1080/01436590600850434.

Sutton, Paul. "Democracy in the Commonwealth Caribbean." *Democratization* 6, no. 1 (Spring 1999): 67–86. https://doi.org/10.1080/13510349908403597.

Taagepera, Rein. *Predicting Party Sizes: The Logic of Simple Electoral Systems*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press, 2007.

Takenaka, Harukata. *Failed Democratization in Prewar Japan: Breakdown of a Hybrid Regime*. Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 2014.

te Velde, Henk. "The Emergence of the Netherlands as a 'Democratic' Country." *Journal of Modern European History* 17, no. 2 (May 2019): 161–70. https://doi.org/10.1177/1611894419835747.

Thompson, Mark R. "Totalitarian and Post-Totalitarian Regimes in Transitions and Non-Transitions from Communism." *Totalitarian Movements and Political Religions* 3, no. 1 (Summer 2002): 79–106. https://doi.org/10.1080/714005469.

Thornhill, Randy, and Corey L. Fincher. "Democracy and Other Governmental Systems." In *The Parasite-Stress Theory of Values and Sociality: Infectious Disease, History and Human Values Worldwide*, edited by Randy Thornhill and Corey L. Fincher. Switzerland: Springer, 2014.

Thornhill, Randy, and Corey L. Fincher. *The Parasite-Stress Theory of Values and Sociality: Infectious Disease, History and Human Values Worldwide*, edited by Randy Thornhill and Corey L. Fincher. Switzerland: Springer, 2014.

Thornhill, Randy, Corey L. Fincher, and Devaraj Aran. "Parasites, Democratization, and the Liberalization of Values across Contemporary Countries." *Biological Reviews* 84, no. 1 (February 2009): 113–31.

Tilly, Charles. "Reflections on the History of European State-Making." In *The Formation of Nation-States in Western Europe*, edited by Charles Tilly and Gabriel Ardant, 3–83. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1975.

Trinkunas, Harold A. "Crafting Civilian Control in Argentina and Venezuela." In *Civil–Military Relations in Latin America: New Analytical Perspectives*, edited by David Pion-Berlin, 161–93. Chapel Hill, NC: University of North Carolina Press, 2001.

Trudeau, Pierre Elliott. "Some Obstacles to Democracy in Quebec." *Canadian Journal of Economics and Political Science* 24, no. 3 (August 1958): 297–311. https://doi.org/10.2307/138618.

Tudor, Maya. *The Promise of Power: The Origins of Democracy in India and Autocracy in Pakistan*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 2013.

UNDP. *Human Development Report 2020*. http://www.hdr.undp.org/en/2020-report.

UNDP. *Human Development Report 2011: Sustainability and Equity – A Better Future for All*. New York. http://hdr.undp.org/en/content/human-development-report-2011.

United Nations Department of Economic and Social Affairs, Population Division. "The End of High Fertility Is Near." *Population Facts*. October 2017.

United Nations Department of Economic and Social Affairs, Population Division. *World Population Prospects 2019*. https://population.un.org/wpp/.

Urdal, Henrik. "A Clash of Generations? Youth Bulges and Political Violence." *International Studies Quarterly* 50, no. 3 (September 2006): 607–29. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1468–2478.2006.00416.x.

Vaishnav, Milan, and Jamie Hintson. "India's Emerging Crisis of Representation." Carnegie Endowment for International Peace, March 14, 2019.

Valenzuela, Arturo. "Chile: Origins and Consolidation of a Latin American Democracy." In *Democracy in Developing Countries: Latin America*, 2nd ed., edited by Larry Diamond, Jonathan Hartlyn, Juan J. Linz, and Seymour Martin Lipset, 191–247. Boulder, CO: Lynne Reinner, 1999.

Valenzuela, J. Samuel. "Democratic Consolidation in Post-Transitional Settings: Notion, Process, and Facilitating Conditions." In *Issues in Democratic Consolidation: The New South American Democracies in Comparative Perspective*, edited by Scott Mainwaring, Guillermo O'Donnell, and J. Samuel Valenzuela, 57–104. Notre Dame, IN: University of Notre Dame Press, 1992.

Vanhanen, Tatu. *The Process of Democratization: A Comparative Study of 147 States, 1980–88*. New York, NY: Crane Russak, 1990.

Versteeg, Mila, Timothy Horley, Anne Meng, Mauricio Guim, and Marilyn Guirguis. "The Law and Politics of Presidential Term Limit Evasion." *Columbia Law Review* 120, no. 1 (January 2020): 173–248.

Wade, Robert. *Governing the Market: Economic Theory and the Role of Government in East Asian Industrialization*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1990.

Walker, Edward W. *Dissolution: Sovereignty and the Breakup of the Soviet Union*. Lanham, MD: Rowman & Littlefield, 2003.

Ware, Alan. *Political Parties and Party Systems*. Oxford, UK: Oxford University Press, 1996.

Watts, Ronald L. *Comparing Federal Systems*, 2nd ed. Montreal, QC, and Kingston, ON: McGill-Queen's University Press, 1999.

Weber, Max. *Economy and Society*. Vol. 2. Edited by Günther Roth and Claus Wittich. New York, NY: Bedminster Press, 1968.

Weber, Max. *The Theory of Social and Economic Organization*. Edited by Talcott Parsons. Translated by A.M. Henderson and Talcott Parsons. New York, NY: The Free Press, 1964. Reprint of translation, Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1947.

Weber, Max. "The Theory of Social and Economic Organization." In *From Max Weber: Essays in Sociology*, edited by H.G. Gerth and C.W. Mills, 342–5. New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 1946.

Webster, Andrew. *Introduction to the Sociology of Development*, 2nd ed. Basingstoke, UK: Macmillan, 1990.

Weeks, Liam. "Independents in Government: A Sui Generis Model?" In *New Parties in Government: In Power For the First Time*, edited by Kris Deschouwer, 137–56. New York, NY: Routledge, 2008.

Welzel, Christian. *Freedom Rising: Human Empowerment and the Quest for Emancipation*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 2013.

Welzel, Christian. "Evolution, Empowerment, and Emancipation: How Societies Climb the Freedom Ladder." *World Development* 64 (December 2014): 33–51. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.worlddev.2014.05.016.

Weyland, Kurt. *Making Waves: Democratic Contention in Europe and Latin America since the Revolutions of 1848*. New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 2014.

Whittlesey, Derwent. *The Earth and the State: A Study of Political Geography*. New York, NY: Henry Holt and Company, 1944.

Wills-Otero, Laura. "Electoral Systems in Latin America: Explaining the Adoption of Proportional Representation Systems during the Twentieth Century." *Latin American Politics and Society* 51, no. 3 (Fall 2009): 33–58. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1548–2456.2009.00055.x.

Wilson, Andrew. *Belarus: The Last Dictatorship in Europe*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2011.

Woo-Cumings, Meredith, ed. *The Developmental State*. Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1999.

Woodall, Brian. "The Politics of Reform in Japan's Lower House Electoral System." In *Elections in Japan, Korea, and Taiwan under the Single Non-Transferable Vote: The Comparative Study of an Embedded Institution*, edited by Bernard Grofman, Sung-Chull Lee, Edwin A. Winckler, and Brian Woodall, 23–50. Ann Arbor, MI: University of Michigan Press, 1999.

Woodberry, Robert D., "The Missionary Roots of Liberal Democracy." *American Political Science Review* 106, no. 2 (May 2012): 244–74.

World Bank. *China 2030: Building a Modern, Harmonious, and Creative High-Income Society*. Washington, DC: World Bank, 2012.

World Health Organization. *World Health Statistics 2019: Monitoring Health for the SDGs, Sustainable Development Goals*. Geneva: World Health Organization, 2019.

Yom, Sean L., and F. Gregory Gause III. "Resilient Royals: How Arab Monarchies Hang On." *Journal of Democracy* 23, no. 4 (October 2012): 74–88. https://doi.org/10.1353/jod.2012.0062.

Ziegfeld, Adam. "A New Dominant Party in India? Putting the 2019 BJP Victory into Comparative and Historical Perspective." *India Review* 19, no. 2 (2020): 136–52. https://doi.org/10.1080/14736489.2020.1744995.

Index

Page numbers in *italics* refer to tables or figures.

abdication and democratization, 244, 245, *246*
Abkhazia, 5–6
accountability, 79, 80, 81, 82–3, 176–7
"administrative resources" (tactics to retain power by biasing elections in electoral autocracies), 215
Afghanistan, 50, 92, 213
Africa
  decolonization in, 8, 233
  military control in, 81, 104
  minimal political culture in, 28
  one-party regimes in, 206, 219
  party system institutionalization studies, 185, 186
  political development in, 43
  presidentialism in, 132
  state formation and nation building in, 7, 8, 38–9
  underdeveloped nations in, 66
  waves/reverse waves of democratization in, 233, 234, 243
  See also Sahara/Sahel states; sub-Saharan African states; *specific names of countries*
African Democratic Rally (RDA), 221–2
African National Congress (ANC), 184, 243–4
Agüero, Felipe, 29–30, 31
Ahmed, Moeen U., 250
Alagappa, Muthiah, 26, 29
Åland Islands, 155
Albania, 113, 207
Alberta, 165
Algeria, 252, 256
Allende, Salvador, 135
Almond, Gabriel A., 204–5
Ambrosio, Thomas, 120
American Revolution, 39, 233, 271
Amin, Idi, 208
anarchy, 36, 49
Anckar, Dag, 111, 116
Andorra, 174
Angola, 39, 50, 217, 253
Antigua, 140
Arab conquest, area of, 113–14
Argentina
  as bureaucratic authoritarian regime, 28
  democratic consolidation in, 249, 250
  elections and electoral systems in, 147, 174, 262, 263
  federalism in, 151
  as oscillating state, 257
  political development in, 41, 100
  presidential powers of decree in, 135–6

Argentina (*cont.*)
regime collapse in, 244
"self-coup" in, 252
strong bicameralism in, 148
Aristide, Jean-Bertrand, 255
Armenia, 141
Aruba, 155
Asia
decolonization in, 8, 233
effective states in, 47, *48*, 49, *50*
middle class in, 73
oscillating states in, 258, *258*
political development in, 43
reverse wave of democratization in, 234
state formation and nation building in, 7, 8, 38–9
underdeveloped nations in, 66, *72–3*, 73
voting age in, 85
See also oligarchic suffrage; *specific names of countries*
Assad, Hafez al-, 208
Assembly of Experts (Iran), 214–15
Association of Southeast Asian Nations (ASEAN), 120
Athens (ancient), 104
auditor general, 83
Australia
as constitutional monarchy, 140
democratic participation and competition in, 272
as effective state, 47, *48*, 49, *50*
electoral system in, 175
as First World state, 60
House of Representatives, 148, 164, 166
intervention in Solomon Islands, 52
land ownership, 108
party system, 183
secret ballot, 85
Senate, 148, 166
size, 54
state formation, 8
strong bicameralism in, 148
wave of democratization in, 233
Austria
adulthood, age of, for voting, 85
consociationalism in, 115
curiae-based parliament in, 262
democratic participation and competition in, 272
negative parliamentarianism in, 137
as Northern European type of industrial state, 65
party system, 183
president's role in, 141
sequence of political development, 100
trend toward homogeneity, 115
Austro-Hungarian Empire, 8, 204, 274
authoritarianism
definition, 210
electoral, 215–19
military, 212–13
nationalist one-party, 219, *220–1*, 221–2
theocratic, 213–15
traditional, 210–12
authority, Max Weber's theory of, 25–6
autocracies
approach to, 199
civilian supremacy or control in, 34
civil-military relations continuum, *32*, *33*
closed, 88
definition of, 79
and democracies, differences in explanatory factors, *106*, 108
economic systems and, 110–11
elections in, 84
and electoral democracies, differences between, 87, 88
ethnic fragmentation and, 114
"fallacy of electoralism" and, 80
four processes of regime change and democratization, 243–5, *246*
military control in, 31, 34
monarch-led, as military tutelage, 31
regimes, subtypes of, *200–2*
and ruling autocrats in the world today, *223–9*
semi-open, 88
subtypes of autocratic regimes, *200–2*
See also authoritarianism; development; political regimes; sultanistic regimes; totalitarianism
Axis powers, imposition of democracy on, 233, 244

Azerbaijan, 215
Azores, 155

Ba'ath party, 208
Bahamas, 140
Bahrain, 210, 211, 278
ballot structures, 160, 168, *169*, 170, 174
Baltic states, 8, 274
Banda, Hastings Kamuzu, 208
Bangladesh, 113, 249–50, 281
Barbados, 141, 174
Barbuda, 140
Batista, Fulgencio, 208
Belarus, 122, 215
Belgium
  as Catholic democracy, 113
  consociationalism in, 115
  democratic participation and competition in, 272
  elections and electoral systems in, 86, 175
  ethnic diversity, 38
  federalism in, 152
  government forming, duration, 189
  head of state, 140
  imperial legacy, 111
  informateur, use of in, 189
  most developed nations, among, 62
  party system, 183
  political development, 42
  responsible government in, 262
  state dissolution and, 18
  vote of non-confidence in, 138
Belize, 140
Benelux countries, 122, 212
Benin, 221
Berlin Wall, fall of, 61, 243
Berman, Sheri, 42–3
Bermuda, 117
Bertelsmann Transformation Index, 115, 186
Bhutan, 38, 109–10, 140, 156, 212, 248, 281
bicameralism, 142, 147, 148, 151
Blais, André, 262
Bloomberg Innovation Index, 62
Bodin, Jean, 5
Bokassa, Jean-Bédel, 208
Bolivia, 83, 147, 153, 168, 243
Bosnia-Herzegovina, 17, 38
Botswana, 139, 174, 183, 184, 193
brain drain, 62, *63–4*
Brazil
  as bureaucratic authoritarian regime, 28
  democratization process, 243
  elections and electoral systems in, 174, 182, 262
  as intermediate nation in terms of development, 73
  military tutelage (1985–90), 31
  monarchy in, 39
  party systems, 178, 181–2, 183
  presidential powers of decree, 135–6
  size, 54
  strong bicameralism in, 148
  voting rights for illiterates, 85, 274
Breslauer, George W., 204
Brezhnev, Leonid, 207, 245
British Overseas Territories, 117
Brunei, 92, 210, 211, 281
Buchta, Wilfried, 213
Bulgaria, 85, 141, 207, 235
bureaucracy, 37, 47, 52, 53, 83
bureaucratic authoritarian regimes, 28
Burkina Faso, 109–10, 113, 141, 167
Burma/Myanmar, 31, 100, 120, 122, 213, 248
Burundi, 50
by-elections, 175

cabinets. *See* parliamentary systems; presidential systems
Cambodia, 215, 216
Cameroon, 38
Canada
  as Anglo-Saxon type of industrial state, 65
  armed forces, 104
  Chief Electoral Office, 85
  constitutional changes and national referendum, 78
  as constitutional monarchy, 140
  democratic participation and competition in, 272
  democratization, first wave in, 233
  as effective state, 47, *48*, 49, *50*

Canada (*cont.*)
election (1925), 161, *163*
election (1993), 165, 176
electoral systems in, 160, 161, 163–4, 165, 174, 175
federalism in, 39, 151, 152
as First World state, 60
French Canadians, 112
government, forming, 188
as heterogeneous democracy, 115
land ownership, 108
malapportionment, ending of in, 263
as mature political culture, 27
national identity, 39
national legislature, 143, 147, 149
negative parliamentarianism, 137
party systems, 183
political culture, 27
political development, 42
political parties, 165
Public Service Commission (formerly Civil Service Commission), 53
Senate, 147, 148, 151
size, 54
state formation, 8
transportation and state capacity building in, 53
Westminster parliamentary system, 111, 137, 176 (*see also* United Kingdom)
See also specific names of provinces and territories
Canadian Charter of Rights and Freedoms, 86
Cape Verde, 141
capitalist developmental states, 52, 65
capitalist market economies, 110
Caribbean region, 8, 61, 66, 111–12, 155, 182
Carstairs, Andrew McLaren, 266–7
Castro, Fidel, 234
Catalan independence, 17, *18*
Catholic Church, 6, 113, 206, 212, 233
Catholic Europe, authoritarianism in, 212
Catholicism, 112, 113, 265
Ceaușescu, Elena, 209
Ceaușescu, Nicolae, 208
cell phones, 109
Centeno, Miguel Angel, 7
Central African Republic, 208, 219, 278
Central American Republic, 272
centralism-proportionality *vs.* localism-majoritarianism, 170, *171–3*, 174–5, 176–7
centralized-proportional systems, 176–7
Chama Cha Mapinduzi (CCM), 216
Chaney, Eric, 113–14
charismatic authority, 26
Charlottetown Accord, 78
checks and balances, 29, *82*, 83, 147, 208, 250
Chehabi, H.E., 208, 209
Cheibub, José Antonio, 95
Chief Electoral Office (Canada), 85
Chile
Allende, coup against, 135
bicameralism in, 148
as bureaucratic authoritarian regime, 28
as Catholic democracy, 113
democracy, failure of (1973), 100
as effective state, 47, *48*, 49, *50*, 51
elections and electoral systems in, 174–5
lack of most-developed-nation status, 62
national identity in, 39–40
party system, 183
physical geography, 53
presidential powers of decree, 135–6
public protests and regime change, 83
reverse wave of democratization in, 242–3, 274
China
civilian control in, 34
as closed autocracy, 92
crackdown on pro-democracy demonstrations (1989), 248
digital totalitarianism in, 205
economic matters, post-totalitarian in, 207
as First/Second/Third World borderline case, 61
indirect elections, 281
as intermediate nation in terms of development, 73
lack of most-developed-nation status, 62
middle-income trap, 62, 65
modernization without democracy, 37–8
Shanghai Cooperation Organisation (SCO), 120
size, 54
term limits, removal of, 38, 217

thresholds of representative democracy in, 265, 269–70
universal suffrage in, 269
Christian Democrats (Germany), 177
Christian Democrats (Italy), 184
citizen militias, 104
city-states, 6
civil liberties, *82*, 86, 88, *89*
civil service. *See* bureaucracy
civil society, 27, 204
civil war, 49–50, 73, 115, 252–3
civilian control, 29, 31, *32*, 34, 81, 104
civilian supremacy, 29–30, 31, *32*, 34, 111
civil-military relations, 28, 29–34, *32*, *33*
class (modern) societies, 26
cleavages, 43, 115, 185
clientelism, 42
closed autocracies, 88, *89–90*
closed party list, 168, *169*, 170, 174, 176
coalitions
alternatives to executive, 190, *191*
executive, 136, 137, 141, 183, 187–9, *191*
collapsed states, *48*, 49–50, 83
Collier, Paul, 73
Colombia, 39, 62, 87, 147, 148, 153, 250, 265
colonialism, 43–4, 83, 111–12, *112*
combination majoritarian system, *162*, 164–5
Commonwealth democracies, 140
See also specific names of Commonwealth countries
communism
in China, 37–8
in Eastern Europe, 61–2, 178
in Hungary, 83
in Italy, 184
Second World countries and, 60–1, *61*
state strength in, 52
totalitarian regimes and, 203, 206–7
See also Union of Soviet Socialist Republics (USSR)
Comoros, 113
comparing political regimes
approach to and overview of discussion on, 3–4, 19, 20
mathematical formulae used, overview of, 21–2
See also accountability; authoritarianism; autocracies; democracies; democracy, factors conducive to; democratic participation and competition; democratization; development; elections; electoral democracies; electoral systems; federalism; legislatures; liberal democracies; monarchies; party systems; political regimes; representative democracies; responsible government; states; states, political and economic classifications of; universal suffrage; *specific names of countries*
competitive oligarchy, 235, 247
competitive two-party system, 182
comptroller general. *See* auditor general
compulsory voting, 263–5, *264*, 266, 267, 268, 269, 270
conditional subordination, 30, 31, *32*
confederal dissolution, 154
confederations, 6, 153–4
Conference on Security and Co-operation in Europe (CSCE). *See* Organization for Security and Co-operation in Europe (OSCE)
confidence/non-confidence votes and motions, 136, 137–8, 139, 141
conflict intensity scores, 115
Congo, DR (formerly Zaire), 49, 50, 208, 219
Conservative governments (UK), 154, 190, 192, 267
Conservative Party (Canada), 165
consociational democracy (consociationalism), 115, 117
constitutional monarchies. *See* monarchies
constitutions, 30, 40, 86, 104, 150
Convention People's Party (Ghana), 221
Cook Islands, 155
cool water theory, 117–18, 119, 272
Copenhagen Document, 87, 93–4
Corbett, Jack, 116
Corrupt and Illegal Practices Prevention Act (1883; UK), 267
corruption, 87, 120, 186, 207, 208, 217, 253
Corruption Perceptions Index, 87, 186
Costa Rica, 103, 108, 113, 174, 183, 256, 274

Council for National Security (Thailand), 31
Council of Europe, 119
Council of Guardians (Iran), 214–15
countries. *See* states
coups, 26–8, 117, 234, 251–2
COVID-19 pandemic, 49
Cox, Gary W., 298
"crisis state," 52
Crisis States Research Centre (CSRC; London School of Economics), 52
Croatia, 141, 175
Cuba, 184, 208, 234
cult of personality, 208–9
Cyprus, 132, 244
Czech Republic, 141
Czechoslovakia, 8, 60, 119, 207, 244, 252, 274

Dahl, Robert A., 41, 78, 86, 100, 101, 103
Dallin, Alexander, 204
de facto states, 5–6, 19, 118
de Gaulle, Charles, 256
de jure states, 6
de Vattel, Emer, 5
decolonization, 8, 118, 233
democracies
  Annual/Biennial Index Surveys of Levels of Democracy, *95*
  and autocracies, differences in explanatory factors, *106*, 108
  collapsed states and, 83
  colonies, incompatibility with, 83
  competition and accountability in, 79–80
  consociationalism, 115
  constitutional monarchies and, 43
  Copenhagen Document, 87, 93–4
  definitions of, 77, 78
  direct, 93
  economic development and, 35
  and economic systems, 110–11
  ethnic fragmentation and, 114
  foreign military occupation and, 83
  measures of, 234–5
  and modernization, "non-linkage" to, 36, 37–8
  new, 34, 100, 167–8, 234, 254
  social, 93
  transitions to and breakdowns of, 235, *236–41*, 241
  See also democracy, factors conducive to; democratization; elections; electoral democracies; liberal democracies; representative democracies
democracy, factors conducive to
  approach to, 99–100, 102
  cultural legacy, 111–14, *112*
  democracies and autocracies, at start of 1938, *101*
  democracies and autocracies, differences in explanatory factors, *106*, 108
  development, level of, 105, 107–10
  economic system, 110–11
  electoral *vs.* liberal democracies, differences in explanatory factors, *106–7*, 108
  ethnic homogeneity, 38, 114–15, 116, 151
  factors, analysis of, 120–2, *121*, *123–7*, 128
  geographical and historical factors, *106–7*, 117–19
  military, successful options for, 103–5
  mitigating ethnocultural pluralism, 115
  political culture and political leadership, 102–3
  population size and island status, 115–17
  regional factors, 119–20
  See also political regimes
democratic breakdowns, 232, 251–5, *252*
democratic consolidation, 232, 246–50, *247*, *251*, 255
democratic control, 30
democratic deconsolidation, 250, *251*, 255
democratic legitimacy, 253, 254, 255, 263
democratic participation and competition
  at the end of 1936, *276*
  at the end of 1994, *279–81*
  evolution of, 270–2, 274, 278, 281
  at the start of 1840, *273*
  at the start of 1914, *275*
  at the start of 1974, *277–8*
democratic re-equilibration, 255–7, *257*
Democratic Republic of the Congo (formerly Zaire), 49, 50, 208, 219
democratic transitions, 232, 246–7, *247*, *257*

See also democratic breakdowns; democratic consolidation; democratic re-equilibration
democratization
abdication and, 244, 245, *246*
democracies and autocracies, at start of 1938, *101*
description of, 231–2
dictated, 243, 244, 245, *246*
of electoral authoritarian regimes, 216
first reverse wave of, 234, 242, *242*, *244*, 274
first wave of, 233, 242, *242*, *244*, 271–4, *273*
four processes of, 243–5, *244*, *246*
Huntington's theory, critiques of, 234–5
Huntington's theory on waves of democratization, 232–4, *242*, 242–3, 257
imposed, 244, 245, *246*
moderately inclusive electoral democracy (MIED), 235, *236–41*, 241–2
monarchies and, 212
negotiated, 243–5, *244*, *246*
patterns of, 100–1, 235, 241
Protestantism and, 112–13
second reverse wave of, 234, *242*, 242–3, *244*
second wave of, 233, 242, *242*, 243, *244*
third reverse wave of, *242*, 243
third wave of, 34, 233, *242*, *244*
"trendless fluctuation" pattern of, 235, 241
demos, 77, 79, 265
Deng Xiaoping, 270
Denmark
democratic participation and competition in, 272
head of state, 140
informateurs used, 189
most developed nations, among, 62
national legislature, 142
party system, 183
political development in, 43
proportional representation, 167, 263
state formation, 7
as temperate-zone established autocentric-development state, 119
voting age, 85, 274
dependence of Third World countries, 61
dependency school, 35
developed political culture, 27
developed societies, 107
developing states, 66
development
age of population, 54, 108–9
cell phones, 109
education levels and literacy, 35, 39, 47, 62, 105, 108
fertility rates, 66, *67–71*
income distribution, 109
internet access, level of, 66, *67–71*, 109
land ownership patterns, 108
life expectancy and infant mortality, 35, 66, 85, 105, 108, 118
meaning and goals of, 34–5
modernization, 34–5, 36–8, 40
most underdeveloped countries, 66, *72–3*, 73
power resources, 105, 107–8
urbanization, 35, 105, 108–9
wealth distribution and, 105
See also political development
developmental states, 52–3
devolution, 154–5
Diamandouros, P. Nikiforos, 246
Diamond, Larry, 80, 86, 116, 117, 248, 249
digital totalitarianism, 205
direct elections, 147, 148, 261–2, 267–8, 269, 272
disproportionality in electoral systems, 165, 167–8, 170, 175–6, 177, 182
dissolution
confederal, 154
of legislature, 137, 138, 148
of sovereign states, 8, 18, 60
district magnitude, 160, 161, 166–7, 174, 269
diversity, ethnic, 38
Dix, Robert H., 100
domestic sovereignty, 5
Dominica, 141
Dominican Republic, 208, 209
Doorenspleet, Renske, 234, 235
double dissolution, 148
Droop quota, 166
dual-member plurality, 164
Duvalier, Jean-Claude, 208
dynamism, 105

earned majorities, 182
East Germany, 18, 207, 244
East Timor. *See* Timor-Leste (East Timor)
École nationale d'administration, 52
economic development. *See* development; socioeconomic development, measures of
economic systems and political regimes, 110–11
Economist Intelligence Unit (EIU) Democracy Index, 95, *95*
Ecuador, 83, 85, 274
education levels and literacy, 35, 39, 47, 62, 105, 108
effective number (N) calculation, 21–2
effective number of parties (ENPP), 178
effective states, 47, *48*, 49, *50*, 51
Egypt, 31, 51, 222
elections
  by-elections, 175
  centralism-proportionality *vs.* localism-majoritarianism, 170, *171–3*, 174–5, 176–7
  Copenhagen Document, 87, 93–4
  direct, 147, 148, 261–2, 267–8, 269, 272
  electoral colleges, 132, 135, 261, 262, 267, 268, 271
  electoral officers, 85
  free and fair, defining, *82*, 83
  free and fair, without responsible government, 85
  index of electoral system and election localism *vs.* centralism, *171–3*
  indirect, 147, 261–2
  irregularities in, 83–4
  as means to remove governments, 79, 83
  preferential ballot, 164, 166
  runoff votes, 135, 164
  secret ballot, 85, 94, 267
  staggered, 147
  in totalitarian regimes, 203
  transfer of power, 88, 90
  See also electoral systems; party systems; political participation
electoral authoritarianism, 215–19
electoral colleges, 132, 135, 261, 262, 267, 268, 271
electoral constituencies (districts), 160
electoral democracies
  and autocracies, differences between, 87, 88
  characteristics of, *89–90*
  civil-military relations in, 31, *32*
  election irregularities in, 84
  federalism in, 149–50, *150*
  inequality, risks of, 109
  and liberal democracies, differences between, 31, 80–1, *106–7*, 108–9
  moderately inclusive electoral democracy (MIED), 235, *236–41*, 241–2
  national legislatures in, *143–6*
  universal and equal suffrage, historic lack of, 87
  See also democratization; mixed systems of government; parliamentary systems; presidential systems
electoral formulas, 160, 164–5, 166, 167, 170
  See also "winner-take-all" formulas
electoral systems
  approach to, 159–60
  ballot structures, 160, 168, *169*, 170, 174
  centralism-proportionality *vs.* localism-majoritarianism, 170, *171–3*, 174–5, 176–7
  closed party list proportional representation, *169*, 174, 176
  disproportionality in, 165, 167–8, 170, 175–6, 177, 182
  district magnitude, 160, 174
  Droop quota, 166
  earned majorities, 182
  electoral formulas, 160, 164–5, 166, 167, 170
  "equal" political participation, 86
  gerrymandering, 160–1, 268
  hung parliaments, 161, *163*, 182, 183, 187, 188, 189
  in-between, 161, *162*, 170
  inclusiveness of centralized-proportional, 177
  index of electoral system and election localism *vs.* centralism, *171–3*
  legislature size and, 160
  localized-majoritarian systems, 175–6, 177
  majoritarian, 161, *162*, 163, 164–5
  malapportionment, 160–1, 263, 266–7, 268, 269, 270
  manufactured majorities, 161, 165, 182

mixed-member proportional (MMP), *162*, 168–9, 175
nature of (majoritarianism *vs.* proportionality), 175
party list proportional representation, 167–8, *169*
preferential ballot, 164, 166
proportional, 161, *162*, 166–9, *169*, 262–3
"winner-take-all" formulas, 132, 160–1, 192, 218
See also elections; party systems
electoralism, 80
England, 154–5
See also United Kingdom
equality
in opportunities and outcomes, importance of, 93, 107
relationship to democracy, 109–10, 233
Equatorial Guinea, 208, 219
Erdoğan, Recep Tayyip, 243
Eritrea, 92, 122, 219
Estonia, 100, 113, 141, 153, 281
Ethiopia, 18
ethnic diversity, 38
ethnic fragmentation, 114
ethnic heterogeneity, 66, 114–15, 116, 151
ethnic homogeneity, 38, 114–15, 116, 151
ethnocentrism, 4
ethnocultural pluralism, 115
ethnolinguistic groups, 114, 115
Ethnologue, 114
Europe
effective states in, 47, *48*, 49, *50*
new countries in, post–World War I, 44
oscillating states in, 258, *258*
party list proportional representation in, 167
political development, historic patterns of, 100–1
sovereign states, success of, 6–7
standing armies, 104
state formation, 7, 8, 38
universal suffrage and repression in, 41
voting age in, 85
waves/reverse waves of democratization in, 233, 234, 242, *242*, 243, *244*, 271–4
Western, as First World, 60
See also specific names of countries
European Union (EU), 60, 120, 154
Evans, Peter, 49
executive coalitions, 136, 137, 141, 183, 187–9, *191*
Eyadéma, Gnassingbé, 208

factors conducive to democracy. *See* democracy, factors conducive to
failed states, 51–2
"Failed States Index," 51
Falkland Islands, 244
Faroe Islands, as federacy within Denmark, 155
Farrell, David M., 160
fascism, 204–5, 206
Fearon, James D., 114
federacy, 155
federalism
alternatives to, 152–6, *153*
as aspect of consociational democracy, 115
characteristics of, 149–51
"coming together," 151–2
decentralized, 52
"holding together," 151, 152
interstate, 151, *152*
intrastate, 151, *152*
in liberal and electoral democracies, *150*
"putting together," 151, 152
regional governments, with constitutionally entrenched powers, 149, 150, 151
See also legislatures; multi-level political organization; unitary states
federations, types of, 151–2
Felipe, Jesus, 65
Ferdinand I, King (Romania), 255
fertility rates as measure of development, 66, *67–71*
feudalism, 6
Figueres, José, 103
figurehead monarchs, 43, *44*, 81, 140, 211, 212
figurehead presidents, 141
Fiji, 116, 117
Finer, Samuel E., 26, 27, 28
Finland, 51, 141, 155, 167, 183, 217, 256, 274

first reverse wave of democratization, 234, 242, *242*, *244*, 274
first wave of democratization, 233, 242, *242*, *244*, 271–4, *273*
First World, 60, 61, *61*, 66
"first-past-the-post" elections, 163
Fitch, J. Samuel, 30–1
fixed territory, as element of a sovereign state, 4
flawed states, *48*, 49, *50*
foreign aid, 62, *63–4*
Foreign Policy, 51
formateurs, 188–9
Fox, Vincente, 92
"fragile state," 52
Fragile States Index of the Fund for Peace, 62
fragmentation. *See* party systems
France
  as (capitalist) developmental state, 52
  as Catholic democracy, 113
  chamber-based parliament in, 262
  colonial legacy, 44
  democratic participation and competition in, 271–2
  elections and electoral systems in, 164, 174
  Fifth Republic, 142, 256
  Fourth Republic, 27, 256
  League of Nations mandates, 8
  National Assembly, 164
  parliamentary system, 137, 141, 142
  political development, 41, 100
  president's role in, 141–2
  presidential term limits, 217
  regional government, 153
  as "semi-presidential" parliamentary system, 141
  state formation, 7, 38
Franco, Francisco, 212
free and fair competition, *82*, 83–4
  See also elections
Freedom House, 86, *95*, 96
freedoms. *See* civil liberties
French Canadians, 112
French Revolution, 233, 271
Fujimori, Alberto, 251
Fukuyama, Francis, 34
full and equal rights of political participation, *82*, 85–6
  See also political participation
Fund for Peace, 51, 62

Gaddafi, Muammar al-, 208
Gambia, 109–10, 113, 132
Gandhi, Mahatma, 103
Geddes, Barbara, 53
gender variations in legislatures, 78, 149, 177
German Empire. *See* Imperial Germany
Germany
  bicameralism in, 148
  democracy in, post–World War II, 244
  democratic participation and competition in, 272
  election (2005), 177
  elections and electoral systems in, 86, 168–9, 174, 175
  Green Party, 169, 177
  most developed nations, among, 62
  as Northern European type of industrial state, 65
  party system, 183
  political development in, 100
  president's role, 141
  as Protestant autocracy, 113
  Rechtsstaat, 86–7
  Reformstau, 148
  reunification, 18
  totalitarianism, appeal in, 204
  vote of non-confidence in, 138
  Zollverein, 154
  See also Imperial Germany; Nazi Germany; Weimar Republic
gerrymandering, 160–1, 268
Gettysburg Address (1863), 77–8
Ghana, 38, 221
GINI index, 109
Gladstone, William, 83
globalization, 5
Gorbachev, Mikhail, 18, 27–8, 207, 233, 245
government formation, 187–9
"government of the people, by the people, and for the people," 77–8

governments, punishing, 176–7, 254
governor general, 140, *140*
Great Depression, 234, 253, 274
Greece
  as bureaucratic authoritarian regime, 28
  coup (1973), 248
  as flawed state, *48*, 49, *50*
  formateur, selecting, 188
  forming government, 189
  legislative coalition, 190
  political development, 41, 100
  president's role, 141
  reverse wave of democratization in, 242–3
  as Southern European type of industrial state, 65
  as unitary state, 153
Green Party (Germany), 169, 177
Green Party (New Zealand), 169, 191
Greenland, 17, 155
Grenada, 140
gridlock, 138, 148, 186
gross domestic product (GDP), 62, *63–4*
gross national income (GNI) per capita, 66, 108
Group Representation Constituencies (GRCs), 218
Guatamala, 119
Guinea, 213, 217
Guinea-Bissau, 39, 278
Gunther, Richard, 246
Guyana, 117, 139

habituation phase of political development, 40
Haiti, 208, 255
Hanseatic league, 6
Harris, Dan, 60
heads of government *vs.* heads of state, 20, 132
heads of state, 20, 136, 137, *140*, 140–2
hegemonic (electoral) authoritarianism, 216
Herbst, Jeffrey, 54
heterogeneity, ethnic, 66, 114–15, 116, 151
high-growth economies, 62, *65*
highly multi-party system, 183–4
Hindenburg, Paul von, 206
Hitler, Adolf, 206
Ho Chi Minh, 206
Hobbes, Thomas, 5
home rule (devolution), 42–3, 154
homogeneity, ethnic, 38, 114–15, 116, 151
Honduras, 217
Hong Kong, 62
horizontal accountability, 80, *82*
Howard, Michael, 39
Hu Jintao, 38
Huber, Evelyne, 93, 234
Human Development Index (HDI), 49, 66, 108, 122
human flight, 62, *63–4*
human rights violations, 31
hung parliaments, 161, *163*, 182, 183, 187, 188, 189
Hungary, 62, 83, 120, 128, 207, 243
Huntington, Samuel P.
  critiques of methodology, 234–5
  on development and political development, 34, 35–6
  Political Order in Changing Societies, 35–6
  on waves of democratization, 232–4, *242*, 242–3, 257
Hussein, Qusay, 209
Hussein, Saddam, 208
Hussein, Uday, 209

Iceland, 38, 51, 103, 122, 141, 153, 174, 274
imbalanced two-party system, 183
immigration and migrants, 38, 62, *63–4*
Imperial Germany, 41–2, 108, 211, 274
  See also Germany
Imperial Russia, 43, 211, 274
  See also Russia
in-between electoral systems, 161, *162*, 170
inclusiveness, 177
income inequality, 65
incomplete totalitarianism. *See* pre-totalitarianism
independence. *See* states
independence of Second World countries, 61
Independent Smallholders Party (Hungary), 83
index of disproportionality, 165
index of electoral system and election localism *vs.* centralism, *171–3*

India
Civil Service, 44
consociationalism, 115
democratic consolidation, 250
elections and electoral systems in, 174, 182, 270
federalism, 151, 152
as a most underdeveloped country, 66, *72–3*, 73
National Congress Party, 43–4, 103
national identity, 39
political development, 43–4, 100, 102–3
president's role, 141
regime type models, 122, 128
as regional outlier democracy, 119
Shanghai Cooperation Organisation (SCO), 120
as socioeconomically underdeveloped electoral democracy, 109
thresholds of representative democracy in, 265, 270
universal suffrage in, 270
indirect elections, 147, 261–2
individualism, 26
Indonesia, 8, 73, 122, 128, 142, 183
inequality. *See* equality
infant mortality and life expectancy, 35, 66, 85, 105, 108, 118
informateurs, 189
Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI), 92, 215
institutionalization. *See* political institutionalization
institutionalized party systems, 178, 185–6, *187*
institutions, 40
Inter-American Development Bank, 185
interdependence of First World countries, 61
interdependence sovereignty, 5
Internal Security Act, 218
International Institute for Democracy and Electoral Assistance (International IDEA), *95*
international legal sovereignty, 5
internet access as measure of development, 66, *67–71*, 109
Ioannidis, Dimitrios, 248
Iran, 208, 213–15, *214*
Iraq, 8, 49, 50, 83, 113, 208
Ireland
as Catholic democracy, 113
democratic participation and competition in, 271, 274
devolution and home rule, 42–3, 154
elections and electoral systems in, 166, 174, 175
formateur, selecting, 188
as parliamentary system with a presidential corrective, 141
upper/lower house term lengths, 147
as Westminster parliamentary system, 137
Irish Free State, 154
Islamic Revolution (1979), 213
Islamic rule, 213
Islamic states, 113–14
island states, small, 53, 116, 117
Israel
elections and electoral systems in, 160, 167, 174, 175, 188
as First/Second/Third World borderline case, 61
forming government, 189
as mixed electoral system, 139
party system, 182, 184
president's role, 141
as regional outlier democracy, 119
sequence of political development, 100
voting age in, 265
Italy
city-states, 6
clientelism in, 42
democratic consolidation in, 250
democratic participation and competition in, 272
elections and electoral systems in, 174, 175, 272
fascism in, 206
first reverse wave of democratization in, 234
national legislature, 148
party system, 184
president's role, 141
regional government, 153
"regions of special statute" federacies, 155
sequence of political development, 100
as Southern European type of industrial state, 65

strong bicameralism in, 148
totalitarianism, appeal in, 204
voting age in, 265

Jamaica, 100, 140
Jammu and Kashmir, 155
Japan
as (capitalist) developmental state, 52
armed forces, 103–4
as consolidated democracy, 249
democracy, post–World War II, 244
democratization, reverse wave of, 234
as East Asian type of industrial state, 65
as effective state, 47, *48*, 49, *50*, 51
elections and electoral systems in, 165, 174, 175, 182
ethnically homogeneous population, 38
as First World state, 60
head of state, 140
as high-growth economy, 62
land grabs, 50
land reform, 108
monarchy, in 1920s, 212
national legislature, 142
party system, 184
physical geography, 53
political development in, 100
regional government, 153
thresholds of representative democracy in, 265, 268–9
universal suffrage in, 269
Jim Crow laws, 268
Johnson, Chalmers, 52
joint sitting, 148
Jordan, 210, 211, 278
Juan Carlos I, King, 27, 212, 245
judicial systems, 47
judiciary, 86, 250

Kapp *putsch*, 27
Karl, Terry Lynn, 80
Kazakhstan, 120
Khamenei, Ali, 213, 215
Khomeini, Ruhollah, 213
Khrushchev, Nikita, 206
Kienle, Eberhard, 51
Kim Il-sung, 210
Kim Jong-il, 210
Kim Yo Jong, 210
kinship, 26, 28
Kiribati, 139, 164, 175, 178
Kohn, Richard H., 28, 29
Kosovo, 7, 19, 113, 141
Krasner, Stephen D., 5
kratos, 77
Kuchma, Leonid, 252
Kuenzi, Michelle, 185, 186
Kuru, Ahmet T, 114
Kuwait, 62, 110, 210, 211, 278
Kyrgyzstan, 113, 120

labour markets, 65
Labour Party (New Zealand), 191
Labour Party (UK), 177
labour unions, 65, 93, 203
Labour-Progressive coalition government (New Zealand), 191
Lambright, Gina, 185, 186
"lame duck" president, 132
land ownership patterns, 108
land reforms, 65, 108
Latin America
bureaucratic authoritarian regimes in, 28
civilian control over military, lack of, 92, 104
independence and political instability, 39
literacy requirements for voting, 85, 86, 262
low and minimal political cultures, 28
military authoritarianism, 213
military intervention, 81
military tutelary roles, 82, 213
political development, historic patterns of, 100–1
political terror, 204
presidentialism in, 132
proportional representation, 167, 263
reverse wave of democratization in, 234
state formation, 7, 8
underdeveloped nations in, 66
voting age in, 265
war and independence, 7, 39
See also specific names of countries

latitude, geographic, *106*–*7*, 118, 119
Latvia, 100, 113, 141, 281
law-abidingness, 248
leadership, political, and democratization, 102–3
League of Nations, 8
Lebanon, 49, 50, 100, 113, 141, 242
leftism, political, 149, 219
left-right ideological gaps, 178
legal threshold of support, 167–8, 169, 181
legal-rational authority, 25–6
Legatum Prosperity Index, 49
legislatures
  bicameral, 142, 147, 148, 151
  committees, 142
  gender variations in, 78, 149, 177
  national, in liberal and electoral democracies, *143*–*6*
  size of, and electoral systems, 160, 174–5
  term lengths, 147
  unicameral, 142, 147
  upper and lower houses, differences between, 147–8
  upper houses, role of, 142, 147
  See also parliamentary systems; presidential systems
legitimacy, democratic, 253, 254, 255, 263
  See also political legitimacy
Lenin, Vladimir, 205
Lesotho, 109–10, 138, 140, 168
less-developed states. *See* developing states
Levitsky, Steven, 216
liberal democracies
  characteristics of, *89*–*90*
  circumstances incompatible with, 83
  civil-military relations in, 31, *32*
  critiques of, 93
  and electoral democracies, differences between, 31, 80–1, *106*–*7*, 108–9
  federalism in, 149–50, *150*
  five definitional features of, *82*
  national legislatures in, *143*–*6*
  Rechtsstaat, 86–7
  responsible government as feature of, 81–3, *82*
  and rule of law, *82*, 86, 87, 88, 101
  See also accountability; elections; mixed systems of government; parliamentary systems; political participation; presidential systems
Liberal Democrats (conservative; Japan), 184, 193, 269
Liberal Democrats (UK), 190, 267
Liberal Party (Canada), 176, 183
liberalism, classical, 110, 233
liberalization (political), 232, 245
Liberia, 50, 109–10
Libya, 50, 83, 208, 281
Liebenow, J. Gus, 30
Liechtenstein
  association with Switzerland, 156
  as Catholic democracy, 113
  compulsory voting, 263
  as consolidated democracy, 249
  as electoral democracy, 92
  female suffrage, lack of, 278
  Indigenous monarch in, 140, 212
  responsible government, introduction of, 274
life expectancy, 35, 66, 85–6, 105, 108, 118
Lijphart, Arend, 115, 136, 148
limited government, 111
Lincoln, Abraham, 77
linguistic diversity as measure, 114
Linz, Juan J., 203, 204, 205, 207, 209, 210, 253, 255
Lipset, Seymour Martin, 43, 105
literacy and education levels, 35, 39, 47, 62, 105, 108
literacy requirements for voting, 85–6, 262
Lithuania, 62, 100, 141, 164
local autonomy, 115
local candidates, 168, 170, 174
local governments, 149
localized-majoritarian systems, 175–7
  See also centralism-proportionality *vs.* localism-majoritarianism
Loosemore-Hanby index of disproportionality, 165
low political culture, 28
lower houses, 136, 142, 147–8, 149, 151, 161
  See also electoral systems
Lührmann, Anna, 95
Lukashenko, Alexander, 215

Luxembourg, 113, 122, 140, 147, 274
Lynch, Allen C., 54

Maastricht Treaty of 1993, 154
Macedonia, 141
Madeira, 155
Mainwaring, Scott, 185
Major, John, 154, 192
majoritarian electoral systems, 161, *162*, 163, 164–5
  combination system, *162*, 164–5
  single member majority-plurality, *162*, 164
  single-member majority (alternative vote), *162*, 164
  single-member plurality (SMP), 161, *162*, 163–4, 165, 170
  single non-transferable vote (SNTV), *162*, 165, 174
  See also disproportionality in electoral systems
majorities, "earned" *vs.* "manufactured," 182
majority coalitions. *See* coalitions
majority governments. *See* party systems
malapportionment, 160–1, 263, 266–7, 268, 269, 270
Malawi, 109–10, 208, 219
Malaysia, 113
Maldives, 113
male democracies, 272
Mali, 34, 113, 213
Malta, 141, 166, 175, 182
Mandela, Nelson, 103
Mann, Michael, 53
manufactured majorities, 161, 165, 182
Mao Zedong, 206, 207, 209
Mapai/Labour Party (Israel), 184
Marcos, Ferdinand, 208
Marcos, Imelda, 209
Marshall Islands, 139, 156, 178
mature political culture, 27
Mauritania, 113
Mauritius, 100, 116, 141, 164–5
McAlister, Lyle N., 29–30
media access and control, *82*, 83, 88, 94, 215, 218
Mediterranean, 233, 234
Medvedev, Dmitry, 217
Menem, Carlos, 249, 250
Mexico
  elections and electoral systems in, 170, 175
  federalism in, 151
  gender balance in legislature, 92–3
  Institutional Revolutionary Party (PRI), 92, 215
  lack of most-developed-nation status, 62
  strong bicameralism in, 148, 151
  term limits, 132
Micronesia, 139, 149, 156, 175, 178
middle class, 73, 107, 108, 114
Middle East, 8, 43, 66, 105, 210, 281
"middle-income trap," 62, 65
Migdal, Joel S., 52
migrants and immigration, 38, 62, *63–4*
military
  in civilian supremacy model, 29–30
  influence, and civilian control, 29, 81, 92
  relationship to maintenance of democracy, 103–5
  spending, autocracies *vs.* democracies, 105, *106–7*, 108, 117
military authoritarianism, 212–13
military control, 30, 31, *32*, *33*, 212–13
military coups, 26–8, 117, 234, 251
military intervention, 26–8, 30, 81
military occupation, 83, 245
military participation ratio, 105, *106–7*, 117
military rule (regime), 30, 31, *32*, *33*, 212–13
military tutelage, 30–1, *32*, *33*, 34, 252
minimal political culture, 28
minority governments and governance, 137, 177, 183, 184, 188, 190
"mix and match" voting across parties, 164
mixed capitalist-statist economies, 110
mixed systems of government, 139, *140*
mixed-member proportional (MMP) representation, *162*, 168–9, 175
mixed-member semi-compensatory electoral systems, *162*, 170
mobilization
  in autocratic political regimes, 203–4, 207, 209, 210, 212
  and political development, 27–8, *89*
  by regime type, comparison of, *89*, *200–2*

moderately inclusive electoral democracy (MIED), 235, *236–41*, 241–2
moderately multi-party system, 183
modern ("class") societies, 26
modernization, 35, 36, 37–8, 40, 204, 205
modernization school argument on development, 34–5
Moldova, 38, 160, 167
Monaco, 85, 92, 156, 211
monarchies
  absolute, uprisings against, 272
  characteristics of, 20
  constitutional, 43, 140
  figurehead monarchs, 140
  political development and, 41, 43
  and responsible government, 81, 262, 271
  royal vetos, 92, 212
  traditional, 28
  and traditional authoritarianism, 210–12
  in the world today, *44*
  See also military tutelage
Mongolia, 141, 161, 164–5
monistic party power, 203–4
Montazeri, Hussein-Ali, 213
Montenegro, 7, 8, *14*, *18*, 19, 141, 154
Moore, Barrington, 107, 114
Moore, Mick, 60
Morales, Evo, 243
Morocco, 51, 85, 210, 211
Morse, Yonatan L., 216
Mozambique, 39
multi-actor civil war, 49
multi-level political organization
  associated states, 156
  centralization *vs.* decentralization, 152–3, *153*
  confederations, 6, 153–4
  federacy, 155
  federations, types of, 151–2
  hybrid, 154
  population-based completeness, 153, *153*, 154, 156
  self-governing territories, 155
  unitary states, 149, 152, 153, 155
multi-member plurality systems, 164, 165, 218
multi-party system. *See* centralism-proportionality *vs.* localism-majoritarianism
multiple regression, 21
Munck, Gerardo L., 28
Muslim societies and political regimes, 113
  See also Islamic states
Mussolini, Benito, 206, 234
Myanmar/Burma, 31, 100, 120, 122, 213, 248

Namibia, 8, 39, 141, 184, 193
Napoleon III, 272
Napoleonic Wars (1803–15), 7, 272
nation building, 38–40
  See also states
national borders, inviolability of, 50
National Fascist Party (PNF; Italy), 206
national identity, 38–40, 49
national income, 62, 66, 108, 233
National Party (New Zealand), 191
National People's Congress (China), 38, 270
nationalist one-party authoritarianism, 219, *220–1*, 221–2
NATO (North Atlantic Treaty Organization), 19, 103
Nauru, 139, 178
Nazi Germany, 203, 205, 206, 235, 242, 245, 252
negative parliamentarianism, 137
Nehru, Jawaharlal, 103
Nepal, 109–10, 141, 252
Netherlands, 62, 111, 115, 119
  democratic participation and competition in, 272
  elections and electoral systems in, 160, 167, 174
  head of state, 140
  informateurs used in, 189
  party system, 181–2, 183
  as temperate-zone established autocentric-development state, 119
  thresholds of representative democracy in, 265–6
  trend toward homogeneity, 115
  universal suffrage in, 265–6
New Caledonia, 17, *18*, 155
new democracies, 34, 100, 167–8, 234, 254
New Democratic Party (NDP; Canada), 183

New Economic Policy (NEP), 205
New Zealand
  coalition, forming, 191
  as constitutional monarchy, 140
  contract parliamentarianism in, 190
  democratic participation and competition in, 272
  as effective state, 47, *48*, 49, *50*
  elections and electoral systems in, 86, 168–9, 174, 175
  as First World state, 60
  Green Party, 169, 191
  land ownership, 108
  national legislature, 142
  political development, 42
  "spurious majority," 161
  as unitary state, 153
  wave of democratization in, 233
New Zealand First party, 191
Newfoundland (colony), 272
Nicaragua, 208, 215–16, 217, 252
Niger, 113, 243
Nigeria, 109–10, 174–5, 182, 278
Niue Island, 155
Niyazov, Saparmurat, 209
Nordic countries, 122, 137, 265
Nordlinger, Eric A, 40
North Korea, 34, 38, 52, 115, 122, 209–10
North Yemen, 213
Northern Europe. *See* Europe
Northern Ireland, 154
Northern Irish Assembly, 154
North-South system, 61
Northwest Territories, 178
Norway, 43, 62, 140, 272
Nouméa Accord, 155
Nunavut, 178

Obiang Nguema Mbasogo, Teodoro, 208
Oceania, 7, 8, 149, 178
oligarchic suffrage, 235, 247, 270, 271, 272
oligarchies, 235, 247, 281
Oman, 122, 210, 211
ombudsperson, 82–3
one-party predominant system, 184, 192–3, *194–5*
Ontario, 151
open party lists, 168, *169*, 170, 174, 176
opposition. *See* political opposition in autocracies; political parties
Orbán, Viktor, 243
Organisation for Economic Co-operation and Development (OECD), 62
Organization for Security and Co-operation in Europe (OSCE), 93–4, 119
Organization of American States (OAS), 119
Organization of Petroleum Exporting Countries (OPEC), 105
Ortega, Daniel, 215–16, 252
oscillating states, 257–8, *258*
Ott, Dana, 116
Ottaway, Marina, 88, 90
Ottoman Empire, 8

Pahlavi dynasty, 208
Pakistan, 28, 104, 113, 120, 249–50, 281
Palau, 156, 174, 175, 178
panachage, 168
pan-Africanism, 219
Panama, 103
Paraguay, 119, 132, 182, 262
parallel electoral system, *162*, 170
parallel vote tabulation, 216
parasite stress, 118
parliamentary systems
  cabinets, 136, 137, 141, 187, *188*, 192
  chambers (curiae) in, 261–2
  confidence and non-confidence motions and votes, 136, 137–8, 141
  five aspects of, 136
  formateurs, 188–9
  forming government, 187–9, *188*
  heads of state in, 20, 136, 137, *140*, 140–2
  informateurs, 189
  negative parliamentarianism, 137, 188
  ombudsperson, 82–3
  positive parliamentarianism, 136–7
  with presidents, 140–1, 189, 217
  prime ministers, powers of, 137–8
  strengths and weaknesses, 138–9
  term lengths, 136

parliamentary systems (*cont.*)
vote of investiture, 136, 187, 188
Westminster parliamentary systems, 111, 137, 176
See also coalitions; legislatures
partisan behaviour, 248
party list proportional representation, 167–8, *169*
party systems
characteristics of, 177–8
earned majorities, 182
effective number of parties (ENPP), 178
fragmentation (PFRG), 178, *179–81*, 181–2
institutionalization in, 41, *42*, 178, 185–6, *187*
one-party predominant systems in (electoral) democracies, *194–5*
party conflict, 41
party discipline, 176, 186
party pattern, 177
polarization in, 178
"seat product model" and, 174–5
single-party majorities, 182, 183, 189, 192
six types of, 182–4
See also political institutionalization; political parties
"patrimonial" system of government, 37
Paxton, Pamela, 234
Payne, Stanley G., 84–5
Pearson chi-square test, 21
Pempel, T.J., 192
People's Action Party (PAP), 92, 216, 217–18, *218*
people's defender. *See* ombudsperson
People's Front for Democracy and Justice (Eritrea), 219
Perón, Juan, 252
personalism, 208–9
Peru, 85, 141, 153, 167, 251, 262
Philippines, 100, 208
Piedmont-Sardinia, 272
pluralism, 80, *89*, 105, 203, 206–7, 207
Poland
constructive vote of non-confidence in, 138
democratization in, 243
incomplete totalitarianism in, 205–6
lack of most-developed-nation status, 62
physical geography, 53
sequence of political development in, 100
system of government and term lengths, 141, 147, 153
polarization, political, 23, 114–15, 178, 243
political attitudes and democratic consolidation, 248
political candidates. *See* political competition
political competition, 40, 41, 79–80, 86, 100, 175–6, 268
political culture, 26–8, 102–3, 114–15, 243, 254
political development, 35, 38, 40–4, *42*, *44*, 53, 100–1
See also development
political institutionalization, 35, 111, 250
political leadership and democratization, 102–3
political legitimacy, 210–11, 213, 215
See also democratic legitimacy
political liberalization, 232
political opposition in autocracies, 88, *89–90*, *200–2*, 215, 218, 245
Political Order in Changing Societies (Huntington), 35–6
political participation, 35, *82*, 85–6, 270–1
See also democratic participation and competition
political parties
loyal opposition, 248
political participation, role in, 35
in sequence of political development, 40
unpopular governing, punishing, 176–7, 254
See also party systems
political power transfer, 27
political regimes
Annual/Biennial Index Surveys of Levels of Democracy, *95*
autocratic, subtypes of, *200–2*
communist, 61, 203, 207, 244
country values for key variables relevant to regime type, *123–7*
definition of, 4, 26
economic systems, relationships with, 110–11
ethnic fragmentation and, 114
four types, characteristics of, 88, *89–90*, 90, 92–3
hybrid, 95–6
other classification schemes for, 95

political culture and, 26
regressions on regime type, *121*
in the world (as of 2021), *91*
See also autocracies; democracies; democratization
political terror, 204
political violence, 38, 43, 154, 248, 250
Polity, *95*, 96
Popular Front coalition (Spain), 84–5, 252
population
age of, as variable in development, 54, 108–9
density, and ideal shape of the state, 53
density and state control, 54
size, and correlation with military expenditure, 117
size, and correlation with military participation ratios, 117
size, relationship to political regimes, 115–17
in sovereign states, 5
population-based completeness, 153, *153*, 154, 156
Portugal
authoritarianism in, 212
autocracy, collapse of, 233
colonial legacy, 111
elections and electoral systems in, 174–5
as federacy, 155
literacy requirements and suffrage in, 274
negative parliamentarianism in, 137
non-confidence motions in, 138
parliamentary system with a presidential corrective, 141
state formation, 7
positive parliamentarianism, 136
post-communist countries, 5–6, 100–1, 186
post-totalitarianism, 206–7
poverty, 73
power resources, 105, 107–8
predatory state (weak state), *48*, 49
preference ballot, 170, 174
preferential ballot, 164, 166
presidential systems
and bicameralism, 147
cabinets, 135–6
democratic breakdowns in, 252
elections, forms of, 135
five aspects of, 132
heads of government *vs.* heads of state, 20, 132
in liberal and electoral democracies, by country, *133–5*
minimum age requirement, 132
powers of the president, 135–6
strengths and weaknesses of, 138–9
term limits, 132, 217
vetos, 135, 141
vice-presidents, 136
See also legislatures
presidents, 83, 132, 139, 140–1, 189, 217
See also parliamentary systems; presidential systems
pre-totalitarianism, 205–6
prime ministers, 137–8, 139, 211–12
See also parliamentary systems
principe capacitaire, 86
progress, 26
Progressive Conservatives (Canada), 165, 176, 183
Progressives (New Zealand), 191
proportional electoral systems, 161, *162*, 166–9, *169*
proportional representation
in liberal and elected democracies, 149
mixed-member (MMP), *162*, 168–9, 175
party list system of, 167–8, *169*, 263
single transferable vote (STV), *162*, 166, 170, 174, 175, 176
as threshold for representative government, 262–3
See also disproportionality in electoral systems; in-between electoral systems
proroguing parliament, 138
Protestantism, 85, 112–13, 233, 262
proto-democracy, 40, 104
proto-nation-states, 51, *51*
Prussia, 86, 108, 272
Przeworski, Adam, 78–9, 95
public defender. *See* ombudsperson
public initiative, 78
Puerto Rico, 155
Puhle, Hans-Jürgen, 246

pure candidate ballot, 174
pure party ballot, 170
Putin, Vladimir, 80, 103, 217

Qatar, 62, 92, 109, 110, 210, 211, 281
Qing Dynasty, 37, 50
quasi-formateur, 189
Quebec, 112, 151, 152

(rational) legal authority, 25–6
recall provisions, 83
Rechtsstaat, 86–7
referenda, *18*, 78, 92, 93, 154, 155, 269
  See also Council of Guardians (Iran)
reformists, 245, 247, 248
régime censitaire, 86
regimes. *See* political regimes
regional autonomy, 151
regional governments, 149, 151, 153, 154, 167
regional insurgencies, 250
regional self-rule, 149
religion, 5, 112, 203, 265–6
  See also Catholicism; Iran; Islamic rule; Islamic states; Muslim societies and political regimes; Protestantism; theocratic authoritarianism
religious heritage and political regimes, 112–14
Representation of the People Act 1832, 266
representative democracies
  six thresholds of, 261–5
  thresholds in China, 265, 269–70
  thresholds in India, 265, 270
  thresholds in the Netherlands, 265–6
  thresholds in the United Kingdom, 265, 266–7
  thresholds in the United States, 265, 267–8
Republic of China, 37, 50, 269
republics, 20, 139, *140*
research and development spending, 62
responsible government
  breakdown of democracy and, 235
  elections, relationship to, 85, 247, 248
  electoral democracies and, 87
  liberal democracies and, 80, 81–3, *82*, 86
  representative democracies and, 262
  in sequence of political development, 41–2, *42*
  threats to, 29
reverse waves of democratization, 234, *242*, 242–3, 274
revolutions, 252
rigged elections, 42, 255, 272
Romania
  bicameralism in, 148
  democracy, post-war (1919–20), 255
  independence, 8
  as parliamentary system with a presidential corrective, 141
  regime collapse in, 244
  sequence of development in, 101
  sultanism in, 207, 208, 209
  totalitarianism, appeal in, 204
rotating executive, 139
royal coups, 252
Rueschemeyer, Dietrich, 93, 234
rule of law, 29, 30, 80, 86, 87, 88, 101
Russia
  civil war in, 253
  civilian control in, 34
  curiae (chambers) and elections, 272, 274
  democratic participation in (1994), 281
  as electoral authoritarian regime, 80, 215
  as intermediate nation in terms of development, 73
  physical geography of, 54
  political leadership in, 103
  president's role, 141–2
  as "semi-presidential" parliamentary system, 141
  Shanghai Cooperation Organisation (SCO), 120
  term limits, restarting the "clock," 217
  voting age, 265
  See also Imperial Russia
Russian Empire. *See* Imperial Russia
Rustow, Dankwart A., 36–7, 40
Rwanda, 217

Sahara/Sahel states, 60
Saint Kitts and Nevis, 140
Saint Lucia, 140

Saint Vincent and the Grenadines, 140
Salazar, António de Oliveira, 212
Salinas, Carlos, 92
Samaras, Antonis, 190
Samoa, 278
San Marino, 139, 156, 242, 271, 274
São Tomé and Príncipe, 109–10, 120, 141, 183
Saskatchewan, 165
Saudi Arabia, 8, 92, 122, 210, 211, 281
Scandinavian countries, 38, 188, 212
Schmitt, Carl, 86
Schmitz, Hubert, 60
Schröder, Gerhard, 177
Schumpeter, Joseph A., 79, 80, 86
Scotland, 154
Scottish independence, 17, *18*
Scully, Timothy R., 185
"seat product model," 174–5
secession, 17, 18–19
second reverse wave of democratization, 234, *242*, 242–3, *244*
second wave of democratization, 233, 242, *242*, 243, *244*
Second World, 60–1, *61*, 65
secret ballot, 85, 94, 267
self-coups, 251–2
self-governing territory in bilateral free association, 155
semi-authoritarian regimes, 88, 90
semi-open autocracies, 88, *89–90*
semi-presidential systems, 141
Senegal, 113
Senegambia, 154
Senghaas, Dieter, 119
sequencing political development, 38, 40–4, *42*, *44*, 53, 100–1
Serbia, 8, 19, 154, 243
Serbia and Montenegro confederation, 19
Sese Seko, Mobutu, 208
Seychelles, 132
shadow economy, 49
Shanghai Cooperation Organisation (SCO), 120
"Shanghai Spirit," 120
shared-rule, 149
shari'a law, 214
Sierra Leone, 38, 50, 113
Singapore, 62
  constitutional amendment (2010), 219
  as East Asian type of industrial state, 65
  election (1991), 219
  election (2011), 218
  electoral authoritarianism in, 215, 217
  Internal Security Act, 218
  as multi-member plurality, 218
  non-constituency members of parliament (NCMPs), 218–19
  opposition parties, 218–19
  People's Action Party (PAP), 92, 216, 217–18, *218*
  as semi-open autocracy, 92
  as socioeconomically developed autocracy, 109, 110
single member majority-plurality, *162*, 164
single-member majority (alternative vote), *162*, 164
single-member plurality (SMP), 161, *162*, 163–4, 165, 170
single non-transferable vote (SNTV), *162*, 165, 174, 269
single-party majorities, 182, 183, 189, 192
single transferable vote (STV), *162*, 166, 170, 174, 175, 176
Sisi, Abdel Fattah el-, 222
Slovakia, 62, 141, 153, 160, 167, 168
Slovenia, 138, 141
small island states, 53, 116, 117
Smith, Anthony D., 39
social and economic pluralism. *See* pluralism
Social Credit party, 183
social democracies, 93
Social Democrats (SPD; Germany), 177
Social Democrats (Sweden), 184
Socialist Party (Japan), 184
El Socialista, 84
societies. *See* modern ("class") societies; status (traditional) societies
socioeconomic development, measures of, 108–9
  See also development
Solidarity movement, 243
Solomon Islands, 52, 109–10, 176, 178

Somalia, 50
Somaliland, 5, *18*, 19
Somoza family, 208
South Africa
  competition-preceding-participation route, 101
  democratization in, 243–4
  elections and electoral systems in, 167, 174, 175, 177
  as First/Second/Third World borderline case, 61
  as mixed electoral system, 139
  as oligarchy, 235, 247, 281
  one-party predominant system, 184, 193
  suffrage in, 274
  upper house, addition of, 142
South Korea
  as (capitalist) developmental state, 52
  by-elections, 175
  as East Asian type of industrial state, 65
  ethnically homogeneous population, 38
  as high-growth economy, 62
  as mixed electoral system, 139
  as parallel category of electoral systems, 170
  two-and-a-half-party system, 183
South Ossetia, 5–6
South Sudan, 7, 19, 92
"South" *vs.* "North," 66
South West Africa People's Organisation (SWAPO; Namibia), 184
Southern Europe. *See* Europe
sovereign control, as element of a state, 4
sovereign states. *See* states
sovereignty, types of, 5
Soviet Union. *See* Union of Soviet Socialist Republics (USSR)
Spain
  1936 election, 84–5, 252
  authoritarianism in, 212
  civil war, 253
  clergy-aristocracy alliance, 114
  clientelism in, 42
  elections and electoral systems in, 42, 167, 174
  head of state, 140
  parliamentary system with figurehead monarch, 212
  physical geography of, 53
  political development in, 100
  reverse wave of democratization in, 242, 274
  as Southern European type of industrial state, 65
  uprising (1981), 27
  vote of non-confidence in, 138
Spanish Empire, 272
Spence, Michael, 62
Spero, Joan Edelman, 61
"spurious majority," 161
Sri Lanka, 6, 49, 141, 142, 250
Srpska Republic, 17
Stalin, Joseph, 204, 205, 206, 207, 209
state capacity, 7, 37, 47, 53–4
  See also states
state strength
  economic development and, 52, 53
  European Union membership and, 60
  levels, at start of 1914, *50*
  size and demography of countries and, 54, *55–9*, 60, *60*
  socioeconomic development indicators and, 49
  See also states
states
  advantages of, 6–7
  bureaucracy, 37, 47, 52, 53, 83
  collapsed, *48*, 49–50, 83
  concept of, 4–5
  "crisis" and "fragile" states, 52
  decolonization and, 8, 118, 233
  dissolution, 8, 18, 60
  effective, 47, *48*, 49, *50*, 51
  failed, 51–2
  flawed, *48*, 49, *50*
  formation of, 6–8, 17–19, *18*
  grouping by duration of independence, 7–8, *8–17*
  grouping by geographic regions, 7, *8–17*
  heads of, 20, 132
  ideal shape and size, 53
  middle class, 73, 107, 108, 114
  national identity in, 38–40
  post–World War II expansions in number, 8, 44, 60, 118, 221, 233, 274

proto-nation-states, at start of 1914, *51*
size and demography of countries, *55–9*
sovereign authority of, 5
strong, 52
unitary, 149, 152, 153, 155
weak, *48*, 49, *50*, 51
welfare policies, 93
well-functioning, 82
See also state capacity; state strength; states, political and economic classifications of
states, political and economic classifications of
alternative measures of development, 66, *67–71*
alternative terms for Third World, 65–6
First, Second, and Third World grouping, 60–1, *61*
four types of industrial states, 65
high-growth economies, 62, *65*
most developed countries, *63–4*
most underdeveloped countries, 66, *72–3*, 73
seven features of most developed countries, 62
See also state capacity; state strength; states
states as institutions, 47, *48*, 49–52, *50*, *51*
states *vs.* "the state," 4–5
statist economies, 110
status (traditional) societies, 26
Stepan, Alfred, 151, 152
Stephens, Evelyne Huber, 93, 234
Stephens, John D., 93, 234
strong bicameralism, 148, 151
strong states, 52
sub-Saharan African states, 54, 66, 73, 258
Sudan, 213
sultanism and totalitarianism, differences between, 209–10
sultanistic regimes, 207–10
supermajority of votes, 88, 138
Supreme Council of the Armed Forces (Egypt), 31
supreme courts, in federalism, 150
Suriname, 139
Sutton, Paul, 111
Svinhufvud, Pehr Evind, 256
Swaziland, 210, 211
Sweden
chamber-based parliament in, 262
contract parliamentarianism in, 190
democratic participation and competition in, 272
elections and electoral systems in, 174, 175
forming government, 188
head of state, 140
legal threshold of support, 167
as Northern European type of industrial state, 65
ombudsperson, creation of role, 82–3
as one-party predominant system, 184
party list proportional representation in, 167, 263
political development in, 43
regional government, 153
responsible government, introduction of, 275
upper house, abolishment of, 142
vote of non-confidence in, 138
Switzerland
citizen militias, 104
as confederation (before 1848), 154, 271
consociationalism in, 115
democratic participation and competition in, 272
direct democracy in, 93
elections and electoral systems in, 174
land ownership, 108
most developed nations, among, 62
as Northern European type of industrial state, 65
public initiatives in, 78
sequence of political development, 100
state formation, 7, 38
strong bicameralism in, 148
system of government and term lengths, 139, 147
Syria, 208
system performance, 253–4

t-test score, interpreting, 21
Taagepera, Rein, 174
Taiwan, 6, 52, 62, 141
Tajikistan, 120
Taliban, 213
Tamil Eelam, 6
Tanzania, 216

tax avoidance, 49
tax policies of states, 6, 36, 47, 49, 65, 110
technology and state capacity, 53–4
technology and totalitarianism, 205
temperate-zone established autocentric-development state, *106–7*, 119
term limits, 217
Thailand, 31, 34, 104, 281
Thatcher, Margaret, 154, 192
theocratic authoritarianism, 213–15
third wave of democratization. *See* democratization
Third World, 60–1, *61*, 65–6
  See also underdeveloped countries
Tiananmen Square, 248
Tilly, Charles, 7
Timor-Leste (East Timor), 7, 109, 141
Togo, 208
Tokyo University Law School, 52
Tonga, 86, 92, 210
totalitarian communist regimes, 203, 206–7
totalitarianism
  bureaucratic phase, 207
  citizen support, mobilization of, 203, 203–4
  "digital," 205
  elections, 204
  "full," 206–7
  ideology, transformative utopian, 203, 204
  "incomplete," 206
  mobilization phase, 204
  modernity and technology, dependence on, 204–5
  monistic party power, 203–4
  monopolization of power, 203–4
  political terror, 204
  post-mobilization phase, 204
  post-totalitarianism phase, 207
  pre-totalitarianism phase, 205–6
  rise of in Europe, 219
  and sultanism, differences between, 209–10
trade unions. *See* labour unions
traditional authoritarianism, 210–12
traditional authority, 25
traditional monarchy, 28
traditional societies ("status societies"), 26
Trans-Dniester, 5–6
transformative ideology, 203
transitions. *See* democratic transitions
Transparency International Corruption Perceptions Index, 87, 186
Treaty of Berlin (1878), 8
Treaty of Westphalia, 5
Trinidad and Tobago, 38, 43, 100, 116, 141
Trudeau, Pierre, 112
Trujillo, Rafael, 208
Tunisia, 51, 113
Turkey, 62, 113, 167, 243, 281
Turkish Republic of Northern Cyprus, 5–6
Turkmenistan, 209
tutelage, military, 30–1, *32*, *33*, 34, 252
Tuvalu, 140, 178
two-and-a-half-party system, 183
typologies, 20

Uganda, 208
Ukraine, 141, 252
UN (United Nations), 7, 19, 35, 49, 66, *67–71*, 108
UN Human Development Index (HDI), 49, 66, 108, 122
unconsolidated democracies, *247*, 249, 250–1, *251*, *252*, *257*
  See also democratic consolidation
underdeveloped countries, 66, *72–3*, 73
  See also Third World
unicameralism, 142, 147
Union of Soviet Socialist Republics (USSR)
  August *putsch*, 1991, 27–8
  Baltic states and, 8
  dissolution, 8, 60
  electoral authoritarianism in, post-dissolution successor states, 215, 216
  federalism in, 152
  suffrage in, 274
  totalitarianism in, 205, 207, 210
unitary states, 149, 152, 153, 155
United Arab Emirates, 38, 62, 92, 110, 210, 211, 281
United Future Party (New Zealand), 191

United Kingdom
as Anglo-Saxon type of industrial state, 65
armed forces, 104
auditing bodies, 83
bicameralism in, 147, 148
colonial rule in Africa, effects, 43–4
colonies/protectorates, relationship to democracy, 111–12, *112*, 117
Conservative–Liberal Democrat coalition government (2010–15), 190, 267
democratic participation and competition in, 271, 272
devolution in, 42–3, 154
district magnitude, 160, 161
electoral systems in, 86, 174, 175, 176, 182
government formation, 189
head of state, 140
House of Lords, 147
League of Nations mandates and, 8
majority coalition (2010), 137
malapportionment, ending of in, 263
modern auditing functions, creation of, 83
monarchy, 210–12
national legislature, 142, 147, 148
negative parliamentarianism, 137
regional government, 154–5
responsible government in, 262
single-member plurality (SMP) electoral system in, 161, *162*, 163
state formation, 38
as temperate-zone established autocentric-development state, 119
thresholds of representative democracy in, 265, 266–7
universal suffrage in, 267
weak committees in, 142
Westminster parliamentary system, 111, 137, 176
United Nations (UN), 7, 19, 35, 49, 66, *67–71*, 108
United States of America
American Revolution, 39, 233, 271
as Anglo-Saxon type of industrial state, 65
armed forces, 104
autocracies, tolerance for, 234
Civil Service Commission, 53
Civil War, 49–50, 253, 268
as confederation (1776-1789), 154
democracy elsewhere, support for, 233
democratic participation and competition in, 271, 272, 274
as democratic republic, 20
democratization, first wave of, 233, 241–2, 271
direct democracy in, 93
district magnitude, 160, 161
as effective state, 47, *48*, 49, *50*
election, presidential (2000), 85
election administration, decentralized, 268
elections, timing of, 139
electoral college, 135, 262, 267, 268, 271
electoral system in, 174, 175, 176, 182
federalism in, 151, 152
as First World state, 60
House of Representatives, 147, 155, 161, 175, 182
land ownership, 108
malapportionment, ending of in, 263
as mature political culture, 27
national identity, 39
party discipline in, 176
party systems, 182, 183
senate, 147, 182, 267–8
as single-member plurality (SMP), 161, *162*, 163
size, 54
state formation, 8
strong bicameralism in, 148
thresholds of representative democracy in, 265, 267–8
transportation and state capacity building, 53–4
universal suffrage in, 268, 272
Voting Rights Act of 1965, 235, 268
universal suffrage
age thresholds, 85–6, 235, 265, 270–1
categories of the voting population, 270–1
in China, 269
electoral democracy, role in, 80, 87
evolution of access, historical, 272, 274, 278, 281
first reverse wave of democratization and, 274

universal suffrage (*cont.*)
first wave of democratization and, 271, 272, 274
in India, 270
in Japan, 269
liberal democracy, role in, 85–6
life expectancy and, 85–6
literacy requirements as exclusions to, 85–6, 262, 265, 278
as measure of democracy, 234–5
men's access to, 41, 85, 234, 262
moderately inclusive electoral democracy (MIED) and, 235, *236–41*, 241–2
in the Netherlands, 265–6
participation, levels of, *273*
poll taxes, 268
race- and ethnicity-based exclusions to, 85, 86, 268, 274
sequence of political development and, 41–2, 100, 101
as threshold for representative democracy, 262
in the United Kingdom, 267
in the United States, 268, 272
wealth as requirement for voting, 262, 269
women's access to, 85, 234, 262, 278
See also Copenhagen Document; oligarchic suffrage
upper houses, 142, 147–8, 151, 161
urbanization, 35, *55–9*, 105, 108–9, 233
Uruguay
bicameralism in, 148
as bureaucratic authoritarian regime, 28
as Catholic democracy, 113
democratic breakdown (1973), 100, 255
democratic consolidation, threats to, 250
as effective state, 47, *48*, 49, *50*, 51
proportional representation in, 263
re-equilibration in, 256
reverse wave of democratization in, 242–3, 274
suffrage in, 274
utopian goals of totalitarianism, 203
Uzbekistan, 120

Valenzuela, Arturo, 39–40
Valenzuela, J. Samuel, 81–2
vali-ye faqih (ruling jurisprudent), 213–14
Vanhanen, Tatu, 105, 107
Vanuatu, 109–10, 141, 149, 165
Vattelian sovereignty, 5
V-Dem Index, 95, *95*
Veenendaal, Wouter, 116
Venezuela, 142, 213, 250, 255
vertical accountability, 79, 80
vice-presidents, 136
Victor Emmanuel III, King, 206
Vietnam, 18, 207
vote buying, 272
vote of investiture, 136–7, 187, 188, 189
voter mobilization, 216
voter turnout, 116, 175, 177, 267
voting, compulsory, 263–5, *264*, 266, 267, 268, 269, 270
voting age, 235, 265, 266, 270–1
See also universal suffrage; specific countries
voting irregularities, 84, 88
voting restrictions. *See* universal suffrage
Voting Rights Act of 1965, 235, 268
voting rights expansion, 41
Vučić, Aleksandar, 243

Wales, 154
war, 6–7, 8, 39–40, 242, 274
Ward, Robert E., 36–7
Ware, Alan, 192
"wasted" votes, 165, 168
waves of democratization, 34, 232–4, *242*, 242–3, 257
Way, Lucan A., 216
weak states, *48*, 49, *50*, 51, 52–3
wealth, requirement for voting, 262, 269
wealth and development, 34–5, 105, 109
Weber, Max, 5, 25–6, 37
Weimar Republic, 27, 138, 184, 245
welfare spending, 65
welfare state policies, 93
Welzel, Christian, 117, 118, 119, 122
West Germany (pre-reunification), 183
Western Europe. *See* Europe
Westminster parliamentary systems, 111, 137, 176
Westphalian sovereignty, 5
Whittlesey, Derwent, 38, 53
William IV, King, 266
"winner-take-all" formulas, 132, 160–1, 192, 218

Wolff, Christian, 5
women in legislatures, 78, 149, 177
women's suffrage. *See* universal suffrage
Woodberry, Robert D., 113
working class, 93, 233
World Bank measures of development, 66, *67–71*

Xi Jinping, 38

years of schooling, 66, 108
Yeltsin, Boris, 28, 103
Yemen, 18, 50
Yugoslavia, 8, 60, 207, 242, 252

Zambia, 216–17, 243
Zaydi sect, 213
Zimbabwe, 39
Zollverein, 154